

International Tourism and Media Conference Proceedings 2006



Edited by
Sue Beeton, Glen Croy and Warwick Frost

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2006

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Table of Contents

List of Authors	iv
Scientific Panel	v
On Tour: Travel Slides from New Zealand in the Sixties	1
Julie Benjamin	
Mapping Geographies of Desire and Incidental Tourism: Being Japanese in Three Australian Film Landscapes	13
Gary Best	
Tourism, Citizenship and the Regulation of Human Mobility: A Survey of Print Media Debate on the 2004 EU Enlargement.	26
Tim Coles	
Film-Induced Tourism Cuts Both Ways: Supporting Independent Film through Tourism.....	34
Diane Cynthia and Sue Beeton	
Films and Tourism: Understanding the Nature and Intensity of their Cause-Effect Relationship	42
Luca D'Angelo, Francesco di Cesare and Gloria Rech	
To Travel or Not? The Influence of Disaster Media Reports on the Youth Travel Market	52
Jessica Derham and Sue Beeton	
Festival Image Creation: The Role of the Print Media.....	61
Elspeth Frew	
From Backlot to Runaway Production: Exploring Location and Authenticity in Film-Induced Tourism.....	70
Warwick Frost	
Understanding Popular Media Production and Potential Tourist Consumption: A Methodological Agenda	
Sangkyun Kim, Mike Robinson and Philip Long.....	79
The Role of the Media in Shaping Motivations behind Travel Experiences: A Case Study 'From the Frontier'	93
Jennifer H. Laing and Geoffrey I. Crouch	
Developing a Plausible Context for Establishing Mutual E-Commerce Media in the Tourism Industry	109
Chen-Ju Lin, Chih-Peng Chu and Tsung-Chih Lih	
Film-Induced Tourism: An Incidental Experience.....	120
Niki Macionis and Beverley Sparks	
To Be Authentically Free and Free Authentically: An Analysis of the Interplay between Discourses of Authenticity and Freedom in the Travel Space.....	129
Amie Matthews	
Media in the Anticipation Phase of a Recreation Experience Port Campbell National Park	138
Brent D. Moyle and W. Glen Croy	
A Stakeholders Perspective: The Impacts of Television Induced Tourism in Yorkshire, U.K.	153
Noëlle O'Connor, Sheila Flanagan and David Gilbert	
Castles Made of Sand: The 'Nirvanification' of the Mentawai Islands	167
Jess Ponting	
How Does a DMO's Publicity Management Impact on Country Image? Rhetorical Analysis of Representation of Finland in British Press.....	177
Saila Saraniemi and Raija Komppula	
The Man from Snowy River: Australia's Bush Legend and Commercial Nationalism	188
Leanne White	
Travelling Companions: The Role of Guidebooks as Mediators in Backpacker Travel	196
Tamara Young	

List of Authors

Sue Beeton	34, 52
Julie Benjamin	1
Gary Best	13
Chih-Peng Chu	109
Tim Coles	26
Geoffrey I. Crouch	93
W. Glen Croy	138
Diane Cynthia	34
Luca D'Angelo	42
Francesco di Cesare	42
Jessica Derham	52
Sheila Flanagan	153
Elspeth Frew	61
Warwick Frost	70
David Gilbert	153
Sangkyun Kim	79
Raija Komppula	177
Jennifer H. Laing	93
Tsung-Chih Lih	109
Chen-Ju Lin	109
Philip Long	79
Niki Macionis	120
Amie Matthews	129
Brent D. Moyle	138
Noëlle O'Connor	153
Jess Ponting	167
Gloria Rech	42
Mike Robinson	79
Saila Saraniemi	177
Beverley Sparks	120
Leanne White	188
Tamara Young	196

Scientific Panel

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On Tour: Travel Slides from New Zealand in the Sixties

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Abstract

This paper focuses on the tourist slide photography of my grandmother, the late Gladys Cunningham, formerly of Onehunga, Auckland.

In New Zealand and overseas, 35mm colour slide photography was popular with families as a medium for recording holidays and special events during the 1950s and 60s. Slide film's popularity within families declined with the advent of super 8 film, automatic SLR cameras and video cameras.

On Tour: Travel Slides from New Zealand in the Sixties

This paper focuses on the tourist slide photography of my grandmother, the late Gladys Cunningham, formerly of Onehunga, Auckland.

In New Zealand and overseas, 35mm colour slide photography was popular with families as a medium for recording holidays and special events during the 1950s and 60s. Slide film's popularity within families declined with the advent of super 8 film, automatic SLR cameras and video cameras.

While slide collections still exist and slide evenings continue to occur within New Zealand families, the taking of slides of family leisure and celebrations and their subsequent exhibition at the slide evening are family rituals that have "become part of the collective memory of children of my generation". British author Liz Jobey states that for the generation born in the 1950s, the first colour photographs

"constantly supplemented our recollections of real events...From the age of seven to seventeen ... transparencies, which recorded summer holidays both successful and disastrous, were required viewing at least once, gathered around the projector in the sitting room to inspect ourselves on film" (Jobey 2002, p. 42).

Kodachrome 35mm colour slide film was first made available for sale in America in 1936. It had clarity, speed, exposure latitude [and a]... tight grain... It was above all, a more natural color, and nothing like it in photography had been seen before (Rensberg 2004, p. 3).

Currently in New Zealand, Kodak and Fuji manufacture ASA100 to 400 slide film, selling mostly to serious amateur and professional photographers. Often slides are used to illustrate conference papers, or talks within special interest groups such as alpine or camera clubs. Although Kodak sent out a memo in September 2004 announcing they were no longer manufacturing slide projectors, Braun still makes them under the brand name Paximat, as do Leica and Reflecta (Alexander 2005, p. xxi; Auckland Camera Exchange Ltd. 2006).

In the 1960s Gladys's processed slides were returned to her in chronological sets of 36, boxed in yellow cardboard (later plastic) containers from Kodak, or from Ilford, Agfa or Ferrania. They were mounted in cardboard frames which were usually stamped with a number. Occasionally she would use black strips to matte a section of the slide, effectively reframing the composition. Gladys would then write information on the frame, adding a formal title if the slide was to be entered into competition at her camera club.



Figure 1 Departure Mangere 1958

Richard Chalfen argues that there are two main reasons why we buy a camera: because we start a family or because we intend to travel (Chalfen 1987, p. 75). The purchase of Gladys Cunningham's first 35mm camera, a Voigtlander, was probably prompted by the arrival of her first six grandchildren between 1952 and 1955, but in addition she now had sufficient money and leisure time, and access to private transport, to practise serious amateur

In the slide *Departure Mangere 1958* Gladys and Jim are about to begin their "trip".¹ Their journey was an adventure - sometimes to favourite places they had visited before, at other times to new sites.² In New Zealand there was "still romance and some sense of adventure in domestic travel in the 1950s" (Palenski 1987, p. 23). Indeed, tourism itself is

photography while travelling around New Zealand.

John Urry states that when we travel we are always looking out for the pictorial; our holiday plans becomes what Susan Sontag describes as "a strategy for the accumulation of photographs" (Urry 1990, p. 139-40). Such planning often includes preparing for an initial photograph of our departure from everyday surroundings.

seen by Urry to be a departure: a limited break from established routines and practices of daily life (Urry 2002, p. 2). The significance of the occasion is reinforced by their formal clothing, the taking of this photograph (and slide film was more expensive than print film, so photos were taken judiciously) and the preparation of the sign. New Zealanders were proud of the geographic diversity of their country, which, as the 1966 *New Zealand Official Yearbook* boasted, contained a multitude of attractions "in a relatively small area ... each one could make a country famous" (New Zealand. Registrar-General's Office, New Zealand. Census and Statistics Dept et al. 1966, p. 1020). It was possible for itinerant semi-retired New Zealanders like Gladys and Jim to pursue

¹ The trip's defects would never have been captured on film – it was never a "bad trip".

² Fred Inglis in *The Delicious History of the Holiday* argues that one of the ten maxims of a holiday is that a place "may be strange or familiar; they may be both. The one true holiday fills us brimful with the sweet anticipation of returning somewhere we know and, because we have been happy there in the past, somewhere we love." Inglis, F. (2000). *The Delicious History of the Holiday*. New York, Routledge.

the “modern dream of mobility”, ticking off the New Zealand towns listed in the then popular country song “I’ve been everywhere, Man” by travelling; not in other people’s cars. Writing in 1963, Monte Holcroft considered that older couples like Gladys and Jim were the only people in New Zealand with sufficient free time for such a prolonged road trip, apart from overseas tourists. However the latter, although increasing in numbers, were allegedly “not yet numerous enough to support the kind of “tourism” which [had] been an established industry in European cities and pleasure resorts” (Holcroft, Bigwood et al. 1968, p. 74).³

Holcroft sees their wanderlust as a kind of latent genetic disorder in New Zealanders of European descent, inherited from their settler ancestors:

New Zealanders may seem to live staidly in their suburbs, but the country around them is too large and beautiful: it draws them out along the roads, and keeps alive a robust love of adventure” (Holcroft, Bigwood et al. 1968, p.69).

According to David Lowenthal, “most people admire the landscape...from cars” (qtd. in Taylor 1994, p. 7). On leaving the local garage, Gladys and Jim would use their Morris to explore the South Island at a leisurely pace on their own, eventually meeting up with extended family in Dunedin (West 2000, p. 70).

Despite this break from the everyday, some practices stayed the same, even during changes of location and temporal relaxation - in this case, gender practices. As Peter Osborne observes, “tourism is no less marked by the anxieties and complexities of divisions such as class, race, gender and sexuality than any other activity” (Osborne 2000, p. 73-74). The transportation of tourists to their holiday locations, ranging from driving a Morris Oxford to driving a tour coach - that is, both private and public transport - was the domain of the male. A New Zealand Automobile Association itinerary from the 1950s that

(like the hitchhiker in the song) or by train, but in their own modest 1.5 litre Morris Oxford MO (Mack 1959; Eyerman and Lofgren 1995, p. 55 ; Anonymous 2005).

describes the route between Napier and Taupo states on its cover “Issued with the compliments of the Automobile Association (Inc.) to Mr. [blank]” (Automobile Association Undated).

Jim would drive, while Gladys was doubtless in charge of food supplies, the travel rug, reading maps, giving directions and looking for road signs.⁴ Jennifer Coster argues in a 1997 study of 16 Mosgiel residents aged 65 and over (that is, born in the 1920s and 1930s, a generation later than Gladys), that the mobility patterns of the participants “were highly gendered.... Men commented that they tended to drive when travelling with their wives. For the female respondents the patriarchy is obvious” (Coster 1997, p. 5).⁵ While men thought that the gender division of driving was traditional, some of those women who had their drivers’ licences felt that their husbands believed men were more in control of a car when driving than their wives would ever be (Coster 1997, p. 5).

Therefore, coming from an even earlier generation of women that had walked, bussed or tramped its way across Auckland, Gladys was reliant upon the good health and co-operation of her husband, as well as the roadworthiness of the car, to reach her desired destinations. As a couple, owning a car meant independence. Securely located in their Morris, they were able to travel when they wanted to, along a route of their own choice, discovering new sights unexpectedly, stopping overnight - or for a week - and departing for a new location on the day and at an hour convenient to them (Larsen 2001, p. 85; Urry 2002, p. 153). They were free to drive “outside tourism’s ‘beaten tracks’” along the “Highways [or] Byways” of their choice (Anonymous 1966; Larsen 2001, p. 85). A 1959 advertisement commends the temporal and spatial flexibility of travelling in a late-model rental car:

³ Ironically, the *New Zealand Official Yearbook* rather belatedly starts incorporating a section titled “Tourist Industry” in 1962, but its statistics never mention New Zealand travellers. New Zealand. Registrar-General’s Office., New Zealand. Census and Statistics Dept., et al. (1962). *The New Zealand Official Yearbook*. Wellington, Govt. Printer.

⁴ As their children reached adulthood, the pair spent a lot more time outside the home, travelling around New Zealand. Domestic tourism would have been a popular leisure activity by the 1960s, given the relative affluence of older couples who were no longer working, and the gradual improvement in road surfacing.

⁵ Mosgiel is an Otago town located outside Dunedin.

New Zealand abounds in beautiful sporting and scenic centres...all quickly within reach and all far more enjoyable when you drive your own car. Stop where and when you please... a TASMAN Rental Car brings complete freedom from tiresome "timetable" travel (Anonymous 1959, p. 32).

So when and why did the pair choose to give up such freedoms for the inflexibility of a coach tour? On two occasions, in 1963 and 1965, they drove to the South Island in their car, then travelled by coach to the remote Haast township in South Westland. Their decision to join a tour was probably the consequence of Jim's physical condition. The 1965 journey (where they were accompanied by Jim's cousin Mary) occurred near the end of his travel days; Jim was to experience a sudden deterioration in his health while on tour in January 1967, culminating in his death in Dunedin. John Taylor writes that within a car (and within promotional images of travellers in their car), the "seated enjoyment of landscape seems free of constraints and most dangers, though this freedom is an illusion, and the constraints and dangers are real" (Taylor 1994, p. 7). Thus, although their pilgrimage to Dunedin was an annual event, a pleasurable and habitual pattern in their lives as a retired couple, that pattern was still liable to be disrupted by the unpredictability of Jim's health, which could be aggravated by the stress and anxiety of being the sole driver (Edensor 2003, p. 155).

Another possible reason for joining a tour was that New Zealand roads were often in a poor state. As one visiting Rhodesian writer reported, "they are not bad on the whole. Most of the arterial roads in the North Island are tarred, but in the South a good 60 per cent. seemed to be gravel". The author sportingly concluded that her family's journey would have "lost some of its thrill" had the road conditions been to a higher standard (Ferraz 1958, p. 31).

By 1960 the road from Wanaka in Central Otago to Haast Township in South Westland had been completed; on 6 November 1965 State Highway 6, "New Zealand's latest tourist roading triumph" was officially opened at Knights Point by the Prime Minister Keith Holyoake (Goodall 1968, p. 78). The

completion of the last section of road between Haast township and Paringa meant that the "magnificent Haast Pass scenic route" was now open to tourists. Newmans Coach Tours Company was quick to capitalise on the imminent opening, by advertising two months beforehand that "Newmans open the Haast Pass"; the smaller print added "with a flourish of 60 new tours" (Anonymous 1965, p. 35). In effect Newmans guaranteed that the reader would be amongst the exclusive few to see the route's breathtaking scenery for the first time by signing up for a Newmans' tour (Anonymous 1965, p. 35; Anonymous 1966, p. 38; Moses 1966, p. 37).



Newmans open the Haast Pass
with a flourish of 60 new tours

Be among the first to travel one of the world's most magnificent scenic routes. Right from official Haast Pass opening day in November, you can do it in carefree comfort on a Newmans Coach Tour . . . a leisurely 1,235-mile sweep via the Glaciers, the rugged West Coast and the Southern Lakes right down to fabulous Milford. Newmans 120 Luxury and Newconomy Coach Tours are New Zealand's greatest holiday value.

Choice includes: North Island circuit; East Cape; Northland-Coromandel - Bay of Plenty; Glaciers-Southern Lakes-Haast; Marlborough-West Coast-Glaciers. Plenty of side-trips. Luxury coaches built for sightseeing. Experienced courier drivers. Excellent accommodation and meals. Amazingly low cost covers everything except personal spending. Ask your travel agent for a 1965/66 Newmans Coach Tour Booklet.

New Haast Pass Tour — One of 120 Newmans Tours covering both Islands.

CHRISTCHURCH

Newmans
COACH TOURS

DOMINION LIFE ARCADE, WILLIS STREET
P.O. Box 149 — Wellington
Telephone 48-920. Telegrams: "Newcoach"

— or contact —

NT 653

Figure 2 Newmans Coach Tours Advertisement September 1965

But “open” was perhaps too optimistic a word, for as author/climber John Pascoe explains in a description of a family trip in their Humber 90 shortly after the opening, State Highway 6 was (and still is) subject to numerous slips, washouts and floods, making both touring and photography a challenge:

We found a recent slip had been cleared to admit a narrow car track. Giant rocks threatened from above, so I left the car at a safe place and walked back half a mile for photographs (Pascoe 1966, p. 17).



Figure 3: Cars on the New Haast Road, Westland 1966. John Pascoe Collection, Alexander Turnbull Library, Wellington, N.Z.

In his article “Haast Road - Adventure!” Pascoe recommends that drivers use their horn at blind bends and stay in low gear whenever driving became “tricky” (Pascoe 1966, p. 10). As soon as the route had been officially opened, tourist publications such as *New Zealand Holiday* had rushed to promote the

beauty of the Haast Pass road and assure would-be visitors, through visual and written texts, of its accessibility by all vehicles. While Pascoe’s article hints at the primitive road conditions and the likelihood of slips (“there are machines at nearby depots to clear them”) his photos display sturdy concrete bridges and the Humber at picturesque photo stops. Pascoe’s images of the more extreme road

conditions he encountered (as seen in Figure 3) were not chosen to illustrate his article.

For every tourist advertisement from the 1960s that extolled the ease of travel around New Zealand by car (in particular rental car), bus companies (Newmans and Railways Road Services in particular) counteracted with compelling reasons for taking their coach tours, or at the very least one of their regular scheduled bus services. While advertisements for both coach tour and car rental companies asserted equally vehemently that travel in their vehicles would be carefree, an all-inclusive price, comfortable seat, leisureliness of pace and a courteous, informative and experienced “courier driver” were proposed reasons for opting for coach tours, each reason implying that car travel might result in the converse.

Additionally, both advertisements and articles in tourist promotion magazines suggested that the enjoyment of the company of fellow travellers was a given, not just a possibility that was dependent on the mood of the other occupant/s of a private car. Journalist Dorothy Moses declares that by the time she had reboarded her coach after morning tea on the first day of her 11-day South Island tour, she had made several friends. And her journey on the final day “was notable not only for the continual beautiful scenery...but also for the camaraderie by this time of passengers who were busy exchanging addresses and promises to keep in touch as journey’s end got nearer”(Moses 1966, p. 33,40).

It is probable that Gladys, Jim and cousin Mary were anticipating a similarly positive outcome to their bus tour. In addition they would have expected to be educated and entertained by their knowledgeable driver, while they sat back and relaxed in a comfortable, elevated seat (Moses 1957, p. 2; Anonymous 1962, p. 17). Like Dorothy Moses when she reached the Haast on Day Four of her tour, the heads of all three (and not just Gladys’s and Mary’s) would have been “bobbing from side to side trying to take in the spectacular scenery” on each side of the bus (Moses 1966, p. 37). Unlike the Newmans Coach tour advertisement, in which the woman directs her partner’s attention to a sight she believes he should photograph, both Gladys and Jim would have had their respective cameras at the ready.

Discover wonderful New Zealand...

take a NEWMANS COACH TOUR

You're assured of seeing the best of New Zealand when you travel in the comfort of an air-conditioned Newmans luxury coach. Newmans coach tours cover the whole of the country from sub-tropical NORTH-LAND to the snow-clad SOUTHERN ALPS, and in between are many different and exciting places at which a Newmans Coach stops. A few examples are, the fascinating WAITOMO Glow-worm Caves; ROTO-RUA centre of Maori arts and culture, surrounded by hot springs, geysers and boiling mud pools; LAKE TAUPO with its superb trout fishing; the renowned FOX and FRANZ JOSEF GLACIERS; the sparkling snow-fed waters of the SOUTHERN LAKES; and the awe-inspiring scenery of famous MILFORD SOUND.

Contact your local travel agent or—

Newmans COACH TOURS

Dominion Life Arcade, Willis Street, P.O. Box 149, Wellington. Telegrams "New-coach". Telephone 48-920

NT63.2

32

Figure 3 Newmans Coach Tour Advertisement 1965

The trio appear to have been taking a day trip from either Wanaka or Queenstown, possibly with Doug “Skipper” Elliott, as an advertisement from 1968 states that the Queenstown-based tourist firm Elliotts Scenic Tours Ltd operated five coach tours out of Queenstown, including one to Haast Pass (Anonymous 1967, p.73; Anonymous 1968, p. 20).^{6 7 8}

⁶ Gladys and Jim’s slide sequences include images of accommodation and gardens in Queenstown that were taken around the time of this trip to Haast.

⁷ Doug Elliott does not appear to differentiate between a tour and a trip in his advertisement; both seem to mean a brief visit (lasting no more than a day) to a scenic location. However, unlike his trip on offer to the nearby historic township of Arrowtown, the distance covered in the return trip to Haast township would have been significant – well over 400 kilometres over mainly unsealed road – so that much of the day would have been spent travelling.

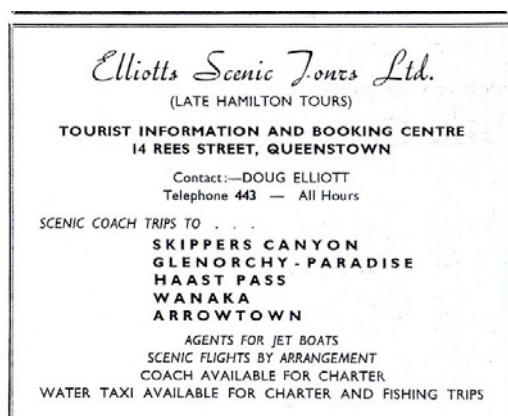


Figure 4 Elliotts Scenic Tours Ltd. Advertisement

Judging by the slides taken, the tour stopped for photo taking and/or refreshments at manmade tourist attractions, like the derelict Cardrona Hotel, and at such natural attractions as the river flats of the Haast valley. Had they been travelling independently, Gladys and Jim might not have chosen to pause in these places; nevertheless Pascoe hints at a tacit accord amongst travellers as to the location of the most attractive sites (that usually afforded a panorama), at which to break the journey on the Haast road:

At Pleasant Flat the middle bridge gave us opportunity for a swim and a brew of tea. Other cars had stopped for a picnic (Pascoe 1966, p. 15).

John Taylor distinguishes the tripper from the tourist and traveller, but his definitions do not work satisfactorily in Gladys and Jim's case. Trippers allegedly do not have a lot of time, money or interest in the place they visit briefly; the intention of the tourist is to go on holiday to verify what has been previously read or seen in media, while travellers, at the top of Taylor's hierarchy, are the most serious holidaymakers, spending more time, money and attention on their stay in a location. Gladys and Jim would have qualified for all three categories, spending between five to seven days in the Central Otago area (on this occasion basing themselves in both Queenstown and Wanaka), but making day trips further afield to visit newly opened and recently advertised attractions such as the Haast Pass road. In fact during some extended tours of the South Island they would visit Central Otago twice, returning to Dunedin between visits. Taylor, J. (1994). *A Dream of England: Landscape, Photography, and the Tourist's Imagination*. Manchester; New York, Manchester University Press.

⁸ Queenstown, a quiet town with a population of around 1300 in the 1961 census, appears to have had just the two scenic bus tour operators by 1967. Davis, B. N. and E. S. Dollimore. (1966, 26 September 2006). "Queenstown." *An Encyclopaedia of New Zealand*, Retrieved 25 October, 2006, from <http://www.TeAra.govt.nz/1966/Q/Queenstown/en>, Anonymous (1967). "Queenstown." *This is New Zealand* 6(2): 70-79.

Pascoe's description of this felicitously named stop, published in *New Zealand Holiday* shortly after the official opening of the highway, may have made an impression on readers who intended to visit the Haast in a private vehicle, rather than by coach tour. Pascoe and company were able to linger at their leisure in this place, directly experiencing the smell, sound and feel of it by sitting on the grass eating a picnic, or by swimming in the river. As promised in the Tasman Rental Car advertisement, they could in fact "look behind the local scene" rather than merely watching it swiftly pass outside their vehicle (Anonymous 1966, p. 43). While not able to stop for a picnic at Pleasant Flat, Gladys has taken a slide from the window of their moving bus, in a manner similar to the male tourist within the Newmans advertisement. Possibly their driver had pointed out and identified the mountains (signposts and interpretation boards would not have existed). Far from her own home and in a geography totally dissimilar from Auckland's, Gladys would have gained much pleasure from viewing then photographing the Southern Alps (Urry 2002, p.3). Through the tourist gaze of her slide photography she attempts to possess "some of the most astonishing scenery in New Zealand" (Anonymous 1965, p. 39).⁹ However while her photo of Mounts Macfarlane and Hooker illustrates her desire to encapsulate the "wholeness" and vastness of the scenery, the limitation of the frame demonstrates that the mountain scenery was richer and fuller than any slide she could ever take, or indeed buy from a souvenir shop (Barenholdt 2003, p. 82).

Although Gladys and Jim's slide-taking opportunities were choreographed by a driver who was following a fixed itinerary (in any case, there were no side roads along which to detour), their photography does not appear to have suffered unduly. Despite the lack of spontaneity to their photography for most of the tour, Gladys and Jim may not have taken particular photos if their driver had not been present to direct the group's attention to unexpected scenes of interest along the way (Gilmore 1958, p. 26). For example, Gladys almost certainly would not have noticed, then photographed, an almost invisible deer

⁹ Pleasant Flat is located between Haast township and Gates of Haast, near where the Landsborough and Haast rivers meet.

standing at the edge of the bush, had she and Jim been travelling alone. *The Deer Haast* not only illustrates their driver's facility for observing deer but also his willingness to stop for as long as it took for everyone to spot it, then take photos from inside the bus (the reflection from the glass is noticeable). Moses comments that her driver did not run the tour to a "split second schedule"; he always had "time up [his] sleeves" to stop for camera enthusiasts. Near Te Anau he alerts his group to the sudden presence of a deer:

"Look at the deer," shouted Bill, and we saw it run across the road and into the bush" (Moses 1966, p. 40).

Another travel writer records how only their driver noticed the fleeting presence of a deer:

The beech forest through which we passed came in for some attention...Once a deer made off into the forest so quickly that only the experienced eye of the driver saw it (Anonymous 1963).



Figure 5 Mt Hooker & Glacier Haast Pass

The courier driver eventually transports his passengers to a deserted section of West Coast beach at Haast, thus reducing their experience of the coastal wilderness to a finite stroll that extended no further than about 200 metres from the bus (Wilson 1992, p. 19). Although the scenery is spectacular, the seascape is not exotic. The Tasman Sea also pounds through the entrance of the Manukau Heads, which Jim and Gladys could view at any time from the heights of Onehunga.

Nevertheless while the sea is familiar, their setting, isolation and fellow travellers are not. Undoubtedly, as well as seeing "familiar things unusually" Gladys and Jim were enjoying seeing unusual things, such as large logs on a

beach that is uninhabited, as well as enjoying meeting new people (Osborne 2000, p. 90).

Because they have reached their advertised destination, Jim and Gladys take commemorative photographs, a characteristic and expected tourist practice. However in spite of having chosen to participate in a lengthy day trip to this remote and beautiful beach, it appears they did not feel compelled to take any slides solely of the shoreline (Haldrup and Larsen 2003, p. 24). While they would have been delighted to experience the South Westland coast, particularly on such an exceptionally fine day, Gladys and Jim were also concerned with the "extraordinary ordinariness" of social relationships (Haldrup 2004, p. 443).



Figure 7 Haast Beach

Jim's slide *Haast Beach* displays all the hallmarks of a way of picturing the social world of family life while on holiday that Michael Haldrup and Jonas Larsen describe as the "family gaze". In it, the family performs (for the photographer, for themselves and for future viewers) a narrative of unity and "familial happiness" in front of or within an attraction that accentuates both their apparent enjoyment of each other's company and their appreciation of that attraction. The inclusion of figures enlivens and personalises the Haast landscape but does not obscure it. Jim steps back, for he is not after a close-up of the group alone; by using the family gaze he balances scenery with the documentation of group members (Haldrup and Larsen 2003, p. 27,31,37).

These tourists have made a temporary home for themselves in Haast, an "unknown territory". Three of the women sit on a log, while the driver hangs back a little at the rear of the corporeal arrangement in a shepherding position, a place often favoured by the oldest male in family photographs. One member has written HAAST in the sand in the foreground for the benefit of future audiences, the naming of the otherwise untouched land colonising and domesticating "the endless indifference of

nature" (Osborne 2000, p. 104; Haldrup 2004, p. 444, 447).¹⁰

Family photographs taken on holiday are "inwardly looking"; as a rule the family gaze focuses on family and sometimes friends who are engaged in private leisure or tourism activities, but not on strangers (Haldrup and Larsen 2003, p. 25). If other tourists are present, photographers usually wait until they are out of shot, or only allow them to "inhabit the blurred background" of the family shot (Haldrup and Larsen 2003, p. 29). In this slide we find two Cunningham family members – Gladys in the blue jacket and grey-haired Mary – being photographed by third member Jim on a beach far from their respective homes. However while the two women inhabit the same spot, they are not alone; the Cunningham group has been hybridised, having been mixed together with other family groups. Nor are they situated particularly close to each other: Mary sits near two similarly dressed younger women (who seem to be related), whereas Gladys appears to be connected to the two people standing with her.

The family gaze can depict and produce long - or short - term friendships; it can make a "family". In this case, eight tourists, united by

¹⁰ Haast was named after Sir Julius von Haast, an explorer and geologist who was born in Germany in 1822.

their desire to experience a part of New Zealand they had not yet explored, have been sitting in close proximity on a lengthy bus trip to Haast, chatting to each other and making connections. The beach becomes a stage upon which the group displays their camaraderie, performing “the rituals of leisure and transient association” (Osborne 2000, p. 102). Together with their driver, they smile and pose as one social body. The slide will later remind Gladys and Jim, and provide proof to their family back home, that , as promised by the publicity, “travelling in a party adds much to tour enjoyment” (Gilmore 1958, p. 26; Haldrup and Larsen 2003, p. 34-35).



Figure 8 The Deer Haast

At the time of Gladys taking the slide *Beach at Haast Village* the final roadworks in State Highway 6 between Otago and Westland had not been completed. Because there was as yet no Haast Pass Scenic route, there were consequently no Newmans or Railways Road Services bus trip advertisements. *Beach at Haast Village* does not quote or duplicate tourist-oriented visual texts, because it is

unlikely Gladys had encountered any (Osborne 2000, p. 85-86).¹¹ She is visiting a tourist site that was evidently being publicised in a small way but was not nationally recognised as a major scenic attraction. Newmans’ earliest Haast advertisement, urging readers to “be among the first to travel” the scenic route, was published in September 1965 (Anonymous 1965, p. 35). For Gladys and Jim, standing on the beach several months earlier, Haast’s uniqueness lay in the fact that it had not already been done and seen by thousands of other tourists, because of the incomplete road. And because it was one of New Zealand’s “unspoiled recesses”, there were no structures on the beach - steps, seats or platforms - to steer the tourist towards a likely site for repose or a photographic opportunity. Gladys and Jim were free to photograph whatever they wished, within the radius of the bus and within a stipulated time (Wilson 1992, p. 30). Interestingly, Gladys chooses to picture her husband talking to two other members of the tour group, the log they had gathered around previously now vacant in the background, awaiting the next wave of temporary residents. Although Jim appears slightly irritated at the interruption, the trio suspend their conversation momentarily to engage with the camera, aware that their collaboration is necessary to Gladys’s representation of their group’s successful socialisation (Larsen 2005, p. 429). Gladys is practising what Wearing and Wearing call the “feminised gaze”, her photo stressing interactions among the tourists (Larsen 2005, p. 424). However in the background a solitary tourist strolls along the indeterminate stretch of sand, her camera swinging unused at her side. Entering “deep into [her] own personal world”, and unaware that she is being observed – then and now - she gazes in private upon the shoreline, perhaps performing what Urry describes as the romantic form of the tourist gaze - enjoying a “semi- spiritual relationship” with the wild, isolated beach (Urry 2002, p. 43; Tucker 2005, p. 277). By capturing both activities, and through her own action of photographing the scene, Gladys’s slide and slide-taking illustrate Wearing and Wearing’s point that in a tourist space, tourists can

¹¹ However Gladys possessed an early 1960s National Publicity Studios black-and-white photo of the Haast Township main street, titled *Haast, N.Z.* 2725. She wrote in ballpoint upon it many years later “AT TIME OF ROAD BUILDING”.

“construct their own meanings in relation to the self” and identity, their destination becoming “occupied and given meaning” by themselves through their use of it, opening it up to many possibilities (Wearing and Wearing 1996, p. 235-36). Tucker also argues that the “touring self” and the places toured by coach are not fixed, but instead are dependent on “the expectations and performances of those touring”(Tucker 2005, p. 268) .

The taking of their slides signals a break in the relationship between this elderly New Zealand couple and the land. No longer rurally based or employed, retired Auckland suburb dwellers Gladys and Jim visit another, “purer”, place for a commodified wilderness experience (Wilson 1992, p. 20-22). The group’s occupation of the beach, each holding a camera, transforms it from a place of work – in earlier times for sealers, latterly for farmers and fisherman - to a place of leisure. Tourists not only gaze at the attraction but also find personal meaning in solitude, in interactions with other group members on the beach, and in photographing those interrelationships.

When the bus departs from Haast beach at the end of the allocated time, the beach will cease to be a tourist site, a landscape to be photographed and possessed by those who are mobile, and have now moved on to other landscapes. (Børenholdt 2003, p. 141-42). With the deaths of Gladys and Jim, the participants’ identities and the significance of and stories behind each slide will disappear; nevertheless the images will “continue to remain the catalyst for some form of communication”, used in this instance as the foundations for an academic narrative (Bryan, p.50).

Like the solitary background figure, Jim will soon depart from his family group; indeed, with chronic respiratory problems, he is probably all too aware of his mortality (Mary’s husband had died only months before this tour) as he chats to his younger companions and absorbs the beauty of the beach. In fact, this was to be his last visit to this “pastoral paradise” (Tucker 2005, p. 276-77). However Jim returns whenever there is a slide evening. Family members stare at his familiar jaunty travel hat and blue woollen jumper and remember him. Carrying a 35mm camera, idle hand in pocket, he performs the role of elderly

Kiwi male tourist from an increasingly distant era in New Zealand’s social history. He returns our stare as if he can see us, forever casting a long shadow over the white sand on a motionless, postcard-perfect day.

Despite the constraints of an organised coach tour, Gladys, Jim and Mary are able to relax and enjoy both scenery and company in this “easiest and most friendly” form of domestic travel (Moses 1957, p. 9) . By the time they arrive at Haast beach, the tour group has evidently become “one big happy family”. Practicing the family gaze, the couple invite their fellow passengers to participate in the photography of harmonious family scenes upon a landscape stage, their performances of togetherness - culturally scripted by articles and pamphlets on coach travel - conforming to dominant mythologies of family photography (Moses 1957, p. 2; Larsen 2005, p. 424-25). Although the group’s appropriation of the rugged beach transforms it into an extraordinary, picturesque tourist sight/site for the duration of their visit, after their departure the wind will quickly erase any trace of their presence. Only Gladys and Jim’s travel slides keep the inscription in the sand intact, the day sunny and the performances of “family” members alive (Børenholdt 2003, p. 144).

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Mapping Geographies of Desire and Incidental Tourism: Being Japanese in Three Australian Film Landscapes

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Abstract

Some essential dichotomies of Australia are the known and unknown, the local and other, and the here and there. Australia's short history as an outpost of European culture is primarily understood as that of a young culture in an ancient land(scape).

Driving through the Australian landscape is often as much about necessity as it is about dreams. It is so often the latter that stimulate the road trip, the elements of which both locate and characterise, as well as serving the dual function of being a means to an end and an opportunity to experience new locations, as well offering the possibility of dis-location.

Three recent Australian films, however, presented a distinctively different perspective on location and dislocation, that being to introduce Japanese characters – played by Japanese actors – into Australian narrative settings and explore the results. All three films - Clara Law's *The Goddess of 1967* (2000), Sue Brooks' *Japanese Story* (2003) and Rachel Lucas' *Bondi Tsunami* (2004) - have narratives of dislocation, both personal and physical (almost inevitable, given the obvious common feature of Japanese in Australia), and of diverse desire set in iconic landscapes at once both alluring and alienating. The three narratives share the road as a metaphor of both departure and arrival, as well as that of a journey offering not only deeper self-knowledge but also an experience of journeying through the Australian landscape. Here, then, is where the personal landscape meets that of tourism, as each of the journeys is a personal search of sorts. Whilst the touristic nature of the imagery may be incidental to the narrative action it is, nevertheless, emphasising how the elemental qualities of the landscape may echo the inner personal landscapes and journeys of the characters. Two studies of tourism that explore destination image - Wang (2000) and Urry (2002) – will be utilised to provide a framework of sorts for the discussion.

Keywords: Australia; Japanese; landscape; journeys; film; tourism; image; destination

Some Australian Filmic Dis/locations

Australia as place and space manifests striking dichotomies – what is known and the more challenging unknown, as well as the reassuring familiarity of the local counter pointing the potential risk of the other. This immediately evokes Urry's concept of opposites where, in *The Tourist Gaze*, leisure activity is the opposite of organised work, the tourist journey is away from the known, and the places gazed upon are also direct contrasts with familiar sights and locations.¹² Australia's short white

history as an outpost of European culture can also be primarily understood in terms of contrasts and opposites with the imposition of a young culture on an ancient indigenous land(scape). This may be the most obvious construct of Australia, but it has most often formed the basis for numerous media versions of Australian life and its vicissitudes.

Vast, apparently empty distances and remote settlements constitute the landscape: upon leaving towns, sprawling suburbs stretch to the horizon and, closer to that horizon, the infinities of either bush or ocean usually stop us in our tracks. We drive to the corner shop to get the paper and the milk, or we drive around Australia to see for ourselves what the

¹² Urry, J. (2002) *The Tourist Gaze*. (2e) London: Sage Publications, pp.1-3.

'sunburnt country' is all about. Driving through the Australian landscape is often as much about necessity as it is about dreams. It is so often dreams and desire that stimulate the road trip, the elements of which both locate and characterise, serving the dual function of being a means to an end and an opportunity to experience new locations, as well offering the possibility of profound dis-location.

Like the road trip (possibly more of which later), Australian films have frequently offered a similar duality: a functional narrative premise is often located in the dichotomous spaces identified earlier, so that the viewer's gaze is not only focussed on the unfolding narrative but also upon the location. Australian films have so often utilised locations that tend to reinforce yet simultaneously subvert the 'Australian-ness' of the narrative.

Peter Weir's black automotive comedy *The Cars That Ate Paris* (1973) begins with 'Arthur Waldo and his brother George ...driving through outback New South Wales when they are forced to follow diversion signs taking them off the main road towards the township of Paris.'¹³ Malevolent, carnivorous (in every sense) Paris almost proves the undoing of Arthur and George – diversions may lead to a descent into a world of madness and death, perhaps consistent with the reality of the outback, but usually not the myth of popular preference. A contemporary perspective in a reassuring weekly magazine - *The Australian Women's Weekly* in fact – asked its readers: 'When is Paris not the capital of France? When it's the sinister setting of an off-beat Australian film, *The Cars that Ate Paris*...But don't expect to see a koala or even a lost kangaroo. Paris's main industry is murder.'¹⁴ If there is desire in this Paris it can only be about escaping but: '...Weir, true to his belief that horrifying things exist from which there may be no easy escape, doesn't allow such comfort.'¹⁵ Dislocation, mayhem

and murder, all driven by desire for nefarious ends but with black comedic tinges, are the essence of *Cars*. Neither the narrative nor the images offer the usual bush emphases – here the spectatorial gaze is only offered opposites that disconcert rather than reinforce bush preconceptions. Such an approach, however, is certainly not without precedent in the reality and mediation of Australian rural experience. Beeton neatly evokes one such tidying up of the bush's challenges and risks by early European artists for a market that insisted upon a romantic aesthetic.¹⁶

Weir followed *Cars* with more rural anxiety and uncertainty in his elegiac *Picnic at Hanging Rock* (1975) in which schoolgirls in diaphanous white frocks ascend – après picnic – the ominous, mysterious Hanging Rock, and vanish without a trace. According to Weir, people who worked on the film observed that there were: '...odd moments during the film when they felt a strange disassociation from time and place.'¹⁷ Despite the narrative fixing the period setting historically, the film has a timeless quality that transcends specific time and place, possibly assuming a mythic form. The Rock is ancient and elemental in a way that may pre-date any human presence, perhaps echoing (this is ambitious) Jung's mythopoeic imagination which appears: '...in non-directed fantasy thinking and dream images, and reflects the pre-conscious archetypal structure of the psyche.'¹⁸ First the harmless camping holiday is forever changed; now the innocuous school picnic at a familiar rocky outcrop in the bush becomes the scene of an inexplicable vanishing act.

A similar iconic, elemental power at Uluru/ Ayers Rock (the dual naming another example of cultural overlay) in Fred Schepisi's *Evil Angels* (1988) provides yet another compelling setting for an unsettling narrative of dislocation, disappearance and accusation. What began as a desire for possibly the most

¹³ Stratton, D. (1980) *The Last New Wave: The Australian Film Revival*. Sydney: Angus and Robertson, p.61.

¹⁴ Carr, V. (1974) 'The Town that Lived, and Died, by the Car', *The Australian Women's Weekly*, August 14, pp.8-9.

¹⁵ McFarlane, B. (1980) 'Horror and Suspense' in Murray, S. (ed.) (1980) *The New Australian Cinema*. Melbourne: Thomas Nelson, p.64.

¹⁶ Beeton, S (2004) 'Rural Tourism in Australia – Has the Gaze Altered? Tracking Rural Images through Film and Tourism Promotion' *International Journal of Tourism Research*. 6, p. 127.

¹⁷ Matthew, S. (1984) *35mm Dreams*. Ringwood, Victoria: Penguin Books, p.95.

¹⁸ Hyde, M. and McGuinness, M. (1992) *Jung for Beginners*. Cambridge, UK: Icon Books, p.173.

quintessentially Australian holiday - camping at Ayers Rock – became for the Chamberlains a multiple nightmare of the loss of their baby Azaria, subsequent trial-by-media, and the conviction and incarceration of murderous mother Lindy. Clearly, the horrors – real or imagined - that lurk in the nocturnal outback, or their consequences, should not be underestimated.

The outback in Stephan Elliot's *The Adventures of Priscilla, Queen of the Desert* (1994) encloses another narrative of dislocation but this time there is a victory of sorts, though probably not one imagined by Patrick White's *Voss*: Sydney drag queens manage to bond with indigenous Australians, confront and defeat homophobic small town bullies, and triumph over all adversity. Desire drives *Priscilla's* narrative literally and metaphorically, and is eventually realised for all of the characters although possibly at the expense of their drag personae. So, maybe the outback, the bush, and other remote dis/locations can offer a redemption of sorts as long some form of payment has been exacted.

These films, and many others before and after them, have narratively taken Australian characters away from their known locations and placed them, through their diverse desires, face to face with the exotic other, which may profoundly threaten, challenge, inspire or simply provide an alternative to the familiar. The mediated Australian experience, however, has always relied heavily on the familiar known yet the security of that known has been almost continuously challenged by one constructed enemy or another. Perhaps what needs to be remembered here is that isolation/ism can create strange imaginings irrespective of socio-cultural or geographic location.

Konchi-wa, Mate: Dis/locating Japanese

Three more recent Australian films, however, presented a distinctively different perspective on location, dislocation and opposition by introducing Japanese characters – played by Japanese actors – into Australian narrative settings and exploring the results. All three films - Clara Law's *The Goddess of 1967* (2000), Sue Brooks' *Japanese Story* (2003) and Rachel Lucas' *Bondi Tsunami* (2004) - have narratives of dislocation, both personal and

physical (almost inevitably, given the obvious common feature of Japanese in Australia), and of diverse desire set in iconic landscapes at once both alluring and alienating. The three narratives share the road as a metaphor of both departure and arrival, as well as that of a journey offering not only deeper self-knowledge but also an experience of journeying through the Australian landscape. Here, then, is where the personal landscape meets that of tourism, as each of the journeys is a personal search of sorts. Whilst the touristic nature of the imagery may be incidental to the narrative action it is, nevertheless, emphasising how the elemental qualities of the landscape may echo the inner personal landscapes and journeys of the characters.

Two of the three films - *The Goddess of 1967* and *Japanese Story* – have narratives with Australian female characters that are at odds with themselves and with Japanese males they encounter and, subsequently, must co-exist with. In contrast, *Bondi Tsunami* has an entirely Japanese cast (primarily male) searching for the perfect surfing experience and along the way of their pilgrimage encounter an Australia of larger-than-life icons rather than larger-than-life Australians, although the metaphysics of surfing do influence the transcendental nature of the narrative and the journey.

It is the narrative themes of road trip and personal odyssey that have provided the stimulus for this discussion. Here the three films are discussed as cultural texts, focussing on narrative and image in order to explore movement through constructed landscapes. What becomes apparent is that the literal and symbolic images of those landscapes are not only narrative-specific but have a wider de-facto touristic resonance. What is also interesting is the locating/dislocating presence of the Japanese characters in Australian landscapes.

Whilst the characters are not tourists per se, their presence echoes that of the now somewhat diminished Japanese tourist (dare I write it) tsunami to Australia of the 1980s and 1990s. The Japanese male businessmen characters of *The Goddess of 1967* and *Japanese Story* initially tend to conform to the inscrutable Oriental construct, changing only

later through contact with distinctive Australian women; in Bondi Tsunami, however, the Japanese men have more of a stoner inscrutability linked to their search for the perfect wave. All are affected by their surroundings and, in more than one sense are of their surroundings – the elemental outback, with its surface that belies much activity, is a fitting metaphor; the coastal journey and encounters with huge creations like the Big Banana and Big Merino underline the reality/hyper-reality dissonance of known versus unknown routes, spaces and locations. To travel is to change, to gaze upon and experience the other, whatever or whomever that other might be.

The three narratives offer challenging emotional trajectories that result in profound outcomes for all involved. Each narrative is also anchored in a landscape of desire, both emotional and physical. The desires are diverse – business success, a dreamed-of classic car, the ultimate surfing experience – but the journeys toward realisation of the desires move through such obvious touristic landscapes that the gaze of both characters and audience cannot help but be aware of the surroundings and perhaps wonder about authorial and directorial intent.

These three films - Clara Law's *The Goddess* of 1967 (2000), Sue Brooks' *Japanese Story* (2003) and Rachel Lucas' *Bondi Tsunami* (2004) - have narratives set in landscapes, personal and physical, that offer a multiplicity of meanings, resonances and dissonances all driven by forms of desire. Concepts of journey, road trip, and even pilgrimage enclose encounters in the films with the 'other' in familiar, often clichéd, Australian touristic locales. There are attempts in these films to challenge aspects of the status quo but, to a degree, they also perpetuate stereotypical media constructs of known and unknown, and local and other, in landscapes that seem familiar but may not be.

So how, then, to begin? Is this discussion fundamentally an exercise in film criticism? Will critical analysis of three films with Australian narrative settings and predominantly Japanese male characters advance understanding or knowledge in any given research field – national identity, cultural studies, media, tourism, or even film-induced

tourism? Let's just say that the discussion will consider a range of thematic media constructs of Australian responses to 'Japanese-ness', the 'other', the road trip, and desires. There will, of course, be some attempt at mapping geographies of those desires, and how and why they are narrated and manifested in the three film. As national identity was the first theme proposed, let the characters' Japanese-ness begin the consideration.

Considering 'Japanese-ness'

Any thinking about national identity must acknowledge that, like so many other elements of this discussion, it is constructed though, and with, a multiplicity of meanings and resonances. In the case of the Japanese characters, a starting point might be not so much the creation of the myth of 'Japanese-ness' but some perceptions of its operation. One of the qualities of myth is that it '...implies extremely familiar and influential social structures of meaning. Frequently, it has historical acceptance.'¹⁹ This, however, leads to questions of constructing identity, national and otherwise, and the way in which the West 'knows' Japan which may, in fact, not be knowing at all. Perhaps the reality is that 'the masks Japan wears slip and slide; and the filter of latent orientalism through which we see the Japanese (without perhaps realizing we do so) distorts...the Japanese know much more about us than we do about them.'²⁰ Sofia Coppola's *Lost in Translation* (2003) reaffirms this by dropping an already dazed and disaffected American movie star Bob (Bill Murray) into a manic Toyko media maelstrom, his only steady ground to be found with neglected newlywed Charlotte (Scarlett Johansson). *Lost's* Tokyo is neon nights and distant ceremonies; the inscrutable (the very act of using 'inscrutable' becomes a reaffirmation of cultural stereotyping in itself), impenetrable Japanese culture and its people are all glittering hard surfaces but offering no real access, driving the two Americans closer via shared cultural understanding and the reassurance that it offers.

¹⁹ Thwaites, T., Davis, L. and Mules, W. (2002) *introducing cultural and media studies*. Basingstoke: Palgrave, p.82.

²⁰ Martineau, L. (1993) *Caught in a Mirror: Reflections of Japan*. London: Macmillan, p.4.

Barthes, in *L'Empire des Signes* (1970), constructs a system he calls 'Japan' not through familiar (written) means but by a series of refusals²¹: 'I am not lovingly gazing toward an Oriental essence – to me the Orient is a matter of indifference, merely providing a reserve of features whose manipulation – whose invented interplay – allows me to 'entertain the idea of an unheard-of symbolic system, one altogether detached from our own. What can be addressed, in the consideration of the Orient, are not other symbols, another metaphysics, another wisdom (although the latter might appear thoroughly desirable); it is the possibility of difference, of a mutation, of a revolution in the propriety of symbolic systems.'²² It seems, however, that Barthes is unable to entirely realise his new, symbolic Japan, as his stated intent to remain indifferent to the paradigm of Orientalism tends to unconsciously, unintentionally foreground it through that intended indifference.²³ One final Barthes observation from *The Pleasure of the Text* (*Le Plaisir du texte*, 1973) seems to indicate that certainty of intent is no guarantee of expected outcome: '(Pleasure/Bliss: terminologically, there is always a vacillation – I stumble, I err. In any case, there will always be a margin of indecision; the distinction will not be the source of absolute clarifications, the paradigm will falter, the meaning will be precarious, revocable, reversible, the discourse incomplete.)²⁴ Observations have been made about Barthes' inclination towards utopian notions (for example see Knight, 1997) but while there is desire, there is also hesitation about considering Japan as a possible utopia. What there is no hesitation about are the obvious trajectories of opposition when considering Japan.

²¹ Birk, E. (2003) 'L'Orient m'est indifférent' in Conroy, J. (2003) (ed.) *Cross-Cultural Travel: Papers from the Royal Irish Academy Symposium on Literature and Travel*, National University of Ireland, Galway, November 2002. New York: Peter Lang, p. 408.

²² Barthes, R. (1970) *Empire of Signs* (*L'Empire des Signes*, translated by Richard Howard, 1982). New York: Hill and Wang, pp. 3-4.

²³ Birk, op.cit., p.414.

²⁴ Barthes, R. (1973) *The Pleasure of the Text* (*Le Plaisir du texte*, translated by Richard Miller, 1975). New York: The Noonday Press/ Farrar, Straus and Giroux, p.4.

But what of Australians and the Japanese?

About twenty minutes into Sue Brooks' *Japanese Story*, Sandy (Toni Collette) and Tachibana (Gotaro Tsunashima) enter a canteen and from a male voice offers an audible 'Don't mention the war', a malignantly humorous aside. Is this a likely comment more than sixty years after the end of WWII? It is effectively the only racist articulation (apart, perhaps, from Sandy's: 'I'm a geologist, not a bloody geisha') but its inclusion may indicate a lingering cultural residual. The point is reinforced with another evocation of the war further into the narrative and, oddly, after an intimate moment between Sandy and Hiro (echoes of Hirohito?). As the two new lovers are rowed about on still waters, the elderly rower intones: 'In the war we thought you blokes were coming after us. We had stuff stashed away up in the hills, evacuation plans, people tying knives to the end of broomsticks. Ridiculous, really. Now you blokes own the place. There was a time when nobody would buy anything made in Japan. The wife, she'd go into a shop and turn a thing over and if it said 'Made in Japan' she'd put it back on the shelf, wouldn't buy it...Only country to have trading surplus with you lot. Funny thing, life.' Funnier, perhaps, that such specific history is still being invoked, almost as if to suggest that there is something still not quite right about Japanese being in Australia.

Walker's insightful if slight historical discussion 'Australia as Asia' (1997) tantalised with themes of imagining Asias, challenges, opportunities, and explored links between Asia and the identity of Australia, suggesting that Australia in the 1950s was either an: '...unrelievedly anti-Asian culture or a culture that knew nothing about Asia and was in no hurry to learn.'²⁵ Horrific tales of Japanese cruelty to Australian prisoners-of-war (see Luck, 1979, pp.226-8, for a fascinating Japanese propaganda film counterpoint, *Calling Australia*.) were possibly the most enduring form of cultural residue; anti-Japanese sentiments endured long after the end

²⁵ Walker, D. (1997) 'Australia as Asia' in Hudson, W. and Bolton, G. (1997) (eds.) *Creating Australia: Changing Australian History*. St Leonards, NSW: Allen and Unwin, p.139.

of the war, and were still evident at least until the late 1950s.

During the 1958 Mobilgas Trial, the Japanese crews, while crossing the Nullarbor, were required: '...to sleep outside due to the antipathy of a local ex-prisoner-of-war.'²⁶ The September 1958 issue of *Wheels* reported on Japanese car factories with the author referring to: '...the 'threat' of Japanese production...'²⁷, a resonant observation and prophecy.

More compelling are Gerster and Bassett's (1991) observations on the 1960s: 'Of all the bogeymen invoked in the development of Australian chauvinism – the squatter, the copper, the homosexual and the Pom – the Asian had been the most insistently reviled, the most constantly constructed threat...Throughout Australian history the Japanese and Chinese (with occasional competition from the Russians) had taken it in turns to be the special object of Australian fear.'²⁸

Not wishing to demonise each decade until now, an observation from the 1970s, however, emphasises the continuing phobia: 'There has long been, in the Australian mind, fear of a 'yellow peril'; that its Asian neighbours might nurse ambitions of moving into Australia forcefully. It is sad that such notions have not yet died.'²⁹ A final note suggesting a hint of change comes from a source that is probably not representative of the greater Australian public but here it is nevertheless; academic and philosopher John Passmore (1914-2004) regarded Japan as: '...an intriguing curiosity, discussing the Japanese by analogies with the medieval world and even that of the Homeric heroes.'³⁰ Heroism was not the first quality

that traditionally sprang to the Australian mind when invoking any aspect of the Japanese experience but the Japanese males of these three films are all on personal odysseys of a kind, driven by distinctive desires and experiencing change in varying degrees as a consequence.

The 1980s saw a rise in Japanese tourism to Australia with a similar rise in concerns about the extent to which localities, particularly Queensland's Gold Coast, were pandering to the yen and consequently compromising the Australian-ness of the location.

Two final assaults took place in the 1990s. Pauline Hanson's maiden speech to Federal Parliament in September, 1996 included (amongst many other broadsides): 'I believe we are in danger of being swamped by Asians...' ³¹ which set all of Asia ablaze with outrage. Whilst Hanson did not specifically target Japan, the Queensland murder of Japanese tourist Michiko Okuyama in September 1998 could have appeared to do so. It possibly a confirmation to a society traditionally wary of *gaijin* (outsider), an attitude not uncommon in other Asian cultures and perhaps a Hanson-esque echo of sorts, that there is no place like home.

Returning (finally) to the films, apart from the moments in *Japanese Story* discussed earlier, there is little antipathy towards any of the Japanese characters in the three films yet the narrative constructs still persist with forms of the exotic 'other'. Even fully immersed in the Australian landscape and, in two of three films, intimately linked with Australian women, the Japanese characters are not of that landscape. Their outsider/ visitor status, their exotic 'otherness' remains intact – perhaps the landscapes in which they find themselves are indeed as impenetrable, or as inscrutable, as they themselves have been constructed to appear.

So, Japanese characters have been placed narratively in various distinctive Australian landscapes. Their motivations are diverse, but all have particularly intense desires – escape from an oppressive marriage/ society; a

²⁶ Ratcliff, P. (1996) 'The Car Scene in Australia after WW2: Part 3: 1956-1960.' *Restored Cars Australia* (114), p.13.

²⁷ *ibid.*

²⁸ Gerster, R. and Bassett, J. (1991) *Seizures of Youth: The Sixties and Australia*. Melbourne: Hyland House, p.119.

²⁹ Southern, M. (1972) 'Japan' in Southern, M. (ed.) (1972) *Australia in the Seventies: A Survey by the Financial Times*. Ringwood, Victoria: Penguin Books, p.212.

³⁰ Thomas, M. (1989) *Australia in Mind: Thirteen Influential Australian Thinkers*. Marrickville, NSW: Hale & Ironmonger, p.204.

³¹ Hanson, P (1996) Maiden Speech to Federal Parliament.
http://www.paulinehanson.com.au/Maiden_Speech.htm. Accessed: September 6, 2006.

profound automotive yearning; and the dream of finding the perfect wave. Nothing particularly, distinctively Japanese there but the vividly evoked Australian landscapes in which the respective trajectories of those desires are played out resonate with dualities that echo and counterpoint narrative constructs of imagined national identity.

Mapping Geographies of Desire

The three film narratives share the road (that tourist necessity, prerequisite and fantasy) as a metaphor of both departure and arrival, as well as that of a journey offering not only deeper self-knowledge but also an experience of journeying through the Australian landscape. Here, then, is where the personal landscape meets that of tourism, as each of the journeys is a personal search of sorts.

Desire takes a number of forms in the three films but here the focus will be on two forms: (i) desires for, and of, automobility, as both a means to an end and an end in itself; and (ii) the desire for the exotic other, whether it be experience, location or individual. It should be noted here that authorial (automotive) bias has definitely influenced the positioning of the first desire.

1. Desires for, and of, Automobility

It is rare to find accord between those for whom technology (that is, the car) is an idealised object, a phantasy endowed with magical properties (Richards: 1994, 71), and those who can only see its negative impact on the environment. Clearly, for the former group, the car creates an opportunity for a 'narcissistic phantasy' according to Richards, a mechanism for being transported into a space with the self as central to the ... 'phantasy'. Here, Martin's concept of 'phantasy' or 'phantasm' is apposite: '... the phantasms of popular culture are the dreams and drives that underlie its consciously avowed stories, characters, images and sounds.... Phantasms are like urgent but repressed messages emanating from the unconscious of our culture.'³² Urry (1999) focuses on much more conscious processes when he proposes that: 'The social and technical system of the car constitutes an enormously complex hybrid,

automobility,...'³³ and he examines that hybrid to expand on what he identifies as 'the specific character of domination' that automobility exerts over almost all societies across the globe.'³⁴ That concept of domination is persuasively developed by Urry but it may seem an overstatement in these three filmic narratives – perhaps dependence on automobility is more appropriate but that dependence is linked to varying forms of desire ranging from passion to practicality – so why not begin with passion.

The Goddess of 1967- Heavenly Delight

In Clara Law's *The Goddess of 1967*, Yoshiyashi, a young, Japanese businessman, and computer hacker ('JM' in the script), and apparently as cold-blooded as the reptiles he collects, yearns for a Citroën DS. The DS – déesse, the Goddess – search leads him to Australia and when he first sits in the glorious salmon pink Citroën he bursts into tears. Barthes, conveniently, described a somewhat similar response: 'In the exhibition halls, the car on show is explored with an intense, amorous studiousness: it the great tactile phase of discovery, the moment when visual wonder is about to receive the reasoned assault of touch... The bodywork, the lines of union are touched, the upholstery palpated, the seats tried, the doors caressed, the cushions fondled; before the wheel one pretends to drive with one's whole body.'³⁵ For JM, to encounter the Citroën in the metal, to enter and assume the characteristic driver's position of control completes an important stage in of his journey towards expected ownership. His profound emotional response to the Citroën is a counterpoint to what has been shown of his life so far; it may well be the first indication that his journey to Australia will effect more significant personal change. Australia for JM is, however, at first only a location that offers an opportunity to realise his desire, his quest

³² Martin, A. (1994) *Phantasms*. Ringwood, Victoria: McPhee Gribble Publishers, pp.1-2.

³³ Urry, J. (1999) 'Automobility, Car Culture and Weightless Travel: A discussion paper.' p.2. <http://www.lancs.ac.uk/fss/sociology/papers/urry-automobility.pdf> Accessed: August 31, 2006.

³⁴ *ibid.*

³⁵ Barthes, R. (1957) *Mythologies* (translated by Annette Lavers, 1972) St Albans, Herts: Paladin/ Granada, p.90

for Citroën ownership. His journey to Australia only begins when he takes the wheel of the Goddess; this, then, can be the first of the automotive desires.

Bondi Tsunami – Holden On

The 1961 EK Holden Special Station Sedan in Rachel Lucas' Bondi Tsunami is, on the other hand, really only a means to an end, albeit a lovingly photographed means. There is little to suggest that Shark (Taki Abe) or Yuto (Keita Abe) consider the Holden as anything other than transport, yet its sparkling Opal Green body paint with white roof indicates that someone is keeping it very clean throughout their odyssey. The Holden wagon is almost too perfect but consistent with the desire to be completely 'of' the Australian surfer experience, the difference being that exterior car maintenance is rarely on many surfer agendas. The desire here, then, may be more about (auto)mobility than the automobile itself, yet the viewer's gaze cannot help but be drawn to the iconic means of mobility.

The Bondi Tsunami website anthropomorphises the Holden and creates a persona of sorts, including it as a cast member:

Born: 1961 Victoria Australia
 Local Break in OZ : The Pacific Highway
 Interesting fact: I never break down even in the desert.
 Favourite type of girl: Pink FB Holden sedans. I saw one in wheels magazine shit she had good curves
 Favourite Surf Movie: Puberty Blues
 Favourite food: Full leaded super
 Goals: To get to Queensland and then the world.
 Favourite place in OZ : Harry's Clay pan in the Cobar Desert
 Best Experience: Getting my bonnet on TV
 Worst Experience: I get shy in traffic when people stare at me
 Hobbies: I'm a bit of a Drag Queen on the inside but I do love a good polish!³⁶

This is something of an oddity, as the film never acknowledges the Holden as having a persona or any kind anthropomorphic quality at all unlike, for example, the character/

vehicles in Disney/Pixar's *Cars* (2006). Perhaps the fit here is the 'Extras' category that can now be found on so many DVDs when films are reissued as 'Special Editions'. It may also link to the established Japanese popular cultural practice of anthropomorphising inanimate objects.

The car itself provides physical mobility but its iconic Australian automotive status is never remarked upon, so the pleasures relating to the socio-cultural significance of the Holden seem intended purely for the spectator's gaze. Urry acknowledges that *The Tourist Gaze* is '...about pleasure, about holidays, tourism and travel...' ³⁷ so perhaps such visual pleasure (at least for the car enthusiast) linked with travel (the quest) justifies the absence of direct character acknowledgement or response. It seems that a very particular choice has been made, but maybe not by Shark.

Their perfect vehicle is as ornamental as the landscapes they pass through are decorative, reflected without depth in the Holden's immaculate paintwork. There is a vacuity in Bondi Tsunami tends to subvert any attempts at profundity but maybe that is the point.

Japanese Story - 4WDuty Bound

In contrast, *Japanese Story* offers a (self)consciously more profound narrative. Simpson's 'Antipodean Automobility and Crash: Treachery, Trespass and the Open Road' (2006) proposes that 'Japanese Story depicts a developing, 4WD-based relationship between a Japanese business man...and a geologist...' ³⁸ This practical description identifies the mobility and the means by which the relationship has to develop – within the interior confines and exterior de/limitations of the Toyota Landcruiser. There is nothing iconic, nostalgic or sentimental in Sandy's use of the vehicle – it is simply the most appropriate and obvious means of transportation in the Pilbara. The critical

³⁶

http://bonditsunami.com.au/web/cms/front_content.php?idcat=94 Accessed: May 17, 2006.

³⁷ Urry, J. (2002) *The Tourist Gaze*. (2e) London: Sage Publications, p.1.

³⁸ Simpson, C. (2006) 'Antipodean Automobility and Crash: Treachery, Trespass and the Open Road' *Australian Humanities Review*, Issue 39-40, September, p.4 <http://www.lib.latrobe.edu.au/AHR/archive/Issue-September-2006/simpson.html>. Accessed: October 10, 2006.

difference in Japanese Story is that the means of automobility, chosen for its durability, reliability and utility is compromised but only due to Hiro's insistence on continuing despite Sandy's reluctance to do so. Hiro's desire/intent is more about reaffirming the dominant male/ passive female paradigm and his efforts eventually free the bogged 4WD. The confrontational air that has characterised their time together has vanished after their night in the desert; the composition of the shots of them laying together in close proximity emphasize distance rather than any intimacy yet by morning, after the freeing of the 4WD, a parallel freeing up of tension is also evident. The vehicle here, then, is effectively a means to at least two ends: salvation from possible death and, simultaneously, a dismantling of constructed Japanese reserve and the emergence of an inclusive intimacy. The 4WD's transformative duty has been done but more disturbing utilitarian duties still await.

These reflections on filmic automobility are the first of the desires; the second is that of the three films' narrative desires for the 'other' and the multiple forms that may take.

2. Desires for, and of, the 'Other'

Wang (2000), in discussing 'the lure of images', proposes that there are: '...two kinds of touristic image: paradisiac images and totemic images. The former represent paradises to which people can escape. The latter include images of totemic national attractions (such as heritage) to which people pay tribute and respect.'³⁹ Not surprisingly, the paradisiac images relate to a world of pleasure in which people are: '...allowed to release their suppressed desires and undertake roles that are the inversion of their everyday ones'⁴⁰

The three film narratives offer obvious escape opportunities for their Japanese protagonists, varying from tryst to transport to transcendentalism. Each opportunity, however, leads to the necessity of having to reconfigure the Japanese desire for order and predictability in an uncompromising Australian setting.

Given that the three films are de-facto road movies, many powerful, dramatic landscape images inevitably dominate the visuals. All utilise predominantly remote geographic locations, suggesting isolation (often identifying the 'traveller' rather than the 'tourist') and, in the relationships depicted, degrees of desolation as well. In discussing ways that tourists see, or are made to see, Wang (2000) discusses symbolic transformations: 'Through visual inclusion and exclusion, by emphasising certain visual elements and avoiding others, ordinary reality is transformed into an extraordinary dreamworld.'⁴¹ Film has always been about dreams, and desires, so it is no surprise to discover here varying degrees of such symbolic transformations.

Japanese Story – Sandy and Hiro

Anderson (2004) proposed that: 'The massive, marbled Australian landscape looks like a slide on a microscope in the opening moments of *Japanese Story*, a film in which perspective and scale are as crucial as the humans in its story... (the) characters are dwarfed by their environment...' ⁴² These opening images also offer, apart from intimations of scale, landscape as indigenous art, with Yothu Yindi's 'Treaty' playing another indigenous card – there is no escaping the Australian-ness of location; the mapping of landscapes has begun.

Hiro is prim and proper, Sandy is no-nonsense: the gender role inversion and the national stereotypes are firmly in place, narratively consolidated almost to the point of caricature – all Hiro is prepared to say is 'Hai' ('Yes' and/or 'I understand') so Sandy's taciturnity increases accordingly. Hiro observes: '*In Australia you have a lot of space - no people. In Japan we have many people - no space. There is nothing - it scares me.*' The landscape of their exchanges is as barren as that which they drive through, with Hiro maintaining his business-like appearance and formal, physical distance until a swimming interlude reveals his thin, pale body. Hiro's exposure heralds a narrative turning point; Sandy is watching, and

³⁹ Wang, N. (2000) *Tourism and Modernity: A Sociological Analysis*. Oxford: Pergamon/Elsevier Science, p. 168.

⁴⁰ *ibid*, p.169.

⁴¹ *ibid*, p.165.

⁴² Anderson, J. (2004) 'Japanese Story' <http://www.newsday.com/entertainment/movie/s/ny-etjapan>. Accessed: April 30, 2004.

her gaze anticipates an almost inevitable intimacy, a landscape which nurtures physical desire but also poses physical threats to sanctity and safety through trespass. Simpson (2006) characterises 'trespass': '...through their romantic sexual liaison, *Japanese Story* draws a parallel between the cultural trespass of the characters' sexual relationship and their trespass into the land of the Other'⁴³ Here the Other, for Simpson, relates to colonial trespass but it is also an apt metaphor at this point.

In *Japanese Story* a high price is exacted for Hiro and Sandy's transgression, akin to that of Tony (Aaron Pedersen) in Nick Parsons' *Dead Heart* (1996) – filmic sins of the flesh rarely appear to go unpunished. The trajectory of *Japanese Story*'s landscape of desire shifts from the physical to emotional, the setting no longer the vast outback scaled down by intimacy but now moves to internal, pared-down austere, urban spaces. Containment has replaced limitless space; the palette is now almost colourless and the landscape is one of loss. We, the audience, recognise the moral fable and remember that the undulating topography of desire may conceal unsuspected dangers yet the yearning for the 'other' continues.

The Goddess of 1967- JM and BG

There are also challenges aplenty for JM and his desire in *The Goddess of 1967*. Leaving behind reptiles, a languid, accommodating female sex partner and reptile-minder, and the death of a colleague in Tokyo, JM completes his search for the perfect example of his dream Citroën DS and becomes an owner in an unsettling Australian suburban setting (shades of Law's *Floating Life* (1996)). The profits from the sale of the Citroën have resulted in murder and suicide, leaving only a blind girl BG (Rose Byrne) to take JM on a road trip to her personal demons – single demon, actually - in the form of her Grandpa (the redoubtable Nicholas Hope), who is the key to everything in the fragmented, probably postmodern, narrative. Yes, there is a lot of surface activity in the film – distinctive, disconcerting perspectives and inventive, hyper-intense colours (cinematography by Dion Beebe) as well as a rock music score so the postmodern claim may well hold up. Variety described it

as: 'Utterly postmodern in its story and style... Its nonlinear storytelling, jumping in and out of flashbacks and punctuated with experimental video, drawings and words on the screen, is hip without being confusing...'⁴⁴

The desire for owning (perhaps 'possessing' more accurately reflects his obsession) the 'other', the salmon pink Citroën DS, is JM's primary motivation but as it happens the dead couple did not, in fact, own the car – the real owner is apparently five days drive away, so a pact is formed, the dead couple's daughter is left with the police, and JM and BG begin their journey together, entering landscapes eroded by perverse desires. Once again there is a narrative emphasis that to move away from urban spaces (Tokyo and Sydney) into the backblocks if not the bush is to leave reason and restraint behind.

DeWolfe's 'Seeing with One's Eyes Closed: A Formal and Stylistic Analysis of *The Goddess of 1967*' (2004)⁴⁵ offers detailed insights into narrative resonances highlighted by the film/s stylistic practices, particularly with regard to 'seeing', both literal and metaphorical. The audience sees a film with particularly evocative locations but the narrative has a range of perspectives that are simultaneously seen and sensed by those who can see and those for whom 'sight' is a richer, less obvious, more confronting experience. JM sees what he wants as well as the locations BG takes him to yet their entwined desires are leading to the same point of contact and understanding despite BG's very personal itinerary. JM is along for the ride but his Japanese cool is still evident, despite his increasing engagement with BG; her childhood demons assume a dangerously threatening physicality in Grandpa but there are stabilizing counterpoints in BG's frenzied dance in a pub her mother once frequented, and the sex scene which offers not only a mutually reassuring bonding but also the objectified topography of JM and BG's shadowy, naked bodies.

⁴⁴ Young, D. (2000) 'The Goddess of 1967 – Review', *Variety*, September 11-17, Volume. 380, Issue. 4, page 28.

⁴⁵ DeWolfe, S. (2004) 'Seeing with One's Eyes Closed: A Formal and Stylistic Analysis of *The Goddess of 1967*', <http://www.synoptique.ca/core/en/print/goddess/> Accessed: January 27, 2006.

⁴³ Simpson, *ibid*, p.5.

JM and BG are more of a couple at the end of the film and whilst they have faced physical challenges and endured an emotional roller-coaster they are, to a significant degree, largely unchanged. The film has an ornamental quality as do JM and BG; this may be a product of the essentially postmodern spirit which informs both narrative structure and production values, as the style and sound often demand equal attention. There is much in the film which tends to suggest a random, composite yet unreconstructed past. Grech (2002) tends to support this idea: 'The free-floating associations of *The Goddess*, '1967,' the Citroen, references to Charles De Gaulle, the quotes from Barthes, and a string of Occidental and Oriental signifiers, opens the film to being read as a semi-nostalgic critique of the impact of (post)modernity, new technology, and a 'working' irreverence towards class and cultural purity in Australian culture.'⁴⁶ JM has much that distracts but it is ultimately limiting, as the character's quirkiness tends towards consolidating stereotypical media constructs of hip Japanese.

The Goddess of 1967 is more about dis/locations than locations so here any touristic inclinations may be thwarted. Law's is a distinctive visual and narrative take on Australian-ness but that striking visual distinction has been constructed to echo narrative patterns rather than reconfigured to challenge existing media constructs.

Bondi Tsunami – Shark, Yuto, Kimiko and Gunja Man

There is a single motivation in *Bondi Tsunami* – to find and surf the perfect wave, the surfer's nirvana and apotheosis all rolled into one never-ending quest.

Given *Bondi Tsunami*'s yearning narrative search for that elusive, perfect wave, and the Holden being driven only by Shark (a nod to male obsession, and possession?) along endless Australian highways, both desert and coastal, past absurd, monolithic kitsch monuments, maybe it is only a road movie with a single

desire after all. Much of the initial critical response did consider it a road movie: triple j's 'Japanese slacker surf-road movie'⁴⁷; *Variety*'s '...aimless and amateurish Down Under surfing road picture almost completely in Japanese lingo'⁴⁸; Heroic Cinema's '...psychedelic road adventure'⁴⁹; and the Macquarie Film Society's '...extended video clip/nightmare/acid trip.'⁵⁰ (shades of Hunter S. Thompson's *Fear and Loathing in Las Vegas* (1971)?) There's no acid here, just plain old Gunja, man – and no none of *Fear*'s reckless, manic energy either). The road trip has been the focus of much investigation, both literary and empirical (Kerouac's *On The Road* (1957) is dazzlingly both), and Eyerman and Löfgren (1995) suggest that: 'Even if the road movie is essentially about the lone wolf, the outsider and the misfit, most films of the genre get their dramatic force through unexpected confrontations that occur along the way.'⁵¹ Oddly enough the only unexpected confrontations in *Bondi Tsunami* are intended to evoke something of the essential Australian experience but result in cliché and stereotype.

When confronted with the Big Merino (location unspecified but narratively irrelevant – Goulburn, NSW for those interested) wacky guy Yuto screws up his face in quasi terror to mumble 'Godzilla!' Gunga man (who claims, in a locating moment, to be from Nimbin) mumbles in response: 'Wait until you see the pineapple', a lead-in to a surfing on the Holden roof sequence past many other big monuments: the Big Banana (Coffs Harbour, NSW), Big Prawn (Ballina, NSW) Big Avocado (Tweed Heads, NSW), Big Pineapple (one hour north

⁴⁶ Grech, J.(2002) 'An Examination of Clara Law's *The Goddess of 1967* as a Representation of Australian Cultural Identities' the muse apprentice guild http://www.muse-apprentice-guild.com/october_2002/johngrech/literary_magazine.html. Accessed: January 27, 2006.

⁴⁷ Anonymous (2004) triple j film reviews. <http://www.abc.net.au/triplej/reviews/film/s1193790>. Accessed: November 18, 2005.

⁴⁸ Edwards, R. (2004) <http://variety.com>. Posted September 2, 2004 Accessed: November 18, 2005.

⁴⁹ Hamilton, A. (nd) Heroic Cinema. <http://www.heroic-cinema.com/reviews/bondi>. Accessed: November 18, 2005.

⁵⁰ Wray, M. (nd) 'The Tao of Surfing' Macquarie University Film Society. <http://www.clubs.mq.edu.au/filmsoc/bonditsunamiireview.htm>. Accessed: November 18, 2005.

⁵¹ Eyerman, R. and Löfgren, O. (1995) 'Romancing the Road: Road Movies and Images of Mobility' *Theory, Culture, and Society*, 12, p.65.

of Brisbane) and the Ettamogah Pub (Aussie World, Sunshine Coast, Queensland). Outsiders? Misfits? There is no engagement apart from that within the Bondi Tsunami quartet so outsider status is pretty much guaranteed; they move through landscapes but are never in any sense of those landscapes – they do not appear to notice much at all, apart from scanning breaks at numerous beaches. Shark's voiceover, however, provides a regular commentary of sorts throughout the film, always quasi-transcendental:

*'We travel the golden highway
In the light of the Northern sun
All that is real is surreal'*

(The image of a sign 'Oversize pineapples next 5km' accompanies this)

The desire for any kind of 'other' in *Bondi Tsunami* can only be an/other wave, as there is little to indicate any urge by the quartet to explore, encounter, or have any form of exchange with Australian locals. The Australian locations are equally decorative, yet effectively one dimensional, only a backdrop to the road trip. The triple J review describes it as: '...colourful, camp, kitsch, and embraces the superficial aggressively. It is no more and no less that hyper-playful eye and ear candy...' ⁵² Yes,

Bondi Tsunami is all of the above and more but its desire and its drive have already been simply expressed – the endless search for the elusive, perfect wave. The setting is Australia but the endless, eternal quest takes place on so many other maps, and in so many other desires.

Finally, off the Map...

Enough observations have been made about the three films, their themes and their forms. Suffice it to say that only surfaces have been skimmed here but surely that's always the case with films, with images, and with desires – there's always another viewing in which another detail may be discovered.

Let Shark have the final observation:

*This is the beginning
It's always the beginning*

*There is no past
No future
Only the present
Life is nothing more than a beam of light
Passing over my changing face
A dream
An illusion*

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⁵² Anonymous (2004) triple j film reviews. <http://www.abc.net.au/triplej/reviews/film/s1193790>. Accessed: November 18, 2005

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Tourism, Citizenship and the Regulation of Human Mobility: A Survey of Print Media Debate on the 2004 EU Enlargement.

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Abstract

Tourism is a high profile subject that appears regularly in the media. Broadly speaking it is possible to identify two types of tourism features in print, radio, television and web media: 'tourism stories' and 'stories pertaining to tourism'. Where the former record tourism directly, the latter detail happenings with connections to, or implications for, tourism. Clearly, the media has a powerful role to play in the social constructions of place and hence the practices of tourism. The findings from this paper raise a series of methodological observations worthy of further reflection. As historical sources, tourism stories are empirically useful in documenting, charting and benchmarking the development of tourism production and consumption. They signal and simultaneously shape how tourism is perceived by individuals and groups within society, as do stories pertaining to tourism. One obvious but often unarticulated view is that the location of the story will affect the nature and form of texts and how the discourse may unfold. While we are often prepared to examine the content delivered in the attention economy, we sometimes lose sight of the role and importance of production processes.

Introduction: Locating Tourism In The 'Attention Economy'

Tourism is a high profile subject that appears regularly in the media. Broadly speaking it is possible to identify two types of tourism features in print, radio, television and web media: 'tourism stories' and 'stories pertaining to tourism'. Where the former record tourism directly, the latter detail happenings with connections to, or implications for, tourism. Clearly, the media has a powerful role to play in the social constructions of place and hence the practices of tourism. Jones and Smith (2005) focus on the role of the Lord of the Rings phenomenon in encouraging visitors to New Zealand as Middle Earth. Conversely, Yeoman et al (2005) have pointed to the importance of managing the media during crisis to ensure that the communication of negative messages is not unduly damaging to destinations. Crises may be relatively commonplace, but their reporting destabilises established, orthodox and even stereotypical

media narratives of destinations and the social relations of tourism (Jaworksi et al 2003).

In fact, these and other examples point to the difficulty of talking about the 'media' in a singular sense; 'media' may be used as a collective noun but there are numerous distinctive forms that constitute it. Tourism exists in different types of stories within multiple locations in a medium and the nature, form and message of a story are a function of its location. Travel shows occupy prime time slots for mainstream broadcasters and entire channels on satellite television are devoted to selling holidays and informing visitors. Travel supplements or dedicated sections are published in most newspapers, while tourism may feature in the main news or the financial pages. On the WWW, travel sites are just a click away from travel blogs and tourism in news pages. Given the plethora of outlets and the clamour for space, tourism has to fight for 'media selection' in the 'attention economy' (Bagust 2005); almost in a Darwinian sense, without the oxygen of publicity certain types of story and subject will die out leaving others

to evolve. The appearance of tourism, like other topics, is not so much a function of the occurrence of events and their magnitude or significance. Rather, it is the result of editorial decisions and authorial suggestions of what the audience may find interesting, topical and relevant. In short, what is selected has to be sellable. Hence, the choice of tourism as a subject for broadcast and its appearance in particular types of stories reflects the operation of social processes that prioritize the perceived interests of 'complex, global, highly mediated, hybridised, fashion-savvy consumer societies' (Bagust 2005:1).

This paper reports on a search and a reading of the print media on the forecast implications of European Union (EU) Enlargement for tourism in Europe. On 1 May 2004, 10 new member states or Accession Countries, the so-called 'AC10', were admitted in the greatest single expansion episode in the half-century history of the EU. English-language publications were under the spotlight. This search was conducted in the six months prior to EU Enlargement on 1 May 2004 as well as in the months following it. The paper explores how citizenship is the underlying concept that shaped the distinctive discourses involving tourism, and that reflected the social construction of tourism in British society at the time. For the purpose of the medium of this presentation (!) a truncated version of the findings is presented here primarily through reported speech.

Citizenship: A Brief Conceptual Introduction

The concept of citizenship is essentially a quite straightforward one where 'citizenship is a status bestowed on those who are full members of a community. All who possess the status are equal with respect to the rights and duties with which this status is bestowed (Marshall 1992: 18, cited in Marshall and Bottomore, 1992). Citizenship concerns the membership of a social group, not necessarily one aligned to a state (Clarence 1999) or a national group. It incorporates issues of participation in the group and access to resources, while simultaneously affiliation to the group is manifested in the form of responsibilities as well as a series of rights. The genealogy of citizenship studies in the social sciences is commonly traced back to T.H. Marshall (1950) for whom there was a connected triadic

relationship in modern society between the civil citizenship (rights to secure individual freedom and justice), political citizenship (rights to participate in elections to institutions that exercise power) and social citizenship i.e. rights to economic welfare, security, social heritage and a socially-acceptable way of life. These forms of citizenship emerged sequentially culminating in the last component during the twentieth century to denote the importance of economic and social security, in the British context through the rise of the Welfare State.

Recent critiques of Marshall have suggested that his work retains some relevance because it articulates the basic conceptual building blocks of citizenship (rights, responsibilities and affiliation), but that its relevance is questionable in light of the transformation of society, economy and polity in the last half century (Clarence 1999; Isin and Wood 1999). For instance, Pearson (2002) notes that in Marshall's view nation and state were mutually-implicated, while ethnic or national identity were taken for granted. Several authors have pointed out that citizenship rights may exist at the sub-state level for particular national groups denied state representation (Murphy and Harty 2003). Tambini (2001) has noted that the rise of globalization has functioned to challenge and erode the role of national citizenship. Instead, rights associated with social group membership can in fact exist across state boundaries (Tambini 2001; Murphy and Harty 2003); that is, citizenship beyond the state, or 'post-sovereign citizenship' because it is no longer bodies sovereign over a territory that exclusively ascribe rights and responsibilities.

Isin and Wood (1999: 4) argue that Marshall's perspectives place too great an emphasis on the legal and political in the context of the state. For them, 'citizenship can be described as *both* a set of practices (cultural, symbolic and economic) and a bundle of duties (civil, political and social) that define an individual's membership in a polity' (emphasis original). In advanced capitalism, legal, political and social rights are no longer conferred solely by states, and hence citizenship should also be viewed as an 'articulating principle' for other forms of group rights defined by membership. They identify diasporic and aboriginal, sexual, cosmopolitan, cultural and radical citizenship.

Such alternative contemporary forms reflect the cultural fragmentation of contemporary global society, and the membership of individuals to new groups that seek to establish new rights or sustain existing ones. These forms are important because citizenship studies are marked by an important paradox: although much of the work on citizenship implies whole group membership, there are no empirical cases where citizenship has been expanded to all members of a polity (Isin and Wood 1999: 20). Thus, rather than trying to fit individuals to pre-ordained, even dual conceptualisations, a pluralist approach is required because it is possible for an individual to have multiple citizenship affiliations.

Today citizenship functions in more complex spatial and sectional arrangements. In the European Union (EU), it is not only the state that is responsible for bestowing rights on citizens of member states; they possess certain common rights with their fellow citizens in other countries by virtue of living in the EU. Simultaneously, beyond the formal politico-legal rights and responsibilities, individuals can be citizens of (more informal) consumer groups or extended transnational diasporic communities (Coles and Timothy 2004).

‘Accidental Discourse Analysis’? On Methods

Originally, the purpose of the media search was to explore how discussions of Enlargement would impact upon basic existing tourism flows, patterns and processes within and between the existing EU15 member states and the AC10: Cyprus, Czech Republic, Estonia, Hungary, Latvia, Lithuania, Malta, Poland, Slovakia, Slovenia. As the European Commission noted in Spring 2004, none of these countries may be considered in the first rank of international tourism destinations from volume or receipts; however, Enlargement was perceived to offer the potential for relative significant gains in their arrivals and visitor numbers (Coles and Hall 2005). Accession would facilitate greater entry to these markets for existing citizens of the Union, while at the same time the uptake of EU regulations in the AC10 would function to harmonize their work practices and quality standards to those expected within the EU15. Although it was hypothesised that there may be increased visitor flows from the EU15 to the AC10, the

new rights bestowed upon citizens of the AC10 were argued to offer the prospect of revised reverse flows to the EU15; that is, new rights of travel and access had the potential to stimulate visits to the existing member states. When considered together, the nature of these flows would contribute to new geographies of tourism production and consumption within the EU.

In the event, ‘tourism stories’ of this nature were relatively few and far between. Perhaps due to the inherently complex nature of the shifts in supply and demand, there were hardly any detailed estimates or predictions of the probable changes to the European tourism system. Another interpretation of this omission, when viewed in terms of the attention economy, is that such stories lacked wide appeal or relevance to the majority of readers. With the possible exception of tourism operators and governors, the volume and value of such flows would have little meaning or interest on the everyday lives of the readers. Instead, a critical reading of the media attention revealed two sets of prevailing and sharply-contrasting discourses on tourism and EU Enlargement. Both sets of discourses are notable because they make tourism a tangible manifestation of how EU enlargement will impact on their everyday lives in British society.

New Tourism Playgrounds for EU Citizens

‘Discourses of pleasure and play’ appeared in a constrained time frame just prior to and after EU Enlargement. Playful in tone and often ironic in text, articles of this genre extolled the virtues of Enlargement because of the new opportunities it offered citizens of the EU15, in particular those from the United Kingdom. In colourful terms, Espiner (2004: 11) described how citizenship of the EU had brought benefits to British citizens in the past,

‘Package tourism led to hordes of pasty-white British descending on the Greek Islands and the Costa del Sol. Spain is now the No.1 place in Europe where Britons buy property outside the UK.’

Where once Amsterdam or Dublin might have been the destination of choice for ‘stag parties’ or ‘hen nights’, the availability of cheaper alcohol and accommodation, not to say

additional 'amenities and services', in Prague, Tallinn and Riga were argued to offer new impetus to the overseas weekend break market from the United Kingdom. Lower property prices in town and country coupled with outstanding cultural and natural landscapes in Slovenia, Slovakia and Hungary as well as in future candidate accession countries like Croatia, Rumania and Bulgaria were reported to offer Brits good chances to acquire second homes cheaply and to maximise capital gains in the future.

Noticeable in both these types of tourism stories is the absence of discussion on the impacts of Enlargement for citizens in the AC15, for instance, from the potential hordes of drunken party-goers descending on them in the near future nor, more seriously, from long-term property price escalation and the exclusion of indigenous citizens from local property markets. In short, such discourses stressed the benefits of new rights for EU15 citizens without consideration of their responsibilities to local communities or foreign states.

Tourism, Citizenship and The Restriction of Mobility: No Unwelcome Visitors Please!

This was in stark contrast to the NIMBYISM evident in the 'discourses of denial'. These were more complexly constructed, more frequently articulated, and debate was more protracted and politicised, played out as it was primarily during the six months before 01 May 2004. Represented in these discourses is the manner in which the UK government responded to the apparent 'crisis' precipitated by enhanced human mobility due to EU Enlargement as well as the degree to which media scrutiny had succeeded in locating this matter on the 'political radar' and in maintaining its visibility over a protracted period. In short, it presented concerns to the UK population that it would be swamped by 'migrants' and it would not be able to afford it (Hinsliff 2004).

In autumn 2003, the print media reported that debate had started in earnest in the political arena over the likely level and hence implications of the mobilisation of AC10 citizens upon Enlargement in the next year. In a somewhat perverse epiphany, politicians in

member states had realised that the EU is portrayed in its own discourses as a vehicle to allow the free circulation of labour, capital and goods around Europe. Understandably, citizens of the EU member states may wish to exercise that right, with the very real likelihood that there may be net flows of people westwards in search of better wages, standards of living and qualities of life.

Although initially temporary in nature in their likely form, given the nature of the articles of accession, these movements were presented as having the real prospect to turn into semi- or permanent migrations. Moreover, the spectre was raised that the scope and scale of population flows may be much greater than anticipated. Alongside more balanced perspectives, polemics and propaganda appeared such that Britain faced the possibility of being overrun, unable to cope with the deluge of asylum seekers and illegal immigrants as well as temporary migrants workers, business tourists and holidaymakers.

Early forecasts of the magnitude of the perceived problem were marked by a paradox. As the then Home Office Minister, Beverley Hughes noted, no research had been 'able to the predict the exact numbers expected from specific countries or ethnic groups to the UK' (in Johnston 2004a: 12); however, that had not prevented the publication of alarmist and escalating estimates in the newspapers. These were first based on the Roma populations of Central and Eastern Europe (Sparks and Hellen 2004a). The implication was that push factors such as their plight in their current host states, and perceived pull factors such as the prospects of a higher standard of living in the UK and an apparently more liberal, tolerant society might precipitate large-scale movements. The Sunday Times reported that 'at least 100,000 gypsies [were] expected to arrive from Eastern Europe' (Sparks and Hellen 2004: 14).

It soon emerged that there were no dedicated estimates as to how many may enter the UK on or after 1 May 2004. Early Home Office prognoses in January 2004 were based on a report compiled by members of University College London in July 2003. Between 5,000 and 13,000 migrants per year were anticipated from new member states (UPI 2004). Migrationwatch UK decried these estimates.

Its spokesperson and chair, Sir Andrew Green, claimed that more than 20,000 people from these countries tried to enter Britain in 2001 (Sparks and Hellen 2004: 14). Instead, it estimated that 40,000 migrants per year would enter Britain from the post-socialist accession states (UPI 2004). A simple scaling factor of three appears to have been the basis for this estimate (Guardian 2004: 25). Further fantastic estimates were published, including The Express' claim that '1.6 million Roma were ready to "flood in"' (Guardian 2004: 25).

A new concept and term, 'benefit tourism' was coined to refer to these new temporary visitors, ostensibly from the AC10, who would travel to the United Kingdom for the allegedly questionable motives of taking full advantage of the benefits of the welfare state, without contributing to the public finances. So frequently used was the term that a standard working definition soon appeared on wikipedia:

'Benefit tourism is the English name given by Britain's prime minister Tony Blair to the perceived threat that after May 1, 2004, huge masses of citizens from the European Union's ten new membership countries would invade the previous fifteen member states only to benefit from their generous social welfare systems. This threat has been used as a motivation for some (initial, temporary) restrictions in the free movement of labour within the union. As such, the threat towards the welfare systems is more politically correct than the threat against trade union members of competition from cheap east European labour'

Of course, for some scholars, 'benefit tourists' may not constitute 'tourists' at all in the stereotypical or commonly-understood sense of tourism. However, as Hall and Williams (2002) have clearly demonstrated, the divisions between tourism and migration have become increasingly blurred in recent years. Rather than become embroiled in this debate, two points are salient here. First, these movements were portrayed as short-term and the implicit understanding (on the part of the commentators) was that they would always result in the return home after a temporary sojourn driven by their new rights. In some

cases benefit tourists wouldn't have work; in others they would work illegally in the black economy but the case was made that, fundamentally, these visitors to the UK were interested in exerting their rights, especially of free movement, without fair consideration of their responsibilities to the citizens of the United Kingdom. This is most clearly evident in the reporting of the comments made by David Blunkett, then Home Secretary,

'They cannot draw down on benefits without contributing themselves to the rights and entitlements which should go hand in hand with the responsibilities and duties'

[quoted in Mason et al 2004]

'Welfare shoppers' were portrayed as an even more sophisticated (and from the rhetoric, insidious) type of 'benefit tourist' who more tactically from country-to-country to seek out the best within the EU15 and the most appropriate benefits to their personal circumstances. Stereotypical constructions of mass tourism were used as analogues to argue that AC10 visitors acted in a socially-irresponsible manner and like mass tourists they were not especially welcome. Clearly, this is at odds with the dominant mode of consumption within the UK and, as Espiner's (2004) comments above may suggest, of the British abroad in the EU. Ann Treneman (2004), a political sketch writer for The Times, portrayed proceedings in the House of Commons as the Home Secretary declared he would not stand for benefit tourism. This prompted her somewhat surreal and ironic image that,

'It is the kind of thing that everyone agrees on as no one likes it when those people come over here (and wearing those awful Bermuda shorts, too) and go round taking photographs of all our best-looking benefits. There will be no more of that.'

Absurd as this may be, tourism was used in policy circles as a moniker for short-term movements and migrations. Tourism as vacation may have initially been intended for metaphorical use to make a negative political point: namely, that new EU citizens would travel to the UK, have a great time at the taxpayers' expense, fail to engage with society

and community, and return home when the time comes. For these reasons, the government must act to restrict rights of free movement. Thus, a second critical issue emerges from this discussion: namely, that citizenship was being used tactically by the opponents of benefit tourists or visitors from the AC10. Moreover, some quite stark, in some cases sinister examples were being used to contextualise the impact on these short-term movements on the everyday lives of British citizens. Indicative are the claims that visitors from the AC10 would have an impact on public services and the degree to which local authorities would have to pick up the bill (cf. Lyons 2004). Big increases in Aids sufferers in seven of the Eastern European countries that were about to join were noted, with particularly stark rates of increase in Latvia and Estonia (Jones and Brogan 2004; Chapman 2004). James Chapman (2004: 8) warned:

‘There is growing concern that looking after asylum-seekers, refugees and so-called ‘health tourists’ is costing the NHS [National Health Service] billions of pounds a year. An HIV-positive patient typically costs the NHS £15,000 a year. If full-blown AIDS develops, the bill soars to around £40,000.’

Discussion: Citizenship and the Study of Tourism and Mobility

The United Kingdom was not alone in the EU15 in its concerns about the abuses of new rights, and its imposition of regulations to manage its perceived risks. The detection of these two sets of discourses in the print media at the time of Enlargement has two important consequences for studies of tourism. The first is that discussions of tourism and its perceived impacts cannot be divorced from wider debates about the nature of citizenship in 21st Century society. All too often discussions of contemporary human mobility extol the enhanced possibilities for movement through such features as transport and technology. Far less fashionable is the consideration of constraint, regulation and hence immobility. Citizenship functions as a regulatory framework to shape mobility. However, there is a mutually-reinforcing relationship: particular constructions and representations of tourism have been used as metaphors to configure debates about the nature of

citizenship, and citizenship has been used as a means to allow or deny new forms of tourism.

A second set of implications surrounds the way in which tourism is portrayed and understood in different locations of the print media. The multiple appearances of tourism mediate a situation where sometimes contrasting and contradictory positions on tourism are articulated. In the stories about tourism and EU enlargement, the discourses of pleasure and play, tourism is presented to readers mainly in the travel sections of the newspapers. It is portrayed as a right, an unfettered opportunity to play out new roles or to experiment with alternative modes of consumption (such as second home ownership or more hedonistic but anonymous partying) without substantive discussion of the individual's or group's responsibilities to the local community or destination state. With respect to recent theorizations, these stories are identifying new and different groups of consumer citizens that are brought together by their collective identities of consumption. In effect, alternative concentrations of citizenship (from the traditional views of Marshall) are used to legitimate the modes of tourism more available to, and practiced by, individual citizens of the old EU15 and new EU25.

In contrast, the discourses of denial may be categorised as ‘stories pertaining to tourism’ and these appeared predominantly in the news and current affairs sections of the newspapers. Arguably such temporary sojourners in the UK may be characterised as ‘post-sovereign’ citizens with their fellow members of the EU25 or just with the others from the AC10. Newer, alternative conceptualisations were, however, cast aside in favour of older, Marshallian conceptualizations of citizenship. To be sure, new EU citizens have rights. Clichéd metaphors of (mass) tourism simply pointed to the fact these ought to be exercised in conjunction with an appreciation of their responsibilities. Rather than present tourism as one of a number of connected and overlapping forms of human movements, stereotypical views of tourism as holidaymaking were used to interpret and critique the emergent forms of temporary mobility. Tourism was conveniently depicted as an activity that takes place in splendid isolation from others in an individual's life-path, as the exotic divorced from the everyday. The application of such

traditional conceptualisations arguably demonstrates the ignorance of policy makers and media commentators to the more subtle forms of short-term sojourns that characterise the operation of global, networked society in the current everyday.

Conclusion

The Enlargement of the European Union in 2004 was the latest in a series of expansion episodes throughout the organization's history. Although it was the largest extension, it will not be the last. Rumania and Bulgaria are due to join in 2007, and discussions have been underway for some time with Turkey. These contrasting sets of discourses from the 2004 Enlargement are redolent of a major double-standard: namely, that the print media was happy to promote the AC10 as lands of opportunity for British citizens, while simultaneously communicating, and in some cases precipitating, debate over the tightening of legislation to deny new EU citizens from travelling to and entering Britain. In any event, the available evidence would appear to suggest that the UK was not deluged by benefit tourists (George et al 2005). Irrespective of the contested perspectives on the magnitude of mobility, the UK was not the only state to introduce restrictions of movements and some countries introduced curbs on rights of AC10 citizens. Not only do the findings of this paper have wider resonance than the UK experience of 2004 Enlargement, they are useful predictors of how debate involving tourism in subsequent expansion episodes may unfold. After all, Rumania and Bulgaria as well as several other possible accession candidates have lower per capita GDP than the AC10. Indeed, the first evidence of resistance to Rumanians' and Bulgarians' movement west has reached the public domain; in some cases there likely entry and its implications was discussed as part of the debate on the 2004 Enlargement.

In addition to the findings from the analysis of public debate, this paper raises a series of methodological observations worthy of further reflection. As historical sources, tourism stories are empirically useful in documenting, charting and benchmarking the development of tourism production and consumption. They signal and simultaneously shape how tourism is perceived by individuals and groups within

society, as do stories pertaining to tourism. Whereas the spotlight appears to have been on tourism stories in the past, it has been demonstrated in this paper that stories pertaining to tourism are equally, if not in some cases more, illuminating. They indicate that tourism can be used as a powerful metaphor in shaping public opinion in other arenas, and that stereotypes such as mass tourism are highly effective because they are concepts to which most readers can relate. Representations are chosen by authors and editors for their perceived strength in conveying particular ideological positions, as well as to help the stories emerge from the almost Darwinian process of 'media selection'. One obvious but often unarticulated view is that the location of the story will affect the nature and form of texts and how the discourse may unfold. While we are often prepared to examine the content delivered in the attention economy, we sometimes lose sight of the role and importance of production processes. Editors, sub-editors, correspondents and reporters have their favourite subjects and their pet hates, and they are involved in a resource allocation struggle, where their copy is a battle to see the light of day. It may seem counter-intuitive to some, but perhaps the time has come to study what's excluded as much as what's published about tourism in the print media?

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Film-Induced Tourism Cuts Both Ways: Supporting Independent Film through Tourism

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Abstract

This study explores the linkages between the film and tourism industries, and the potential for the tourist industry to provide support for film production. The aim was to produce recommendations of benefit to both industries, concerning methods of strategic development of tourism marketing, linked with independent film production, creating alliances between these industries. Previous studies have investigated the phenomenon of film-induced tourism (Beeton, 2005), however, a gap exists in that investigation is after the event and from the point of view of examining existent events (Macionis, 2004; Riley and Van Doren, 1992), and their effect on tourists or on tourism (Tooke and Baker, 1996). The study explores linkages between the industries by utilising a case study of the NRS group, an independent film production company based in Canberra. The data obtained revealed that tourism bodies can render practical assistance to film production and benefit in return from the exposure gained, particularly from planned publicity.

Keywords: Film-induced tourism, film production, leveraging, linkages, collaboration.

Introduction

Film-induced tourism is receiving increased attention from researchers and destination marketers, particularly in relation to the promotional opportunities that film provides tourism destinations (Riley, Baker and Van Doren, 1998; Tooke and Baker, 1996; Cousins and Andereck, 1993; Beeton, 1999; 2001, 2004a; 2005; Croy and Walker, 2001; Macionis, 2004). Other studies have investigated the phenomenon of film-induced tourism and the impacts of film on the local environment and communities (Mordue, 1999; 2001; Busby and Klug, 2001; Beeton, 2004b; 2005).

Encouraging film production to certain regions is considered sufficiently important for government assistance, so that "State and Commonwealth governments have provided a number of incentives to encourage production.....The federal government provides a tax rebate for producers of foreign and larger budget films, and New South Wales provides a number of assistance programs

including project development, production investment, a young film makers fund and support for industry and audience development" (Hall, Croy and Walker, 2003: 114). Film production has the potential to generate income to the host communities, as does tourism. In 1996, one day of filming could generate spending of \$100,000 (Cobb, 1996), and today is far greater.

Consequently, film production costs are high, so that while "many film producers are now looking globally for unique picturesque locations as production sets... [the] trend is also driven by internationally competitive production costs" (International Trade Association 2001, cited in Hall et al, 2003: p114).

This paper considers the opportunities for film-makers to leverage the tourism industry in order to reduce their production costs. After a review of film-induced tourism and some partnership literature, the aim and method for the research is discussed. The paper continues with an analysis of the results, finishing with a discussion and recommendations.

Literature

As noted in the Introduction, there has been a substantial amount of study on the effects of film production on tourism, that is, film-induced tourism. Tooke and Baker (1996) claim that film can stimulate and maintain tourists' interest in a way that marketers could not afford to attempt. Croy and Walker (2001) concur, asserting that film, in producing images of destinations during production, have turned places of no note into astounding tourist attractions. Morgan and Pritchard (1998) also felt that featuring in a film is the ultimate in tourism product placement for any destination. Ritchie, Burns and Palmer (2005) support Rilen and Van Doren's (1992) stance that film qualifies as a "hallmark event", an event that recurs often enough to have significant impact, and that such events lead to the increasing of the appeal of locations and then of profit.

Dann (1996) proposes that, in deciding where to go, potential tourists imagine themselves in a situation as if they had already experienced it. Viewing of a film is an experience that can influence a potential tourist to imagine him or herself in a particular situation, in turn influencing the choice of destination. Dann (1997:186) later described "pull factors" that attract a tourist to a particular attraction or destination, and "push factors" that are more internal, such as a need to escape or a feeling of nostalgia. Macionis (2004) has taken this concept into the realm of film-induced tourism, maintaining that film acts as an information source, as pull factor, or as an influence on the tourist's motivation, as a push factor. These factors influence the tourist's decision to travel to a particular destination. Riley et al (1998:919) assert that images in films could motivate tourists to travel, stating that "[m]ovies provide the objects and subjects for the gaze of many people, and for some people, movies induce them to travel to the locations where they were filmed."

It is important for government, governmental bodies, regional tourism organisations, local tourism authorities, and local city councils to have such strategies in place (Beeton, 2005). Hall et al (2003) contend that, as cities are in competition with one another, they have developed strategies to enhance their images globally and capture the benefits of tourism. The power of the media, including that of film, is a factor taken into account by a rapidly

growing number of tourism authorities when trying to promote cultural film-induced tourism (Busby and Klug, 2001). This is a significant element to consider in any plan to promote any tourism and film connection.

According to Hall et al (2003), "Films can be deliberately utilised to influence visitation, and the potential viewing audience is far greater than that of conventional advertising media" (Hall et al 2003: 111). When film and television are used in the branding of the destination, a "significant part of the attraction of many of these destinations, is that the films and television series are also connected with a series of books or other media" (Hall et al 2003: 112).

Collaboration and Partnerships

Destinations have formed partnerships with tourism businesses, government organisations, other destinations and numerous supposedly "non-tourism" businesses such as financial institutions throughout the tourism industry. Many now try to deepen the travel experience by utilising people, history and culture to make the experience more rewarding (Kotler et al, 1999). Consequently, the potential of partnerships with the film production industry needs to be explored.

In the United States of America (USA), film offices have been established that provide information and support for film production (Cobb, 1996). These offices have been established with the aim of facilitating and encouraging film production. The principal advantage recognised in the attracting of film production is the jobs created and the money spent in the region (Cobb, 1996). Partnerships have been formed in the USA between local film commissions and tourism commissions (Beeton, 2005).

Another avenue for destinations to form partnerships or networks is with companies with regional ties. Small towns have "sought to mobilise local entrepreneurship, social partnership and other local resources to maintain their existence" (O'Toole, 2001: 158). By replacing competition with cooperation and networking beyond their own communities, these small towns have sought to ensure their economic future (O'Toole, 2001). Local organisations can promote ties with film production personnel, perhaps through film-

linked events or festivals, for example Montana's young filmmakers breakfast (Cobb, 1996). Beeton (2001, 2006) asserts that, as long as the costs and benefits are carefully evaluated, the community has the potential to use film-induced tourism to strengthen it.

The potential benefits and problems of partnership or collaboration in tourism have been considered by Bramwell and Lane, who believed that the benefits may "result in fewer adverse tourism impacts, increased operational efficiency and enhanced equity" (Bramwell and Lane, 2001: 7), and that a form of mutual collaborative advantage may result. The benefits that might be applicable to tourism and film collaboration could include more constructive and less adversarial attitudes, availability of knowledge and expertise, and the pooling of resources. The encouragement of a non-tourism activity may lead to economic and social benefits of advantage to the local community (Bramwell and Lane, 2001).

As noted in the Introduction, film production and tourism can generate income. Such film-related income is often seen in relation to the number of jobs created and the added state and local tax revenue and business activity (Cobb, 1996; Beeton, 2006). The production process entails preparation, ongoing filming and post-filming activities, resulting in expenditure occurring for a greater period than that actually spent filming. Filming costs are in many millions of dollars, so that the film industry may well be open to cooperative support from tourism sources, reducing some of its costs.

Previous tourism studies have concentrated on the exploitation of film induced tourism from that industry's viewpoint, but a gap exists in that such investigations are of the tourism induced by film, not from the perspective of the film-maker.

Aim of Study

While there may be unexploited opportunities for independent film production to promote tourism, there has been little work that considers the phenomenon of film-induced tourism from the film company's perspective, particularly in terms of using the tourism exposure as a form of funding independent film-making. This study explores the linkages between the film and tourism industries, in

relation to the potential for the tourist industry to provide support for film production.

Method

Potential and current linkages are explored through a case study of an independent film production company based in Canberra, the NRS Group. The focus is on the *Earthwalkers* program, a travel series produced by this company primarily for cable television and *World History*, a documentary series in Mandarin for the Chinese market. The case study is of the company's methods of leveraging support from local and governmental bodies and businesses, particularly in the tourism industry.

In deciding the type and format of the study, a number of criteria had to be considered, such as the setting of the study, possible limitations, including time and resources available, and matching of the methodology to the phenomenon (Jennings, 2003). The case study is especially relevant to answer the questions "how" and "why" (Yin, 2003a), and according to Perrin and Ram (2004) is gaining increasing acceptance as a worthwhile method of research. Indeed, the case study is considered to be an effective method of research in small to medium-sized firms (Chetty, 1996). Yin (2003b) believed that the case study is the preferred method of research when the object of the study is "not really distinguishable from its context" (Yin, 2003b: 4) such as when the phenomenon is ongoing, and it is difficult to determine when it began or ended.

A study of the methods of leveraging support for film production was conducted by investigating the method used by one company, in the form of a case study of film production and its surroundings. The unit of study, that is the company and its surroundings, is comparable to Yin's community organisation and its neighbourhood (Yin, 2003a).

The case study format was chosen to enable the study to be conducted from the Emic perspective, and to gain a "deep, rather than broad, set of knowledge about a particular phenomenon" (Jones, 1997: np). Hussey and Hussey (1997) described the case study as "an extensive examination of a single instance of the phenomenon of interest", while Beeton (2005:37) uses the term, "information rich"

when referring to case studies. In addition, Jones (1997) believes that qualitative methodologies encourage participants to respond from their own point of view and introduce concepts of importance to themselves, rather than those identified by the researcher. Consequently, an inductive methodology via a case study was appropriate. To quote Beeton (2005 b: 38) "case studies are central to most research in the humanities and social sciences, and have certainly found their way into tourism research."

The Case

Canberra based NRS Group has a number of filming projects, including *World History* series, for screening in China, a documentary series on Traditional Chinese Medicine, and a travel series called *Earthwalkers*. These series are filmed on location around the world. (NRS Group, 2006) Support of film from local organisations, including tourism, presumably facilitates production. The basis of the study is the need to investigate this possibility. The primary focus is on *Earthwalkers*, however, the leveraging opportunities through production of other projects such as *World History* series are also considered.

Initially, a short description and background of the company was obtained from the website. A company prospectus was obtained followed by in-depth interviews with NRS Group management and staff. The management nominated the participants of these interviews, being best placed to identify those directly involved in the production of the *Earthwalkers* or the *World History* series, a necessary criterion, since the data sought concerned the leveraging of support during filming and how it was sought or obtained. Four personnel, two management and two film crew, were nominated and interviewed. The small number, and the fact that all respondents were male, was dictated by the criterion.

Informal, semi-structured interviews were conducted, based on schedules of open-ended questions, but not restricted to only those questions, so as not to restrict the range or depth of the participants' responses. The interviews varied in length from approximately half an hour to one extremely informative interview of up to an hour. The variation in length of interviews was due partly to the different schedules of questions (one set for

management and one for staff) and partly due to the flexible format of the interviews. In fact, the schedules of questions were adhered to in the main; the only additional question being whether the respondent had anything to add. The interviewer's intention was to encourage the Emic point of view, responses emanating from the researcher's perspective (Jones, 1997). The responses were recorded in writing, typed up separately, and then the transcripts were forwarded to the respondents for checking and comment.

Analysis

Once checked, the data was triangulated (Xiao and Smith, 2005) by utilising the company viewpoint, obtained by interviewing management, conducting other independent interviews with production staff, and utilising secondary company data, that is, the company website and prospectus. The data was analysed using a "within- case analysis" (Hussey and Hussey, 1997:p.70).

The technique of Memos was used by noting important points and discoveries in a notebook throughout the study (Jennings, 2001). The primary data was recorded by taking notes during the interviews. It was analysed using the techniques of Data Reduction, distilling it into categories and themes according to the three types of coding described by Jennings (2001) – Open, Axial and Selective Coding. Open Coding was conducted as an initial step in analysis, then further (Axial) coding was used to refine the data, identifying connections between the categories. Some selective coding was used to focus on the data that is most relevant to the propositions.

Open coding was used to differentiate the types of information into broad categories of the major themes. These themes were the NRS Group's actions, the organisations and individuals that provided support, the type of assistance provided, limitations and problems encountered during production and positive motivators and reasons for responses (see Table 1 in the Results and Discussion section). Axial coding, or further coding that arose out of the Open coding, was then used to identify connections between the data, for example, with respect to the NRS group's activities, the response, either positive or negative, was identified by linking the activity to the support obtained. The consequence of lack of pro-

activity was also noted. Selective coding meant that the data on support leveraged was examined in greater detail, along with the potential to return assistance, that is, the data identified as motivators.

Content Analysis was performed in a holistic manner by including secondary sources of data, the company website and prospectus, to reflect the real world setting of the case study (Jennings, 2001). Coding categories were developed during the course of the study, according to the findings, as well as basing them on the type of the source or of the question posed. The text was then analysed using Summation, that is, Content Analysis was completed by reintegrating the coded data into patterns which revealed the basis of a Grounded Theory (Jennings, 2001).

The methodology followed was also based loosely on that used by Echtner and Ritchie (1993) in that it utilised a mix of structured (literature, website and company prospectus) unstructured (open-ended questions in telephone interviews), for example, whereas Echtner and Ritchie used what they described as "literature search and focus groups" (1993:p.5), this study uses literature review and interviews. Both studies utilised open-ended questions. Echtner and Ritchie's techniques were designed to address issues of content validity, dimensionality, internal

consistency reliability, criterion validity and construct validity.

Results and Discussion

While case studies are specific and cannot always be applied directly to the wider population, this case has uncovered data that can benefit the independent film companies in relation to leveraging the tourism industry in terms of assisting in film production costs.

A constant recurring theme was that, when the company was proactive, utilising preproduction methods of leveraging support by contacting relevant bodies prior to production, support was usually forthcoming. This was particularly important in respect of administrative assistance, such as when the company contacted Tourism New Zealand prior to filming in that country. Tourism New Zealand provided a list of tourism operators and introductions, paving the way for the film company.

Notwithstanding that NRS Group management recognised that pre-production activity assisted in leveraging support, they also felt that the result was not always worth the effort required. Past experience has shown that it can take considerable time and effort to make arrangements prior to production and that because of the time factor involved between arrangement and execution, the value can be diluted.

Table 1. Three stage coding used to differentiate the major themes

Open Coding	NRS Group's Actions	Organisation or Individual Providing Support	Type of Assistance Provided	Limitations & Problems	Positive Motivators & Reasons for Responses
Axial Coding: Establish links between categories	- Pre-production and pre-arranged action - Adhoc/during production - After/post production - Desirable action	- Government - Tourism bodies - Private companies - Individuals	- Before/prior to location - On location/ during filming - After/post production	- Financial - Practical - Administrative	- Positive motivators - Negative motivators - Other
Selective Coding: Categories to focus on	- Positive responses to NRS Groups actions - Negative responses to NRS Groups actions		- Administrative - Financial and discounts - In kind/ access - Desirable - Lack of Assistance		- Reasons for Positive responses to NRS Groups actions - Reasons for Negative responses to NRS Groups actions

Table 1 summarises the overall findings and process, followed by further discussion of the key elements of government assistance and in-kind support

Government Assisted Schemes

Despite being in the Australian Federal Government's Export Development Scheme, NRS Group management found that it takes so much time to get approval for Government funding, that it is not worthwhile pursuing. Due to these issues, they prefer to focus on working with tourism-related businesses to obtain in-kind support for their filming.

Direct In-Kind Support

Nevertheless, in-kind support in terms of complementary access to sites and tours is one area that can provide mutual benefit to the film and tourism organisations. Guides, transport, even food and board, are other methods of support leveraged by the company. Although, most of the support received was of the in-kind, practical variety, some support was received in the form of discounted, even half price, airfares which could be seen as financial assistance. Where individuals were not in a position to be able to afford the kind of support that causes financial loss, especially in Third World countries, they sometimes rendered practical assistance, such as carrying equipment.

However, assistance provided by tourism organisations can become a hindrance. One example of this in the provision of free tours, which facilitates filming by cutting costs but creates barriers at the same time, in that the film crew is obliged to accept the tour schedule instead of filming at its own pace, according to its own film schedule. It cannot stop the bus to film something seen out the window, nor can it deviate from the route taken by the tour.

In the experience of N R S Group personnel, people in less developed areas are more likely to respond positively, in providing support. In fact, it was said that "the smaller city, the more they help". There was some view that city people are jaded, being used to filming, perhaps overexposed, that they are used to being asked for "freebies" or had had an adverse experiences previously. It is therefore critical to convince that providing support will result in returned benefit. For example, a tour company provided free access to its tours,

during which the production company filmed documentary footage, receiving publicity estimated at five times the value of the tours in return.

Recommendations

The case study revealed that it is not only possible but practicable for an independent film production company to leverage support in kind, but to return that support. In this case, the film company featured the logos of assisting organisations in its productions, mentioned those companies in the programs and provided them with compact disc copies of the programs with a thank you letter after completion of the program.

An examination of the company website and prospectus showed that the NRS group has considerable resources that could be of benefit to tourism operators in addition to the types of quid pro quo assistance revealed during the interviews. The filming resources of the company's studio could perhaps be utilised to the benefit of the tourism operator.

Further recommendations that emerged from the study concern proposed methods of strategic development of tourism marketing linked with independent film production, and the creation of alliances between these industries for mutual benefit. It is considered not only that film production companies should be proactive in seeking support from tourism operators, but that tourism operators should be proactive in offering support, or at least in facilitating overtures made by film companies. This would assist in ameliorating the difficulties faced by film-production companies in leveraging support and encourage them to pursue such support.

Local tourism bodies could establish film offices to encourage film production and liaise with producers, or at least nominate personnel to perform that function. As described previously in this paper such offices have been established overseas, and local tourism operators could use those offices as models. They could also look at the history of their own areas to investigate whether there has been any past production that could be capitalised on.

Conclusion

Film-induced tourism is a powerful tourism marketing and promotional tool, and has been considered by many from the tourism perspective, particularly in terms of 'free ink'. However, many independent film companies struggle to meet the costs of filming. There are numerous ways that such companies can work with the tourism industry to assist not only tourism, but also to ameliorate the constraints they face due to the limited funding and high costs of film production.

Future research is needed to examine another or other larger film production company or companies, preferably those producing feature films or television drama to explore other avenues that may be available. This study has revealed pertinent data but cannot be said to be inclusive of all such relevant data, so such research would be of value.

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Films and Tourism: Understanding the Nature and Intensity of their Cause-Effect Relationship

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Abstract

The present paper is part of a wider research project focused on the synergy and all the possible connections between film productions and territories. In particular, it deals with the influence of films on tourism motivations as well as their impact on destination images and the role in affecting tourist purchasing behaviour. Two different research methods were used: a web survey and an on-site interview in two Italian regions.

The results reveal that the cause-effect relationship between film viewing and travel experiences shows varying intensity degrees along the subsequent phases into which the choosing and purchasing process of tourism products can be divided. More precisely, the influence of film viewing on travel choices gradually weakens as such process goes on, showing decreasing percentages from the first phase (desire to visit a destination brought about by films) to the following ones up to the final purchasing act.

Keywords: film and tourism connections, travel motivation, influence of films, choosing and purchasing process.

Introduction

Film tourism or film-induced tourism is a global growing phenomenon. Researchers, tourism consultants and destination marketing organizations are trying to fill the gap between the potential of film tourism implication, the lack of understanding of the actual motivational drivers and the possible film production effects on the viewer/potential tourist (Maconis, 2004; Beeton 2005; Frost, 2006; Hudson & Ritchie 2006).

Although Italy has hosted many successful national and international film productions that have framed a strong destination image and can be considered a sort of film tourism natural destination, the study of film tourism is relatively new (D'Angelo 2002, Messina, 2006; Rocco, 2006). Possibly, only recently have the opportunities associated with film tourism been recognised by some organizations. The lack of a clear strategy to

benefit from the relationship between films and tourism has resulted in missing some good opportunities.

Within this framework, a project funded by *La Biennale di Venezia*, the cultural foundation responsible for many international events in contemporary arts, among which *La Mostra del Cinema* (Venice International Film Festival), started with the aim to investigate the impacts of film productions on territories and assess the power of films in modifying travel choices and behaviour (di Cesare & Rech, 2006).

The research project had two distinct purposes: first, to evaluate the direct and indirect economic impact of film productions on territories; secondly, to analyse their role in influencing travel motivations, raising destination awareness, impacting on destination images and affecting tourist

purchasing behaviour. The present paper deals with the second area of research.

The lack of information and studies on this topic in the Mediterranean area stimulated this work focused on Italy. The phenomenon was analyzed in depth by using different methodologies and adopting two main investigation tools: a web survey and an on-site interview in two Italian regions.

The Connection between Films and Tourism: An In-Depth Analysis

Nowadays tourism consumer behaviour has reached a high level of maturity, in terms of capacity to gather information, evaluate different options and compare personal experiences. This situation has strongly increased global competition, as shown by the growing number of products on offer and the wide set of commercial proposals, unpredictable just a few years ago.

The cause of the evolution of such dynamic and complex scenario can be traced back to the increasing economic wealth status in some parts of the world, which has brought about the development of new and interesting tourism markets, the opportunity to access a wide spectrum of information and compare different options before the final purchasing act. Moreover, the evolution of transportation, with economic and logistic benefits for tourists, has given the possibility of choosing destinations which were not considered as economically sustainable or easily accessible before.

Against that background, the study and the investigation of tourist motivational factors is the main conscious of and more strategic issue to be deeply analysed. Recognizing which drivers are able to encourage tourists to travel allow to foresee expectations and consuming behaviour enabling to offer a specific proposal able to meet specific market segment needs (Wilkie 1990; Howard & Sheth 1969; Maslow 1943).

The increase of travel motivations, as already said, is the result of both more tourist demand and the constant effort of suppliers in differentiating products and developing new possible travel experiences.

The attention given to the study of the relationship between films and tourism or, better, the influence of film productions on the

screening audience, can be seen as a part of this complex framework. The starting point of this issue can be even considered obvious: watching a feature film, television or audiovisual production as a spectator means being reached by a series of different images showing places, and sometimes attracted and intrigued by them. This can stimulate gathering more information about the place shown and, in some cases, encourage a visit. What is not obvious at all is the cause-effect relationship between watching films and the different phases of the process leading to choosing and purchasing a tourist product.

This report attempts to provide appropriate answers to the following questions:

- Is the desire to gather information about one or more places just a temporary curiosity to be satisfied soon after the end of the movie, or can it become the starting point of the process leading to the purchase of a tourist product?
- Is watching a film really enough to turn the spectator into a tourist and persuade him or her to travel to a certain destination? Or can it only confirm or strengthen a previous travel desire or, rather, is it completely irrelevant on travel choices?
- It is important to investigate and understand the nature and intensity of the connection between films and tourism and not only state that this connection exists. For this reason we need to answer a key question: can a special event, such as watching a film, be considered a primary travel motivation or is it rather a secondary factor influencing, but not determining, the choice of a particular travel product or tourist destination?

Two different methodologies have been used to investigate the interesting issues referred to above and examine the range of possible roles played by film productions in affecting travel behaviour, as shortly summarized below:

- Films as stimulators of travel desires
- Films as incentives to look for information about the locations
- Film as important, but not primary, factors in influencing travel choices

- Film as main and determining drivers to choose travel destinations

The web survey was carried out on a sample of Italian people interested in cinema and tourism, who were asked to fill in an online questionnaire. The second survey was carried out on a sample of tourists interviewed in two Italian regions, Campania and Piedmont, through an on-site interview.

Web Survey

The purpose of the survey was to examine whether and how film productions and film locations can influence tourist motivations and steer destination choices.

The questionnaire was available on line for four weeks between June and July 2006 and was accessible through banners hosted in a number of key Italian websites and portals linked to the field of cinema.

The questionnaire was structured in 7 closed format questions and a short section with personal data (city of residence, age, sex, education and profession). The first couple of questions investigated the frequency of film watching (both on TV and at the cinema) and travel habits.

The preliminary questions, useful to understand and compare the profiles of the sample, were followed by the core of the questionnaire, that consisted of 5 key questions. This section was deliberately complex and demanding, requiring a high level of attention and concentration. This complexity was deemed fundamental by the research group and necessary to investigate such a multifaceted issue as film-induced tourism, in order to avoid banal results. In spite of that, the final redemption turned out to be fairly high, since 905 fully-filled questionnaires were collected.

The main objective of the whole research was to explore not only the influence of films on the creation of a travel desire, but on each single step which a decision process leading to the final purchase of a tourist product can be divided into.

The web survey was constructed in order to analyse every single step of this decision process, making the role of films in affecting tourist behaviour clearer. After analysing the influence of films on stimulating holiday

desire, the web survey investigated if viewers were induced to search for more information about the places shown. The role of films in affecting the image of the screened places was the third key aspect. The last two questions in this section regarded the crucial role of films in determining destination choice and purchasing tourism products, with a focus on past experience. In addition, for almost all questions, interviewees were asked to mention spontaneously one or more film titles or locations (no examples were given).

The characteristics of the sample can be shortly summarized as follows: 54% of interviewees are aged less than 30, 39% between 31 and 50 and the remaining 7% more than 50. Women represent 60% of the sample. As far as professions are concerned, 40% work as employees, 19% as entrepreneurs or self-employed workers and 28% are students. The education level is particularly high: almost 60% have a degree or a post-graduate certification.

In general, respondents watch films quite often (both on TV/DVD and at the cinema) (50% go to the cinema more than 5 times per month and watch more than 5 films per week at home). As for travel habits, 50% of the sample travel frequently (2 or 3 times per year).

The web survey confirmed the strong influence of films in affecting the spectator/tourist desire to travel. This result is in line with other studies carried out worldwide. The 45% of interviewees often feel the desire to visit places portrayed in films, while 38% affirm this happens less frequently (sometimes). Only 9% think it rarely happens, while 8% are never influenced. While it is possible to observe that the rise of film watched per month corresponds to an increase in travel desire, the same correspondence does not match the proportion “habit to travel frequently” – “growth of travel desire stimulated by the view of a film”.

Analysing the phase of data collection about a place, described as the second step of the purchasing process, it is possible to see a mitigation of the cause-effect relationship. Only 23% of the respondents, in fact, affirm to spend time in collecting information after watching a film, while the majority (43%) do that only occasionally, 18% rarely and 16% never. In addition to that, 3 participants in the survey out of 5 are not able to mention any

film title, while the remaining 40% only mention one title.

As regards the phase in which the selection of the possible destinations takes place, the web survey aimed at understanding how strong the influence of films can be in creating, confirming or modifying the spectator/tourist destination images. More than 50% of interviewees declared that watching a particular film had influenced the image of a particular place, generating a sum of belief about the place portrayed in the film or confirming images and ideas previously gained. Only a small percentage affirmed that a film had modified a previous place image.

With reference to the films mentioned by the web survey sample (Table 1), it is possible to

see how films showing exotic and remote travel destinations, previously unknown, possess a strong power in affecting destination images. Other films set in famous tourist destinations (particularly Paris and London) usually confirm the idea and the images previously owned.

It does not seem so easy to classify the film examples able to modify a previously formed image, both in a positive and a negative way. Films usually tell exciting stories which move the spectators sensibility, or they portray places under a different point of view emphasizing different or less known aspects and landscapes.

Table 1: Film's influence in creating/confirming/modifying the image and perception about screened destinations .

Movie	Place/Places	Associated images and ideas
I got an idea of the destination thanks to the film		
1 The Lord of the Rings	New Zealand	pristine and uncontaminated nature, beauty of landscapes, unconfined spaces, magic
2 The Beach	Thailand/ Phi Phi Islands	crystal-clear sea , wild nature, exoticism, relax
3 Mediterraneo	Greece/Kastellorizo Island	no-time atmosphere, no mass tourism, peace and calmness
4 Lost in translation	Japan/Tokyo	chaos, velocity, hyper-dynamic, coldness, alienation
5 Seven Years in Tibet	Tibet	adventure, wild nature, poverty, spirituality, meditation
The movie confirmed my previous idea about the destination		
1 Amélie of Montmartre	Paris/Montmartre	romanticism, magic, colourful, eccentricity, <i>retro</i> atmosphere
2 Notting Hill	London/Notting Hill	cosmopolitan city, vivacity, romanticism, colours, fashion
3 The Da Vinci Code	Paris/Louvre	attractive city, impressive architecture
4 Manhattan	New York, Manhattan	glamour, vivacity, energy, cosmopolitan city
5 Match Point	London	multiethnic city , elegance, snobbery, dynamic
The movie made me change my previous idea about the destination		
1 The Sky Over Berlin	Berlin	gloomy, dark and painful city (<i>not young, colourful and dynamic city, rich and lively in culture</i>)
2 Trainspotting	Scotland/Edinburgh	degraded and drub place (<i>not refined and elegant city, culturally tied to its traditions</i>)
3 Amarcord	Romagna/Rimini	poetic and fascinating places, rich in culture (<i>not only nightlife and amusement</i>)
4 Bread & Tulips	Venezia	authentic city in its remote and familiar corners (<i>not only invaded by mass-tourism</i>)
5 Respiro: Grazia's Island	Lampedusa	point of view of the locals living there all year (<i>not just a summer tourist destination</i>)

The next questionnaire section was designed to study what type of connection could exist between the viewing of a film and the purchasing choice of tourist products. Four different options were listed, each of which characterized by a decreasing cause-effect connection. The response obtained demonstrated that nowadays the power of film in acting as a main and exclusive purchase driver is still considerable marginal.

In fact, more frequently, a film can directly (for 21% of the interviewees) or slightly (51%) influence the definition of an itinerary. The remaining 23% say they are not influenced by films at all.

The investigation on the film's influence on effective travel and holiday experienced by the sample group in the last 3 years was the last section of the questionnaire. Even in this case the question meant to analyze the possible *nuance* in a cause-effect connection. In order to reach this goal the interviewees were given the opportunity to choose among a range of choices on a scale ranging from "total", "partial", "accidental" to "none". The results show that 15% of the sample affirm to have visited film location sites, 24% to have had travel experience partially influenced by films. An interesting 20% report to have visited at least one film location in the past 3 years only

once on destination, without being influenced by movies before choosing the travel destination.

The web survey reveals that nowadays the influence of film productions on tourist consumption behaviour decreases while the tourist goes through the different critical steps and the process goes on.

This important result can be observed in figure 1, in which the two curves show the data regarding the 5 key questions. The black curve gives the percentage of the highest intensity level the interviewees could choose, while the gray curve shows the sum of the values in the previous one with the percentages of the immediately lower intensity level. Both the curves show a descending trend interrupted only in correspondence of the fifth step of the process investigated, the film's influence on the past three years travel purchase. This result can be explained assuming that part of the sample in the past three years "happened" to be induced in some way to visit a destination after viewing one or more films. This does not necessarily imply an ordinary and constant influence of films on the travel decision process, as it is confirmed by observing the levels of both curves on step 4 ("film's influence on travel destination choice").

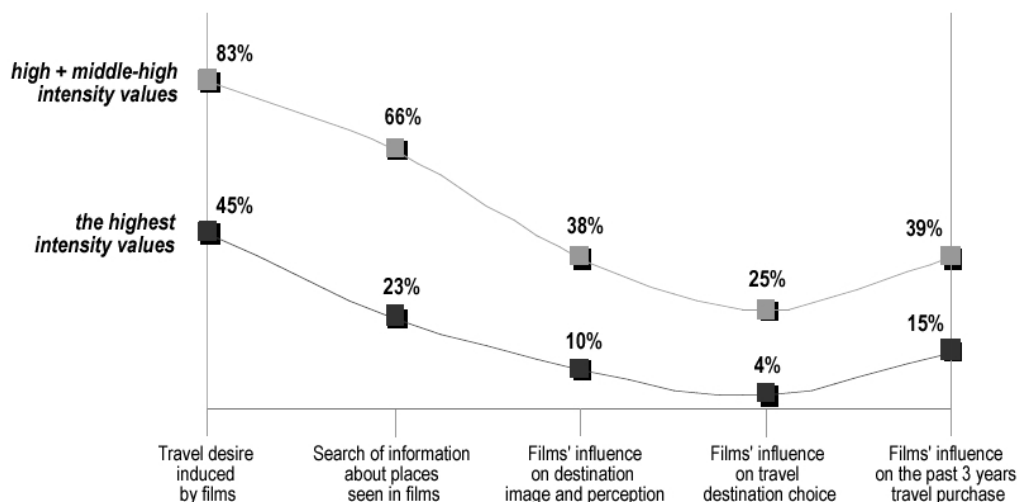


Figure 1 The intensity of cause-effect relationship between the view of films and the tourist purchasing behaviour

In a nutshell, standing to the results of the web survey, four people out of five feel sometimes a desire to travel induced by films, just three out of five search information about places seen in film with the same frequency and only two out of five believe that films are able to affect the image and the perception on the destination shown. The film's influence on travel destination choices is even lower (with just a little more of one person out of five), while the film's influence on past three years travel purchase is slightly higher.

On-Location Survey

A comparative survey on the relationship between cinema and tourists consumption was carried out on two representative tourist samples, in two different Italian regions. The research sample consisted of 600 people, 300 in specific areas of the territory of Campania and Piedmont regions. These two regions are both particularly dynamic in the Italian cinema industry and can be considered forerunners in comparison with other Italian regions. In addition, development perspectives are significantly high thanks to increasingly skilled professionals and to the strong role played by local institutions. Both areas are furthermore strictly connected to tourism, as a result of a strong national and international demand and a rich natural and cultural heritage.

As the web survey, the focus of the on-location survey aims to determine the real and potential interactions between cinema and places in relation to the two selected areas. This research tool, connected with the web survey, was chosen as an innovative element to contribute to international literature and pre-existing studies.

The survey was constructed to understand a potential difference in findings between reaction and attitude of tourists interviewed in well-known cinema locations and the opinions gathered in more general tourist areas. According to this methodological choice, 2/3 of the questionnaires (200 for each region) were submitted at famous film locations and the remaining 1/3 (100 for each region) was submitted at important tourism sites.

In order to better understand the film-induced tourism in this area, an analysis of both a tourist sample characterized by a personal propensity towards this phenomenon (because

met on film location) and a tourist sample considered more "distant" (because interviewed in other tourist destinations with different image and positioning) was to be preferred.

The questionnaire, filled in by a researcher on-location, consisted of 21 questions, plus a personal data section. As for the web survey, a complex and articulated structure was chosen and built to acquire the essential thought and the slightest nuance.

A first group of questions was meant to acquire information on respondent's travel behaviour on destination as for example the travel duration, first time visitor versus repeaters, type of accommodation, travel organization, etc.

The second section of the questionnaire investigated the respondents' cinematographic culture, referring particularly to film set in the same place where the interview was conducted or else in the regional area. The people interviewed were expected to provide a first spontaneous answer about film productions set in the area, without suggesting any title. Only later on the interview a list of film titles, shot in the area, were shown to check the interviewees' ability to recognize and link a particular film with their location.

A third group of questions (the core of the interview) was planned to test whether the subject was in that particular place as a consequence of the view of a film set in it. The purpose of this section was to outline possible film-induced tourism nuance behaviour through direct questions focused on the motivational range at the base of choosing that specific place as holiday destination. Other questions in this section aimed at understanding the occurrence of tourism consumption in some way linked to the binomial film-territory even if the holiday choice was not determined by the view of a film.

The survey shaped a general viewpoint not strictly related to the tourist experience in progress about the existence of a "cinematographic motivation" when choosing a holiday destination. As in the web survey, the questions outlined similar past experiences in film location visits and on the whole, the effect

of film productions on influencing vacation choices.

Campania

Campania Region is without any doubt one of the most screened regions of Italy and it is part of the collective image of those who love cinema.

Together with the Amalfi Coast, Capri Ischia and Procida Islands, the Pompei and Paestum Ruins, Naples plays also an important role in the film industry. Its beauty and typical characteristics, its problems and its popular vitality make the city and the whole region a valued cinematographic heritage, significant for Italy.

The study shows the purchasing behaviours and tourist consumers motivations of a sample of 300 Italian tourists contacted in 5 different areas, 4 of them considered film cities as described above and the fifth (Naples) referred to as a generic tourist place, although set of many film productions. Analyzing some results regarding the interviewees being cinema and tourism consumers, some relevant points about the direct influence that watching a movie has on the final choice of visiting a place are here summarized.

One question was about the capacity of the respondents to remember one or more movies set in that specific area or, at least, in the same region and to name their titles. The answers are negative: only 33% was able to state one or more titles. The percentage slightly raised (up to 40%) for respondents in the film cities and decreased to under 20% for those contacted in Naples.

The question about being in that place because previously seen in a movie shows a 72% "NO" as the main answer, 3% "YES", 14% "ALSO BECAUSE" and 11% "NOT ONLY".

In Naples a majority of "NO" is observed, whereas film cities show a behaviour more oriented to film-induced tourism: the percentage of "NO" dropped off to 60% while the "ALSO BECAUSE" raised to 20%.

The idea of using films as a tool to increase the number of tourists in already well-known destinations (as Naples) has not to be abandoned and it surely represents a huge opportunity for those less attractive areas that

can use cinema products as important instruments for promotion and valorisation.

The further steps are focused on the understanding of how many "YES" respondents really visit the specific location seen in the movies, to prove the coherence within the purchasing behaviour. The answers cannot show the general presence of this coherence, being equally distributed between "YES" and "NO". Although tourists decide to visit the place thanks to a precise motivation – at times directly connected to the vision of a film, they do not sometimes experience the factors that would transform the motivations into a real fruition. It is not possible, essentially, to satisfy the connection between motivation and travel behaviour.

Piedmont

Italian pictures are strongly tied to Piedmont Region and its capital Turin. It is really in Piedmont that movies productions developed in Italy. The dynamism of the early Twenties of the nineteenth century reverberated on following decades as proved by the numerous successful film productions ("Piccolo Mondo Antico" with Alida Valli, "Riso Amaro", "Il Bandito" and the renowned "Guerra e Pace") and the dawn of the Italian State Television in Turin.

One of the strengths of the Piedmont Region is the possibility to offer a greatly variegated landscape, able to promote itself as an ideal location for a wide range of film and tv productions.

Using the same methodological approach as in the Campania region, a sample of 300 Italian tourists were interviewed in Piedmont. The questionnaires were filled with the presence of a researcher in 4 different locations. The same distribution system adopted in Campania, based on the distinction among film locations and tourist locations was used. Differently from Campania, where all the 5 chosen locations showed a certain level – more or less evident – of cinematographic prestige, in the case of Piedmont the distinction was much more relevant. Specifically, it has been decided to submit 150 interviews in Turin, a city that has hosted numerous and important productions in the last years, 50 nearby the Ducal Castle of Agliè in Canavese, location for the Italian Tv-serial "Elisa di Rivombrosa".

For the tourist locations not so strongly or not at all linked with film productions, the 100 interviews had been proportionally distributed to tourists met in Verbania and Stresa, on Lake Maggiore.

Also in this case, due to a limited space, only the results directly connected to the relation between previous film fruition experiences and the decision that had driven tourist to spend a holiday in Piedmont will be presented.

Considering the characteristics of the tourist sample, not exactly movie goers, the result obtained from the question in which tourists were asked to mention one or more movie productions titles shot in the area were surprisingly high. 44% were in fact able to mention at least one film title set in the region. This percentage was higher for interviews carried out at film location (Torino and Agliè) if compared to the ones done at tourist location, where tourists shown more difficulty.

The interview conducted both in film locations and tourism locations did not reveal the existence of a strong film tourism motivation directly linked to viewing of o a film production. 78% of the respondents admitted to have chosen a holiday in Piedmont for a different reason, 17% declared to have visited a film location even though a different reason from the film was the critical factor for the choosing the current holiday destination. Only 5% declared to have visited a place in Piedmont “just” or “also” because it appeared in a film production.

More in detail, it is possible to observe how the percentage of negative answers weighs heavily on the sample met at tourist locations, reaching an almost 100% of negative response. Consequently the positive questions and the ones regarding the visit to a specific film location belong almost completely to the sample met at film locations.

The proportion of interviewees declaring a more or less mutual correspondence between the view of one or more film production and the visit of a particular place in Piedmont offers the possibility to reflect on some important issues. Inside this proportion it was frequent to find first-time visitors and tourists experiencing for the first time a vacation period in some way stimulated by films. These results show that the planning of specific and

more targeted promotional activities could attract new tourist segments and bring positive effects on the area.

Another aspect on which it is necessary to reflect upon concerns the relationship between the declared travel motivation and the effective travel behaviour and choices. Analysing the sample of respondents declaring to have been totally or partly influenced by the vision of a film in choosing their specific travel destinations, only 1/3 of the interviewees declared to have visited a film location on territory. According to this information, tourist consumption choice once on destination can appear to be slightly disjointed from the primary or secondary travel motivation.

For this reason destinations need to concentrate their work not exclusively on strategy focused on stimulating film-induced tourism, but also on actions aimed at enhancing the territory's potential, its heritage and history through clear information and, above all, link this strength with film productions shot in the same territory.

Conclusion

Tourism industry can highly benefit from the attraction of productions to territories. Shooting on location involves purchasing many hospitality and transportation services (accommodation, catering, transfers, etc) determining a high economic impact. Hosting a film production can also bring several benefits to the promotion of territories through cinema and influence tourism consumption.

The first case, which can be referred to as business tourism, implies an immediate and direct impact of film productions on territories, while the second, concerning leisure tourism demand, can be temporally delayed and have very different expressions.

In order to investigate film effects on tourism and obtain an in-depth representation of the phenomenon, it is necessary to carry out ad hoc surveys and avoid rough and inaccurate analyses.

The present paper has summarized some of the main results of a research project aimed at examining the cause-effect relationship between film viewing and the different phases of the purchasing and consumption process of tourism products.

The curve in paragraph 2 shows how the influence of film viewing decreases as the process goes on, passing from the mere feeling of desire to the final purchase action.

However, the percentage of the interviewed sample who sustains to be strongly influenced by films in their holiday choices (4%) is undoubtedly high if referred to the total number of tourists (both in Italy and on an international level, as they are likely to behave in a similar way).

However, waiting passively for the emergence of a film-induced tourism demand directed to a particular territory is not sufficient. Tourism destinations need to work proactively to orient this phenomenon and to promote their territory and resource, activating a real destination placement strategy.

The results obtained from the survey carried out in the two Italian regions support the necessity to build a coordinating strategy together with different stakeholders, in order to maximize the potential and to increase the effects of film-induced tourism.

This research project, while bringing a contribution to the complex study field of film tourism, suggests the importance to proceed with other research projects. Particular attention should be given to the study and to the closer examination of the tourist segment particularly receptive to the power of film production in shaping travel motivation and destination choice.

The results of these future studies will construct, together with the creation of a successful promotional campaign, a real film tourism product such as the preservation of film sets, the communication of film locations through itineraries, plaques etc. or the production of movie maps and guided tours.

In this way, it will be possible to understand the real needs and expectations of such tourism segment, maximising the investments and responding to a specific tourism demand that is not primarily interested in visiting film location even though the choice of the destination was influenced by the vision of one or more film productions.

Italy has a strong potential to maximize the impacts of film-induced tourism on territory, but it also underlines the necessity to work hardly to achieve this goal.

The real problem of such an approach is not to be seen in the product development, but in the cooperation process between film productions and destinations. These two main actors should create permanent, solid and positive relationship in order, on the one hand, to maximize film production's artistic and economic results, on the other hand to boost the social, economical and occupational growth of the destination.

This goal in Italy, however, seems still to be far from being achieved.

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To Travel or Not? The Influence of Disaster Media Reports on the Youth Travel Market

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Abstract

Few studies of the youth market have considered the influence of negative disaster media reports on their propensity to travel to the affected destination. This study considers the effect of news reports, travel advisories and the Internet on young people's intention to travel to Phuket following the 2004 Asian tsunami. It was found that this market is relatively resilient, however many expressed concerns about traveling to Phuket, preferring to substitute it for another destination. It recommends that destination marketers adopt a positive re-marketing exercise to counter media misrepresentations as soon as possible in order to retain this market.

Introduction

The media, in all its forms, is recognised as playing a significant role in forming, supporting and at times changing, the images and perceptions of travel destinations (Beeton, 2005). In particular, news reports, the Internet and government-produced information distributed via media outlets play a significant role. Often, news reports are of sensational events such as accidents and disasters, while the Internet provides an alternative information source for these events; in addition, governments issue Travel Advisories on destinations they consider to have elements of danger for travelers. The media-savvy youth market is a group that has been under-studied in their use of such media and its influence, particularly in relation to disaster planning.

Consequently, it is important to understand the influence of negative (or misleading) media reports of a disaster on young people's motivation to travel. The media looked at in this study incorporates news reports, the Internet and government Travel Advisories. The purpose of this research was to identify the youth market's propensity to visit or return to a disaster affected tourism region, by studying the case of the 2004 Asian Tsunami which affected Phuket, Thailand, among others.

Murphy and Bayley (1989) argue that the exposure of tourism to natural disasters

directly affects the attractiveness of so-called high-risk exotic destinations. This study focuses on the 2004 Tsunami disaster, which devastated a high profile tourism destination, Phuket in Thailand. Disasters such as Tsunamis often occur with no warning and require different relief measures from other disasters. On the 26th of December 2004, a Tsunami occurred in the Asia Pacific region and has been recognised as the "second largest earthquake in history" (Gray 2005, pg 10). The death toll has been estimated at 280,000, with 3,500 of those being international tourists, 2,510 who were in coastal areas of Thailand, including Phuket (World Tourism Organisation 2005). Media reporting at the time presented dramatic coverage and provided varying and often inaccurate fatality figures, which may be due to the mis-management of information released to the media from the destination. This was supported by Gray (2005) in a media statement confirming that the death toll for Phuket reached 260, with 111 of those being foreigners, and a further 646 still believed to be missing.

The decision to focus this Case Study on the Phuket Region was due to its popularity and high visitation rates with the youth market in Australia. According to the Tourism Authority of Thailand, some 17,247 travellers between the ages of 15 and 34, commonly identified as the youth market (King and Beeton, 2006) travelled to Thailand in December 2004. A

significant 43% of Australian tourists to the region for the month of December 2004, prior to the Tsunami occurring were in this category. (Tourism Authority of Thailand, 2005 webpage).

Literature

While there is a growing body of work on disasters and the media's influence, there have been limited studies looking at the influence of the media on the youth travel market's propensity to travel. Yet, this market tends to be among the most adventurous travelers, often visiting places prone to natural disasters as well as undertaking high risk adventure activities (King and Beeton, 2006).

The Nature of Youth Travelers

The 'youth market' is becoming increasingly difficult to define, in spite of the efforts of numerous researchers, however in this study we take Reisinger's (2002) description of a youth traveler as being between the ages of 18 and 35. This market tends to have the time to travel and, while they may have low incomes, they actually have higher *disposable* income, as they are not usually burdened by family responsibilities (Reisinger, 2002; Reisinger and Mavondo, 2004).

According to Frost and Shanka (1999) students account for 20% of all international travel (Cited in Reisinger and Mavondo 2002), purchasing 5 million train tickets, 4 million airline tickets, 10 million travellers and 30 million overnight stays worldwide (Jong, Seekings and De-Jong 1997 cited in *Reisinger and Mavondo 2004*). In the year ending 2004, some 54,738 students travelled to Thailand, which highlights the significance of this market to the region (Tourism authority of Thailand website, 2005).

Disasters

In this study, a natural disaster is defined as an event resulting from extraordinary, relatively

unpredictable forces of nature which affect humans. Globally, natural disasters are increasingly capturing the attention of tourism researchers, government agencies, industry sectors and communities (Jennings and Beeton, 2006).

While there are numerous descriptions of natural disaster life-cycles, Faulkner (2001) developed a comprehensive cycle that has been built on by Ritchie (2004) and further updated by Jennings and Beeton (2006). The crisis and disaster life cycle consists of two phases prior to the disaster occurring and four after it:

1. Pre-event
2. Prodromal
..... DISASTER OCCURS
3. Emergency
4. Intermediate
5. Long-term (recovery)
6. Resolution

As noted above, Jennings and Beeton (2006) have taken this life-cycle, combining it with the sociological literature, producing a model of Event-Crisis Episodes, as outlined in Figure One.

There are elements that amplify the problems facing a destination community dealing with a crisis, which can be positive, negative or a combination of the two, with the media being the most influential of these. The model in Figure One presents the stage when a disaster becomes critical, which is shown as being affected by unsuccessful management, which includes the management of the media. There are many instances where the media has presented a disaster as more widespread than it really is, effectively turning it in to a crisis, even for destinations not initially affected by the disaster itself (Beeton, 2006).

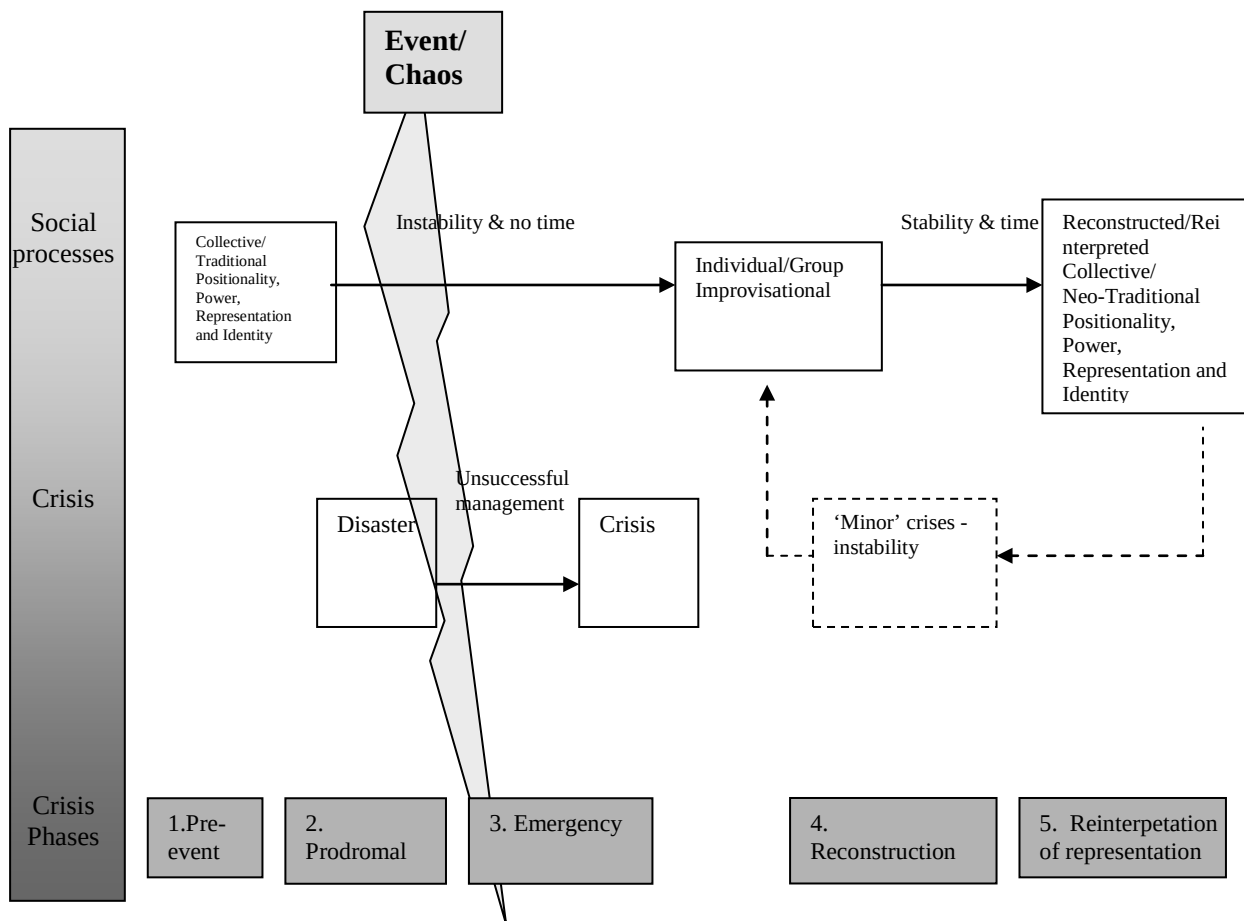


Figure 1: Event-Crisis Episodes: Social Processes and Crisis Phases

Source: Jennings and Beeton, 2006

Media

As noted above, the media are often key players in manipulating the risk perceptions of tourism destinations (Sönmez and Graefe 1998, Quarantelli 1996, Beirman 2002, Durocher 1994). Quite often today's media present horrific and often disturbing views of affected destinations, which ultimately leads to a reduction in inbound tourism numbers (Quarantelli 1996). This has had a significant impact on the success of the recovery marketing strategies put into place by the tourism industry. In addition, the media create an emotional attachment to a destination of those reading and viewing such reports, even though they may live thousands of kilometers away (Perez-lugo 2004).

Through analysing the literature, it has become apparent that there is much research on political instability and terrorism, however to

date minimal research exists specifically on the intentions to travel after a natural disaster. Therefore, a gap exists to research and examine market variables, to identify if they effect the negative perceptions a consumer has of a destination, which has been affected by a natural disaster.

Nevertheless, different reactions have been found relating to individual tourists' perceptions of risk, affecting whether the media reports actually have a negative or positive influence on tourism. What for one is an absolute disaster may for others be the what makes the holiday memorable, and even enjoyable, particularly when relating it to others back home (Beeton, 2006). However, this tends to relate more to events where there have been no deaths. When looking at the youth market's response to tourist accidents, King and Beeton found this to be the case with sections of this. While the media coverage

increases the perception of risk, for a significant proportion of young people (19-35 years old),

... the increase in risk encourages contemplation of participation in the future. Perhaps the increase in perceived risk adds kudos to those that participate or even talk about participating. People are encouraged to participate in a risky activity because of the psychological benefit of receiving recognition for their achievement (King and Beeton, 2006).

Methodological Approach

In order to address the complexity of the youth market's propensity to travel, a mixed method approach has been adopted, with both explanatory and causal research. According to Jennings (2001: 18) explanatory research is to "explain the 'how' and 'why' of the tourism phenomenon under study", which leads us to why a specific tourism behaviour is occurring. As this study looks at why tourists are and are not travelling to Phuket, it meets the explanatory criteria. Causal research, as defined by Jennings (2001) 'involves the use of variables and the construction of hypotheses to support or reject causal relationships between two or more variables' (Jennings 2001: 19). The importance in understanding if

there is a link between variables is vital, to not only test the hypothesis, but providing explanation as to what is the direct cause of the behaviour and perceptions of the youth market, in relation to travelling to a disaster affected region.

A case study approach adopting mixed methods was used to effectively answer the research question of how the media motivates and deters the youth market to travel to a destination after a natural disaster. A case study is "an holistic empirical inquiry used to gain an in-depth understanding of a contemporary phenomenon in its real-life context, using multiple sources of evidence" (Beeton 2005: 42). According to Yin (1994), a case study is identified when the boundaries between phenomenon and context are not clearly evident, requiring a more integrated research approach. Bryman (2001) states that a case study can be a single event (in this case the Tsunami) and are "frequently sites for the employment of both quantitative and qualitative research" (Bryman 2001: 49), which validates the mixed method approach selected.

The concept map in Figure Two outlines the approach taken, summarising the mixed methods applied, combining surveys, interviews and secondary data to investigate the Phuket study.

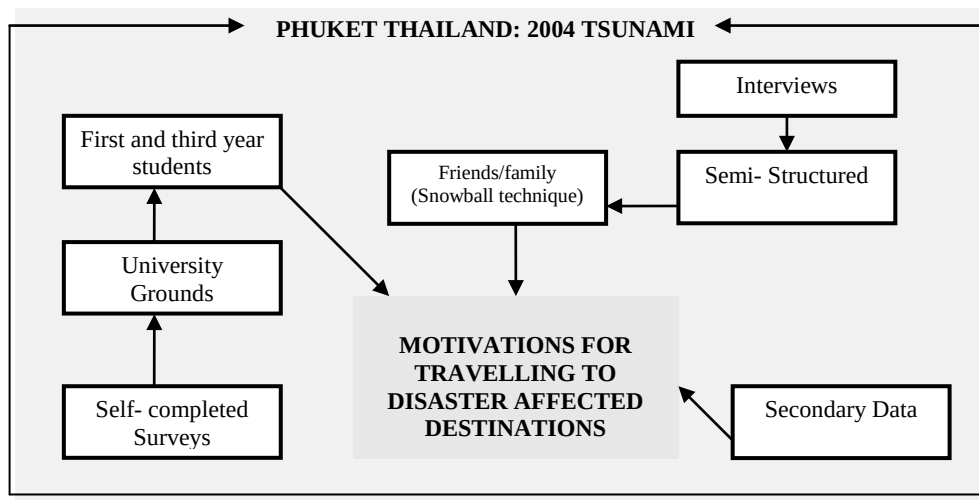


Figure 2: Concept Map

Convenience sampling techniques were employed to distribute the questionnaire to students at La Trobe University, Australia. While not entirely typical of the overall youth

market, students do represent various socio-economic and ethnic groups and are generally interested in travel, providing a relevant group to study. Also, while interested in travel, this

group has mixed travel experience, from non-travellers to relatively experienced travellers.

A sample size of 125 questionnaire responses were analysed. To ensure a degree of depth to the research and to triangulate the results, seven semi-structured interviews were also completed, which allowed the topic to be analysed in greater detail.

Findings

As outlined previously, the media are key players in manipulating the risk associated with tourism destinations (Sönmez and Graefe 1998, Beirman 2002, Durocher 1994, Quarantelli 1996). Quarantelli (1996) also highlighted that negative media reports can lead to a reduction in inbound tourism numbers. With visitor numbers to Thailand 40 percent below normal stable levels (PATA 2005), evidence from this study agrees with Quarantelli's presumption.

Travel Intentions

The objective of this study was to identify the extent of influence the media reports had on the youth market's intention to travel to Phuket. While the negative influence of the media is not as strong as suggested in the literature, suggesting that the youth market is less affected by reports of danger and disaster, it is still significant, and needs to be addressed by the destination marketers. With a Chi Square value of 0.00, the relationship between the two variables is relatively strong, affirming that the media coverage of the tsunami is a deterrent for the youth market in considering travel to Phuket.

According to the research findings, where 70.5 percent of the respondents would consider travel to Phuket, 31.5 percent of these did not believe that the media images discouraged them from travel. However, of those who stated they would not travel to Phuket, over half (55%) had been influenced by the media.

Table 1: Extent of the Media Coverage Deterring Travel to Phuket

			Media images discouraged travel			
			strongly agree/agree	undecided	disagree/strongly	Total
Phuket travel	Yes- would consider travel to Phuket	Count	17	22	47	86
		% of Total	13.9%	18.0%	38.5%	70.5%
	No- would not consider travel to Phuket	Count	20	7	9	36
		% of Total	16.4%	5.7%	7.4%	29.5%
Total		Count	37	29	56	122
		% of Total	30.3%	23.8%	45.9%	100.0%

Perceptions of Place

The difference between perceptions from those who had never been to Phuket and those who had was highlighted in the interviews, which provided a greater depth and richness to the survey. From the respondents who have travelled or were planning on travelling to Phuket, with knowledge of the Tsunami, the media coverage was not a deterrent, but provided a perception of what to expect: "we had seen the media coverage, we knew it would be devastated in certain parts" (Respondent 1g)

However, others were looking at substituting Phuket with another destination, with

Respondent (1c) stating that "visually it was disturbing ... it was a paradise before, before the Tsunami I would like to go back, but now I don't know, it's like a second choice after seeing all the people who lost their lives" (Respondent 1c). Similar responses were found with other interviewees "definitely seeing images of people floating and people dying and people sort of looking for members of their families has definitely put a big impact on my thoughts of going to Phuket" (Respondent 1d). This respondent decided not to visit Phuket when visiting Thailand earlier in the year, due in part to the media attention of the Tsunami attained.

Further respondents believed that the media acted as a deterrent for travelling to Phuket: *“images in the media are kind of like this, sort of washed over place that’s had so many dead bodies, it’s almost like a dark place”* (Respondent 1e). However, respondent 1e also perceived the media reports of the recovery to have a positive influence on their decision to travel back to Phuket: *“I think that it [the media] probably is a more positive thing because it’s kind of like they want to develop tourism again, you almost want to help the locals to get back on their feet”* (Respondent 1e).

Overall the extensive media coverage, both in newspapers, magazines, on the television combined contributed to the risk perceptions of the place. The Internet, as well as traditional news media outlets, was also found to be a major/large influence for just over half of the respondents, reflecting the youth market’s reliance on it as one of the key information sources prior to travelling to a destination.

Internet

In relation to information search behaviour, the Internet was regarded as a source which was either often or always used by 81.7 percent of respondents. When they were asked to rate the influence which the Internet had on their perceptions of Phuket as a holiday destination after the Tsunami, 51.2 percent agreed that they regarded it as a major/large influence on their perceptions. Table Two illustrates the relationship between the decision to travel back to Phuket and the role of the Internet.

In relation to the youth market’s decision-making process in considering travel to Phuket, of the 51.2 percent of respondents who regarded the Internet as having a large influence on their perception of Phuket as a holiday destination, 38.2 percent stated they would consider returning. An association between these two variables indicates that the Internet can influence the motivation to return to Phuket; therefore, marketers could use this as an avenue to extend the re- establishment of the destination.

Table 2: Relationship between the Decision to Travel to Phuket and the Internet as an Influence on Perception of the Destination

			After tsunami Internet			Total
			major influence/large influence	some influence	little influence/no influence	
Phuket travel	Yes- would consider travel to Phuket	Count	47	31	9	87
		% of Total	38.2%	25.2%	7.3%	70.7%
	No- would not consider travel to Phuket	Count	16	10	10	36
		% of Total	13.0%	8.1%	8.1%	29.3%
Total		Count	63	41	19	123
		% of Total	51.2%	33.3%	15.4%	100.0%

The democratic nature of the Internet is its strength and weakness in terms of encouraging return visitation to disaster-affected areas. As well as official news media and destination marketing sites, anyone can post their own stories and interpretations via web logs (blogs). Such influence is supported by the qualitative research, with one respondent stating, *I’d go on the Internet and find out what it’s really like and then make the decision”*(Respondent 1g). Respondent 1a agreed and also referred to the Australian Government’s Smart Travel

website, as well as various other sites for information on Phuket prior to travelling there.

The Internet will remain one of the most informative search tools as it allows global access, twenty-four hours a day. But for it to be most efficient, other media sources need to promote the extensive of information the Internet provides, especially relating to disaster affected destinations through directing consumers to these particular sites.

Government Travel Warnings

Government travel warnings/advisories have been criticised by some as unfairly discouraging tourists back to Tsunami affected regions (Canning, 2005, Doherty 2005, Morison 2005, Peatling 2005). Criticism of the Australian Government was also made by the Thai authorities for placing warnings not to visit tsunami affected areas of Thailand (Doherty 2005). The main criticism is that the type of communication which the Australian citizens received through the government travel warnings, failing to recognise the clean-up that had taken place at the time of when they were released (Doherty 2005).

Even eighteen months after the Tsunami, the Australian Government's travel warnings include the following:

Natural Disasters

Areas of the west coast of Thailand were hit by a large tsunami on 26 December 2004. A limited number of hotels and resorts are not fully operational. If staying in these areas you may wish to check in advance that everything is operating normally.

Severe storms and widespread seasonal flooding can occur without warning in Thailand, particularly during the local wet season from June to December. Extensive flooding in the northern provinces of Uttaradit, Phrae, Lampang, Nan and Sukhothai during the week of 22 May 2006 resulted in deaths and injuries. You should check local media and weather reports before considering travelling to this region. (<http://www.smartraveller.gov.au/zw-cgi/view/Advice/Thailand>)

According to the research findings, 60.7 percent of respondents regarded government travel warnings after the tsunami to be a major/large influence on their perception of Phuket as a holiday destination. This was a significant increase from 27% prior to the Tsunami, and was supported by the interviews, where respondents were asked how they felt about government travel warnings and if they influenced their travel behaviour.

Those interviewed agreed that they bore a degree of influence, with one interviewee stating *if there very accessible and the*

warnings are strong enough to be life threatening, then I would take them as being serious (Respondent 1e). The risk perceptions levels of the youth market, with 50.4% agreeing they perceived a threat in Phuket, may be linked to Government travel warnings. As respondent 1d states, *a lot of people would sort of think twice before they want to go, because of all the warnings about the disease that could be spreading* (Respondent 1d).

From the analysis of the results, it is evident that the media, such as news reports, the Internet, and government Travel Advisories are influential information sources which the youth markets deem the most important. Peers and travel magazines however failed to be significant enough. Combined, these factors then affect the motivation for consumer to return to Phuket.

Conclusion

While the youth travel market is more resilient than the general market, particularly in terms of returning/visiting disaster areas, there are still signs that significant numbers were influenced by the media not to visit Phuket.

Durocher (1994) outlines three measures that influence tourism recovery from a natural disaster. Firstly, the extent of the damage caused, secondly, the efficiency with tourism partners, and finally the effectiveness of the marketing message that the destination is open for business. Such messages can form part of a re-marketing strategy through research on recovery marketing (Durocher 1994). The effectiveness of this marketing strategy is dependable on the consideration of the intrinsic and extrinsic motivations of the consumer. It became evident in this study that the information distributed by the media is a significant factor in encouraging or discouraging return.

The challenge is then to counter misperceptions or exaggerations in the media through working with tourism partners and forming a strong communication network to minimise any false negative perceptions the media is providing (Stateman 2005). The resilience of the youth market is a positive element that can and should be maximised.

Nevertheless, it is important to be honest with the press through a crisis (Stateman, 2005). Inviting tourists back to the destination, as long

as the safety and security of tourists is considered should be the starting point for any tourist region, to filter consumer confidence and concerns. The dissemination of information on the recovery process needs to include positive media coverage outlining the recovery process, which has taken place, maintaining an effective website outlining the operating activities, hotels and transportation and an informed travel industry (Beirman 2003). Although managing to convince the public that the recovery has taken place is a concern (Rowe 1996), remarketing will inevitably depend on the reintroduction of the tourism destination (Durocher 1994). The effectiveness of any marketing strategy put in place is also highly dependent on the intrinsic and extrinsic motivations of the consumer.

The discussion of the remarketing of destinations after a crisis suggests that the media has an enormous influence on consumer perceptions.

It is important to recognise that although it is an imperative for high-risk located destinations to be prepared for a crisis or natural disaster, it is difficult to communicate this to developing countries that lack many skills and resources to address the affects of a disaster in their main industry - tourism. Any research undertaken on the tourist motivation and remarketing of a crisis-prone or affected country needs to be readily available to the marketers of these destinations, enabling the developing world to be better equipped with managing a disaster and preventing it moving into crisis with the implementation of an effective marketing communications strategy.

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Festival Image Creation: The Role of the Print Media

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Abstract

The aim of the paper is to consider the images created of a performing arts festival by Australian national and state newspapers. To achieve this, a content analysis of newspaper coverage of the Melbourne International Comedy Festival was conducted before the commencement of the festival, during the festival and immediately following the close of the festival. The Melbourne based papers covered the festival extensively, with previews and reviews of shows, profiles of artists and articles on comedy as an art form. However, there was surprisingly scant coverage by the national and non-Victorian newspapers of the festival, despite the Melbourne International Comedy Festival being the largest cultural event in Australia in terms of ticket sales. The descriptor words used in the non-Victorian newspaper articles were noted and the related newspaper photographs and illustrations were examined. The images created of the festival by the non-Victorian newspapers appear to be light-heartedness and fun, where the comedians are depicted as experienced, professional performers skilled in the art of making their audience laugh. Opportunities for future research are identified.

Key words: print media, festival, image, comedy festival

Introduction

Numerous studies in the tourism literature over the last 30 years, from Hunt (1975) to Ryan and Cave (2005), have considered tourist destination image. Pike (2002) notes that destination image studies has become one of the most popular areas of studies in the tourism literature with 142 destination image papers published from 1973 to 2000. However, only two of the papers noted by Pike (2002) considered the impact of events on the image of a destination (namely, Roehl, 1990; Gartner & Shen, 1992) with the event referred to being the Tiananmen Square incident, rather than a tourist related event, such as a festival. The limited research which has considered images created of festivals has focused on the associated image created of the host city, rather than the images created of the festival itself (see, for example, Lavalley & Lafond, 1998, Prentice & Anderson, 2003, Boo & Busser, 2006). Therefore, research into the images generated of a tourist related event, namely a festival, has been limited.

Several authors (see, for example, Gunn, 1972; Fakeye & Crompton, 1991; Gartner, 1993) have suggested tourist's destination image can be either organic, when the tourists'

impression of a destination is created without physically having visited the place, or induced, where the image is created through promotional materials or actual visitation. Indeed, Pearce (2005: 92) notes that destination image represents a "totality of beliefs, feelings and expectations" which has been linked to "advertising and consumerism, attitudes, memories, cognitive maps and expectations (Pearce, 1988: 162). This paper considers the print media as a means of creating particular induced images of a festival which may create association feelings and expectations among potential visitors.

The print media, particularly newspapers, can have a powerful impact on public opinion (McCombs, 1994). It is no surprise therefore that newspaper editors are often accused of pushing particular political agendas to manipulate public opinion to support the editor's own political ends. For example, newspaper articles can enlighten the public on particular social, economic and political issues and, in so doing may have an influence on public opinion. The content of newspapers therefore may create many tangible and intangible effects on the reader through the written word and the associated photographs and illustrations. While the intangible impact

may be to encourage the reader to think in a particular way, the tangible effects may be to encourage the reader to behave in a particular way, such as voting for the editor's favourite political party during an election. From a tourism perspective, the intangible impact of reading about and viewing photographs and illustrations of a festival may be to create particular images in the minds of the reader, while the tangible impact may be to encourage readers to travel to a destination to participate in the festival or event.

Hall and Valentin (2005) used a content analysis of a New Zealand newspaper to examine the media coverage following the 9/11 terrorist attacks in the United States and considered how the coverage may have influenced perceptions of tourism and travel safety among the local readership. This paper reports on a similar tourism related project whereby a content analysis was conducted of the media coverage in Australian newspapers of the Melbourne International Comedy Festival (MICF), staged in the state of Victoria, to consider what images were created of the festival, particularly among non-Victorian readers. Therefore, this exploratory paper aims to consider the images created of an Australian performing arts festival, namely the Melbourne International Comedy Festival, by analysing the content of national and state newspapers before, during and immediately following the staging of the arts festival.

Method

In 2006, the 20th Melbourne International Comedy Festival staged 233 shows over 26 days (MICF, 2006). The most recent figures on the festival revealed that in 2004, 338,711 people attended the festival, of which 91% were residents of the local Melbourne metropolitan area, 5% were resident elsewhere in the state of Victoria, 4% were interstate visitors and 1% were international visitors (MICF, 2004a). The largest source of interstate visitors to the festival in 2004 was New South Wales, generating 51% of interstate visitors and Queensland generating 17% (MICF, 2005).

Within a newspaper there can be a variety of sources of coverage of festivals and events, namely the news articles, the editorial pieces, the special features, the adverts, the photographs, and the reviews. In this study, for

the content analysis of the written word, the news articles, including special features, previews and reviews of shows, were the units of analysis. The articles in the non-Victorian newspapers were also examined for the frequency of descriptor words (verbs, adjectives and adverbs) used in relation to the comedy festival.

To source the newspaper articles relevant to this study, the newspaper database *Factiva* was searched. *Factiva*, a newspaper database created by Dow Jones and Reuter, contains the full text of the articles from each of the sections of a newspaper and provides the date, the title, author of article, word length and page number. The newspapers which were examined were as follows:

- Melbourne based newspapers with the biggest circulation, namely, *The Age*, *the Sunday Age*, *the Herald Sun* and *the Sunday Herald Sun*;
- the national newspapers, namely, *The Australian* and *the Weekend Australia*; and,
- the main daily newspapers from other states, namely the *Sydney Morning Herald* (NSW), the *Daily Telegraph* and *Sunday Telegraph* (NSW), the *Advertiser* and *Sunday Mail* (SA), the *Courier Mail* and *Sunday Mail* (QLD), the *Mercury* and *Sunday Tasmanian* (TAS), and the *Canberra Times* (ACT). The *West Australian* and *Northern Territory* newspapers did not contain any coverage of the MICF for the selected period and so were not included in further analysis.

The period 1st March to the 14th May 2006 was examined as this represented the six week period before the 2006 MICF began on 12th April, the 26 days of the festival, and the following seven days from the close of the festival. This period was considered appropriate to cover all the newspaper articles related in some way to the MICF. A search of *Factiva*, including all the Australian major newspapers, using the term "comedy festival" for this period, generated 348 articles. The articles were then downloaded in plain text and converted into *Word* files for analysis. Of these 348 articles, 271 were relevant to the study, that is, the articles examined an aspect of the MICF. The remaining 77 articles considered aspects of one of the other Australian comedy

festivals occurring around the same time of year, namely the Cracker Comedy Festival and the Last Laugh Comedy Festival in Sydney, and so were disregarded.

The next phase of the analysis was to examine the content of the articles published by the non-Victorian newspapers to consider the images of the festival created for interstate readers. Similar to the study by Echtner and Prasad (2003), descriptor words such as verbs, adverbs and adjectives were examined as they convey the range of activities and actions relating to the comedy festival. The final stage of the content analysis considered the photographic images and illustrations associated with the MICF. For the content analysis of the visual components, the comedy festival related photographs and illustrations from the non-Victorian newspapers were the unit of analysis, where the photographs were viewed as records of the reality of the festival. As the newspaper database *Factiva* contains only text, reference was made to the related newspaper microfilms held in the State Library to source the MICF related photographs and illustrations.

Results and discussion

The Written Word

Table 1 summarises the frequency of MICF related articles listed by newspaper, and whether the article appeared before, during or after the festival. Of the 271 relevant articles which appeared during the allocated period, 40 articles concerning the MICF appeared in the days before the festival, the frequency was highest during the run of the festival with 219 related articles, and then disappearing a few days after the end of the festival, with only 12 articles appearing. The growth, peak and reduction of appearance of articles is similar to the finding by Hall and Valetin (2005) following the 9/11 terrorism attacks which reached a peak immediately following the event and then quickly faded away. Hall and Valetin (2005) suggest that their results appeared to fit well with Downs' (1972) five stage model of the 'issue attention cycle' which begins with low attention during the pre-problem stage and continues with a dramatic rise in interest and media coverage in the second stage. Aspects of Downs' theory could also be applied to the findings here in

that there appears to be "euphoric enthusiasm", particularly from the Melbourne newspapers, while the festival is being staged, with a "gradual decline of intense public interest", following the end of the event (Downs, 1972 as cited in Hall & Valetin, 2005: 194).

The comedy festival related articles appeared in most sections of the newspapers, namely as news items, as magazine articles and special features, but appeared mostly in the arts and entertainment sections. As the festival's major sponsor, most of the MICF related articles were published by the Melbourne based newspaper *The Age*, with 40 articles appearing in the news section, suggesting that the newspaper recognised the newsworthiness of the event and wanted to highlight its occurrence. Before the festival began, the articles which appeared included short pieces about the staging of the heats of the national Raw Comedy and the Class Clowns competitions. These competitions are designed to increase arts access to more people in the community and can encourage people to learn new skills and, develop new comedic work (Frew, 2006). However, they are also useful in helping to promote the MICF in the weeks leading up to the commencement of the event.

In the immediate run-up to the festival, i.e., in the week before the launch of the festival and, during the early weeks of the festival, 48 of the newspaper articles focused on individual comedians. The articles on individual comics considered aspects such as their personal background, how they started out in the comedy industry, their early gigs and how they view the industry now. Some of these were question and answer type pieces directed at the comedian, who then discussed their show and/or their non-comedic interests, such as their favourite weekend break or, their favourite book. These 'human interest' stories, focusing on the individual artist, reflect that these comedians are usually not part of a cast of performers but are solo artists. As such, this necessitates them promoting themselves as individuals, where they try to appear as attractive as possible to the potential audience. The personality and quirkiness of the comedians revealed in the articles makes them unique and suggests to the reader they would be appealing to watch in a show. Therefore, it is relatively easy for a newspaper journalist to write such a piece as the comedian is willing

and able to promote themselves and their, often humorous, views on life. To ensure that each comedian has the opportunity to receive publicity for their show, each comedian is required by the MICF to submit a media release of their show and a biography to the

festival publicity agent, ready to be used by interested journalists (MICF, 2004b).

Table 1: Length, Location and Type of Newspaper articles Before, During and After the 2006 Melbourne International Comedy Festival

	Newspaper and State Number of articles related to MICF	Length of article			Location of Article				Type of Article							
		<300 words	300 - 999 words	>1,000 words	AE	N	SF	MG	R	PS	PA	T	O	C	W	A
Before	<i>The Age</i> + <i>Sunday Age</i> (VIC) 19	6	7	6	11	4	3	1	-	3	8	2	2	-	-	4
	<i>Herald Sun</i> + <i>Sunday Herald Sun</i> (VIC) 10	4	6	-	6	3	1	-	-	1	6	-	1	2	-	-
	<i>The Australian</i> (Nat) 3	-	-	3	-	-	3	-	-		1	-	-	-	-	2
	<i>Sydney Morning Herald</i> (NSW) 0	-	-	-	-	-	-	-	-		-	-	-	-	-	-
	<i>Daily Telegraph</i> + <i>Sunday Telegraph</i> (NSW) 2	-	2	-	-	-	-	2	-		-	-	-	-	2	-
	<i>Advertiser and Sunday Mail</i> (SA) 0	-	-	-	-	-	-	-	-		-	-	-	-	-	-
	<i>Courier-Mail</i> + <i>Sunday Mail</i> (QLD) 1	1	-	-	1	-	-	-	-		-	1	-	-	-	-
	<i>The Mercury</i> + <i>Sunday Tasmanian</i> (TAS) 3	2	1	-	3	-	-	-	-		-	2	1	-	-	-
	<i>Canberra Times</i> (ACT) 2		1	1	1	1	-	-	-		1	1	-	-	-	-
N = 40																
During	<i>The Age</i> + <i>Sunday Age</i> (VIC) 168	104	55	10	141	26	2	0	95	34	12	7	7	6	4	2
	<i>Herald Sun</i> + <i>Sunday Herald Sun</i> (VIC) 30	21	9	-	22	7	1	-	-	16	6	-	-	8	-	-
	<i>The Australian</i> (Nat) 6	1	5	-	3	2	1	-	-		3	-	1	2	-	-
	<i>Sydney Morning Herald</i> (NSW) 3	1	2	-	1	2	-	-	-		2	-	1	-	-	-
	<i>Daily Telegraph</i> + <i>Sunday Telegraph</i> (NSW) 4	-	4	-	-	-	1	3	-		1	-	-	-	3	-
	<i>Advertiser and Sunday Mail</i> (SA) 1	1	-	-	-	1	-	-	-		1	-	-	-	-	-
	<i>Courier-Mail</i> + <i>Sunday Mail</i> (QLD) 3	2	1	-	-	2	1	-	-		3	-	-	-	-	-
	<i>The Mercury</i> + <i>Sunday Tasmanian</i> (TAS) 4	3	1	-	2	2	-	-	-		4	-	-	-	-	-
	<i>Canberra Times</i> (ACT) 1	-	-	1	-	1	-	-	-		1	-	-	-	-	-
N = 219																
	Newspaper and State Number of articles related to MICF	Length of article			Location of Article				Type of Article							
		<300 words	300 - 999 words	>1,000 words	AE	N	SF	MG	R	PS	PA	T	O	C	W	A
After	<i>The Age</i> + <i>Sunday Age</i> (VIC) 7	5	2	-	1	6	-	-	-		-	-	2	5	-	-
	<i>Herald Sun</i> + <i>Sunday Herald Sun</i> (VIC) 2	2	-	-	2	-	-	-	-		-	-	1	1	-	-
	<i>The Australian</i> (Nat) 0	-	-	-	-	-	-	-	-		-	-	-	-	-	-
	<i>Sydney Morning Herald</i> (NSW) 1	1	-	-	1	-	-	-	-		-	1	-	-	-	-
	<i>Daily Telegraph</i> + <i>Sunday Telegraph</i> (NSW) 0	-	-	-	-	-	-	-	-		-	-	-	-	-	-
	<i>Advertiser and Sunday Mail</i> (SA) 0	-	-	-	-	-	-	-	-		-	-	-	-	-	-
	<i>Courier-Mail</i> + <i>Sunday Mail</i> (QLD) 2	1	1	-	2	-	-	-	-		1	1	-	-	-	-
	<i>The Mercury</i> + <i>Sunday Tasmanian</i> (TAS) 0	-	-	-	-	-	-	-	-		-	-	-	-	-	-
	<i>Canberra Times</i> (ACT) 0	-	-	-	-	-	-	-	-		-	-	-	-	-	-
N = 12																

Key:
 Location of Article: AE = Arts and Entertainment; N= News; SF = Special Feature; MG = Magazine.
 Type of Article: R = Review of a show with star rating; PS = Preview of show; PA = Profile of Artist(s); T = Article on the theme of the show; O= Overview of the festival; C = Controversial aspect;
 W = Humorous article written by a comedian; A = Comedy as an art form.

Other articles published before the festival commenced and, in the early weeks of the festival, considered:

- any newsworthy item about the festival. For example, one article reported that the use of the word 'Anzac' in the title of one comedian's show had been disallowed by the Department of Veteran Affairs (Wilson, 2006).
- different styles of comedy being shown at the festival. For example, articles appeared on musical comedy, absurdist comedy, and religion based comedy;
- any controversial themes for shows. For example, in the news section of *The Age* the health reporter wrote a piece on a comedy show which encouraged audience members to donate sperm across the Victorian border (Nader, 2006).
- how much it cost for an individual comedian to stage a show and how difficult it is to make any money from comedy outside of the festival (Coslovich, 2006; Burchall, 2006);
- comedy as an art form and the mechanics of humour, i.e. what makes a joke funny (Micallef, 2006; Parry, 2006);
- which topics are off-limits for comedians and which are acceptable (Scott-Norman, 2006; Castles, 2006);
- anything controversial but humorous that happened before or during the festival. For example, one article reported that Irish comedian David O'Doherty encouraged audience members to bring cake along to his show. He was then told by the venue management that food was banned from the auditorium but "O'Doherty pressed on regardless with his cake free material" (Mangan, 2006, p. 22).

The *Sunday Age* newspaper dedicated the whole of their arts magazine to articles about the comedy festival three days before the festival started. The launch of the comedy festival on Wednesday 12th 2006 received some good coverage in the news sections of *The Age* and the *Herald Sun*, particularly using the angle that, at the launch, the American comedy rap artists Freeloove Supreme sang a humorous song about the Mayor of Melbourne, John So. In addition, because *The Age* is the

major media sponsor of the festival, the newspaper also published a collection of articles over the first weekend of the festival.

The articles, which appeared in the Victorian, national and non-Victorian newspapers before the start of the festival, potentially created a feeling of anticipation among the readers about the upcoming festival. In each of the newspapers, most pieces concluded with the line, "The Melbourne International Comedy Festival starts on Wednesday 12th" and then provided the related web page. Therefore, such articles were designed to alert the readers to the upcoming festival, create anticipation and encourage early ticket sales. Indeed, one article noted that due to the staging of the 2006 Commonwealth Games in Melbourne the festival had spent extra money on marketing as a way of "pushing pre-sales and reminding audiences to attend" (Ziffer, 2006b: 17).

During the festival, most of the articles were preview pieces about individual shows, profiles about the comedians and actual reviews of the shows. The show reviews conducted by *The Age* could receive '5 stars' for an excellent show, to '1 star' for an abysmal show. Interestingly, of the 95 reviews published by *The Age*, only three received a one star rating, with the majority receiving three or four stars. Some of the newspaper articles before and, in the early weeks of the festival, were written by the comedians themselves with the piece ending with a reference to their upcoming shows, with the relevant web page. This is a useful way to gain exposure for a comedian and suggests to a reader that, if the comedian can write a humorous piece and, can make the reader laugh via the written word, then the reader should attend the live show to experience more of the same style of humour. The comedians who wrote humorous pieces were Australians Will Anderson (3 articles) and Danny Katz (1 article), Englishman Daniel Kitson (2 articles) and American Demetri Martin (1 article). After the festival had ended, the newspapers published articles reflecting on the festival overall and reporting on who had won the comedy festival prizes and awards.

In the non-Victorian papers, many of the articles focused on the well-known, international comedians who were visiting Melbourne for the MICF and who often tour

the country before or after their Melbourne shows. In 2006, the headline acts were the legendary comedian Joan Rivers and, Rain Pryor, the daughter of the late comedian Richard Pryor. Joan Rivers attended the 2006 MICF in the fourth and final week of the festival. The festival director Susan Provan noted that Rivers would, “‘pep up the population’ in case the punters were flagging from the laughter” (Ziffer, 2006a: 4). Of the 37 articles from the non-Victorian newspapers four articles were published on Joan Rivers namely, in the *Australian*, the *Courier Mail*, the *Advertiser* and, the *Canberra Times*. The

four newspaper articles included many quotes from Joan Rivers demonstrating her quirky sense of humour, and her use of swear words. *The Australian* noted her verbal attack of a journalist who mentioned her age at the press conference. The *Canberra Times* published a two-page article in their arts magazine with four photographs of Joan Rivers including one on the front of the magazine. The image is projected that Joan Rivers is a legend in the comedy industry and readers should not miss the opportunity to go to one of her shows, particularly as this may be her last visit to Australia.

Table 2: Frequency of descriptor words used in non-Victorian newspapers before, during and after the 2006 Melbourne International Comedy Festival

Words used	Frequency of words in 37 articles
comedy, comedic, comic, comics, comedian	193
win, winning, winner, won	50
theatre, theatres	47
laugh, laughs, laughing, laughter	45
perform, performer, performers, performing, performance	42
audience, audiences	42
joke, jokes, joking	40
act, acting, actor	34
fun, funny, funniest	27
politics, politicians, political	26
stand-up, stand up	25
Competition	17
international (with a small letter “i”)	15
humour, humorous	13
gig, gigs	13
Cabaret	10

Thirty-seven non-Victorian newspapers were examined for the frequency of descriptor words before, during and after the MICF. Table 2 reveals several different themes which relate to the comedy festival. The most frequent words related to:

- comedy as an art form, i.e., “laugh”, “joke”, “audience”;
- the physical aspects of staging the show, i.e., “theatre”, “cabaret”, “performance”, “act”, “stand-up”;
- describing the performances and the comedians, i.e., “funny”, “humorous”, “comedic”;

- who had won the various comedy related competitions, i.e., “win”, “won”, “winner”, “competition”.

The use of these words appear to create a light-hearted and fun image of the festival where comedy is regarded as an art form and the comedians who attend the festival are experienced, professional performers skilled in the art of making their audience laugh.

The Photographs and Illustrations

In general, most of the newspaper photographs associated with the MICF appear to depict humour and fun. For a photograph to display aspects of humour and fun one or more of the following techniques were used:

- the comedian is depicted with a humorous expression on their face, e.g., comedian Tim Minchin staring at the camera looking slightly mad (Woodhead, 2006);
- the comedian is behaving in a humorous manner and is doing something funny, e.g., British comedian Phil Kay holding a child's shoe in his mouth (Gallagher, 2006);
- the comedian is shown wearing unusual clothes or an unusual combination of clothing, e.g., Australian comedian Rachel Berger wearing a hard hat and protective work goggles but also wearing very ornate earrings and bright red lipstick (Beck, 2006). The American comedian Pauly Shore wearing a very smart suit but with casual running shoes (Canberra Times, 2006);
- the photograph highlights the juxtaposition between two opposing images, e.g., two outrageously dressed British comedians wearing red leather outfits having coffee outside a city café, chatting with a very dapper and conservatively dressed minister (Rayner, 2006);
- photographs of couples or groups of friends smiling and laughing, dressed-up for a night at the festival. The caption beside the photograph names the individuals and indicates which MICF show they were about to see (Grigg, 2006).

Illustrations were also used in relation to the MICF related articles, namely:

- the comedy festival cartoon logo was often located beside an article in *The Age* relating to the festival which helped draw the reader's eye to the piece;
- cartoon drawings created to illustrate a particular aspect of a comedy related article, e.g., in an article about the difficulties faced by comedians in the comedy industry, a two step cartoon was included in the article. The first image is of audience members laughing and chatting to each other. The next image shows the comedian on stage with the audience turned to him with their arms crossed and serious looks on their faces, waiting to be entertained (Mundell, 2006).

Of the 37 articles from non-Victorian newspapers, there were 29 which featured photographs. Of the 29 photographs, all except one depicted stand-up comics in one of the following types of photographs:

- head and shoulder close up shots of the comedian with humorous looks on the their faces;
- on stage holding a microphone in mid joke; or,
- wider shots of the comedian in an amusing pose, doing something humorous.

The only photograph in the non-Victorian articles which did not depict a comic was a head and shoulder shot of the director of the festival, Susan Provan, in an article relating to the MICF losing money. However, the director is depicted smiling broadly (possibly defiantly) in front of posters of the MICF, perhaps suggesting that despite the losses, she is determined to continue to host the event and aims to ensure it is profitable in the future.

In the education literature, research has been conducted into the use of images in aiding learning and comprehension. Carney and Levin (2004) note that carefully constructed text illustrations generally enhance an individual's learning and comprehension which exceeds the power of text alone. Images are often stored in the long-term memory creating information as a coherent "chunk" or concept (Erdelyi & Stein, 1981) and provoke a range of responses such as imagination and triggering associations which can enhance creative thinking and memory (Buzan, 1990). Given this, the use of images alongside the newspaper articles on aspects of the comedy festival may have created positive images among interstate readers which may encourage them to visit the festival in the future.

Overall, the 29 images of comedians in the non-Victorian papers appear to depict the performers as being confident, interesting and creative but at the same time slightly zany with possibly an alternative view on society. The depiction of a range of comedians creates the image that the MICF is attended by a range of well-known, internationally acclaimed comedians who are very experienced in making audiences laugh and who represent a range of comedic genres such as stand-up,

theatre, cabaret, absurdist, music, visual and children's comedy. There is the impression given that these artists are staging shows which address a range of topics ranging from frivolous observations of the daily minutiae of life to more serious political and social issues. Therefore, potential audience members could find a style of comedy which suits their sense of humour, from slapstick, to the abstract or political.

Concluding Comments

Given the size and popularity of the MICF it received surprisingly little coverage by the non-Victorian newspapers before, during and after the event. As the *Sydney Morning Herald* is the principal sponsor of the Cracker Comedy Festival and the *Daily Telegraph* is the official newspaper of the Big Laugh Comedy Festival, which both run in Sydney in March, there may have been some conflict of interest in relation to how best to cover the Melbourne event. However, there appears to be an opportunity for the MICF organisers to send out more press releases to non-Victorian newspapers to encourage further coverage of the event. Given this, festival management would be well advised to reflect on the press releases and photographs provided to the media to ensure they create the desired festival image among potential interstate tourists.

The content of newspapers is acknowledged as being affected by the social world being reported but this content can also affect the society they are within. The use of appropriate descriptor words, photographs and illustrations in the newspaper festival coverage is an important consideration for festival managers as they may help to evoke images of a lively, exciting and vibrant festival among potential tourists.

The consideration of only the major newspapers in the study may not have revealed the full range of images of the MICF, so future research could consider the non-major newspapers, i.e., the local newspapers, the local free press, the street press, and, *The Pun*, the festival newspaper which is only published during the festival. Adverts and paid promotions were also not included in this analysis and further research could consider their role, along with other types of media, i.e., TV adverts, radio, magazines, and posters.

The research could be repeated to reveal other images created by the print media for other types of festivals and events. For example, Melbourne also hosts the Formula One Grand Prix and the images created by the print media may be more 'macho' and 'loud' than the light-hearted and fun images created of the comedy festival. Future research in this area could also consider the extent to which the media creates a local population of "experts" because of their ongoing coverage of annual events. For example, to what extent have Melbourne residents become connoisseurs of the art of comedy due the festival's high level of coverage in the local media? Similarly, do Melbourne residents more fully understand and appreciate the intricacies of motor racing because of the annual media coverage of the Formula One Grand Prix? Further research in this area could also consider the 20 years of print media coverage of the comedy festival, and other, well established festivals in Melbourne, to determine if the images generated have changed over time, to reflect the growing maturity of the resident population.

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From Backlot to Runaway Production: Exploring Location and Authenticity in Film-Induced Tourism

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Abstract

Films may represent a place, but be made at another. In the early years of film-making, quite elaborate sets were constructed on studio backlots. In recent years, runaway productions have represented the USA while being shot in other countries. The dissonance between film setting and film location raises the question of which is more likely to attract tourists. It also suggests that tourists may have difficulties with authenticity. This paper seeks to examine these issues by taking an historical approach to the changing ways in which location has been used by film-makers over time.

Keywords: Film-induced tourism, authenticity, location

From Backlot to Runaway Production: Exploring Location and Authenticity in Film-Induced Tourism

In 1938 Warner Brothers released *The Adventures of Robin Hood*⁵³. A vehicle for Errol Flynn, it was one of the first films in technicolour and Warner Brothers most expensive film to then. Given the economics of film-making at the time, it needed to be filmed in the USA.⁵⁴ The challenge for its producers was to recreate Sherwood Forest and medieval England in California.

Apart from the Warner Brothers' Studio and nearby ranch, six locations were utilised. The prime location was Bidwell Park in Chico in northern California.⁵⁵ With an extensive number of large trees, particularly oaks, this was chosen to represent Sherwood Forest. To give it the right look its grass was painted a richer shade of green and eucalypts were disguised with fake vines left over from earlier jungle movies. Other scenes were filmed near Hollywood and the San Fernando Valley.

These locations were the Busch Gardens at Pasadena⁵⁶, a golf course, the so-called Sherwood Forest and Sherwood Lake⁵⁷ and the Corrigan Film Ranch.

The story of Robin Hood is derived from five sixteenth century ballads. These place the legendary outlaw in medieval England, specifically in Nottinghamshire and Yorkshire (Holt, 1983). Numerous films, television shows and books also firmly locate Robin Hood there. Accordingly, tourist interest in Robin Hood continues to be focussed on Nottingham and nearby Sherwood Forest (Shackley, 2001). However, Bidwell Park and other Californian locations continued to be marketed to international and domestic tourists as places worth visiting because *The Adventures of Robin Hood* was filmed there (see for example Lyon, Wheeler, Gierlich, Keller and Gottberg, 1996: 300).

Over fifty years later another popular film focussed on a legendary medieval hero. This was *Braveheart* (1995), the story of the Scottish patriot/outlaw William Wallace. The success of the film stimulated tourism to

⁵³ All dates of films are from the Internet Movie Database (IMDB), accessible at www.imdb.com. This database also includes information on locations, though the amount of detail and reliability is variable.

⁵⁴ Indeed, practically all of Hollywood's output was filmed within California. One exception was the filming of *The General* (1927) at Cottage Grove in Oregon. However, it would be over fifty years before another film – *Animal House* (1978) – would be shot there.

⁵⁵ *Gone With the Wind* was also shot there.

⁵⁶ This was a pleasure garden established by one of the co-founders of the Anheuser-Busch Brewing Company. The name remains in two US theme parks which were parodied as Duff Gardens in *The Simpsons*.

⁵⁷ These names appear to have come into existence through their use for an earlier *Robin Hood* (1922). Both names remain in use today for suburban areas.

Scotland, particularly to sites associated with Wallace. Before the film the National Wallace Monument at Stirling was struggling to remain open. With its release, visitor numbers trebled. Indeed, when in 1996 a statue of Wallace was erected at the site, it was modelled on Mel Gibson, who played him in the film (Beeton, 2005: 58-60).

However, most of *Braveheart* was filmed in Ireland. This was due to a combination of factors, including cheaper production costs and the availability of 1,500 soldiers as unpaid extras. Taking advantage of the popularity of the film, County Wicklow developed an 80 kilometre *Braveheart Drive*. This touring route incorporated a number of locations used in the film, plus sites used for other films (Wicklow Film Commission, 2000).⁵⁸

These examples may be described as *locational dissonance*. There is often a variance between the location where a movie was *set* and where it was *filmed*. This raises the question of which will attract tourists?

This is a theme which runs through the growing literature on film-induced tourism. Tooke and Baker (1996) examined how film exposure increases visitor number to locations. While they considered locations which were also settings, they posed an interesting question. Noting that the just-released television series *Sharpe* was set in Napoleonic Spain, but filmed in the Ukraine, they pondered which country would attract potential tourists (1996: 93). Riley, Baker and Van Doren (1998) outlined a number of cases of mistaken identity, including a location which had sued the film-makers for not being specifically listed in the credits. Croy and Walker (2003) introduced the concept of *runaway productions*, where films are set in one country but filmed in another (usually for reasons of cost). Beeton (2005) distinguished between film tourism which was *on-location*, *mistaken identities* and *off-location* (for example film studio tours). Connell (2005) provided a detailed case study of how the television show *Balamory* affected the Scottish town of Tobermory where it was filmed. Frost (2006) reported that films of the life of Ned

Kelly attracted tourists to locations with historical connections to the bushranger, but not to places where the films were shot.

Such discussions suggest that there may be issues of *authenticity* in regards to location. The concept of authenticity first arose with collections in museums and art galleries. Curators needed to ascertain whether new additions were authentic or not.

McCannell (1976) extended the concept of authenticity to the experiences of tourists. He argued that tourists were nostalgic for a simpler past due to 'the modern disruption of real life and the simultaneous emergence of a fascination for the "real life" of others' (1976: 91). In MacCannell's view, tourists were seeking authenticity by being allowed *backstage*, 'a space for outsiders who are permitted to view details of the inner operation of a commercial, domestic, industrial or public institution' (1976: 99). By going behind the scenes they were able to have a more satisfying experience, though of course, they could never truly experience any more than just being tourists (1976: 99-102).

In response Cohen argued that the term was being taken out of its original context concerning museum artefacts (1988: 374-7). In its new application to tourism, he argued, authenticity should not be seen as absolute, but rather as 'negotiable' (1988: 374). Tourists, depending on their level of interest and concern, would have different criteria for authenticity (1988: 376). Furthermore, as authenticity was negotiable, then attitudes might change over time. Cultural heritage which was once regarded as inauthentic, might in time be accepted as authentic. Cohen termed this *emergent authenticity* (1988: 379-80) and linked it to the concept of the *invention of tradition* (Hobsbawm and Ranger, 1983). More recent studies have continued to look beyond the view of authenticity as an absolute concept towards *perceptions of authenticity* by tourists, operators and stakeholders. Examples include studies of Scottish Highland Games in the USA (Chhabra, Healy and Sills, 2003); the American Civil War battlefield at Gettysburg (Chronis, 2005); multiple sites related to the book *Anne of Green Gables* (Fawcett and Cormack, 2001); Gold Rush sites in Australia and New Zealand (Frost, 2005a); Viking heritage in Scandinavia and Britain (Halewood

⁵⁸ Two other drives were developed. These were based on Excalibur (1981) and Michael Collins (1995). The latter takes in Avoca, which is the setting for the television series Ballykissangel.

and Hannam, 2001) and the Rocks in Sydney (Waite, 2000).

It may be that film-induced tourists have highly negotiable attitudes towards the authenticity of the locations used for films. They may be attracted to sites represented (but where filming did not take place), or the attraction might be in where the filming

actually took place (even if it was not what was represented in the film). They may of course be attracted to both. The attitude adopted by tourists may be influenced by their interest in and knowledge of the filmmaking processes and history. In short, they may be interested in the *heritage* of films.

Table 1: Sources for information on film locations

Source	Example
Word of mouth	In Ireland, a local suggested I visit the Wicklow Hills, as it was where <i>Braveheart</i> was filmed
Guide book for destination	Lyon et al, 1996 for California; Holland, 1990 for Lone Pine
Books regarding films	MacHale, 2000
Movie maps/ trails	Wicklow Film Commission, 2000
General destination marketing	References in brochures and websites
Attractions, tours	Lone Pine Film Museum; the Quiet Man Experience
Weblogs (blogs)	Schneider, 2006
Internet Movie Database	Includes details of locations for most films
DVD special features	<i>Once Upon a Time in the West</i> (1968), DVD release (c2000) includes a 'Locations Then and Now' feature

Interest in locations of films may be stimulated by a wide range of sources of such information (see Table 1). The scale and range of such information has greatly expanded in the last ten years or so. This is partly due to changes in information technology, particularly the use of the internet. It is also due to a widespread interest in the 'behind the scenes' of films and movie stars. These sources affect how tourists negotiate the authenticity of locations. Whether or not these sources are perceived as authoritative may influence their effectiveness as guides for potential tourists.

The aim of this paper is to extend this discussion through a detailed examination of how films utilise locations and how that may affect tourism. The approach taken is historical. Such an approach was chosen for two reasons. First, over a hundred years or so of film-making, the use of locations has changed dramatically (and continues to change). A number of different arrangements have developed and each of these have generated particular different types of film-induced tourism. Furthermore, innovations in the use of location have stimulated interest, including tourism flows. Second, there has been a tendency in studies of film-induced tourism to focus on current examples. By taking a long-term historical approach, this

paper demonstrates that the impact on tourism may be quite long-lasting.

Backlots and film ranches

Early in the twentieth century, American film-making shifted from the eastern states to California. Hollywood offered the stability of a Mediterranean climate, with low rainfall, bright sunshine and (for a while) an absence of smog. Studios developed backlots with permanent outdoor sets. With minor changes these could be easily adapted for a wide range of films. A number of studios established film ranches in the San Fernando Valley, a short distance from Hollywood. These included elaborate sets (particularly western towns), stables and grazing for horses and other livestock and large areas of open countryside. In addition to studio-owned ranches a number of independent film ranches developed. Major operations included the Iverson and Corrigan Movie Ranches, both of which were used for several thousand films and television productions (Rothel, 1990). Film-makers would use a number of these ranches to provide scenic variety. For example, *Stagecoach* (1939) started in the town of Tonto, which was represented by a town set at RKO Encino Ranch. The stagecoach then proceeded through three relay stations, which

were all the same set at the Iverson Movie ranch, just shot from different angles. The film concluded with a gunfight in the town of Lordsburg, filmed at the town set on the Republic Studios backlot (Schneider, 2006).

These studios and ranches attracted visitors. In order to avoid distractions for his staff, Walt Disney planned to open a small amusement park themed around his productions. He initially wanted to site it adjacent to his studio, but when refused planning permission, he opted for a larger attraction in undeveloped Orange County to be called Disneyland (Marling, 1997). Universal Studios and Warner Brothers eventually opened studio tours which included backlot sets. Beeton (2005) terms these as 'off-location' experiences for visitors, though in some cases they include still functioning sets.

A number of the movie ranches developed as tourist attractions. In 1937 Corriganville was established as a movie ranch by cowboy stuntman Ray 'Crash' Corrigan. The building of an elaborate set for *Fort Apache* (1948) provided Corrigan with an opportunity to diversify.⁵⁹ In 1949 he opened his ranch to the public as a theme park with a strong emphasis on stunt work. Opened six years before Disneyland, this theme park was highly successful, attracting up to 20,000 visitors on weekends. In 1965 it was purchased by Bob Hope who ran it for a year as Hopetown (Rothel, 1990: 149).

Californian locations

From the earliest days of film, Westerns were one of the few genres which were given freedom of location by studio executives (Dickinson, 1971: 85). Filming on location allowed directors to escape financial and artistic control (McBride, 2003: 102 & 149). There were also advantages of actors and crew enjoying the outdoor life, hunting and fishing and even less wholesome pursuits away from the prying eyes of Hollywood (McBride, 2003: 419; Rothel, 1990: 63 & 69).

Filmmakers sought out Californian locales for Westerns. At Jamestown, near Yosemite, the Sierra Railroad was used for over 150 films and television productions. At Lone Pine, the

arid and rocky Alabama Hills were used as stand-ins for the Himalayas in *Gunga Din* (1939) and a range of other adventure films set in nineteenth century India. As recently as *Gladiator* (2000), the Alabama Hills stood in for Roman Spain. In addition, Lone Pine was used for over 300 Westerns, most made in the 1930s, 1940s and 1950s (Holland, 1990).

In the 1950s most railways were converted from steam to diesel. However, at Jamestown the revenue from film hire convinced the Sierra Railroad to retain its steam train operation. In 1970 the railroad began operations as a privately operated theme park called Railtown 1897. Following financial difficulties the site was purchased by the State of California in 1981 and became a state park. In 1992 the California State Railroad Museum took over operations, though it remained a state park. Movie Railroad Days, including film screenings, recreations and appearances by stuntmen and actors, are held irregularly at the site (Frost, 2005b).

Lone Pine has similarly focussed its tourism development on its filmmaking heritage. An annual Lone Pine Film Festival features films and guest appearances. As with Jamestown there is a strong focus on the behind-the-scenes aspect of filmmaking (Frost, 2005b). Profits from the festival have funded a purpose-built museum. With an exterior modelled on a 1930s art-deco cinema, it opened in 2006.

Other Californian towns were sought out as representing contemporary smalltown America. The motivation of such filmmakers was typically artistic rather than economic. They wanted real towns to provide an authentic edge even if that added to the cost of the picture. For *Gun Crazy* (1949) a bank robbery in a small town was shot without permits or closing off the street. *Out of the Past* (1947) contrasted the wholesome postcard-perfect main street of Bridgeport with the sleaziness of San Francisco. To emphasise the contrast, Bridgeport was shot in bright sunlight, San Francisco at night. Hollister was invaded by a motorcycle gang for *The Wild One* (1953). For *The Birds* (1963) Alfred Hitchcock utilised the coastal town of Bodega Bay. Such towns, perhaps only used for one or two films, continue to be attractive to tourists (see for example the entry on Bodega Bay in Lyon et al, 1996: 376).

⁵⁹ The fort was highly popular with children, being utilised as the set for the television series Rin Tin Tin. Fort Apache was also manufactured as a child's playset.

Beyond California: Other Western Locations

Prior to 1939 most Westerns were low-cost B graders. With stock characters and plots they were cheaply churned out utilising a small number of southern Californian locations. However, with the success of *Stagecoach* and *Dodge City* in 1939, a market arose for A grade Westerns. With bigger budgets, filmmakers sought out more spectacular and exotic locations in other Western states. They were also conscious that the southern Californian locations had been overused. George Stevens had worked on *Gunga Din* at Lone Pine. For *Shane* (1953) he chose the Grand Teton Mountains in Wyoming not only for its spectacular mountain scenery, but also because it had not previously been used in a major film.

The pioneer in this approach was John Ford. For *Stagecoach*, he combined film ranch and backlot sets with footage from Victorville in California's Mojave Desert and Monument Valley in Utah (Schneider, 2006). Though essentially second unit stock footage, these inserts contributed greatly to the success of the film.⁶⁰ For *My Darling Clementine* (1946), Ford shot his reworking of the Gunfight at the OK Corral in Monument Valley. With the success of that film Ford set up a pattern of shooting most of his Westerns in Monument Valley.

The development of new locations was often due to local boosters who could see commercial opportunities in combining film and tourism. Harry Goulding was a landowner who had set up Goulding's Lodge in Monument Valley. When he heard that Ford was looking for a new location for a Western he travelled to Hollywood with a set of photos (McBride, 2003: 288-290; Rothel, 1990: 132-7). Happy Shahan was a rancher in southern Texas. After the local army post closed, he had the same idea as Goulding. His big break came when he secured *The Alamo* (1960). John Wayne had originally decided to make the film in Mexico where he owned land. However, it quickly became apparent he would face a boycott from the Daughters of the Republic and it was politically expedient to make the film in Texas (Rothel, 1990: 13-15).

⁶⁰ The footage at Monument Valley was all in longshot and none of the film's stars were featured in it.

Shahan's standard contract was that he could keep the sets. These could then be hired for other films. The elaborate Alamo set gave him the idea of establishing 'Alamo Village' as a tourist attraction. A similar arrangement led to the development of 'Old Tuscon', now claimed to be Arizona's second most popular tourist attraction behind the Grand Canyon. Built for the film *Arizona* (1940), it was donated to the local county. Rarely used and slowly decaying, it was taken over by Robert Shelton in 1959. Shelton's successful strategy was to run it as both a theme park and as a set for television and occasional films - a 'Cowboyland version of California's Disneyland' (Rothel, 1990: 117).

Locations Move Overseas

Following World War Two Hollywood began making movies in Europe. The War had exposed large numbers of Americans to Europe and they were less likely to accept the artificiality of backlot reproductions. As was occurring domestically, certain filmmakers were searching for realism and new locations to distinguish their films. Orson Welles filmed his *The Third Man* (1949) in war-ravaged Vienna. Numerous war films were shot on location. The D Day Landings were recreated on the actual French beaches for *The Longest Day* (1962). Similarly *The Battle of Britain* (1969) used actual World War Two airfields in Essex, Cambridgeshire and Kent.

The Quiet Man (1952) told the story of an Irish American returning to the Irish village where he was born. It became the template for a host of movies and television series set in idyllic rural communities.⁶¹ Up until this time, it would have been made in a studio in California. However, director John Ford was determined that it be made on location in Ireland and attempted to gain backing for such a project for nearly twenty years. Eventually Republic Pictures, who were keen to recruit directors of Ford's stature, agreed. However, they added two provisos. First, Ford had to

⁶¹ Examples include *Ballykissangel*, *Heartbeat* and *Seachange*. It is surprising that *The Quiet Man* has not been more closely studied by tourism researchers. It is essentially a story of cultural clash between visitor and host community. The Irish village is presented as pre-modern and rustic, there are, for example, no motor vehicles. Having made his money in America, Sean (played by John Wayne) returns. Initiating a bidding war for his family cottage he inflates property values. Rather than potatoes, he plants roses. Unlike the locals, he has no need to work. He is scarcely tolerant of local customs.

sign a three film deal with the first being a highly commercial Western. Second, to reduce costs only half the film could be shot on location, with the other half filmed in the studio (MacHale, 2000: 29-32).

The Quiet Man continues to attract tourists to Galway fifty years after the film was released. A guidebook includes detailed maps of locations (MacHale, 2000). The Quiet Man Cottage Museum opened in 1996. Housed in a replica of the cottage featured in the film it contains photos and artefacts from the film (Quiet Man Cottage Museum, 2006). Guided tours are conducted of the movie's locations (Quiet Man Experience, 2006).

This formula of combining on-location filming with the conventional studio, backlot and Californian locales was utilised for a number of films in the early 1950s. For *The African Queen* (1951) key scenes were shot on location in Uganda and the Congo. This was added to with footage shot at the Iverson Ranch and the Los Angeles County Arboretum and Botanic Gardens. Attempting to go one better (and perhaps conscious of growing sophistication amongst the public), *Mogambo* (1953) was filmed in Uganda, the Congo, Tanzania and Kenya.

As Hollywood broadened its location horizons, the rise of television threatened its foundations. In response studios put greater emphasis on *epics*, which often featured historical themes, lavish costumes, immense battle and crowd scenes and exotic locations. For *Around the World in 80 Days* (1956), a key feature was the use of multiple international locations. Filming took place in France, Spain, Pakistan, Thailand, Hong Kong and Japan. However, to contain costs, this was also supplemented with filming at the Iverson Ranch and Lone Pine.

The most successful usage of multiple international locations came in the James Bond series. The jet-setting spy's adventures spanned the globe. *Dr No* (1962) was filmed in Jamaica and Trinidad. *From Russia With Love* (1963) featured Turkey, though the chase sequences set in Eastern Europe were actually filmed in Scotland. *Thunderball* (1965) was shot in France, Florida and the Bahamas and *You Only Live Twice* (1967) in Japan. *The Man With the Golden Gun* (1974) was shot in Thailand. It featured a spectacular rocky outcrop near Phuket which was then renamed

'James Bond Island' to cash in on the publicity generated by the film. The Bond of the 1960s and 1970s provided a provocative model for tourists and this was perhaps part of his appeal. The films were set in exotic locations which were just starting to become accessible to mass tourists. The hero (often posing as a tourist) engaged in a range of pursuits which have become associated with *sunlusters*. These included skiing, scuba-diving, sunbathing, and promiscuous sex.

Battlefield Locations

Movie battles were rarely filmed at the locations where they took place. Amongst the few exceptions were the recent Civil War productions: *Gettysburg* (1993) and *Gods and Generals* (2003). Both were able to use the actual battlefields which were now preserved as national monuments. Publicity for these films emphasised how this contributed to their authenticity.⁶²

However, in most cases the actual battlefields were unavailable, often highly modified by modern developments. Filmmakers were also attracted elsewhere by cheap rents, undeveloped vistas, sets left over from other movies, historic buildings (especially castles) and a pool of cheap extras. For *The Vikings* (1958), Kirk Douglas was able to film the impressive Scandinavian scenes in Norway. According to Halewood and Hannam, this was a key film in fixing the image of the Vikings in popular consciousness (2001: 566).⁶³ However, for the attacks on an English castle, Douglas was only able to secure an appropriate location in France. For *Spartacus* (1960), lower costs and government assistance convinced Douglas to film the battle scenes in Spain rather than Italy.

Similar considerations led to *Lawrence of Arabia* (1962) being filmed in Spain and Morocco. Filming *Waterloo* (1970) was also a push-pull scenario. The actual battlefield was too developed to be used and the Soviet Union offered incentives to attract the filmmakers. Accordingly it was shot in Ukraine. As noted earlier, the availability of soldiers as unpaid extras was part of the reason *Braveheart* was

⁶² Both were also able to utilise thousands of Civil War re-enactment enthusiasts. Serving as extras, they brought their own uniforms and weapons.

⁶³ Their argument was that this was an inauthentic overly bloodthirsty image at odds with the identity within Scandinavia.

filmed in Ireland. Whereas *The Longest Day* (1962) was filmed on the actual D Day beaches, modern developments convinced the makers of *Saving Private Ryan* (1998) to recreate the landings in Ireland.

Runaway Productions

In recent years high costs in the USA have encouraged filmmakers to look to other countries as locations. Generally the incentive is lower wage costs, but lower location fees and the availability of government subsidies also contribute. Such strategies are not new, as noted above there is a long history of location choices being based on cost. However, what distinguishes *runaway productions* is the effort in presenting the film so it looks like it was made in the USA.

As noted earlier, John Wayne initially planned to reduce costs by filming *The Alamo* in Mexico. Two later Wayne Westerns were filmed in Durango, some 500 kilometres south of the border. These were *Chisum* (1970), which was set in New Mexico and *Cahill, US Marshall* (1973). Sam Peckinpah used Durango for *Major Dundee* (1965) and *The Wild Bunch* (1969), though both of these were set in Mexico. However, Peckinpah also shot *Pat Garrett and Billy the Kid* (1973) in Durango, even though, like *Chisum*, it dealt with Billy the Kid in New Mexico.

Western Canada, particularly Alberta, has now become the preferred location for Westerns. *Unforgiven* (1992) was mainly shot in Canada, the exception being that railway scenes were filmed at Jamestown. *Shanghai Noon* (2000) was entirely shot in Canada, including its steam train sequences, even though it was specifically set in Nevada. Similarly, *Open Range* (2003) was filmed in Canada. In all three cases, high production values and the presence of big name stars (Clint Eastwood, Jackie Chan, Kevin Costner) meant that most viewers thought they were watching films shot in the USA.

This was perhaps not the case with Jackie Chan's *Rumble in the Bronx* (1995). Set in New York, it was actually filmed in Vancouver, Canada, as illustrated by city skylines with snow-capped mountains nearby. In this case the film was originally set in Vancouver, but the US distributors wanted a well-known American location in the title.

Australia provided an early example of a runaway production in *The Pirate Movie* (1982). Following the success of a Broadway revival of Gilbert and Sullivan's *The Pirates of Penzance*, it was announced that a film version would be produced. To cash in on this publicity, *The Pirate Movie* was quickly made with minor American leads and released in cinemas a year before the major US production.

The development of Fox Studios in Sydney provided the impetus for more sophisticated runaway productions. *The Matrix* (1999) skilfully used Sydney locations to create an impression of a generic American city.⁶⁴ For *Superman Returns* (2006) a Kansas farm, complete with barn and cornfield was created at Breeza in country NSW (Guerrera, 2006). Similarly a mid-western farm set was built near Melbourne for *Charlotte's Web* (2006).

New Zealand has been the location for runaway productions such as *Vertical Limit* (2000), which was set in the Himalayas and *The Last Samurai* (2003), which was set in Japan. More importantly, New Zealand has become strongly linked with *The Lord of the Rings* (2001, 2002 & 2003) (Croy and Walker, 2003; Jones and Smith, 2005). However, this is not a runaway production. Middle Earth is an imaginary rather than a real place. Director Peter Jackson is firmly identified as a New Zealander and *Lord of the Rings* as a New Zealand production. The film promotes pride in a New Zealand identity (Jones and Smith, 2005).

Conclusion

The economics and logistics of film-making has meant that most films are not shot where they are set. Prior to World War Two it was very rare to see a film made at the location represented. Since then, film-makers have been more inclined to film on authentic locations, though in many cases they have used a mix of locations and studios. Indeed, in recent years there has been a move towards films in cheaper locations which can be disguised to provide an impression of other settings.

However, for tourists, their motivation is the visiting and experiencing of what has been projected on the screen. Even if this setting is

⁶⁴ The addresses of these buildings are given in the IMDB.

represented by a studio interior, backlot or location in another country, it is that projected image which attracts tourists. Nonetheless, locations where films are shot (but not set) may attract tourists in some circumstances. There are five scenarios where tourists may possibly be interested in visiting film locations rather than settings. First, where a film's setting is vaguely general (for example, the Wild West) or invented (Middle Earth). Second, where a critical mass of films have been made at a location. Third, in cases of special distinction, such as cult films or stars or an intriguing back-story to the production of the film. In these instances it may be the celebrities or the process of film-making which is of interest rather than the story. Fourth, where there is a strikingly memorable shot or scene, particularly if remnants of buildings, sets or scenery remain. Fifth, where there is sufficient marketing of that location, a tour or a visitor attraction. It is important to understand that film-induced tourism rarely just happens. Rather it needs to be developed, promoted and managed if it is to have any long-term impact.

A final consideration is that good, provocative, interesting films connect to people and may stimulate flows of tourists. These flows will be strongest to where the films are set. There may be another flow to where the film was made, but it is likely to be a significantly lesser flow. This is well illustrated by the two films used to introduce this article. *The Adventures of Robin Hood* excites interest in medieval England. Tourists are likely to realise their interest through visiting Nottingham and Sherwood Forest. Accordingly they have a long history of being popular tourist destinations. The places in California where the film was shot might attract visitors, but they will be fewer. Similarly, *Braveheart* represents Scottish history and has stimulated tourism to Scotland. It also draws tourists to where it was filmed in Ireland, but this is only a secondary flow.

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Understanding Popular Media Production and Potential Tourist Consumption: A Methodological Agenda

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Abstract

Research on the tourism implications of television-induced tourism generally remains limited, with no single agreed approach to its study. In particular, there are methodological difficulties in understanding this phenomenon and a subsequent lack of empirical research into the relationships between films and TV programmes and tourism. Furthermore, there has been limited attention to the underlying mechanisms and structures in the relationships between the production and consumption of films or TV programmes, audiences and potential tourists, particularly in non-Western contexts.

Considering these limitations in this subject, the paper aims to provide insights into the complicated inter-communication processes between TV programmes from the production side and audiences/tourists as consumers. Based on a triangulated approach, this paper delineates an empirical study to investigate theoretical positions and research methodologies that may be used to explore the production end of popular TV programming and the ways in which particular production values may appeal to tourists in diverse settings. Based on a case study of the 'Hallyu' phenomenon, five major elements of the production of popular TV dramas are proposed by this paper and verified by the interviews with professional producers. Quantitative research supports examining causal relationships between the highlighted major elements of TV drama production and patterns of consumption associated with audience involvement, its sequential loyalty, and destination choice in the context of Hallyu drama tourism.

This paper will, therefore, draw attention to uniquely transnational and interdisciplinary approach which will enable the researcher to develop new ideas and perspectives on the relationship and mediation between production and consumption of popular texts and associated tourism.

Keywords: Audience involvement, elements of TV drama production, Hallyu, Television-induced tourism

Introduction

A phenomenon in the tourism arena has been linked to the fact that a series of visits to film tourism sites around the world has confirmed the power of popular films and television programmes in stimulating tourism demand in filmed destinations (Beeton, 2001, 2005; Busby and Klug, 2001; Connell, 2004, 2005; Kim and Richardson, 2003; Mintel, 2003; Riley and Van Doren, 1992; Riley, Baker, and Van Doren, 1998; Schofield, 1006; Tooke and Baker, 1996). This recently defined tourism is considered to be an extension of virtuality and imaginably experiencing depicted places 'through the screen' into actual experiences through the tourist gaze (Urry, 1990). Much of the recent research in film-induced tourism has mainly focused on several different

perspectives. These include the visitation increases at locations of selected films and television programmes (Riley and Van Doren, 1992; Riley et al., 1998; Tooke and Baker, 1996), the effects of filmed output on destination image (Kim and Richardson, 2003), the impacts of film tourism on host communities (Beeton, 2001; Connell, 2004, 2005), and the motivations of the film tourists (Macionis, 2004; Singh and Best, 2004).

Popular television programmes are internationally produced, distributed and viewed. Much leisure time is centred on the home with television viewing as a popular pastime. In addition, this pattern of leisure activity has been enhanced by the increasing reach of satellite and cable television subscriptions and the ongoing development of

digital technology encouraging and extending this demand (Schofield, 1996). Therefore, popular entertainment television programmes such as 'soap operas' bring places, both remote and distant and more familiar, and the lives of the characters depicted into the homes of millions of people worldwide. Much popular cultural media output is packaged, and dramatically enacted on television through long running soap opera series. Moreover, it may be suggested that information about places and peoples, styles and fashions, and even audience emotions and preferences may be influenced and constructed in the consumption of such television programmes.

However, research on the tourism implications of screen tourism, remains limited, particularly research that examines tourism associated with popular television programmes such as soap operas rather than films and movies. Also, there has been a dearth of research into non-Western settings where the output is not in the English language due to the dominant flow of English-oriented media productions in the world. Furthermore, there has been much less attention paid to empirical studies on the underlying mechanisms and structures in the relationships between production and consumption of popular television programmes through analysis of the major elements/attributes of these media texts and the ways in which these may appeal to audiences. Under these circumstances, there are a number of possible approaches to the subject that remain unexplored in the Tourism field. As a consequence, television-induced tourism has not yet been adequately contextualized within academic study. In particular, there remain some methodological difficulties in its measurement and a subsequent lack of empirical research into the impact of the media texts on tourism (Beeton, 2001; Busby and Klug, 2001). Qualitative approaches to researching production dimensions and audience involvement in popular TV media texts have also been lacking in film tourism studies.

The purpose of this paper, therefore, is to investigate theoretical positions and research methodologies that may be used to explore the production end of popular television drama series and the ways in which particular production values may appeal to audiences in diverse settings. In particular, the paper will

identify some major elements of popular television drama series that are viewed transnationally from the viewpoints of expert professional producers. The paper will also consider the design and application of a survey approach in exploring how audiences/tourists identify with particular production values of a popular television drama. It is proposed that the methodological approach outlined here will provide new ways of understanding popular television induced tourism.

Production Values of Popular Media Texts (PMTs)

Hall (1997) suggests that there is a vital group of people who are essential to the production of television dramas, for without them there is no understanding or completion of the circuit of popular media texts (PMTs)' production. Due to the different and specialist roles of each professional producer and the diverse readings of audience groups participating in the construction of complex intercommunication processes with PMTs do not necessarily communicate in the same technical language. In this respect, Hall (1980) postulates that the intended meaning of a message at the time of production does not necessarily result in interpretations of the same meaning at the time of consumption by audiences. If the audience is indeed attracted by a particular media text, it is however possible to say that a range of similar meanings and values has been successfully communicated among the groups. These meanings and values systematically devised by production personnel are considered as a coupling device for producers, directors, writers, and audiences with those involved in the production side. Thus, the production values as a common language between production and consumption refer to attractive elements or factors associated with the popular appeal of a particular media text.

Nevertheless, media studies have tended to focus mainly on audience reception studies (Jensen and Rosengren, 1990; Pietila, 1994; Schroder, 1987). In particular, many researchers have contributed to our understanding of the reception end, especially the concept of 'dynamics of audience' or 'active audience' in the context of transnational media consumption spheres (Biltereyst, 1991; Collins, 1986; Fejes, 1981; Katz and Liebes, 1990; Liebes and Katz, 1990;

Sepstrup, 1989; Tracey, 1985). Little academic attention, if any, has been paid to synthetically analyse structures and elements of production of popular television programmes such as soap operas and in this context their relationship with tourism.

Despite the apparent lack of literature on this area, some of the prior research has suggested a list of elements of production from soap operas to dramas to motion-pictures. Hobson (2003) provides a list of vital elements which are common to all the television series within the production of soap operas. The list includes producer, actors, costume and make up, cliffhangers (the ending of each discrete episode), locations or sets, music, opening titles, press, plot resolutions, topicality, and writers. Carroll (1996) proposes seven distinctive elements of film in his work 'Theorizing the moving image'. These are; cinematic images, narrative, dialogue, music, suspense, point-of-view editing and variable framing, and actions. Hatcher (1996) specifies six key elements of drama including action or plot, characters, thoughts or ideas, verbal expressions, music, and spectacle. Although they use slightly different terms, they each offer a list of important elements of production from the viewpoints of production personnel.

Unlike these production-oriented studies, much film-induced tourism studies focus on the types of attractive cinematic elements of film from a consumption side. Typically, these emphasise spectacular 'natural scenery' as the main attraction of production values. It is suggested here that storyline themes, exciting sequences, popular movie stars and characters, visual and sound technology effects, and the cinematic penchant for picture perfect settings may also bring unique impacts on audiences' memories and virtual experiences of destinations and in turn their visitation to the film locations (Riley et al., 1998). Nevertheless, these have been neglected in the film tourism literature. Thus, it

is argued that what is popular and compelling about screened outputs for audiences and potential tourists is more complex than just a focus on 'natural scenery'.

Hobson (2003), Carroll (1996) and Hatcher (1996) each present a different list of the elements of production and production values of PMTs. These elements have generally been overlooked in the film tourism literature. For example, studies in film-induced tourism do not take into account producers, press commentators and critics, and writers as important elements in the production of media texts. In contrast, Hobson (2003) rightly emphasized that these production personnel are crucial elements in the making and success or otherwise of any particular programme. However, audiences may only consider the surface, visible elements as shown on screen. They may not be directly aware of the work of production personnel, but these are essential when combined in the screening of any programme. However, a number of comparable elements are mentioned by Hobson, Carroll and Hatcher and these may be considered to fall within several categories. For instance, cinematic images, variable framing, and point of view editing (Carroll, 1996), and spectacle (Hatcher, 1996) come under a 'visual technology' category as shown in Table 1.

In film tourism studies, Riley and Van Doren (1992) do consider visual technological effects, but this is a rare focus in film tourism studies and there has been little attention to the other elements shown in Table 1. This paper takes two different approaches to PMTs (media studies on production and audience/tourist perspectives on consumption). It is proposed that five major elements as production values are adopted for this study: narrative and storyline, location, celebrities and characters, visual technology, and music (see Table 1).

Table 1: Attractive Elements of Production of Popular Media Texts

Major Attractive Elements	Items	Authors
Narrative and Storyline	• Narration / Narrative	Carroll (1996)
	• Suspense	
	• Action or plot	Hatcher (1996)
	• Cliffhangers	Hobson (2003)
	• Resolutions – a never ending form	
	• Topicality	
	• Storyline themes	Riley and Van Doren (1992)
Location	• Exciting sequences	Riley et al. (1998)
	• Locations, sets and the semiotics of dramatic space	Hobson (2003)
	• Film Settings (mainly natural scenery attractions)	Riley and Van Doren (1992)
Celebrities and Characters	• Location's physical features	Riley et al. (1998)
	• Characters	Hatcher (1996)
	• Actors and Actresses	Hobson (2003)
	• Famous actors	Riley and Van Doren (1992)
Visual Technology	• Movie stars or favourite performers	Riley et al. (1998)
	• Cinematic images (camera movement or angulation)	Carroll (1996)
	• Variable framing	
	• Point-of-view editing	
	• Spectacle (Visual Attractions)	Hatcher (1996)
	• Special technological effects	Riley and Van Doren (1992)
Music	• Picture perfect camera angles	Riley et al. (1998)
	• Music	Carroll (1996)
	• Music or Song	Hatcher (1996)
	• Music – the Siren Call to View	Hobson (2003)
	• Special effects (sound)	Riley et al. (1998)

Narrative and Storyline

Robinson (2002) suggests that stories, through their simulation of life's experiences and through their rhythmic ordering, provide us with pleasure, and that pleasure is a desirable state. By relating the characters, stories and emotions to what is currently relevant in the world as it is represented, stories strongly allow viewers to have a far greater involvement into a part of the lives and actions of characters they see. The storylines, therefore, may allow audiences to feel that they are participating in a real story which is happening just next to them. Once the audience understands what is happening, it may feel like a real participant in the story, empathizing with the characters, and caring about what happens to them (Creeber, 2001; Kincaid, 2002; Hobson, 2003). In this regard, Kincaid (2002) argues that a good story is balanced between

two equally plausible outcomes: what the audience hopes will happen and what it fears might happen.

Especially, television drama series including soap operas in which the personal and domestic narrative is frequently the central part of storylines; dramatizes personal life as if it was privileged at the expense of questions of power, politics, economics, social structure, religion, science or ethics (Creeber, 2001). Similarly, Carroll suggests that soap opera is inherent with its own web of personal crises compounded of "marital infidelity, sudden sickness, accidents, bankruptcy, business scams, family estrangement, abortions, job problems, love affairs, illegitimate children, envy, intrigue, betrayal, and all manner of interpersonal entanglement" (1996: 118). It is therefore perceived that these typical storyline themes touch common interests and

experiences which anyone can identify with in his or her everyday life.

In the case of film-induced tourism, it has been acknowledged that vicarious involvement and identification with locations through movie storylines which allow greater personal meaning to the beholders of the gaze would enhance the locations' images (Riley et al., 1998). This suggests that tourists may want to experience at least part of what was depicted in the film as opposed to merely gazing at the site/sight (Tooke and Baker, 1996). In other words, it would be either by retrospectively what they emotionally and cognitively interacted with the story and characters of a programme or by simply confirming an icon which was very distinctively portrayed in a programme. Thus, a story creates a contextual package in which attractions and experiences which tourists anticipate can be grounded. However, analysis of narrative and storyline has been relatively neglected in the film tourism literature.

Location

As Riley and Van Doren (1992) suggests that the key for the construction of a favourable destination impression appears to a formula of idyllic or extraordinary landscape qualities, spectacular scenery or unique physical splendour of landscapes are immediately identifiable and attractive to a viewer. Therefore, the early studies in film-induced tourism has demonstrated that natural scenery was initially thought as the main attraction through the screen and motivational pull factor which successfully transform film locations to specific tourist destination (Riley and Van Doren, 1992; Riley et al., 1998; Tooke and Baker, 1996). For example, the following films are set in wild environments being proud of their own unique backdrop to action and portrayal of uncomplicated indigenous lifestyles: *Crocodile Dundee* in Australia, *The Beach* in Thailand, and *Lord of the Rings* in New Zealand, respectively.

However, it is proposed that natural scenery is not the only that attracts visitors to the specific places they have seen in movies. Riley et al. (1998) particularly use the term "icon" which viewers attach to a locations shown in the movie, if some part of a movie is distinctive, extraordinary or captivating. As a result, icons, abstract or tangible, become the focal point for

visitation and the associated location is tangible evidence of the icon. Examples include the front door of the house in the movie *Notting Hill* had to be repainted after a swarm of tourists whom wanted to take pictures of. Harry Potter's brick wall Platform 5 ½ at the St. Pancras Station, London actually was signposted at the station after the success of the film. In this regard, Davin (2005) suggests that mediated reality has become so omnipresent that some tourist sites provide their guests with a mediated version of their attractions in parallel to the real ones.

From the viewpoint of the production side, location has been also of vital importance in production of films and soap operas, because they not only create the physical space in which the programme takes place but also presents the dramatic realism of the production (Hobson, 2003). Therefore, the penchant for producers tends to use 'undiscovered' and 'authentic' locations which reasonably deliver to audiences the most appropriate messages associated with themes, storylines and emotions as intended by production personnel.

Celebrities and Characters

In a world fascinated with fame, personality and fortune, the power of celebrity has been recognised in research on advertising and celebrity endorsement (Friedman and Friedman, 1979; Kamins, 1989; Levin, 1988; McCracken, 1989) and on the market performance of motion-pictures (Desai and Basuroy, 2005; Levin, Levin, and Heath, 1997; Litman and Kohl, 1989; Sochay, 1994; Wallace, Seigerman, and Holbrook, 1993). Regarding celebrity endorsements, Friedman and Friedman (1979) stress that the use of a celebrity endorser would lead to higher credibility, a more favourable evaluation of the product and advertisement, and a significantly higher intention to purchase the product. Analogously, in the context of the performance of motion-pictures featuring highly attractive and popular star(s) in a movie is likely to make consumers expect a highly entertaining and high-quality film (Desai and Basuroy, 2005).

Consistent with this argument, Levin et al. (1997) showed in an experimental study that a movie was more attractive when associated with well-known stars than with lesser-known actors. Sochay (1994) revealed that the presence of stars in a movie had a significant

effect on film revenues. In contrast, Hobson (2003) suggests that in British soap operas, celebrities have not always been positioned in the highest consideration by critics and producers, even though they are by audiences. Rather, it is emphasized that the characters are the key to why audiences watch the programmes. Although it is problematic and unclear whether featuring more attractive celebrities generally guarantees the success of a movie or a product, it is not unreasonable to presume that celebrities have the pulling power of attracting audiences. Therefore, some of the prior research on movies and celebrity endorsement has treated celebrities as an individual known to the public for his or her achievements in areas who has a 'high recognition' and 'high-quality brands'.

In the context of tourism studies, many tourists have themselves been filmed walking across Abbey Road which is featured on a 'Beatles' album cover. The fascination of tourists in the names of stars embedded in Hollywood Boulevard also has become spiritual repository of the celebrity (Beeton, 2005). Robinson (2002) states that people seek to distinguish between celebrities and 'the rest', and develop further interest in glimpses, revelation, exposure, and scandal associated with celebrities, and even sometimes pilgrimage to visit and gaze upon celebrity's homes and various sites linked with them. Recently, Kim, Hyun, Hong and Oh (2006) show empirically that celebrity as the new determinant influence destination image formation and selection of tourist destination.

As important as celebrities appealing to audiences, characters they portray are a key element of production values. The characters are not only regarded as a medium of delivering the stories to audience, but also are expected as being capable of surprise and of giving the illusion that they could exist in real life. In addition, they must be able to elicit assurance, recognition and considerable commitment from the viewers. Thus, their stories are our stories and what happens in their lives must have a resonance in our lives, so that the audience is willing to embrace the drama of the soap opera. (Hobson, 2003)

It is however obvious that celebrities and characters are different in several aspects. For instance, a difference between celebrities and

characters might be that the life of major characters technically ends at the end of the last episode in a particular television drama, while celebrities do not. In short, watching the last episode of a drama means watching the death of the characters in a short time, although some characters still remain in the mind of some audiences afterwards. In contrast, celebrities remain as possessing celebrity status in the mind of audiences although some celebrities have been recognized as particular characters in dramas if they were a long-running series. Despite these notions, again, celebrity and character has been lacking as areas of attention in film-tourism studies.

Visual Technology

Visual technology, as non-human narrative devices involving computer, cameras and recoding equipment, can emphasize some areas and de-emphasize others in a drama, in order to bring the energies of the pictorial elements into a balanced, yet dynamic interplay. Its most important aspect is to function by serving as the 'point of view' that shapes an audience's perspective by means of selectivity, order, and the arrangement of details. Thus, electronic mediation guides the audience attention to what is important, thus enabling a meaningful interpretation of the dramatic events (Stern, 1994). In other words, the visual devices in the production of PMTs are described in terms of the type of clarity they afford the audience, and of how they enable the audience to see all that is relevant for them to see at the appropriate distance and in the appropriate sequence (Carroll, 1996).

Not only is enhanced audience's temporal and spatial perspective, but visual technology may also support verbal and visual interpolation with the capacity to move around chronologically and geographically. Therefore, an integral combination between other textual elements and visual technology may produce synergy to make a better programme (Burch, 2002). Moreover, through picture perfect camera angles, visual technology provides more real-like experiential perspectives than original settings - the so-called 'reality enhancement', including sensory pleasures, daydreams, aesthetic enjoyment and emotional responses. In this regard, Couldry suggests that television series and their locations are

examples of Baudrillard's theory of 'hyperreality' in the sense that 'hyperreality' refers to "simulacra in which model and reality are confused in a world where access to unmediated reality is impossible" (1998: 95). As a consequence, this visually and technically specified communication would evoke a steady flow of fantasies, feelings and fun and in turn it would produce a new post-modern tourism experience on the screen.

Music

The presence of musical soundtrack throughout dramas and cinema films is a crucial element as an integral part of the programmes as well as a major part of the dramatic ambience. Aaron Copland cited in Carroll (1996: 139) suggests five broad functions that music can perform in relation to movies: creating atmosphere; underlining the psychological states of characters; providing neutral background filler; building a sense of continuity; sustaining tension and then rounding it off with a sense of closure. In a similar vein, Zettl posits that the three functions of television sound are, "to supply essential or additional information, to establish mood and aesthetic energy, and to supplement the rhythmic structure of the screen event" (1973: 330). Along with the visual, narrative, and dramatic means already in the movie, the music therefore may attribute an added yet powerful augmented means of expression to the existing visual images and imagery which intensifies the impact of music by particularizing its affective resonance.

In this way, music generates an emotional content to suit any episodes which ends on a particular poignant incident or mood linked to a visual image on the screen. In accordance with this notion, Carroll demonstrated music "just as adjectives and adverbs characterize, modify and enrich the nouns and verbs to which they are attached, music serves to add further characterization to the scenes it embellishes" (1996: 141). In addition, Hobson expressed that "the music is the siren call to view to the audience and has to be recognizable from outside the room where the television set is located as it heralds the beginning of the programme and calls the viewers into the room to watch" (2003: 71).

Regarding these two different concepts about music on screen, the former attempted to

understand the meaning of music in terms of its structural and functional uses from aesthetic perspectives. However, the latter rather understood music as a mechanism that was devised to provide audiences a familiarity with a powerful aural representation and expression in order to remind audiences of what this music is attached to.

No matter which approach is adopted to better understand the significant contribution of music on the production of PMTs, it is acknowledged that the addition of music, on the one hand, gives filmmakers an especially direct and immediate means for assuring that the audience is matching their intended expressive quality with the action at hand, thereby supplying a continuous channel of information about the emotional significance of the action. On the other hand, audiences would be actively involved in creating a better quality of imagery and imagination associated with this emotive expressivity of the scene coming from visual representation and the considerable assistance of music.

Audience Involvement in Media

Production and Consumption Practices

Audience involvement has been regarded as an important aspect of media uses and effects and as a characteristic of audiences that purposefully seek the media to fulfil certain expectations and needs in media and communication studies. Involvement is therefore a motivated state of expectation and of felt importance of messages (Greenwald and Leavitt, 1984), an active psychological participation in media content processing (Rubin and Perse, 1987a), an individual's direct personal experience during message reception (Rubin and Perse, 1987b), and the level of personal relevance perceived in a media message (Perse, 1990). In this regard, Levy and Windahl suggest that involvement has two meanings: involvement is "first, the degree to which an audience member perceives a connection between him or herself and mass media content; and, second, the degree to which the individual interacts psychologically with a medium or its messages" (1985: 112). Later, Sood refines that audience involvement is "the degree to which audience members engage in reflection upon, and parasocial interaction with, certain media programmes,

thus resulting in overt behaviour change” (2002: 156).

On the basis of this concept of audience involvement, much media studies have considered the concept of audience involvement as the core value of audience activity (Levy and Windahl, 1984; 1985; Liebes and Katz, 1986; Perse and Rubin, 1988; Perse 1990; Sood, 2002; Bae and Lee, 2004). Some of empirical research has shown that audience involvement influences the gratifications that people receive from media consumption (Levy and Windahl, 1984), subsequent planned media exposure (Rubin and Perse, 1987b), and levels of soap opera satisfaction (Perse and Rubin, 1988). Also, Levy and Windahl (1984) found that stronger news-viewing motivation was associated with higher levels of selectivity, involvement, and utility before and after news exposure. Perse (1990) noted that different types of motives were linked to different types of audience involvement activity. Accordingly, more positive and productive audience involvement occurs, resulting in more positive attitudes (preference and satisfaction) and behaviours towards media output.

Likewise, it is suggested that involvement and identification with film locations through storylines permit audiences to identify themselves with the film characters in PMTs such as films or soap operas. In particular, bipolar major features of soap opera series: ‘intimacy’ and ‘continuity’ or ‘serialisation’, engender a deeper degree of audience involvement, a sense of gradually becoming identifiable, empathetic and discursive to a mass audience (Newcomb, 1974; Valaskivi, 2000). From the consumption aspect, often, those exposed to drama completely immerse themselves the situation, albeit artificial, and react to the actors as if they were real persons in their immediate environment. On the one hand, understanding the characters and having empathy with them is the way the audience connects with media content, and audience involvement, on the other hand, is the way by which producers intend audiences to communicate with texts throughout the series. Despite the features of very personal experience and traits, audience involvement as a mediator of production and consumption on PMTs would not only account for a major

consideration for production team, but also stand for individual’s personal yet proactive participatory involvement from the consumption end.

Consistent with this argument, a range of similar terms and approaches has been suggested in previous studies on tourism and television drama series: Vicarious involvement/experience (Riley and Van Doren, 1992; Riley et al., 1998); empathic involvement and emotional experience (Kim and Richardson, 2003); audience involvement (Creeber, 2002). To a great extent, these terms are similar to each other and assist in devising a theoretical framework for a better understanding of what role audience involvement plays in the attractiveness of film or television dramas. However, its application to the tourism sphere –in particular film-induced tourism – has gone virtually ignored. Yet, Kim and Richardson (2003) investigated the first study to examine the influence of ‘empathic involvement’ with film characters on destination image changes. Nonetheless, it is difficult to find any evidence that empathic involvement is the main driver for viewers to change their perceptions of locations depicted in films, because it is proposed that the construct of vicarious experience or the construct of audience involvement is not as closely tied to empathic involvement as has been suggested in the marketing literature.

Conceptual Framework

Having found that the limited empirical studies on television-induced tourism has lacked a theoretical framework, this paper has borrowed and modified several concepts and their components both from media and communication studies and tourism studies. Figure 1 shows that the conceptual framework of this paper comprises three main theoretical concepts relevant to the evolving process of TV drama series production and potential tourist consumption. These three concepts include major elements of production in popular media texts (Carroll, 1996; Hatcher, 1996; Hobson, 2003; Riley et al., 1998), audience involvement and loyalty (Levy and Windahl, 1984; 1985; Liebes and Katz, 1986; Perse and Rubin, 1988; Perse 1990; Sood, 2002; Bae and Lee, 2004), and destination choice (behavioural intention).

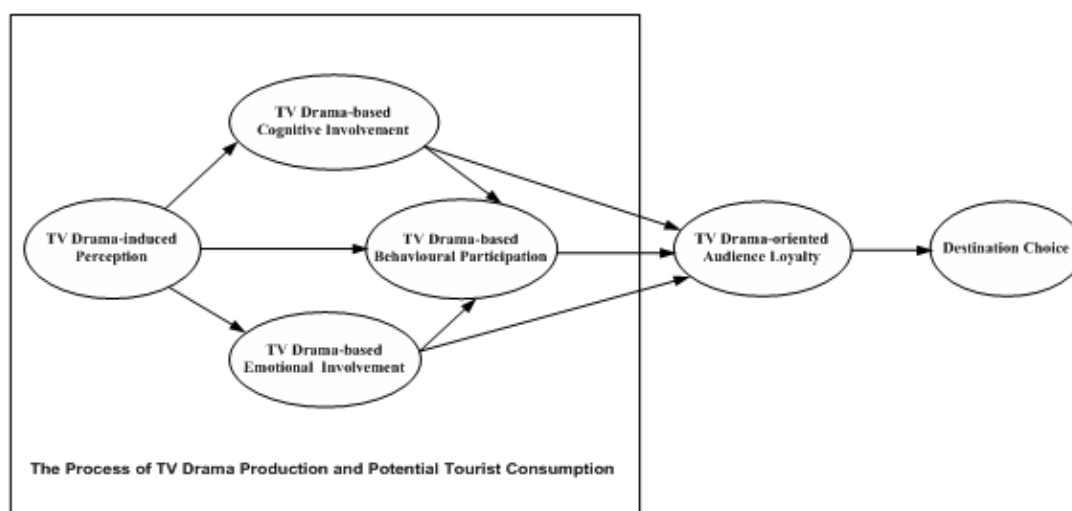


Figure 1: The Relationships between Production and Consumption of PMTs and Destination Choice

1. TV Drama-induced Perception (TVDiP)

perceptions about a particular TV drama series in terms of the main elements of production of the television drama. It therefore combines production and consumption considerations. TVDiP is assessed on a set of attributes that correspond to the main elements and attractions that a television drama series has at its disposal. The proposed elements include music, visual technology, celebrity, characters, storyline, and locations which have been suggested and discussed earlier (see Table 1). The concept of TVDiP has been modified by the inclusion of a cognitive component from the destination image literature. However, the difference is that TVDiP includes production values, while cognitive image theory refers to a set of attributes that correspond to consumer perceptions of the general resources and tangible qualities of a place in a tourism context.

2. TV Drama-based Audience Involvement and Loyalty

As audience involvement has been considered to be an important value in the process of production and consumption of PMTs as TVDiP, the concept of audience involvement and subsequent loyalty (behavioural and attitudinal dimensions) has been adopted and located at the centre of the conceptual

TV drama-induced perception (TVDiP), on the left-hand side of the framework, is defined as an audience's general evaluations and framework. According to the typology of audience involvement suggested by Sood (2002), this paper suggests that audience involvement divides into TV drama-based cognitive involvement (TVDbCI), TV drama-based emotional involvement (TVDbEI), and TV drama-based behavioural participation (TVDbBP).

By definition, TVDbCI refers to the degree to which audiences cognitively pay attention to particular characters or other distinctive characteristics of a particular television drama and think about its educational / informational content once a programme is over.

TVDbEI is defined as the degree to which audience members emotionally and affectively identify with the major elements of the television drama.

TVDbBP refers to the degree to which individuals talk to, or about, media characters and rearrange their schedules to make time for exposure to the television drama.

The level of cognitive involvement (TVDbCI), emotional involvement (TVDbEI), and behavioural involvement (TVDbBP) in consuming television drama series represents how intensively and interactively audiences experience TVDiP (TV drama-induced perception) in different ways. Based on the

conceptual and empirical support from the literature, it would therefore be inferred that the greater degree of each dimension of audience involvement with major elements of television drama directly or indirectly affects the overall image of the programme and audience attitudes toward the programme. Therefore, the right-hand side of the framework suggests a newly defined variable named as TV drama-oriented loyalty (TVDoL), which is as an holistic concept to measure audience preferences based on (1)overall image of the programme, (2)post-viewing satisfaction, (3)willingness to recommend it to others, and (4)intention to buy commodities such as DVD, CD, books etc. Again, it is assumed that TVDoL functions as a mediator influencing audience's willingness to visit the location and tourist's behaviour after visit.

Indeed, this paper specifically emphasises the underlying and inter-related mechanisms and structures in the relationships between the production and consumption of popular television programmes, which is highlighted in the box named 'The process of TV drama production and potential tourist consumption (see Figure 1).

Methodological Considerations

The area of research that is the subject of this paper is the production and consumption of popular television dramas in the context of tourism. It is argued here that the production side of such programmes has received little attention in the film tourism literature. There is therefore a need to devise new methods for the analysis of this dimension. The conceptual framework outlined above attempts to do this. This suggests the combination of various methods in the study of particular examples of, in this case television drama production and consumption.

The approach proposed here to researching this subject is an exploratory, case study of the Hallyu phenomenon. Hallyu, the so-called 'Korean Wave' refers to a recent socio-cultural phenomenon spreading across Asia – especially China, Japan, Taiwan, Hong Kong, the Philippines and Vietnam, resulting in the popularity and general interest in Korean popular culture, more specifically in the areas of television dramas, films, fashion, food, and celebrities. This popularity, enthusiasm, or

craze of Korean popular culture has been penetrating social and cultural practices all over Asia. Moreover, this social and cultural phenomenon, in particular consuming Korean television dramas has now been spreading as far as away as East Europe, America, South America and even Africa, generating transnational consumer/viewer communities across the world. (KNTTO, 2005a)

A major aspect of the Hallyu phenomenon is its contribution to tourism to Korea. An estimated 2.51 million tourists from six major Hallyu viewing nations including China, Japan, Hong Kong, Taiwan, Singapore and Thailand visited Korea between January to August 2005, representing 64% of the total inbound tourists (3.93 million) visiting Korea during this period (KNTTO, 2005b). There is evidence to suggest that this tourism pattern has been significantly influenced by television drama 'pilgrimages' which refers to visiting the locations and sets of tourists' favourite television dramas. The two outstanding destinations are 'Nami Island', located in Chuncheon in Gyeonggi province, a location for romantic scenes in 'Winter Sonata', and 'Daejanggeum Theme Park', a film set for 'Jewel in the Palace', in Yangju province. In 2004, 647,000 tourists spent an aggregate sum of 944.9 billion won in Korea, creating net added value for the Korean economy of 727.7 billion won and pushing up Korea's GDP by 0.09% (KITA, 2005).

Given the limited academic research on this area and the exploratory nature of this paper, both qualitative and quantitative methods combined are considered as being appropriate so as to reduce the risk that research conclusions may reflect systematic biases or limitations associated with specific individual methods. As qualitative research would help explore a topic in depth and elicit extremely rich information for developing further quantitative research (Mason, 1996; Patton, 1990), it is presumed that qualitative interviews would initially lead to effective exploration in order to achieve the following objectives:

- To identify crucial elements of production of television drama series which would strongly appeal to audiences and contribute to the development of a new form of tourism from the viewpoint of

expert professional television drama series production personnel: directors, writers, camera directors, producers, and set directors

- To explore their views and understanding concerning tourism associated with the programmes that they produce
- To provide important data for questionnaire design and formulation of questions

In order to interview the most fitting professionals for the proposed objectives, two important Korean television drama directors and their staff have contributed enormously to the international success of their programmes and Hallyu drama tourism are considered. These are Director Byung Hoon Lee and Director Suk Ho Yoon, producing 'Jewel in the Palace' and 'Winter Sonata' respectively.

Based on the analysis of qualitative interview data and the above review of literature, hypotheses and questionnaires will be designed and findings analysed. Following this, an on-site questionnaire survey will be held in Daejanggeum Theme Park, Yangju province, in Korea. This location was chosen based on the continuous circulation of Jewel in the Palace in the world and its popularity as one of the most popular Hallyu drama tourism destinations for international tourists. Unlike the underlined purposes of qualitative research in this paper, as suggested in the conceptual framework (see Figure 1), this quantitative research assists in examining causal relationships between the highlighted major elements of television drama production and consumption associated with audience involvement and its sequential loyalty and destination choice in the context of Hallyu drama tourism. It also analyses and compares demographic and socio-cultural variables. Testing the structural relationships between the variables therefore leads to potentially generalisable findings for other researchers on television-induced tourism and will contribute to empirical data on the relationship between media and tourism.

Conclusions

The main purpose of this paper is to outline theoretical positions and research methodologies that may present new ways to explore the intermingling relationships between production and consumption of PMTs

and associated tourism. This paper basically assumes that screen tourism is considered to be an extension of the consumption of major elements of production values intended by production personnel through either big or small screens into actual touristic experiences of associated destinations through the tourist gaze.

In order to investigate this complicated intercommunication process between particular media texts from the production side and audiences/potential tourists as consumers, this paper proposed that three theoretical concepts are structurally and causally interrelated with each other as major elements of production in PMTs. TV drama induced perception (TVDiP) is the overarching concept which incorporates audience involvement through cognitive, emotional and behavioural dimensions (TVDbCI, TVDbEI, and TVDbBP) and subsequent audience loyalty (TVDbL), and destination choice (behavioural intention).

However, methodological difficulties in its measurement and a subsequent lack of empirical research into this area suggests the combination of various methods in the study involving both qualitative (exploratory research with in-depth interviews) and quantitative research (testing hypotheses) based on a case study of the Hallyu phenomenon.

By incorporating such a range of methods within the overall case study mode, this research seeks to capture a better picture with rich information to understand this particular phenomenon and thus gain a better assessment of the validity and generality of theoretical explanations. Thus, the underlying issues in this study may have applicability to other similar cases in different settings. It will then ultimately bring to light some clarity of the development of a better understanding of this newly defined touristic phenomenon.

However, this study raises some concerns in terms of methodological issues. Given that this study deals with non-Western settings based on Hallyu phenomenon, it is inevitably confronted with a difficulty in translating the most appropriate meanings and concepts of what the interviewees intended in the process of transcribing from Korean into English. In addition to the translation issue, to some extent the lack of technical language and knowledge

of this interviewer, coming from a tourism studies background might result in misunderstanding of the purposes and intentions of production personnel in terms of technical terms used and aesthetic aspects.

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The Role of the Media in Shaping Motivations behind Travel Experiences: A Case Study 'From the Frontier'

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Abstract

This paper aims to explore the role of the media in shaping tourism experiences, using examples drawn from a qualitative study of frontier travellers, being those individuals who travel to places which currently lie at the fringes or extremes of our world or experiences, both geographically and socially/culturally. In the first phase, long interviews were conducted with participants and the data analysed using grounded theory. A content analysis of additional data collected from autobiographies and diaries written by frontier travellers formed the second phase. Many participants referred to seminal experiences, often occurring during childhood, which were considered to be the genesis of their future frontier travel experiences and these often involved image formation agents such as literature, both fiction and non-fiction, cinema, television and pictures or photographs. Findings of this study indicate that literature has had a greater impact on future motivations behind frontier travel than more modern forms of media such as film and television, and that there is a strong mythical element of these travel experiences, which can be particularly linked back to childhood literature. Future marketing of frontier travel experiences might use some of these findings in developing travel products or promotions, including media selection.

Keywords: media, motivation, frontier, travel; literature; film

Introduction

When examining travel behaviour, and motivations behind travel, in particular, it is often instructive to look toward the past, to discover seminal and formative experiences, sometimes occurring during childhood, which sow the seeds for future journeys. As Adler (1989, pg. 1373) points out, travel styles, however novel, invariably incorporate and build on "earlier travel traditions," and many of the latter are handed down the generations through devices such as literature, both general and travel orientated, and now through modern media such as film or video. The anticipation stage of travel is well-documented in the literature (Clawson and Ketch, 1966; Butler, 1980) and appears to incorporate a period well before the tourist starts to actively plan a journey, when their future plans might be inspired or shaped, even at a subconscious level, by travel imagery and narrative. The frontier traveller is an example of an individual whose travel behaviour as an adult can be

traced back to these early roots and the influence of the media in its many guises.

The frontier traveller is characterised by those individuals who pursue travel experiences in places which currently lie at the fringes or extremes of our world or experiences, both geographically and socially/culturally; being locations which generally lack a permanent resident population and/or existing tourist infrastructure (Laing and Crouch, 2005). These experiences are costly and time-consuming, generally requiring a high degree of advance preparation and planning and involve the undertaking of risky activities and situations. Examples include those who have flown in space as commercial travellers or tourists, trekked across Antarctica, crossed deserts on foot with camels, circumnavigated the globe in yachts or balloons, sailed the length of the great river systems by kayaks or rafts, climbed the world's highest peaks such as Mount Everest and K2 and dived to the ocean depths (Laing and Crouch, 2005). There is generally no buffer from the external environment for these travellers (Macbeth, 2000), who must

deal with the vagaries of nature and the challenges inherent in remote locations without the benefit of an 'environmental bubble' (Boorstin, 1964; Urry, 2002; Cohen, 2004). The use of technology, such as vehicles, telephones and Internet access, is generally kept to a minimum, although space travel is an obvious exception, due to the need for sophisticated transport and protection from visceral stimuli through spacesuits and pressurised cabins of spacecraft (Cohen, 2004). These frontier experiences are undoubtedly extraordinary and highly affective. According to Lengkeek (2002, pg. 191), "A landscape or a new exotic social environment can have an overwhelming impact on those individuals open to them. We can hardly grasp what we experience. We are unexpectedly touched by the expanse of the desert, the majesty of the soaring cliffs, the silence of the Arctic seas or the scents and sounds of the tropics."

In the context of a qualitative study of motivations behind these experiences, many participants referred to the starting point or genesis of their adult journeys as being linked to a variety of media such as literature, both fiction and non-fiction, cinema, television and pictures and photographs; all examples of image formation agents. This paper explores the nature and role of some of these image agents in influencing frontier travel experiences and considers the implications of these findings for future tourism marketing, given that some of these individuals are starting to lead or be taken on guided commercial tours to the peripheries (Laing and Crouch, 2005).

Role of Image Agents in Travel Behaviour

A number of studies have considered the role played by image agents in travel behaviour, which can form the basis of motivations, decision-making and satisfaction in a tourism context (Gartner, 1993; Kim and Richardson, 2005; Smith and Croy, 2005). These agents have been categorised as organic, induced and real (MacInnis and Price, 1987; Gartner, 1993; Fodness and Murray, 1999; Smith and Croy, 2005), with the 'organic' category of images distinguished by their formation through "general life experiences, personal values and cultural background," (Croy and Wheeler; in press), rather than being linked to specific

destinations or tourist attractions (Smith and Croy, 2005). These images are normally experienced during the anticipation phase of travel (Gartner, 1993; Smith and Croy, 2005), where the traveller has not yet departed to the destination of choice, and may shape travel motivations; both those derived from the destination (pull factors) or the internal needs or socio-psychological motives of an individual (push factors), which helps to explain the desire to travel (Dann, 1977; Crompton, 1979; Yuan and McDonald, 1990; Goossens, 2000; Bogari, Crowther and Marr, 2004). While a number of organic images or agents were uncovered during this study and identified as influencing motivations, including familial influences, this paper concentrates on the role played by a variety of media in shaping motivations behind frontier travel.

Cultural Roots of the Frontier Experience

Tales of exploration have a long history, both entertaining and inspiring readers for hundreds of years. Smith (1992) refers to a compilation of merchants' tales collected by Arab traders, called *The Delight of Whoso Loves to Make the Circuit of the World* (AD 115) as one of the world's earliest guidebooks. Possibly the first widely translated account of an extraordinary journey was written by Marco Polo, the 13th century Venetian merchant who travelled to the court of the great Kublai Khan in China. Polo's book, *The Description of the World*, possibly inspired other explorers, notably Columbus, "to seek Earth's far corners" (Edwards, 2001). Another famous explorer and writer, Richard Hakluyt, published several books on exploration including *The Principal Navigations, Voyages and Discoveries of the English Nation* (1589). Famous exploration journals published in the 18th and 19th centuries include those of Captain James Cook, and Lewis and Clark. Cook spent almost three years conducting the first truly scientific expedition by sea and maintained a handwritten journal during his voyage, describing significant events and activities in several lines of narrative each day, while Clark published a map and edited journals of his journey through the uncharted American west. Stanley's *Through the Dark Continent* (1878) is considered one of the classic tales of the exploration and adventure genre, involving finding the 'lost' explorer

Livingstone and the sources of the River Nile. Modern-day examples of tales of travellers venturing to the frontier include Edmund Hillary's *High Adventure* (1955), written about his historic ascent of Mount Everest in 1953, Sir Ernest Shackleton's book *South* (1919), based on his Antarctic expeditions, and the account written by the seven Mercury astronauts of the early spaceflights in *Into Orbit* (Glenn, Carpenter, Shepard, Grissom, Cooper, Slayton and Schirra, 1962), described on the dust jacket as, "thrilling first-hand accounts by the men who took their lives in their hands and dared to leave the earth behind them." These tales may serve as the inspiration for a new generation of travellers and are linked to 'metempsychotic' travel experiences, which Seaton (2002, pg. 155) defines as involving the tourist who "takes on the persona of a significant other or group, as a role model for a particular repeated journey."

Fictional accounts of frontier exploration or expeditions have similarly had a popular following and have their roots in mythological or heroic journeys such as that immortalised by Homer in *The Odyssey* (c. 800 B.C.), involving hardship, sacrifice and life-transforming experiences. Famous examples include H. Rider Haggard's *King Solomon's Mines* (1885), Sir Arthur Conan Doyle's *The Lost World* (1912), and the works of the French writer Jules Verne, who could be said to be the father of frontier travel. He published 54 novels during his lifetime, known as the *Voyages Extraordinaires*, or *Extraordinary Journeys* and some of the more famous included *Journey to the Centre of the Earth* (1864); *From the Earth to the Moon* (1865); *Twenty Thousand Leagues Under the Sea* (1870); and *Around the World in Eighty Days* (1873). The public imagination was captured by these then fanciful stories, some of which have been prescient in their imaginative depictions of the future. Verne himself wished he could follow in the footsteps of his famous literary characters like Philéas Fogg and Captain Nemo. In a letter to Hetzel⁶⁵, publisher of *Extraordinary Journeys* Verne wrote, "I get caught up in all the extraordinary adventures of my heroes. I regret only one thing, not being able to accompany them pedibus cum jambis." The modern equivalent

is the science-fiction novel, often structured around space travel, such as Arthur C. Clarke's *The Sentinel* (1951) (on which the movie *2001: A Space Odyssey* (1969) was based) and Kim Stanley Robinson's *Mars Trilogy* (*Red Mars* (1992), *Green Mars* (1993) and *Blue Mars* (1996), on the exploration and colonization of Mars.

There have also been a number of frontier themes and locations captured on film, with underwater journeys such as *The Abyss* (1989), *Titanic* (1997), and *Ghosts of the Abyss* (2003), space travel like *2001, A Space Odyssey* (1969) or *Solaris* (2003) and mountaineering dramas such as *Into Thin Air* (1997) based on the book of the same name (Krakauer, 1998) and *Touching the Void* (2005), again based on the book by Joe Simpson (1988; 1997). *Star Trek* in particular uses the imagery of exploring far-flung frontiers throughout the universe and "strange new worlds," (Whitfield and Roddenberry, 1968, cited in Kozinets, 2001). Recent television shows with frontier themes include Michael Palin's popular extraordinary journeys such as *Around the World in 80 Days* (1989), *Full Circle with Michael Palin* (1997) and *Sahara* (2002). Hall and Johnston (1995, pg. 431) note the potential influence of these television programmes on future travel motivations:

"Television documentaries such as the wildlife series *Life in the Freezer*, narrated by naturalist David Attenborough, and the travel documentary *Pole to Pole*, by former Monty Python member, Michael Palin, have brought the beauty, wonder and harshness of the polar environment into living rooms the world over. The extent to which such programmes encourage people to visit the Arctic and the Antarctic is unknown. However, they do create a climate of interest and awareness in these regions, and perhaps reinforce the correct impression that these areas are more accessible than ever before."

According to Busby and Klug (2001), there is a need for more research into connections between the media and travel behaviour, including motivations, and the study on which this paper is based may help to fill some of this

⁶⁵ <http://www.kirjasto.sci.fi/verne.htm> (accessed March 20, 2006).

gap in the literature. It considers in part whether this body of literature, film and television has had an influence on future travel intentions or motivations, particularly during childhood and early adulthood, in the context of frontier journeys.

Methodology

Motivations behind travel may be complex to discern (Krippendorff, 1987; Pearce, 1993; Busby and Klug, 2001; Hall, 2003) and this complexity “lends itself” to an interpretative paradigm using qualitative methods (Dann and Phillips, 2000), allowing the researcher to examine “open-ended and unclassified issues raised by the research subjects.” This resulted in data which was rich in detail and required careful analysis to tease out subtleties and deeper meanings. The first phase of this study used grounded theory, allowing the researcher to generate theory from interview data, rather than testing out pre-existing theory (Strauss and Corbin, 1998). Unlike ‘logico-deductive’ methods of building and verifying theory (Ezzy, 2002), grounded theory involves the researcher remaining, “as open as possible in the early stages of the research” (Charmaz, 1995) to what they are finding from the data. The long interviews allowed the respondents to “impart their own reality” (Riley, 1995) and gave them the opportunity to tell their story in their own words (Sommer and Sommer, 2002). This interview data was analysed with the assistance of NVivo software, which assisted the management and retrieval of a large amount of data. This tool is not however a substitute for the researcher’s own judgement and experience, honed through participating in the interviews and becoming immersed in the data. For example, coding in this study was allocated using the subjective judgement of the researcher. The software merely facilitated the coding process and allowed for fast retrieval of codes and coded data, when required.

Phase two of the study consisted of a content analysis of texts written by or about these travellers. This biographical data provided triangulation,⁶⁶ through the use of an alternative source of data and another method of analysis (Denzin, 1978). Content analysis is used to describe “the form and content of

written or spoken material,” (Sommer and Sommer, 2002) and was an efficient way to extract and analyse large quantities of data on motivations from the selected texts. Data was analysed using paper, rather than software, with different coloured pens denoting coding. This was less time-consuming, as data did not need to be retyped in an electronic format, but made analysis and coding more difficult, due to the inability to conduct electronic searches of this data to retrieve sections for analysis.

The thirty-seven participants in the interviews were largely selected through *purposive sampling*, in that they were screened as fitting the criteria of a past or potential frontier traveller before being interviewed (Laing and Crouch, 2005). Criteria for selection was based on the definition below:

“Those individuals who journey to places which currently lie at the fringes or extremes of our world or experiences, whether geographically or socially/culturally, in locations which lack which lack a permanent resident population and/or existing tourist infrastructure, involving a high degree of pre-preparation and planning, authenticity, high-risk activities and situations, and extraordinary experiences.”

Many of these individuals were located through Websites which had been developed to publicise their journeys, often as a requirement of sponsors or to seek public donations or provide information. Emails were sent to the address on the Website and followed up with information and documentation about the study. Three interviews were set up following personal recommendations from fellow frontier travellers, and could thus be considered as a limited form of snowball sampling (Seale, 1999; Taylor and Bogdan, 1998). Two married couples were interviewed, with the remaining thirty-three interviewed solo. Ages of respondents ranged from 24 to 60 years, and covered both genders. The majority were Australian born, with the rest hailing from Europe (predominantly the U.K.) and the United States. The interviews took place at a location nominated by or agreed to by the participant, which made them feel relaxed and comfortable, such as a local café, their workplace or private home. Interviews took up

⁶⁶ Janesick (2003) labels this crystallization, after Richardson (1994), in the sense of a multifaceted approach to qualitative research design, using the metaphor of a crystalline shape.

to an hour and were recorded on mini-disk, for transcription by the lead author.

Fifty autobiographical texts were analysed, along with several online diaries and online interviews with two space tourists, given books written by the latter were not available at the time of conducting this research. These texts were either from the lead author's own collection of books or were located through searches of public libraries and bookshops (including second-hand bookshops) and via suggestions or recommendations of personal contacts. Purposive sampling was also used to select the texts forming part of this study, in that texts were scanned to see whether they were written by frontier travellers or potential frontier travellers. Like the selection of participants for interview, additional texts were selected until theoretical saturation was reached.

Findings

Participants were asked a general question at the start of each of the long interviews, to 'break the ice' and encourage a flow of conversation. They were asked to describe how and when they started frontier travel and to trace their involvement back to its origins. This was the departure point for a general discussion about their motivations. In many cases, this adult travel behaviour was traced back to early exposure to film (including television), reading newspapers and magazines and, in particular, literature dramatising frontier travel experiences or non-fiction accounts of explorers and expeditions in past eras and modern day frontier travel equivalents. Some of these books also contained visual images which were arresting and compelling to the reader and stimulated their imagination. This section will highlight some examples taken from this study and compare and contrast the effect that these various image agents have on individuals.

Film and Television

Films and television, including documentaries, can be seen to have an influence on some frontier travellers as children, perhaps because they bring adventures 'to life' in a graphic style. For example, Kira Salak, who trekked across New Guinea, grew up wanting to be a Green Beret and cinema such as the first *Rambo* film, *First Blood*, fuelled her passion

for adventure, although literature also played a part, as evidenced by the quote below:

"I used to imagine myself parachuting into Laos to perform jungle reconnaissance. My missions were always classified and dangerous. I tried to imagine the heat and rigors of the jungle as described in the books I read, always asking myself whether I could take it. Whether I could survive." (Salak, 2001, pg. 249).

Another participant, Jack, a round-the-world trekker and adventurer in his adulthood, recalls reading a newspaper article about Indians in the South American jungle during a holiday and associating this back to his youthful movie-going. He comments, "I thought, 'What? You still have Indians in the jungle?' It was like when I saw the movies when I was a young boy!"

Cinema inspires some individuals to seek out unique destinations and experiences, which take on almost mythical qualities. For example, Alex, a round-the-world sailor, sought out 'paradise' during his travels, exemplified for him by the location for the movie, *The Beach*.

"[Paradise is] a physical place ... there are places in the world like that. I'm going to get there ... One of the places was where they filmed *The Beach*, Maya Bay in Thailand ... that stood out because it was a known place."

This quote supports the comment of Zurick (1995), who notes how paradise or 'utopia' is always sought in 'faraway places.' As Zurick observes, (pg. 56), "Because utopia is so elusive, so unattainable, so inviting, so mysterious, it is sought after in the world's most remote and difficult places, the "ends" of the earth, rather than close to home." The irony about seeking this kind of utopia or *Shangri-La* (Bishop, 1989) in "known places," is that they may end up commercialised, over-crowded and despoiled. This occurred with the physical setting for the movie *The Beach*, referred to above, which is now a recognised tourist haunt and an example of paradise lost by being discovered by the mass tourist.

Participants also mentioned television shows viewed during childhood as partly inspiring future travels. A typical comment was this one from Peter, "I'm of the age group where I

remember growing up and watching things like *Sea Hunt* on TV, many years ago, and I always had a fascination with scuba diving and exploring stuff under water. So it's just been an underlying interest and desire that I always wanted to do something about one day and twelve years ago I did." Some saw documentaries of other frontier travellers in action and were moved to try it for themselves. For example, one individual, *Brett*, was inspired by having, "seen [the video documentary of] Tim Cope and Chris Hatherly. They'd done a bike ride across Europe and Asia which looked really interesting to me and from there, we just got the idea that we wanted to cycle across Australia."

The potential space tourists in this study mentioned cinema as an influence but only in passing and not as enthusiastically as they mentioned books they had read. For example, *Leo*, when probed about the influence of books or television during his childhood, responded, "A lot of the books I read as a child were very science fiction. Of course I was born in the age of *Star Wars* so ... that does it too." This appears to contradict the view that "it is arguably visual media that is most likely to shape popular views of space travel," (Laing and Crouch, 2004, pg. 78).

While film and television were clearly a stimulus for some frontier travellers, they do not seem to have had as powerful an influence on individuals in this study as 'traditional' media such as literature (both fiction and non-fiction), and popular media such as newspapers or magazines, as discussed below.

Pictures, Photographs and Artefacts

The power of visual influences was also noted by participants, and pictures or photographs viewed during childhood can leave an impact which is still felt many years later. Most of these visual images are incorporated into books, both fiction and non-fiction, and this might help to explain part of the appeal of reading about frontier travel themes, referred to below.

Several climbers in particular mentioned the motivation provided by photographs or pictures. For example, *Bear Grylls*, who climbed Everest in his early twenties, harks

back to a picture he saw of the mountain during his childhood (Grylls, 2000, pg. 4):

"I was eight years old when my father gave me a huge and wonderful picture of Mount Everest. From that moment onwards I was captivated. I would sit there trying to work out the scale of the huge ice fields I saw in the foreground, and to judge how steep those summit slopes would really be. My mind would begin to wander, and soon I would actually be on those slopes – feeling the wind whip across my face. From those times, the dream was being born within me."

Another example of the haunting quality of photographs is provided by *Robert Swan*, who recreated Scott's fatal 1912 expedition to reach the South Pole. He describes the inspiration derived from a photo of Scott in a university library book and how it piqued his curiosity (Mear and Swan, 1987, pg. 16):

"My eye was caught by the cover of one particular book – *Scott's Men* by David Thomson. I stared for a long time at the picture of four men on the cover, their eyes sunk in their sockets, skin stretched tight over cheekbones; but it was less these physical manifestations of starvation and privation that told me they had suffered than the haunted expression in their eyes, a look that Thomson described as the 'flawless gaze of young men in the South.' What the hell had gone on, I asked aloud, to make that happen?"

Visual images can also be linked to myths or fantasies. For example, Peter Heller, a kayaker, uses an allusion to Arthurian legend in his reference to the "Grail" to describe the allure of his destination and also evokes the Bible with the reference to 'Eden.' He was given a book called *The Riddle of the Tsangpo Gorges* when he was still deciding whether or not to join an expedition to the region and writes of the impact of this book and its photographs:

"The book was full of stunning photos ... I took the book to bed with me that night and flipped through the pictures again and again. Here was 108-foot Hidden Falls, a Holy Grail for Asian explorers for more than a century. Here

was the sacred “keyhole” in the rock below the falls, reputed to be a magic gateway to Edenic realms ...” (Heller, 2004, pg. 8).

The reference to paradise can also be seen in descriptions of cinematic inspiration, as exemplified by *Alex*’s comment in the section above about Maya Bay as a desirable destination to find and visit during his round-the-world sailing trip.

Magazines and Newspapers

Magazines such as *National Geographic* were also a popular source of inspiration about exploration and frontier travel. They are often illustrated handsomely with photographs and might be timelier than books, which lag behind the journeys they illuminate due to the time taken to produce and publish them. For example, Ben Kozel, who journeyed the length of the Amazon River by raft, remembers well the influence of his father’s collection of *National Geographic* magazines with images of the Amazon and comments, (Kozel, 2002, pgs. 242-243), “I remember thinking how impenetrable that landscape looked, how it seemed to harbour a thousand mysteries, none of which would ever be solved.” The “mysteries” that Kozel has conjured up in his mind draw him to the frontier, like a moth to a flame.

Others eagerly read about frontier adventures or journeys in the newspaper. For example, *Robert* traces his desire to learn to sail and later take part in round-the-world sailing adventures to this form of media:

“It’s amazing the influences you pick up when you’re a kid and it’s very important as you develop further on, so your formative years still have relevance to what you do as you get older and you get money and can do things. And I suppose sailing became an issue in that I was influenced by my hero, as a boy. It was a guy called Robin Knox-Johnston and he was the first guy to sail single-handed around the world non-stop in 1968. I sort of followed it in the papers and I was completely blown away by this guy ...”

None of the frontier travellers in this study pointed to the influence of television news coverage on their future journeys, as opposed

to the inspiration afforded by the print media. This might be a pointer towards seeing the latter as a more reliable or authentic form of information or image agent, given the emphasis on authenticity expressed by many participants in this study, which is discussed later in this paper. It also provides support for the view that while cinema and/or television may be possibly some of the most influential forms of media in the current era (Busby and Klug, 2001; Laing and Crouch, 2004), this may not be the case for some individuals, notably the frontier traveller.

Literature

The influence of books read as a child as an inspiration for future frontier journeys cannot be underestimated, judging by the data collected from participants in this study. Sometimes parents had encouraged their children to read stories of exploration. These books might be given as gifts, such the “complete set of Encyclopedia Britannica” given to adventurer John Goddard by his parents as a young man (Goddard, 2003, pg. 242). “Reading extensively in each of the twenty-four volumes opened up the world for me as never before – an inexhaustible treasure house of fascinating information, covering every conceivable topic, that stimulated my interest in countless other subjects.” They may also have been “fed” to children at bedtime, a legacy which provided them with a source for childhood dreams and fantasies. One participant, *Rod*, now a polar trekker, recalls of his youth:

“All I ever read just about were biographies and they were fed to me. All these people ... I wouldn’t have known about the Durack family going up into the Northern Territory, I wouldn’t have known about all that unless those books were fed to me. And just lots and lots of stories Dad would [tell me] ... he was big on that, [both] Mum and Dad [were], but Dad was very much the driving force ... I was brought up reading all those stories about some of my great heroes like Sir Sidney Kidman, the story of a fourteen-year old boy who leaves home with nothing but a one-eyed horse and a stock-whip and goes on to become one of the largest cattle owners this country has ever known. Sir Ernest Shackleton

and the story of Endurance and twenty-two men and he does not lose any lives and they're stuck on some ocean for a year. Sir Douglas Mawson, stuck on the ice there; Mertz has died and Ninnis has died of Vitamin A poisoning and Mawson struggles back down to base camp where two men say, 'We're staying here until the boss comes back.' ... So I guess yeah, the traits of exploration were [gained] by osmosis. I lived amongst that from childhood."

Reading can also 'fuel the dream' and inspire wanderlust in adults. As *Alex* observes, "I often buy books in the [hope] of reading them one day, when I see them, I've got a bit of a collection. Being away sailing, I've been able to catch up on some reading. But reading's a big one because that kind of fuels the dreaming ..."

Reading may be an information agent, providing individuals with a useful way to learn about a type of frontier travel experience or destination through the tales of others, particularly where a camera cannot capture all the action in situ. For example, *Murray* notes:

"Obviously once I started to get into [mountaineering], I then began to read books that other people had written and I suppose you have that with mountaineering, there's a lot more written about it. The thing is, as well, it takes place in an environment where it's out of people's [or] everybody else's headset. It's in a remote environment that most people never go to. And the best medium for expressing that or explaining mountaineering and what's gone on is by verbal stories or the written word. I mean, sure, you can go and make films about mountaineering but it's difficult because you can't have the camera running all the time for weeks on end. Mountaineering expeditions literally take weeks at a time. And the vast bulk of that time is incredibly boring really. So yeah, I did devour all those [books], various books about mountaineers."

The above quotation also highlights the role of authenticity in motivations behind frontier travel. The traveller wants to find out what the 'real thing' is like, including the boring or

tedious aspects, as this is what is being sought - the authentic experience. The references to authenticity by many of the frontier travellers forming part of this study may partially support the contention of MacCannell (1976), as noted by Jamal and Hill (2002, pgs. 91-92), that "Tourism is a metaphor for the general inauthenticity of modern life, where the tourist journeys away from modernity's artifices in search of authentic objects and experiences elsewhere." While this argument may be debatable in a general tourism context, it would appear from the findings of this study that the frontier traveler, at least, is indeed searching for unstaged, real experiences.

Fiction

Many individuals spontaneously divulged their favourite childhood books and the adventurous thread which ran through them. Books such as the *Biggles* series by W. E. Johns and Hergé's *Tintin* were popular. *Rod* explained their appeal in these terms:

"[To a] ten, twelve, thirteen year old, that's kind of what grabs your attention because you like comics and they're always idyllic adventures because they always come out good in the long-run. And they have little epics along the way as you are supposed to and I felt like I was living those people's lives. Then I just had the desire to make it reality I suppose."

Another who mentions the Belgian children's classic is a mountaineer, *Janine*, who explains why she feels that reading conjures up more vivid imaginary worlds for her than viewing films or documentaries:

"I was brought up on the adventures of *Tintin*, who in my first book in fact was climbing in the Andes, finding the Temple of the Sun, so I think that was put in my head very early in the piece. And because there were no televisions in those days, when you read something, you used your imagination about it a lot more and maybe it made a bigger impression that way."

These 'worlds' can be very real to an impressionable young person. The feted round-the-world sailor, Ellen MacArthur, writes in her autobiography how she "kicked off my sailing library at a very young age with Arthur

Ransome's *Swallows and Amazons* series," passed on by her mother and grand-mother (MacArthur, 2003, pg. 16):

"I loved the spirit of adventure the books brought me, and dreamed of sailing on a lake to a secret island that had long been forgotten. I would spend hours and hours imagining what the secret harbour would look like, and how the firewood could be collected for the campfire. I dreamt of exploring at night with small hurricane lanterns, and of nights spent moored in a protected bay, or beneath trees at the side of the water"

Participants who intended to travel in space revealed that they had all read science-fiction as a child and also in adulthood in the case of several individuals. For example, *Sean* observes that his inspiration partly stems from "reading a W.E. Johns book, the guy who used to write *Biggles*. He did a series of space books as well for children, and I picked up on that and thought, 'Oh! That would be interesting!'" As an adult, he continues this interest. "I've got about a hundred science fiction books, I guess ...". *Emily* also states that she read science-fiction growing up and into adulthood and explains how they led to an expectation that commercial space travel was just around the corner:

"I was an avid reader of Robert A. Heinlein, and it has been suggested by other people that almost everyone in the space program has read Robert A. Heinlein! I still read his work today. They found his very first novel and have published it and I read that. But I have to say that he had the biggest influence in my life ... [For] those of us who grew up reading science-fiction, it [space travel] was only natural ... We grew up in the late 60's fully believing that, you know, just like the movie *2001* [: *A Space Odyssey*], there's going to be a regular shuttle service, passenger service to the Moon and back, or at least to orbit and back. And so I think a lot of us were disappointed when the year 2001 came and we're still not up there, we're just in low-Earth orbit."

Literature might appeal to others precisely because it can facilitate 'non-authentic,' arm-chair forms of travel. For example, *Emily* notes

that reading can compensate, at least in part, for not being able to do the 'real thing':

"To me the best science-fiction comes out of the U.K. When I think of Red Dwarf and I think of Hitchhiker's Guide to the Galaxy and what interests me though is that the U.K., even though it is a member state of the European Space Agency, the U.K. itself doesn't have its own manned space program. And I wonder, if you don't have an active manned space program, if you're not sending people into space, perhaps your literature and your television shows and your media have to compensate for that."

The reader vicariously travels to exotic destinations such as space through the written word, as well as more visual media such as television and cinema, because they are unable to do so in reality. Although commercial space travel planning continues apace (Laing and Crouch, 2004), the opportunity to explore space will remain limited for some years to come and perhaps perpetuate the power of these image agents as substitutes for direct experience.

Non-Fiction

A number of frontier travellers had also read real accounts of adventure as a child, rather than or perhaps as well as their fictional counterparts. This might be seen as an early preference for authenticity in travel. For example, sailor Jim Shekhdar had read Tenzing Norgay's book on Everest "avidly" as a schoolboy and had it signed by the famous Sherpa on a visit to Darjeeling:

"It was wonderful to shake the hand of a man celebrated around the world for being the first to climb the highest mountain on earth ... Even at the age of seven, I was enthused by the idea of setting oneself against the great natural challenges" (Shekhdar, 2001, pg. 18).

One participant *Graham* was a "voracious reader" growing up and his penchant for retracing historical journeys as an adult seems to be linked to his early childhood fascination with the books of Thor Heyerdahl:

"I grew up in the country, and we didn't have any electricity, no television. But I

grew up in a house full of books; my mother was a great reader. So I had access to books and kept myself company with books, and I loved books about ... I mean one of the first books I can ever remember reading was Thor Heyerdahl's *Kon Tiki* excursion and it was enormously influential - I must have read it about ten times - about how exciting it is to do these types of things and Thor Heyerdahl was an interesting fellow because it's not like reading about someone who lived four or five hundred years ago. He was still alive when I was alive and still doing these wonderful things. And so that left a deep impression on me, and the fact that they did a lot of scientific things ... And you read his books, all of them, they're a combination of adventure story and scientific things, and so that's what I really like and I found very inspiring about what he did. And so I suppose I started out trying to do the same thing, I think."

Harry, an adventurer, recalls his love of reading about explorers such as Sir Walter Raleigh and Martin Frobisher, when he was a young man and how "greatly affected" by these journeys he was:

"These people setting off on these quests into the unknown. And yeah, the obvious ones I began to hear about, [such as] David Livingstone, the Scottish explorer, Burke and Wills in Australia; people with these tragedies. I loved the idea of these long journeys. They seemed to me to be odysseys, and people seeking something in the beyond. It was people who did these long quests that I enjoyed."

Several individuals mentioned the inspiration of Wilfred Thesiger and his desert adventures. For example, *Charlie*, a desert trekker, read Thesiger's *Arabian Sands* (1959) as a teenager and notes, "You know, it really grabbed me, there's no question about it," while Jeffrey Tayler writes about his attempts "to tread in Thesiger's footsteps" (Tayler, 2003, pg. 6). "I did my time in Marrakesh, conducting trysts, evading brothers, reading Arabic literature, and yearning for even more adventure, more escape, something along the lines of what

Thesiger had described in *Arabian Sands*." Tayler's reading fed into his dreams of travels (Tayler, 2003, pg. 13). "Suddenly, all my time in Morocco and trips to the Drâa seemed like a prelude to the chance to realize a dream I had nurtured for fifteen years, ever since reading *Arabian Sands* and *History of the Arabs*."

Martin, a mountaineer, used the books he'd read on famous mountaineers to plan his own frontier journeys:

"I read books by Dougal Haston, who was a very famous Scottish mountaineer, and also Reinhold Messner, who was a huge inspiration as well. So yes, it did impact on me, for sure, and it steered a lot of my climbing ambition. And so, when I was trying to decide where to go, that would be very much governed by what I'd recently read about and what had excited me in these biographical books."

The most popular explorer mentioned by participants in this study was Ernest Shackleton, the great polar expeditioner and leader. Much of their knowledge of Shackleton and his deeds comes from the literature they have read, although future frontier travellers may find out about his legendary exploits through television documentaries or movies such as *Shackleton* (2002). Some identify with the human qualities of the man, his failings, and see themselves as following in his footsteps, based on the man they read about in books. As *Geoff*, a Polar trekker and adventurer, points out, "I identify with Shackleton ... because he had a lot of failures like I do, and also he struggled financially, which we all do in this environment ... Of course his challenge was hugely bigger than mine, but in my little way, I can sort of really ... it actually motivates me in a way, to know that I'm not alone, in the fact that this is an old path that I take. I read quotes from him every night, pretty much. I've got a book and I just flick through." Others, such as Ann Bancroft (Arneson & Bancroft, 2003, pg. 3), were aware of Shackleton from an early age and speak of him in reverential terms:

"I was twelve years old when I'd first read the story of Ernest Shackleton. The brave expedition leader failed in his attempt to cross Antarctica in 1914 but did not lose the life of a single man in

his command through more than a year living on the ice and a daring sail for help. His inspiring drama, played out decades ago on this frigid, icy stage, had led me to seek out the same path – not to explore, as this continent was discovered long ago – but to journey within myself. To see what I had to offer in this incredible test of mental strength and physical skill.”

Bancroft later describes the inspiration of Polar explorers Shackleton and Scott, while visiting their huts in Antarctica (Arneson & Bancroft, 2003, pg. 213:

“These shacks were the history that had motivated our journey. These were the men whose lives had stirred our imagination. I thought about Shackleton and Scott almost every day of the trek – sometimes in relationship to how they had endured worse conditions, sometimes just feeling reverence for them.”

The Role of Myth and Fantasy

The quote above shows how mythic elements find their way into tourism analysis (Rojek, 1997), with Tzanelli (2004, pg. 26) noting that, “Place is always a category socially constructed through an index of real and imagined references.” frontier travel experiences can be described by exponents as ‘quests’ in almost Arthurian language, or odysseys, evoking the heroic journey and a desire for “transformation” through trials, in places “outside one’s own common realm of experience,” (Zurick, 1995, pg. 137). Harry, for example, explains his frontier travel experiences or “long quests” as he calls them, in these terms:

“In a sense my journeys are the classic odyssey; Odysseus set out and came back, having had all these experiences, which tested him and so on. But I don’t want to compare myself too much to a classical hero but there is that sort of element of setting out to learn and then coming back ...”

Bettina Selby similarly refers to fabled tales of old when describing her journey to the source of the Nile (Selby, 1988, pg. 8). “I thought I would ride in a leisurely manner along the seaboard of the delta, from Alexandria to Port

Said, seeing all the famous places that had been a legend to me for so long.” The legends, for her, bestow upon the destination a momentous and venerable quality, imparting a sense of significance and meaning beyond the place itself. This ties in with Rojek (1997)’s view mentioned above; that myth is used by individuals to bring meaning to places visited.

Zurick (1995, pg. 61) notes that fantasy, “predates the journey and continually propels it along new courses,” and several academics have considered the fairytale aspects of tourism, such as Jafari and Gardner (1991) and Dann, who observed that tourists “are caught up in a fairy-tale world of childhood,” (Dann, 1996, pg. 123) and who cites (pg. 124) a number of accounts of exploration where individuals “sometimes viewed the new territories they discovered in terms of fairyland,” (see also Cocker, 1992; Thomas 1952.).

Fairytales were evoked by participants in this study such as Keith, who says of ballooning, “I’d visualised it being this wonderful magic carpet-ride,” using language reminiscent of *The Arabian Nights*, while Marinetta Asher (Asher, 1988, pg. 265) describes the desert in terms of a fairytale like Perrault’s *The Sleeping Beauty*. “It’s like an enchanted world – the colours, the rainbow, the stillness. It’s like a place that is sleeping under a spell.” Caroline Hamilton’s team mate Zoë Hudson saw the South Pole as “The Emerald City,” a place out of a fantasy, and was anxious to prevent reality intruding prior to departure. Explains Hamilton, “Before we came [to the South Pole], she had not wanted to look at any pictures of where we were going ... Her South Pole was a vision out of the Wizard of Oz,” (Hamilton, 2000, pg. 223). The comments above link back to fairytales perhaps read in books, or in movies, particularly in the case of the reference to *The Wizard of Oz* (1939), a popular Hollywood film based on the L. Frank Baum book, *The Wonderful Wizard of Oz* (1960; 1900). These types of books were often lavishly illustrated for children, and this may add to their resonance for adults.

Poetry may also be an influence upon the frontier traveller, particularly that stemming from the Romantic era, which is perhaps linked to the latter’s emphasis on nature and the ‘romantic gaze,’ where the tourist looks for

isolation, privacy and sublime natural scenery (Urry, 2002). In the current study, for example, Murray directly refers to this inspiration behind his mountain climbing. “[Mountains] are very romantic I guess, in many ways, in a classic olde, Wordsworthian sort of way.” The reference to Wordsworth evokes the poet who is particularly entwined with the ‘romantic’ view of nature. For example, Jamal, Everett and Dann (2003, pg. 147) note that the romantic taste for nature and landscape “began to blossom in the late eighteenth century, as cultural critiques of industrialisation assumed literary forms through various sources (consider Wordsworth’s poetry.)” There may be scope to conduct future research on the effect that poetry, as well as prose, has on the behaviour of the traveller, including the form those experiences take and the desired destinations.

Conclusion

The findings of this study support the argument posited by Zurick (1995, pg. 49), who observes that the blurring of roles between explorer and traveller, as seen in the modern frontier traveller, may be due to the fact that, “The early world explorers ... set the imaginative pathways for contemporary adventure tourists.” These individuals, inspired by these narratives, are heading off in their footsteps, exploring dreamscapes and illusory worlds conjured up through their reading, as well as the physical landscapes. Although Butler (1990) argues that as reading declines as a popular pursuit, visual forms of information such as cinema will have a greater effect in shaping destination choice and travel behaviour, print as opposed to visual media appears to have a far stronger impact as an image agent on frontier travellers, particularly those which have been viewed or obsessed over during youth. The influence of books read as a child as an inspiration for future travel experiences appears to be considerable, judging by the variety of anecdotes and reminiscences about books uncovered during this study, which reflects, in part, the relationship between “fiction, dreams and tourism impacts,” (Ryan, 1997, pg. 4).

Film and television, although bringing adventures ‘to life,’ perhaps resonate less than literature and other print media with frontier travellers because they offer less scope to use

the imagination and create fantasy-scapes within which the adventure can take place. It is a more passive experience and thus perhaps less easily recalled in later years and/or having less powerful effects on motivations behind frontier travel experiences. The more dominant role of print, particularly books, might also be linked to authenticity, in that they are often created by the traveller post-expedition, contain their own words and thus provide a story ‘from the horse’s mouth’ rather than a second-hand or partly fabricated tale, dramatised or hyped up to make them more exciting, rather than provide the truth, warts and all. This link between certain types of media and authenticity could be explored in a future study, as it has ramifications for the type of image agents which a provider of a frontier travel experience might use when trying to market their products to potential travellers.

This study also reveals the high incidence of metaphors and imagery used by frontier travellers which stem from imagination, dreams and cultural myths, sometimes influenced by literature or cinema, such as the explorer myth and fairytales. Dreams and fantasies have long been associated with travel (Crompton, 1979; Urry, 2002; Tzanelli, 2004) and there is growing interest in the role of consumer fantasies and mental imagery in the consumption experience (Kozinets, 2001; Martin, 2004). There are references by participants in this study to “great epics” such as the Odyssey, tales of the great explorers, including Burton and Speke, and fairytales such as the Arabian Nights, and some liken their experiences to heroic journeys of the past. This aspect of frontier travel might also be worthy of further research to consider how these myths work to illuminate and inspire future journeys.

Future marketing of frontier travel experiences might incorporate some of the findings in this study in their product development or promotions. For example, expeditions could be linked to well-known books or films about famous explorers and their exploits, such as journeys in the ‘footsteps’ of frontier travellers such as climber Edmund Hillary, visiting projects he set up in Sherpa villages (World Expeditions, 2006, pg. 36) or historical figures like Hannibal (Seaton, 2002) and Genghis Khan (Tolstoy, 2003). This picks up on Seaton’s (2002) notion of the growing

importance of these metempsychotic journeys, where the individual recreates journeys of the past. As mentioned in this paper, Shackleton remains an enduring inspiration for a wide variety of frontier travellers, not merely polar trekkers, and might be used as a way to promote the qualities needed in these journeys (leadership, courage, ingenuity). Other explorers or historical figures who could be used to promote frontier travel experiences include the polar explorer Mawson for an Australian audience, Stanley and Speke for an African experience and Thesiger in a desert context.

Space experiences could be marketed using imagery or associations with science fiction, given that there seems to be a link between a desire to travel in space and the reading of space-related books, as illustrated in this paper. There is a risk however that linking space experiences with science fiction or space-related movies might lead to inflated expectations about the level of risk or autonomy enjoyed and thus lessen satisfaction with the experience post-travel (Laing and Crouch, 2004).

Media selection also needs to be carefully handled, based on those forms that are most likely to appeal to frontier travellers. For example, this study shows that mass media such as television and radio might be perceived by frontier travellers as diminishing the uniqueness and authentic nature of the experience, whereas the use of articles or 'advertorial' written by frontier travellers might have a more persuasive or inspirational appeal.

The role that the media plays in shaping travel experiences appears to be complex and shifting, and thus requires further research to take account of new types of media and tourism niches, like the unique journeys highlighted in this paper.

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Developing a Plausible Context for Establishing Mutual E-Commerce Media in the Tourism Industry

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Abstract

This research applies the 'Scenario Analysis Instrument' adopted by the Stanford Research Institute to simulate the analogic context to establish an E-commerce platform for Taiwan's tourism industry. This research subject is one of three decisive issues voted by the panelists (experts) in a Four-year Project of the Institute for Information Industry and sponsored by the Ministry of Economic Affairs (MOEA). The representative experts are invited from divergent industries, public sectors, academic institutions and R&D units to draw up and decide upon essential issues for upgrading Taiwan's tourism industry. By adopting the Delphi method, three crucial decisive issues dominate over others and this research focuses on one of them: item L emphasizes how to develop a mutual E-commerce platform for effective connection of an information network. Eventually, we propose two critical findings. Firstly, when establishing mutual E-commerce platforms (media) which transcend across various sub-industries, the coordination and integration of an existing resource commitment is the most critical mission for advanced preparation. Simultaneously, the fulfillment and perfection of law-making for online consumption including the scope of B2B and B2C must be accomplished promptly. Secondly, establishing mutual E-commerce platforms for different sub-industries respectively, distinguishing boundaries among various businesses from different scopes of sub-industries causes a controversial and preceding problem.

Keywords: E-commerce, Delphi method, tourism and travel industry, contextual research, intra- and inter-industry

Research background and purpose

In Taiwan, the sum of the national online shopping expenditure has reached US\$1.5 billion in 2005 and is forecasted to achieve US\$2.9 billion by 2008 according to the annual report of the Institute for Information Industry (III). The business volume of the tourism industry has become the first status with a percentage of 68% among all categories of online commodities traded in 2004. Since the Taiwan government issued the policy of 'Challenge 2008: The National Development Plan for Doubling Tourist Arrivals' in 2003, the responsible authority has devoted themselves to communicate with practical representatives from travel-related sub-industries, to reinforce the infrastructural establishment and to facilitate cultural revitalization for tourism development.

Examining the evolution of e-business in American and European countries, offering the prior knowledge of building media (mutual

platform) for website marketing, have built up tourism industries 'International Integrated E-Commerce Platforms' for decades to provide modern travelers online concurrent services all over the world with the accomplishment of perfect legislation and the founding of responsible institutions. For better progress towards the internationalization of tourism and the travel industries in Taiwan, the Government mandated Institute for Information Industry of the Ministry of Economic Affairs (III of the MOEA) to call representatives from various fields to hold several crucial meetings for future plans. This research is accordingly based on the Governmental plan for enhancing Taiwan's tourism industry's international competitiveness through establishing mutual e-commerce media that accelerates effective communication among various sub-industries and online consumers. We try to create plausible contexts for problem discovering and

solving via continuous brainstorming and opinions converge for several times.

Literature Review

A Global View on Promoting National Tourism and the Travel Industry

Werthner and Ricci (2004) proposed certain global characteristics for describing evolutionary trends of tourism and the travel-related industry in the future. Firstly, the sales of the tourism product accounted for 11% of worldwide GDP, referring to the survey of the World Travel & Tourism Council. Moreover, there will be one billion international arrivals by 2010 according to the prediction of the World Tourism Organization. Meanwhile, the global market demand and performance of the tourism industry is expected to leapfrog over the other industries. Secondly, the portfolio of tourism products has been developed as bundles of basic lines and value chains. For the sake of supporting the complex combination for various products, the boundaries of product segmentation needs to be well-defined through professional coordination by the government with respect to the consumer behaviors and types of suppliers' distribution channels. Thirdly, the latest information about tourism products needs to be gathered and interacted between consumers and suppliers and to be exchanged among all of the cooperative suppliers. The imperfection and asymmetry of market information will result in high searching costs if the whole industry fails to build a perfect information network. A similar description indicated by Stephen (2004) shows that the tourism and travel industry are demonstrated with the features: (1) complexity (a diverse range of businesses), (2) the symbol of social welfare, (3) generality (abundant natural resources for developing the tourism industry); (4) invisible service; (5) high elasticity of demand; (6) low return on investments; and (7) fixed elasticity of supply (sunk cost).

Yet the compatibility of services among diverse types of business are not easily coordinated for short-term evolution, operators of the tourism industry frequently face considerable risks (Tseng and Lee, 2006). In the Taiwan tourism industry, the scale of business cooperation for cultivating mutual e-commerce platforms remains at a firm-level

without further progress on a national-level or industry-level coordination due to a great deal of practical problems in laws, resources and planning.

It's a Worldwide Trend for Tourism Industry to Develop an Integrated E-Commerce Media

In the end of the 1960s, the Internet technology emerged and brought upon a redefinition of conventional transaction channels all over the world. The emergence of the Internet breaks the boundaries of time and territory, acts as a splendid channel (especially in Customer Relationship Management), and provides higher value services and divergent functions than those found in traditional business models. Heskett (1986) suggested that Internet marketing represented an essential channel for service companies to maintain their competitive advantages.

Managing the tourism industry in the scope of a whole country requires the integration of diverse business information which causes the requirements for developing mutual media, structural design and communication technology for information exchanges (Sheldon, 1993; Poon, 1993; Cho, 1998). Technology of information communication has been changing the global tourism industry rapidly because the Internet and innovative media platforms utilized for tourism marketing and transactions are popular and far-reaching day after day (Buhalis and Deimezi, 2003). In 2003, more than 42 million of the U. S. adult population booked travel via the Internet media through websites and utilized it to search for travel-related information, according to the Travel Industry Association of America. Tourism and travel industry transactions are growing incrementally and this industry is one of the leading applicators of online trading characterized as B2C (Werthner and Ricci, 2004). Inspecting on the survey report of European countries, the online sales of the travel industry achieved more than \$14 billion reported by the Danish Center for Regional and Tourism Research (Schuster, 2002). In Marcussen's (2003) survey research, online sales of travel-related businesses have reached € 7.6 billion accounted for in the European market by 2002 and is expected to achieve €1 7.6 billion by 2006. This trend implies that a country establishes a mutual platform of e-

commerce transactions for both micro and macro levels of the travel industry has become of critical importance for future worldwide competition.

Since Taiwan issued the 'Doubling Tourist Arrivals Plan', the national online shopping expenditure has reached US\$1.5 billion in 2005 and been estimated to achieve US\$2.9 billion by 2008 according to an annual report from the Institute for Information Industry. Not very well-known is the fact that the business volume of the tourism industry has become the first status in Taiwan with a percentage of 68% among all categories of online commodities traded in 2004. This evidence reveals the urgency for the Taiwan Government to build online mutual media in the scale industry-level or subindustry-level to reduce redundant searching costs for suppliers and consumers.

Research Design and Methodology

Applying the Delphi Method for Selecting Essential Issues

This research executes the Delphi method which is an activity of group communication among a panel of geographically dispersed experts to deal systematically with our selecting the essential issues for accelerating the development of Taiwan tourism and the travel industry. In the Delphi process, the core elements should be (a) structuring information flow, (b) feedback to the panelists, and (c) anonymity for the participants. According to Fowles's (1978) ten steps for the Delphi method, this research firstly forms a professional 'steering committee' to undertake and monitor a Delphi on a given subject related to tourism policy. Then we develop Delphi questionnaires for essential issues, test for proper wording, and deliver respectively the questionnaires to the panelists for individual responses. When the analysis results for all

responses (panelists' opinions) achieves are convergent in the specific scope after several rounds of questionnaire surveys, we release the outcome to every panelist and concurrently call meetings for further activities of panel study.

Scenario Analysis for Exploring the Plausibility of a Developmental Environment

The scenario is the possible main point of a script, an outline or a narrative which refers to the evolution of a plot of a play (Porter et al., 1991). It helps researchers comprehend the occurrence of an event, the related causes and effects and the plausible environments. Scheemaker and Van der Heijden (1992) considered that *scenario analysis* was not only a forecast and a prediction but also was a discovery of any possible contexts for future development. The *Scenario analysis method* was broadly utilized to plan for long-term projects by American or European business practitioners in the middle of 1980s (Linneman and Klein, 1993); and it emphasized the construction of a cause-effect process and decisive purposes through longitudinal observation (Kahn and Weiner, 1967).

In order to integrate various opinions and obtain better solutions from invited panelists, this research applies a 'Scenario Analysis Instrument' developed from the Stanford Research Institute, California (SRI) to portray plausible contexts for drawing up feasible policies. In the proceeding process, we adopt the Delphi method with brainstorming and nominal group techniques alternated for achieving a focused agreement. The original elements of 6 steps: decision focus, key decision factor, driving force, scenario logic and uncertain axis, scenario framework and content and analyzing decisive implication, the sequential flows and processes consisting of a systematic procedure are shown in Figure 1.

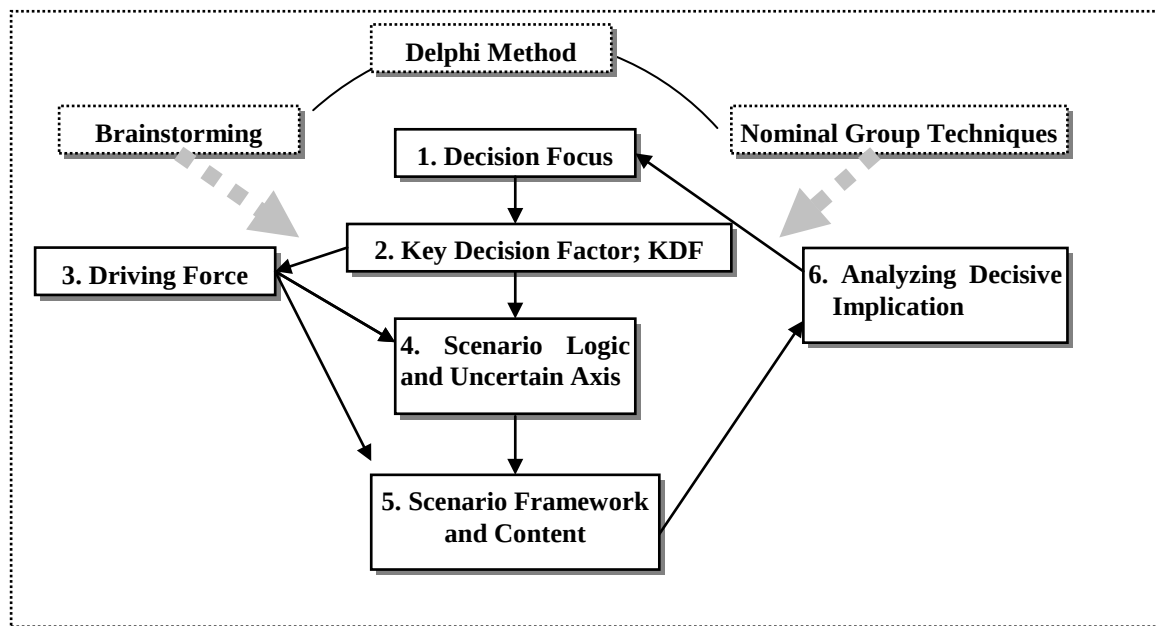


Figure 1. The Procedure of Scenario Development (Chen and Chiou, 2004)

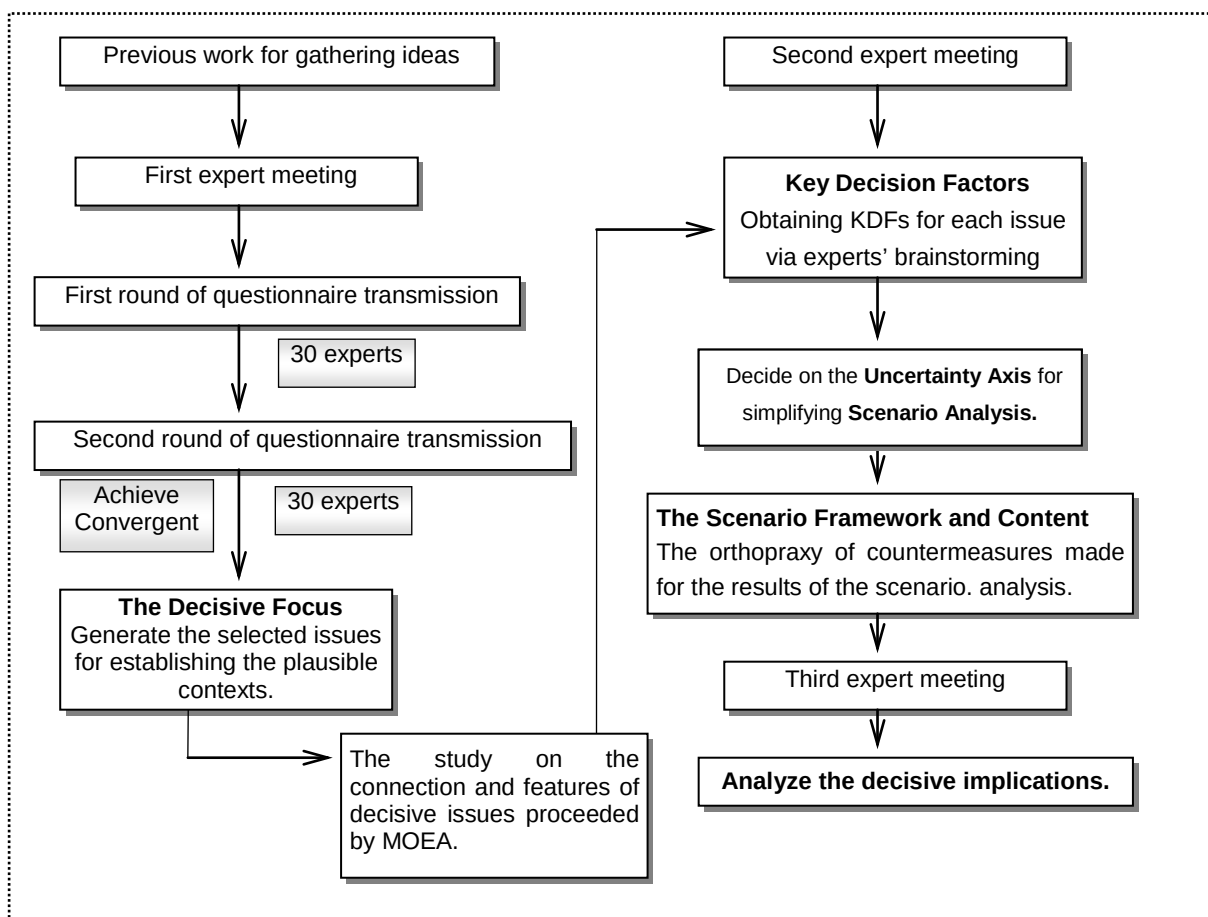


Figure 2. The Operational Procedure Designed for this Research.

Research Implementation

For implementing this research project, we first invited experts from various sub-industries, public sectors, academic institutions and R&D units to draw up and decide upon essential issues concerning the development and upgrading of the Taiwan tourism and travel industry. The design of an operational procedure is illustrated as shown in Figure 2. In the beginning of the procedure, we acquired 38 opinion-dispersed issues proposed by experts (panelists) via the survey of an open structured questionnaire gathered by sending off individual e-mails in early July, 2005 for developing the first round Delphi questionnaire. After ardent discussion in the first expert *meeting*, there were eventually 15 refined issues generated and re-combined from the initial 38 issues. In the following stages, we adopted the Delphi method twice by sending off individual e-mail questionnaires in the end of July and in the mid of August; and then we successfully voted out 3 crucial decisive issues from the 15 redefined issues.

After the second *meeting* in September and a third meeting in October, the experts (panelists) sequentially completed drawing up and determining the Key Decisive Factors (KDFs), the uncertainty axes, scenario framework and scenario contents for the three issues chosen respectively. Consequently, they proposed the plausible contexts to infer the responsive strategies for the problems and alternatives and solutions generated by fulfilling each sub-plans (issues). In this research, we focus on one representative issue: 'Item L – Developing an integrated E-commerce media for the Taiwan tourism industry' as a demonstration for the scenario analysis.

Scenario Analysis Process

The Description of Item L: Developing an Integrated E-Commerce Media for the Taiwan Tourism Industry

The description of item L defined by experts at the first time meeting is as follows. Through

the assistance of the public sectors, the business entities belong to the same/ different sub-industries and can establish mutual online media for promoting tourism and travel products. This media can satisfy consumers' diverse requirements by providing legal and all-inclusive products. It can also provide multi-channels for transaction like auctions, bidding and one-stop shopping for modern travelers and tourists (visitors traveling for pleasure). This research definitely records the details of the item L policy including the target applicants and the functions of this mutual media proposed by our experts. The effectiveness of this project is to create extensive and omnibearing services for customers all over the world through perfect coordination with frontline orders from customers and backline services from practitioners.

Selecting the Decisive Scenarios for Generating KDFs

For the project assigned by the Government, the MOEA needs to explore and comprehend both of the national and firm levels of environments for establishing mutual e-commercial (media) platforms. This research hence obtained the three decisive scenarios for generating the key decision factors (KDFs) from the viewpoints of practitioners, consumers and public mechanisms (Table 1).

After giving up six unreasonable scenarios due to a lack of general logics in practice, the panelists (experts) sequentially defined and named the plausible contexts by setting up three specific scenarios: 'Everybody is happy', 'Lack of reliability' and 'Caviar to the general' which is according to the adjustments of contextual factors: *acceptability of practitioners, the focus points of the acceptability of consumers, and the public mechanisms*. The three contextual factors are viewpoints from three kinds of approaches (consumers, industry representatives, public sectors) and they become the framework for the following stages.

Table 1. The Three Decisive Scenarios for Generating KDFs

Viewpoints from three kinds of approaches		Scenario1	Scenario2	Scenario3
Acceptability of practitioners ·Professional knowledge ·Resources and capabilities	Practitioners	Good*	Good	Bad
The focus points of the acceptability of consumers ·Professional knowledge ·Pricing ·Informational content ·Service content by practitioners	Consumers	Good	Good	Bad
The public mechanisms ·The trustworthiness of market transactions. ·The abundance and symmetry of information for three kinds of objects. ·The construction of transaction media (e-commerce platform)	The public mechanisms	Good	Bad	Good
Naming the selected scenario		Everybody is happy.	Lack of reliability.	Caviar to the general. (The most exquisite tune is understood by few.)

* The viewpoints of each scenario marked 'Good' means positive development and high acceptability and those marked 'Bad' means negative development and low acceptability by expert meeting.

The Scenario Logic and Uncertainty Axis

According to the three decisive scenarios (Table 1), the experts then converged their opinions towards developing the scenario logic and uncertainty axis (Table 2).

Through the enthusiastic discussions with experts, the descriptive contents were defined from cell ① to ⑨ sequentially and respectively in the meeting. They are then combined into the next step for deciding the key decisive factors (KDFs).

Table 2. The Development of Scenario Logic and Uncertainty Axis

3 Scenarios Outline for uncertainty axis	Scenario 1: Everybody is happy.	Scenario 2: Lack of reliability.	Scenario 3: Caviar to the general.
Acceptability of practitioners	①	②	③
The focus points of the acceptability of consumers	④	⑤	⑥
The public mechanisms	⑦	⑧	⑨

Data source: The records of the second time expert meeting in September, 2005 held by MOEA.

The Key Decision Factors for Plausible Contexts

After completely stating the implications of the three sets of scenario logic in Table 2, we

concluded that all the experts' contributions towards the six key decision factors (Table 3) were via the initial uncertainty axis in the second expert meeting.

Table 3. The development of KDFs via an uncertainty axis

Uncertainty axis	Acceptability of practitioners •Professional knowledge •Resources and capabilities	Acceptability of practitioners •Professional knowledge •Resources and capabilities	Acceptability of practitioners •Professional knowledge •Resources and capabilities
Developing the KDFs for building up context.	KDF(1-1) KDF(1-2)	KDF(2-1)	KDF(3-1) KDF(3-2) KDF(3-3)

Data source: The records of the second expert meeting in September, 2005 held by the MOEA.

KDF(1-1): Industrial practitioners would like to promote the internal management and E-transformation of marketing.

KDF(1-2): The trade associations of the Tourism and Travel or the Government departments, being the third party, should coordinate practitioners in the same or different industries to collaborate for reciprocal benefits without any personal preconceived ideas.

KDF (3-1): Institute and monitor the transaction mechanisms.

KDF (3-2): Assist practitioners in establishing and operating the hardware and software related to online transactions.

KDF (3-3): Found a specific and responsible organization in the public sector to take responsibilities for exuberating and managing

the contents of web pages so as to build an economy of scope from collective marketing.

The Cross Analysis of Scenario Logic and Key Decision Factors

This research applies three scenarios of Table 2 and six KDFs of Table 3 to form a matrix, and then adopts Cross-Tabulation Analysis to depict the details of feasible strategies for each context positioned in the eighteen cells of Table 4.

The experts defined the descriptive contents from a context of 1 to 18 in detail; and then they proposed a SWOT analysis for the overall environment and contributed critical technology strategies to be the guidelines of future implementation.

Table 4 The cross analysis of scenario logic and KDFs

3 scenarios	S1. Everybody is happy ♦ Acceptability of practitioners is high . ♦ The acceptability of consumers is high . ♦ The effectiveness of public mechanisms is high .	S2. Lack of reliability. ♦ Acceptability of practitioners is high . ♦ The acceptability of consumers is high . ♦ The effectiveness of public mechanisms is low .	S3. Caviar to the general. ♦ Acceptability of practitioners is low . ♦ The acceptability of consumers is high . ♦ The effectiveness of public mechanisms is high .
KDFs			
KDF (1-1)	context 1	context 2	Context 3
KDF (1-2)	context 4	context 5	Context 6
KDF (2-1)	context 7	context 8	Context 9
KDF (3-1)	context 10	context 11	Context 12
KDF (3-2)	context 13	context 14	Context 15
KDF (3-3)	context 16	context 17	Context 18

Data source: The records of the second time expert meeting in October, 2005 held by the MOEA.

Research Results

With the functioning of e-commerce for decades, advanced countries in Europe and America have completed the divergent business integration of value chains and alliances for the worldwide service of tourism. Nowadays in the e-revolution, the horizontal and vertical alliances of the tourism industry in Taiwan haven't achieved maturity. There have been only a small scope of integrative marketing and the limited function of online booking services via the Internet platform. Establishing mutual e-commerce media for an industry in the scope of a country, however, needs examination of the holistic contextual environment which consists of Government long-term policy, firms' and consumers' behavior, opportunities and threats for this project, as well as problems of deficiencies and key demanded policies (KDPs) we should make for the project execution.

The Narratives of Three Scenarios for Establishing Mutual Transaction Media

After the second expert meeting held in October 2005, the narratives of the three scenarios: 'S1-Everyone is happy', 'S2-Lack of reliability', and 'S3-Caviar to the general' are defined as follows.

The narrative of scenario 1: Everyone is happy.

Under strong support from the Government's long-term policies, industrial firms are motivated to invest in this project by partial financial assistance. They are also coached to apply information technology skillfully to possess the ability of maintaining the software and hardware for online transactions. In addition, industrial associations are assigned to communicate firms' divergent opinions to generate a common consensus that facilitates the promotion and implementation of this plan on media establishment. A trusted third party that takes charge of maintaining and monitoring the equity of online transactions traded via our mutual platform (media) has to be formed or entrusted by the Government in order to safeguard consumer interests. This third party is obligated to design the mechanisms for managing online suppliers, so it is devoted to the fulfillment of law-making for online consumption. The power of public

trust in mutual media must be established steady, because it will become an activator of mega-marketing that contributes to the market expansion all over the world. In this scenario, the three parties: the Government, industrial firms and consumers are able to realize their objectives respectively.

The narrative of scenario 2: Lack of reliability.

Firms have fulfilled the standardization of operation process, they have learned the application of web marketing and they also would like to get involved in the establishment of infrastructures for the e-revolution. The tacit agreement of online cooperation transcending various sub-industries has been achieved. Firms have simultaneously planned to access various customers who utilize different transactional channels such as, Kiosk, cellular phones, PC etc. so that they would satisfy more modern customers and raise the utility rate of mutual media. But the Government's policy is actually unable to maintain the continuous commitment. It causes firms to have limited motivation and substantial resources to proceed with this project. The most regrettable defect is absence of a trusted third party that can take charge of safeguarding the interests of consumers and firms. Consequently, there are no mechanisms for managing and restricting online suppliers and there is also a lack of the perfection of law-making for online consumption. In this scenario, the power of public trust in mutual media fails to be established eventually; and thus this mutual e-commerce media loses its efficacy very quickly.

The narrative of scenario 3: Caviar to the general. (The most exquisite tune is understood by few.)

The Government aims at promoting this project with strong support. Additionally, a trusted third party that takes charge of maintaining and monitoring the equity of online transactions is planned to be formed or entrusted. In this scenario, regrettably, most industrial firms have severely divergent opinions. It's arduous for industrial associations to negotiate with them for achieving a common consensus that is requisite before the implementation of this plan and that definitely precedes the establishment of this media. Not many firms have fulfilled the

standardization of operation process, learned the application of web marketing and would like to get involved in the establishment of infrastructures for an e-revolution. Without the commitment of online cooperation among industrial firms, it's difficult to plan to access various customers who utilize different transactional channels due to limited scope of the utility, let alone satisfy more customers and raise the utility rate of mutual media. Consequently, firms and customers are demotivated to get involved in this plan; and only the Government is an enthusiastic advocate of establishing this mutual media.

Opportunities and Adverse Circumstances to Establish this Transactional Media

Opportunities

From 2002, the Taiwan government has been implementing the policy of 'Challenge 2008: National Development Plan for Doubling Tourist Arrivals.' Therefore, the policy support from the public sectors is expected.

With more intense competition between Taiwan and worldwide tourism industries, Taiwan firms are forced to consider the necessity of self-transcendence and self-promotion.

Through establishing a mutual e-commerce platform, a modern and multi-functioned transactional media, the vertical and horizontal integration among tourism sub-industries can be fulfilled. With a credit guarantee from the trusted third party on this media, online marketing, auctions, advertising, and selling become the best instruments for firms to utilize. This is a convenience for customers to adopt online bidding, ordering, and inquiring via this media. The great benefit derived from this plan will be an improvement of transaction speed, higher inventory turnover rates, better efficiency of customer relationship management (CRM) than before and the facilitation of global marketing.

Adverse Circumstances

The sustainability and stability of the plan budget from the Government can not be guaranteed for long-term implementation.

As things stand, most industrial firms choose to stay in old routines due to stagnation and

self-limiting attitudes. It will be arduous for industrial associations to negotiate with them for achieving a common consensus that definitely precedes the establishment of this media.

This plan needs a third party who is obligated to fulfill the law-making for online consumption and to execute its monitoring. Until now, there are no specific mechanisms and organizations in Taiwan to monitor the equity of general online transactions and to safeguard consumer interests. The power of public trust of the mutual media is difficult to be established for the moment. This mutual e-commerce media will become deprived of its efficacy very soon if there is absence of credit guarantees.

The levels of IT application among Taiwan firms are uneven, and the gaps for communicating the concept of industrial integration among Taiwan sub-industries are significantly considerable. Therefore, it's difficult for all firms to fulfill the standardization of operation process in the short term, to learn the application of web marketing and to get involved in the establishment of infrastructures for e-revolution. If this plan is lacking the commitment of online cooperation among industrial firms, it will limit the scope of the utility of this media.

Experts' Common Consensus on the Feasible Policies to Fulfill this Plan

(1) Preliminary work

- Make this plan a long-term project (10 years) for the Government's continuous support.
- Declare the concept of this plan with industrial firms, then adopt interviews, field surveys and hold industrial conventions for direct interaction.
- Industrial associations, the practitioners' representatives, are assigned to communicate and coordinate firms' divergent opinions for achieving common consensus among individual sub-industries or the whole tourism industries.
- Associations have to investigate all industrial firms for finding the practical levels of IT application and facilities, and

examine the exact investments in IT equipment and infrastructure from the previous Government projects. The survey of existing resource commitment is especially critical for establishing mutual E-commerce media transcended various sub-industries (for the whole industry), because it affects the possibility of overall industrial integration.

- The discrimination of sub-industrial boundaries among various businesses, such as travel agencies, airline service companies, and various ticketing service companies, causes a controversial and preceding problem for online marketing. It actually affects the horizontal integration of individual sub-industries; and therefore it must be solved by industrial communications.
- Cooperate with several leading IT consultancy companies for administering a human resource and configuration of hardware and software training program. This cooperative relationship is supervised under a public third party.
- Due to the different levels of IT applications among industrial firms, this plan will adopt a 'Paradigm Setting' strategy in the beginning through the invitation of a group of firms who would like to participate in this plan.
- Design and regulate the contents of websites and homepages.

(2) Institution and law-making

- Institutionalize the issues of professional licenses, the membership system and the qualification of online transactions.
- Form or assign a trusted third party that takes charge of supervising, law-making, auditing and monitoring the operation of this mutual media in order to safeguard consumer interests.
- Draw up the regulations and agreements for industrial firms to deploy online products inside their legal boundaries.
- Establish a system of company assessment, a program of label proof and online information center for safeguarding customer interests.

- Design effective mechanisms to forbid firms from abusing customer data for protecting online customer's privacy. Moreover, design the system to preclude the existence of online ticket scalpers.

Conclusions

After adopting the standard process of the Stanford scenario analysis, panelists (experts) in this project converged their opinions toward four important suggestions. Firstly, the examination and integration of resources which has been invested from previous Governmental projects is the most critical mission when establishing integrated E-commerce media transcending various sub-industries (the whole industry). Secondly, the law-making for protecting online consumers, monitoring online transactions (B2B and B2C), and forbidding illegal behaviors has to be fulfilled perfectly via a public third party before activating this in the e-commerce media. Thirdly, the discrimination of the boundaries among various sub-industries and the distinguishability for the deployment of the product and service among various businesses causes a controversial problem for online marketing, and it actually affects the horizontal integration of individual sub-industries. Finally, industrial associations have to negotiate with firms who stay in old routines for achieving common consensuses preceding the establishment of this media.

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Film-Induced Tourism: An Incidental Experience

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Abstract

This paper reports on research that was conducted to discover how film viewing might be related to tourism activities and whether motivations drive people to become film specific tourists or whether visitation to film locations is simply an incidental tourism experience. A survey was designed to collect data relating to film tourism motivation, film viewing behaviour, general travel behaviour and demographic profiles. The questionnaire contained a range of information including 29 motivational statements drawn from the literature and previously conducted in-depth interviews. Based on empirical evidence, it appears that these respondents were most interested in the novelty, prestige and fantasy elements associated with film-induced tourism.

Factor analysis was applied in order to reduce the 29 statements into themes of motivations which were labelled *Novelty*, *Prestige*, and *Fantasy*. A model, using logistic regression, was then developed to predict likely future film tourist behaviour. It can be concluded that membership of the 'likely to take a film tourism holiday in future' group was most probable amongst those respondents who (a) had taken a film based holiday in the past, (b) had high *Novelty* motivations and (c) had high *Fantasy* motivations. The findings of the research also suggest that most tourists are more likely to be incidental film tourists.

Key words: Motivation, film tourist behaviour, film tourist experience

Introduction

What is it that motivates someone to take a holiday based around a film they have seen? It is possible to speculate that film tourists may be motivated by elements of escape, romance and fantasy or even a sense of vicarious experience. Cinematic images may influence consumer decision making processes in terms of motivating visitation to film locations. An understanding of this relationship between tourism behaviour and film is becoming more crucial as destinations strive to differentiate themselves in a crowded marketplace. Yet, little research has been undertaken to help understand the motivations for film-induced tourism. Despite being a growing area of interest, an understanding of film-induced tourism and in particular the film tourist experience is limited. This paper reports on research that was conducted to discover how film viewing might be related to tourism behaviour and tourist activity, and whether motivations drive people to become film specific tourists or whether visitation to film locations is simply an incidental tourism experience.

Literature Review

Feature films are often produced at significant and impressive locations which can gain increased popularity as tourist destinations after the film has been released. Indeed there would appear to be a strong correlation between the place of film production and the motivation of the tourist to visit that location. But is this necessarily the case? Film-induced tourism can be referred to as a post-modern experience of a place that has been depicted in some form of media representation. That is, an experience that is highly personalised and unique to each individual based on their own interpretation and consumption of media images (Macionis, 2005).

When film-induced tourism is defined from the consumer perspective various behavioural aspects of the film-induced tourist are highlighted. This approach is usually set within Urry's (1990) framework of the tourist gaze in terms of film constructing a gaze for an individual to observe. In this context, people may be induced to visit the places they have gazed upon the cinema screen. Riley, Baker, and Van Doren state that it is when "people

seek the sights/sites they have seen on the silver screen, it is then that they, indeed, become movie induced tourists” (1998: 920). While Beeton (2005) takes a broader approach in her definition of film-induced tourism including visitation to sites where movies and TV programs are made as well as to film production studios and film theme parks (such as Movieworld). Importantly, her focus is also on the consumer perspective or “the tourist activity associated with the film industry” at such sites.

The influence of media on the travel decision making process has been examined by various researchers (see Hunt, 1975; Butler, 1990; Echtner & Ritchie, 1991; Schofield, 1996) who have suggested that consumers receive information about potential destinations via a range of media. This information enables the consumer to construct their own interpretations or images which form the basis of their destination choices. Films, in particular, play a very significant role in influencing people’s mental images and perceptions of a destination.

As Butler (1990) argues, films as visual media are more significant to consumers than printed sources of information (eg. advertising brochures) because they are perceived to have higher levels of credibility and do not carry the same perceived bias as promotional material. It is thus recognised that film can enhance awareness of destinations and affect the decision making process of consumers (Schofield, 1996).

In order to further understand film-induced tourism it is appropriate to examine the motivations of the film-induced tourist. The study of consumer motivation generally involves understanding the interrelationships between motives and specific behaviour. The importance of motivation in specific tourism behaviour is clear. Tourism motivation acts as a trigger that sets off all the events involved in travel (Parrinello, 1993). It can be defined as “a meaningful state of mind which adequately disposes an individual to travel, and which is subsequently interpretable by others as a valid explanation for such a decision” (Dann, 1981: 205).

In terms of investigating internal drivers of film-induced tourism, it is anticipated that there are a range of possible motivations that

come into play. Such drivers might include; ego-enhancement; fantasy or escape; status or prestige; search for self-identity; or vicarious experience. Tourists may be drawn to film sites for more personal motivations such as reliving nostalgic memories from childhood, for example, as in the generational favourite, *The Sound of Music*, which then becomes a sentimental journey, or visiting Notting Hill for romantic notions.

A critical internal driver, or motivation, in film-induced tourism is the ‘tourist gaze’ in terms of film constructing a gaze for an individual to observe (Urry, 1990).

In terms of the gaze, Riley and Van Doren (1998) also suggest that film tourists may be motivated by vicarious involvement and identification with locations through movie storylines which allow greater personal meaning to the beholders of the gaze. This notion of ‘vicarious experience’ can be understood through the concept of empathy (Kim & Richardson, 2003). This suggests a visceral feeling about someone else’s life which allows an individual to participate in the ‘posture, motions and sensations’ of someone or something else.

Couldry (1998) proposes the motivation of pilgrimage to ritual sites (ie. film or television locations) and labels film-induced tourists as ‘media pilgrims’ who are fulfilling the motivation to ‘gaze’ on sites they have seen on screen. Beeton (2005, 2002) also suggests that film tourism is about tourists looking for the sites, people, experiences and even the fantasies portrayed by films. This introduces the intangible elements of the individual tourist experience based on individual motivating factors, such as fantasy. Indeed, Riley and Van Doren emphasised that the attractions seen in films “are not only associated with the allure of picturesque physical environments, but also for reasons of pilgrimage, escape and nostalgia” (1992: 268).

This paper will now expand upon the methodology used in this research in the investigation of film-induced tourism motivation in an attempt to discover how film viewing might be related to tourism behaviour and tourist activity.

Method

In order to better understand the film tourism experience and to discover whether film viewing actually motivates people to become film specific tourists or whether visiting film locations is simply an incidental tourism experience, a quantitative method was selected using a questionnaire based survey instrument. A survey was designed to collect data relating to film tourism motivation, film viewing behaviour, general travel behaviour and demographic profiles.

The questionnaire contained a range of information including 29 motivational statements drawn from the literature and previously conducted in-depth interviews.

Respondents were asked to indicate the extent to which they agreed or disagreed with each of the 29 statements on a 5-point Likert scale. Each statement began with the words, For me, the main reasons for travelling to film locations would be... and ended with a reason such as To have a unique experience or To fulfil a personal dream. This section also asked a series of open ended questions about the activities, experiences and behaviour of respondents related to film tourism.

A total of 2000 surveys were mailed out to a random sample from a national resident mailing list database. There were no follow-up reminders sent due to financial and time constraints. The national mailing list included participants who had indicated a specific interest in both cinema and travel pursuits making it a purposive sample. A total of 668 useable surveys were returned representing a good response rate of 33 per cent. This is a very good response rate for mail surveys where the modal return rates lie between 20 per cent and 40 per cent, even after follow-up reminders (Green, Tull & Albaum, 1988).

Analysis of the data was conducted in various stages. First, descriptive statistics were generated for all demographic and trip variables, and means were calculated for the responses to each of the film tourism motivation statements. Second, the 29 statements representing film tourism motivations were tested using Principal Components Factor Analysis where three independent themed factors became evident.

Logistic Regression was used in the final stage of the data analysis to identify a predictive model of future film tourist behaviour. Logistic Regression allows for the prediction of a discrete outcome such as group membership from a set of variables that may be continuous, discrete or dichotomous therefore it was considered appropriate to conduct this type of analysis in order to achieve the objective of predicting likelihood of future film tourism behaviour (Tabachnick & Fidell, 2001).

Limitations of the research should be acknowledged. First, the sampling frame used for this study was a purposive sample of individuals selected from a national database with identified interest in both cinema attendance and travel pursuits. Thus, it could be considered a biased sample. Random sampling where every member of the population has an equal chance of being selected was not considered the most appropriate sampling method as it was feared a lower response rate from people with no known interest in either travelling nor going to the cinema.

Another limitation of this research was the under-representation of male respondents. As is common with many consumer surveys (Rourke & Lakner, 1989), there was an under-representation of male respondents with a clearly female dominated sample population with females representing 80 per cent and males representing the remaining 20 per cent of respondents. However, the response rate was very good and the qualitative responses in particular provided a great deal of rich and detailed information because the respondents had an interest in the topic area.

Results

In this section, some of the key results of the research will be discussed. First, a brief discussion of descriptive results including an overview of demographic information will be provided, followed by a ranking table of film-induced tourism motivation items. Further to this, the three independent themed factors which became evident after conducting Principal Components Factor Analysis will be discussed. Finally, a brief overview of the Logistic Regression outcomes will be provided.

In terms of descriptive demographic information from the sample used in this study, the gender category presented a clearly female dominated sample population with females representing 80 per cent and males representing the remaining 20 per cent. The age distribution of respondents indicated that the majority of respondents were aged between 30-39 years, followed by 20-29 years category. The clear majority of respondents were married with only a quarter of respondents indicating they were single.

TAFE qualifications and undergraduate degrees respectively were the two highest response categories for education levels. In terms of occupation, the majority of respondents were in a professional occupation, followed by clerical positions and home duties. There was a large percentage of high income earners in the sample with 23 per cent of the respondents earning combined household income between \$65,000-\$100,000 and a further 16 per cent earning over \$100,000. See Table 1.

Table 1. Demographic Profile of Respondents

Variable	Frequency	Per cent
Gender (n=664)		
Male	114	17.2
Female	550	82.8
Age		
Under 20	8	1.1
20-29	196	29.7
30-39	197	29.9
40-49	142	21.5
50-59	91	13.8
60yrs+	24	4
Relationship Status (n=663)		
Single	178	26.8
Separated	62	9.4
Married	289	43.6
Defacto	127	19.2
Education (n=662)		
Completed Year 10 or less	78	11.8
Completed Year 11 or 12	137	20.7
TAFE Certificate/Diploma	162	24.5
Trade Qualification	20	3
Undergraduate Degree	157	23.7
Postgraduate Degree	79	11.9
Occupation (n=664)		
Professional	151	22.7
Clerical	98	14.8
Sales/Retail	52	7.8
Tradesperson	17	2.6
Manager	77	11.6
Student	48	7.2
Home Duties	92	13.9
Retired	27	4
Unemployed	13	1.9
Income (n=650)		
<\$20,000	69	10.6
\$20,001-35,000	74	11.4
\$35,001-50,000	137	21.1
\$50,001-65,000	110	16.9
\$65,001-100,000	152	23.4
\$100,000 +	108	16.6

Film viewing is clearly an important part of the recreational habits of this group of respondents. Indeed, the majority of this group of respondents watch films at home on television at least once a week and watch DVDs or videos at home on a fortnightly basis. Further, most respondents attend the cinema once every 1-2 months. The most liked types of films are blockbuster productions, followed by mainstream cinema, non-fiction and epic films. Animated productions and art house films are least liked by these respondents. In relation to film genres, the most popular are comedy, drama and adventure films while the least liked are western, horror and musical genres.

The respondents indicated a strong interest in travelling. Indeed, the majority had undertaken at least a couple of domestic holidays and a quarter of respondents had been on an international trip over the last 12 months. Almost half the respondents had been on a short break of less than 5 days duration, while

more than half had taken a longer holiday of more than 5 days duration. The majority indicated that they would like to travel more frequently than they do, and high on the agenda of respondents is to experience new things while escaping from their daily routine.

The main component of this study examined film-induced tourism motivations and behaviour by asking respondent agreement to a series of Likert scale statements. As can be seen in Table 2, the top five motivational statements were:

- *to see the scenery and landscape in real life;*
- *to have fun and feel entertained;*
- *to add something special to my holiday;*
- *to experience something novel and new;* and
- *to have a unique experience.*

Table 2. Rank Ordered Means of Film-Induced Tourism Motivational Items

Rank	Item	Mean	SD	n
1	To see the scenery and landscape in real life	4.15	0.74	654
2	To have fun and feel entertained	4.03	0.73	654
3	To add something special to my holiday	4.03	0.75	654
4	To experience something novel and new	3.91	0.75	654
5	To have a unique experience	3.85	0.87	654
6	To escape from the ordinary	3.83	0.86	654
7	To experience the film location	3.69	0.91	654
8	To have a satisfying tourism experience	3.65	0.88	654
9	To take photos at the film sites	3.62	0.99	654
10	To see behind the scenes of the film	3.43	1.08	654
11	To talk about it when I returned home	3.33	1.08	654
12	To reminisce about the film	3.32	0.99	654
13	To get a sense of the film's atmosphere	3.27	1.02	654
14	To feel excited to be on a film site	3.09	1.16	654
15	To gain first hand experience with the film	3.06	1.04	654
16	To feel the romance and nostalgia of film	2.99	1.05	654
17	To go to famous places my friends haven't been to	2.96	1.12	654
18	To relive the scenes from the film	2.93	1.05	654
19	To buy film memorabilia/souvenirs of the location	2.92	1.09	654
20	To make a personal connection with the film	2.91	1.07	654
21	To make a pilgrimage to sites seen on film	2.84	1.04	654
22	To bring the film to life (make it real)	2.82	1.12	654
23	To bathe in the glory of having been there	2.81	1.16	654
24	To fulfil a personal dream	2.68	1.17	654
25	To experience personal growth by visiting the site	2.63	1.09	654
26	To personally experience the storyline of the film	2.59	1.06	654
27	To fantasise that I was in the film	2.19	1.08	654
28	To feel close to my favourite actor	2.15	1.05	654
29	To fantasise that I was an actor in the film	1.98	0.99	654

When examining the mean score ranking of items, it can be seen that motivations such as fantasising about being in a film or feeling close to favourite movie stars rated the lowest scores. Thus in terms of this ranking, respondents indicated they were more interested in the novelty of film tourism and experiencing something different, as well as simply having a good time.

A diverse range of responses were given when respondents were asked for reasons why they had visited film locations. Twenty four per cent of respondents indicated that the reason for visiting a film location was because they were on holiday and it was part of their holiday experience.

We wanted to backpack around New Zealand, then we ended up attending the world premiere and stopping at some film locations while we travelled (185: Female, 21yrs).

The second highest reason provided by respondents as to why they had visited film locations was to see specific sites and locations from a film (14.8%).

We wanted to see where the film was made to see what it was like in real life (348: Male, 40yrs).

Wanted to see the sites and the Hobbit holes (118: Male, 27yrs).

The third reason for visiting a film location was as a side trip while on an organised holiday (14.3%). Nine per cent of respondents wanted to see for themselves the scenery backdrops that they had seen in films. It was the physical place of the film that was important to these respondents. Some of the responses in the 'other' category included visiting friends and relatives in the area; having won a holiday trip competition; attending an event, such as an opera performance; and on honeymoon.

When asked whether they had ever been on a holiday that included a visit to a film location, 70 per cent of respondents indicated they had

not. Thus, only 30 per cent of total respondents, or 195 individuals, could answer a series of probing questions about visiting film locations. When further probed as to whether they had ever visited a film location with the prime reason being to visit that film site, only 15 per cent of those whose holiday had included a visit to a film site, or 28 individuals, said yes, the remainder (85%) said that the main reason for travel had not been film related. Therefore, only 4 per cent of the total sample could be considered dedicated or specific film tourists.

Ranking the top motivational items in order of their mean scores provides a snapshot view of possible reasons for travelling to film locations, however in order to condense the 29 scale items down into smaller, more manageable dimensions or themes Exploratory Factor Analysis was used. Through conducting Principal Components Analysis (PCA), the original variables were transformed into a smaller set of linear combinations. Three themes of motivational forces appear to be common for these data. The three factors were labelled based upon the individual items contained in each group and in a way that was consistent with tourism motivation literature (see Crompton, 1979; Dann, 1981; Iso-Ahola, 1982).

The three dimensions identified in this study were labelled:

1. Fantasy
2. Novelty
3. Prestige

The first dimension, labelled Fantasy, contains thirteen items relating to fantasy aspects of film and the sense of personal involvement with film. The second dimension, labelled Novelty, contains seven items relating to having a unique or novel experience by visiting film locations. The third dimension, labelled Prestige, contains five items relating to the inherent status symbol of film tourism. See Table 3.

Table 3. Order (by Size of Loadings) in which Variables Contribute to Factors

Factor	Factor Loading	Eigenvalue	Variance Explained
1. Fantasy		6.47	25.9
personally experience storyline of film	.798		
bring film to life (make it real)	.736		
make personal connection with film	.732		
fantasize I was an actor in film	.730		
feel close to my favourite actor	.711		
fantasize I was in the film	.694		
feel romance/nostalgia of film	.685		
get a sense of the film's atmosphere	.662		
gain 1 st hand experience of the film	.628		
re-live scenes from the film	.610		
make a pilgrimage to sites seen on film	.596		
experience personal growth by visiting site	.556		
fulfil a personal dream	.543		
2. Novelty		4.48	17.9
have a unique experience	.736		
have fun and feel entertained	.732		
experience something novel and new	.704		
add something special to my holiday	.695		
see scenery/landscape in real life	.633		
have a satisfying tourism experience	.619		
escape from the ordinary	.619		
3. Prestige		3.19	12.8
talk about it when return home	.786		
go to famous places friends haven't been to	.765		
bathe in glory of having been there	.763		
buy film memorabilia/souvenirs	.445		
take photos at film sites	.443		

The composite scales were then computed by summing the scores on each of the individual items in the dimension and dividing by the number of items. Reliability coefficients were computed for each scale. As we can see in Table 4, it appears that elements of having a unique and novel experience, associated with visiting film locations, were the strongest

motivators. Indeed, because of the niche nature of film tourism itself, visiting such locations by nature is unique and novel. The motivation of prestige and status achieved through visiting film locations and being able to brag about it to friends was slightly less important to respondents, followed then by fantasy motivators associated with film.

Table 4. Motivational Dimensions Rank Order by Mean

Rank	Dimension	Mean	SD	Alpha
1	Novelty	3.92	.588	.859
2	Prestige	3.12	.829	.819
3	Fantasy	2.69	.775	.926

Note: 5 point scale where higher scores indicate higher levels of importance

Respondents were also asked if, in the future, they would like to travel to locations related to any films they had seen. From a total of 660 responses, 53 per cent of respondents indicated they would like to travel to locations related to films, while 47 per cent said they would not. Those that said yes, were then asked to list the film location they would most like to visit and

what they might do when visiting it. New Zealand was the destination most respondents wanted to visit in connection with the *Lord of the Rings* trilogy in order to admire the scenery and take photos of the spectacular sites they had seen in the films.

The final stage of the data analysis involved an attempt to identify a parsimonious, multivariate predictive model of future film tourism group membership (would you like to travel to locations related to any films you have seen?). In particular, motivational factors together with past behaviour were thought to be useful predictors of future film tourism group membership. An inspection of bivariate correlation revealed each of the motivational factors and past behaviour were significantly correlated with future behaviour.

The Hosmer and Lemshow statistic is not significant suggesting the model predicts real world data reasonably (Field, 2005). Thus, it can be concluded that membership of the *likely to take a film tourism holiday in future* group was most probable amongst those respondents who (a) had taken a film based holiday in the past, (b) had high novelty motivations and (c) had high fantasy motivations. The prestige motivation factor was not significant in predicting group membership.

Discussion

The results indicate that for the vast majority of tourists, film can only be considered a secondary motivator or contributing factor not a main or primary motivator for visiting film locations. Tourists generally happen to be at a destination and film is one of many reasons for the visit. It could be said that film-induced tourism tends to be an incidental or serendipitous tourist activity. Travel is not specifically for the film destination. It is an added bonus. Thus, clever promotion, packaging and marketing need to be considered to tap into a potentially lucrative market segment. There are only a very small percentage of tourists who could be classified as specific film-induced tourists who travel to a film location for the prime reason of visiting that film site. That is, the main reason for travel is specifically film related.

Film-induced tourism has the ability to offer destinations significant increased tourist awareness and potential visitation, which in turn can stimulate increased revenue and economic development. The tourism industry can appeal to three core motivational factors to entice tourists to a destination when aligning it with film (Novelty, Prestige and Fantasy). Novelty motives might be met by provision of special film based attractions or activities at

the identified film sites such as guided film walks through sites used in the film, so that tourists can engage in something novel and different. In relation to the novelty motivation, one respondent stated:

Just seeing places in real life that you have only seen in a film (78: Female, 48yrs).

In terms of appealing to Prestige type motives, destinations could provide photo opportunities through signage identifying scenes/icons from films, and souvenir shops could provide film memorabilia purchasing opportunities. Taking photos was an important activity with nearly 22 per cent of respondents indicating they took photos at a film site. This was clearly an important part of the film tourism experience for the following respondents:

Walked around the rotunda (from Sound of Music) and took photos (56: Female, 43yrs).

Had our photos taken in famous spots from the film (197: Female, 24yrs).

We took lots of photos and reviewed photos of the film during shooting (438: Female, 31yrs).

Although its mean ranking was lower than the other two motivation themes, Fantasy elements should not be neglected and destinations should provide opportunities for tourists to make a personal connection with the film. For example, props and icons from films could be made accessible so that individuals may relive scenes from the film and fulfil fantasies of being in the film. It is clearly important to some tourists to make a connection with the film and to see the scenery and locations of the film.

Connecting with something familiar, famous and special; taking something away with you that's personal, about something that's very famous (44: Female, 47yrs).

The most likely market to engage in future film-induced tourism are those that have already had a film based trip in the past and who have high novelty and high fantasy motivations. Despite the small niche it occupies, it would be useful for film tourism destinations to also tap into this dedicated film-induced tourist market segment. They have been film-induced tourists before with a desire

to experience the film location and based on this study, they are more than likely to be film-induced tourists again.

Conclusion

This paper has discussed results from research that was conducted to discover possible relationships between film viewing and tourist behaviour. It has highlighted some of the key motivations leading to film-induced tourism including novelty aspects relating to having a unique or novel experience by visiting film locations; prestige aspects such as the inherent status symbol of film-induced tourism; and fantasy (experiential) aspects of film and the sense of personal involvement with film. Indeed, it seems that to physically be in the place of the moving image is a strong motivation for the film-induced tourist. This paper has also provided empirical evidence that film is a secondary motivator or contributing factor not a primary motivator for visiting film locations. Tourists generally happen to be in a film destination anyway and film is one of many reasons for the film site visit. Thus, for the vast majority of travellers, film-induced tourism tends to be incidental or serendipitous. Finally, this paper has concluded that membership of the likely to take a film-induced tourism holiday in the future group was most probable among respondents who had taken a film based holiday in the past; had high novelty and high fantasy motivations.

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To Be Authentically Free and Free Authentically: An Analysis of the Interplay between Discourses of Authenticity and Freedom in the Travel Space

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Abstract

In contemporary society, youth travel is understood and represented, by travellers and media alike, as a contemporary rite of passage or significant, transitional moment. It is argued that the rapid accumulation of experience, an inherent component of travel, influences processes of identity construction and reconstruction. Central to these conceptualisations are concerns with authenticity and freedom, discourses that ultimately serve to structure the travel space and influence interactions between travellers and the travel media and industries.

Based on semi-structured, in-depth interviews with young Australian travellers and discourse, image and content analysis of key travel publications and advertisements, this paper will examine the interplay between discourses of authenticity and freedom in traveller narratives and travel media. It will examine how travel media (and the travel industries) imagine backpackers and the backpacking community and how backpackers' own self and travel-narratives correspond with or contest such representations. Central to this examination is the centrality of discourses of authenticity and freedom, and the tensions that emerge between the two, as they arise in traveller narratives and media and industry representations of travel. Ultimately, I will argue, following Wang (2000) that travellers reconcile some of these tensions with reference to existential authenticity, and that this intersubjective awareness, along with heightened reflexivity, gives rise to a concern with 'authentic freedom'.

Keywords: identity, authenticity, youth travel, backpackers, experience, freedom

Introduction

We wanted to see your "average sites," Leaning Tower of Pisa, Big Ben, London Bridge, and I guess you could say we conformed to the cliché of backpackers - we wanted to climb to the top of the Eiffel tower, indulge in cheap eastern-European prices, go clubbing in Berlin, see the Mona Lisa on the first Sunday of the month, travel the English channel, get stoned in Amsterdam, swim off the coast of Italy, experience London's underground and see the Monopoly places that are so famous. We wanted to party in Ibiza, see the Ministry of Sound and get drunken tattoos in Turkey... (Clare, 18)

A list like this, an eclectic record of desired moments, catalogued and assessed reflexively, is not out of place among the backpacking culture. Nor, for that matter, is it unusual within broader society. In an atmosphere of increased ambivalence and uncertainty, where

opportunities for decision-making and subsequent feelings of risk are on the rise, it has been argued that identity has become increasingly contingent and authenticity increasingly important. No longer taken for granted, these one-time social facts are subjected to ongoing processes of evaluation and (re)assertion (for example Bauman, 1995, 2001a, 2001b; Giddens, 1994; MacCannell, 1989; Wang, 2000). As such, individuals increasingly turn to experience, contemporary society's "new holy word" (Abrahams, 1986, p. 46) in an effort to give their lives meaning and to help establish a more authentic sense of self.

In this socio-cultural climate, experience is sought not only for experience's sake – that is, as an exercise in personal choice and demonstration of agency – but also as a source of first-hand knowledge and decision-making power. It is the connection between experience, knowledge and identity then, which heightens the need for authentic moments. They are as Chaim Noy (2004, p.

91) asserts '*means*, rather than ends... substantiating a claim made on a different level – not on that of undertakings but of identity' [original emphasis]. This conceptualisation of authenticity, as experienced subjectively, is based upon Ning Wang's (2000) contention that authenticity is not merely objective, but may also be socially constructed and/or understood intersubjectively or 'existentially'. Following such arguments it seems that a truly great experience not only satiates a desire for newness, for difference and for change – that is for freedom – but also invokes a deeper sense of connection, realness and/or legitimacy. In brief, it takes one beyond the 'cliché' or at least makes the cliché personal.

The interplay between discourses of authenticity and freedom, as evidenced in the above quote, which juxtaposes hedonistic interactions alongside everyday occurrences, is the key focus of this paper. Before turning to a discussion of this dialectic though it is necessary to note the prominence of such discourses in young peoples' expectations for, and understandings of, travel. As a number of social theorists have demonstrated, travel is often conceived of and presented by media and travellers alike as a liberating time and space wherein monumental memories are forged through the accumulation of significant, identity shaping and seemingly transformative, experiences (see for example Desforges, 2000; Elsrud, 2001; Hom Cary, 2004; Noy, 2004; Sørensen, 2003). To this end, drawing on a well-established literature connecting tourism, pilgrimage, youth travel practices, ritual and processes of identity formation (see for example Cohen, 1973 & 1979; Desforges, 1998; Elsrud, 2001; Turner, 1978 & 1995), I have argued elsewhere (Matthews, forthcoming) that for young Australian backpackers, travel operates as a contemporary rite of passage, a means through which individuals construct, maintain, imagine and reconstruct their identities with reference to the world around them. Subsequently, I will argue in this paper, that such identity (re)construction is mediated by concerns with authenticity and freedom, discourses which are particularly strong in backpacker narratives and media representations of travel.

In this paper I will demonstrate that the liminoid or extraordinary and somewhat ambiguous space of travel well encapsulates

some of the tensions that exist between simultaneous desires for authenticity and freedom in contemporary society. Such arguments resemble Wang's assertion (2000) that contemporary society is governed by the tensions between 'logos-modernity' or a desire for rationality and order, and 'eros-modernity' or an impulse towards creativity and the carnivalesque. Just as Wang (2000) suggests logos and eros play out within the sphere of tourism, I will suggest that freedom and authenticity emerge in this local-global space and that an emergent dialogue between these discourses has significance for individual travellers, their interpersonal relationships and interactions with the backpacking community and industries. In particular, I am concerned with gaining a better understanding of how travel media (and the travel industries) imagine backpackers and the backpacking community and how backpackers' own self and travel-narratives correspond with or contest such representations. With this in mind, this paper examines the centrality of discourses of authenticity and freedom, and the tensions that emerge between the two, as they arise in traveller narratives and media and industry representations of travel. Such representations were gleaned from content, discourse and image analysis of key travel media, and traveller narratives were obtained during a period of extensive overseas fieldwork, where semi-structured interviews with young Australian backpackers were carried out. It is to these methodologies that I now turn.

Text and Image Analysis: Media Representations of Travel

As backpacking has become increasingly popular, normative and institutionalised the industries attached to it as a niche travel segment have continued to grow, resulting in increased competition, professionalisation and some would argue, media saturation. The story of 'once upon a time' small owner-operated tour companies or guidebook publishers becoming global conglomerates is increasingly familiar and would-be backpackers are subjected to an ever-changing array of travel media, industry paraphernalia, websites, brochures, internet forums, stories and specialisations, when structuring their travelled selves. While all of these texts and the claims they make (and indeed stake) are worthy of exploration, for the purposes of this

paper I will focus primarily on the British division of *TNT Magazine* (here on referred to as '*TNT*'), which specifically targets Australian backpackers abroad.

The fact that Australians comprise the majority of *TNT*'s largely antipodean and South African readership (*TNT Media Pack*, 2006) allows me to draw greater connections between the data elucidated from text analysis and that shared by Australian interview participants, many of whom were familiar with the magazine. Further, as a long-established weekly publication with limited travel industry affiliations *TNT* is an ideal subject for analysis. Where destination-based guidebooks and tour brochures are directed at very specific backpacking audiences, *TNT* is a generalist publication, its primary goal being to provide 'Inspiration to Independent Travellers'. Ultimately, the travel reporting featured in the ten issues of *TNT* that were analysed, served as a counterpoint to the commercially driven advertisements placed within the magazine by various tour companies. Despite this contrast, discourses of authenticity and freedom emerged in each, frequently playing out with reference to notions of escape, adventure, difference, uniqueness, fun, sociability and frivolity. Given the prominence of each of these themes, interview transcripts were coded and analysed along the same lines.

Sharing Stories, Sharing Selves:

Interviews with Aussie Backpackers

It is worth noting that I have not been concerned in this research with applying an external typological definition of backpacking or independent travel (indeed the two terms are often used interchangeably in this paper), choosing instead to employ a broad cultural definition, which focuses on self-identification and affiliation. Interviews were conducted with 34 young Australians (aged 18-30) who identified as backpackers or independent travellers and who had been travelling for 3 months or more. This time-frame was employed in an attempt to distinguish between short-term holiday makers and those undertaking a more extensive trip – one which would require a purposeful rupturing of work, study and/or home life commitments. Additionally, as much as possible I strived to recruit participants in a variety of worldwide locations and who were engaged in a diverse

array of travel related pursuits. Of these interviews, 16 were conducted face-to-face and 18 were conducted via email. The interview questions were designed to elucidate information about participants' travel choices, motivations, expectations, experiences, perceptions of the travel community and broader life plans and involved both indirect and direct lines of questioning.

As already stated, the interviews were transcribed and coded with reference to the major discourses of authenticity and freedom. Interestingly, interviewees' seemed to employ (either consciously or subconsciously) much of the language already in circulation within the backpacking community, travel media and industries. Of course, this is not simply a unilateral process of consumption though, it is also a productive enactment of self and an effective continuation and development of cultural discourse and ideology in narrative (for further discussion of these processes see Noy, 2004; Sørensen, 2003). Nevertheless, alongside authenticity and freedom, allusions were commonly made to notions of personal growth, diversity, adventure and uniqueness, the accumulation of knowledge, the sociable or hedonistic qualities of the backpacking culture, concepts of self and other, and of nationality and community. The remainder of this paper will be dedicated to examining the ways in which interviewees and media gave voice to or interpellated these concepts and how tensions between authenticity and freedom were conceptualised and ultimately reconciled.

Freedom to Do, Freedom to Be...

Ever since I started Uni I was planning on taking a year off to travel... with medicine, once you graduate you just kind of get stuck, not stuck but like you just, y'know you do your internship and your residency and there are like paths that you kind of have to follow in order to get places and it's going to be a lot harder to take time off... So I just wanted to take a break and just do something that was totally different from studying and totally not med related. (Natalie, 22)

This quote from Natalie is illustrative of the way in which travel is characterised by many young people as a break from everyday concerns and responsibilities and a search for

diversity and newness. Such sentiments are seemingly encouraged or reinforced by travel advertisements in *TNT*, where words such as 'adventure', 'wild', 'real', 'go', 'getaway', 'legendary', 'discover' and 'experience' abound. Similarly, many of the advertisements analysed emphasised fun, frivolity and uniqueness by incorporating images of backpackers socialising in foreign environments, sightseeing at iconic locations and utilising unusual modes of transport; or through the inclusion of scenes with foreign and exotic wildlife, landscapes and cultures.

Not surprisingly, what was present in many of the advertisements featured in *TNT* were not only discourses of discovery, adventure and cultural diversity, that is, of freedom, but also of authenticity. For example, both 'Intrepid' and 'Top Deck's' advertisements (*TNT*, October 24, 2005, pp. 43, 62 & 138) made claims to providing 'real experience', perhaps suggesting that some companies do not purvey such realness or that everyday life does not provide the same opportunities for 'true' living. Certainly these ideas seem to resonate with young travellers, many of whom talk about wanting to get out there and experience the 'real world'. For example, when asked what sort of people she expected to meet travelling, Natalie commented that she expected they would have 'a bit of an adventurous outlook' and 'that same, I don't know, desire to *live* things and *experience* things that we have' [emphasis mine].

A desire among travellers for new and unique experiences is also recognised in *TNT*, which seemingly satiates such needs and wants (or perhaps invokes them) with the provision of numerous articles detailing travelling in 'off the beaten track' destinations and a diverse array of activities. For example, a feature on India (*TNT*, October 17, 2005, pp. 96-104) not only detailed traditional sites like the Taj Mahal, but also gave information on being an extra in a Bollywood film and travelling in 'deepest Rajasthan', visiting 'remote, inaccessible outpost[s]'. Another edition of *TNT* includes a section dedicated to 'Extreme destinations', with stories about climbing glaciers in Iceland, walking on a live volcano in New Zealand, and travelling the world's deserts, which were touted as 'some of the most extreme and inhospitable environments on earth' that are 'not for the faint-hearted'

(December 19, 2005, p. 96). Additionally, almost all of the issues of *TNT* that were analysed contained images of people engaging in activities like cycling, hiking, snowmobiling, skiing and paragliding, conveying a sense of (sometimes extreme) adventure. Further, a sense of freedom and space was often implied by visual references to the open road, a barren landscape, far horizon or 'mystical' natural beauty.

The fact that *TNT* also has articles on short-breaks and attends to more mundane issues in other sections of the magazine (like work, finance and investment) indicates though that for many travellers 'real' freedom and adventure can not go on forever. Rather, it takes place within a limited space and time. With this in mind, I would suggest - in congruence with Riley (1988) and Sørensen (2003), among others - that while there are still a number of long-term backpackers who resemble Cohen's (1973) drifters, today the majority of young travellers seem to be making a conscious effort to juggle their desire for travel with future roles and responsibilities. To this end, interviewees spoke of forfeiting plans to buy a house, instead using the money they had saved for travel. Others spoke of giving up job opportunities in Australia to work overseas and in some instances, of choosing travel over relationships. By and large, the prevalent perception seemed to be that travel is something to be done now, while one is free from traditional commitments such as home and family. For example, Julia (aged 22) 'took off overseas' five days after completing her university education, stating that it was easier to travel at that natural juncture in her life than earlier on:

It's harder to get back into studying after you've spent y'know 1, 2 years away... sort of free of any sort of responsibilities. I wanted to get my studies out of the way... and now I'm free to do whatever I want really.

The idea of making time for oneself or making the most of one's opportunities also emerges in the following statements from Emily and Justin:

We [Emily and her fiancé] saw it as just, the only time before mortgages, before kids, before anything else. To just... leave. (Emily, age 21)

I've always talked about it, all my friends have all done it ... and I thought what have I got, I'm single ... I was thinking my next step was ... to go and buy a house, and it was either commit... [or go travelling]. So I thought just 'do it now'. (Justin, age 29)

Incidentally, such notions reinforce the potential for extended travels to operate as a rite of passage. Keeping this in mind, it is worth noting that for Justin such opportunistic attitudes were also fortified by the emergence of a transitional period in his career and life. He states:

I sort of got to the stage where I just don't know whether, I don't know if I enjoyed totally what I was doing... So ... this is a bit of a "go out and see what the world" [has to offer], like broaden your horizons sort of thing...

Many interviewees spoke of such periods of transition or 'cross-roads' moments and seemed to deal with uncertainties in their lives through travel. Whether it be to make changes or get out of a rut, these interviewees spoke of travelling as a means to gain a space and time for personal reflection and perspective, or as one participant commented for some 'soul searching'. Interestingly, this perception of travel as a significant moment was invoked in one of 'Intrepid's' regular advertisements in *TNT* (October 24, 2005, p. 138). It read: 'go insight-seeing... More than just the usual attractions: you'll discover the real world with Intrepid'.

Of course, the implication for many travellers is not just that you'll discover the 'real' world but also, your 'real' self. Perhaps influenced by such thoughts, interviewees also embraced travel as an avenue for escape; a means of dealing with problematic situations (such as the end of a relationship) and the confines of home, where other peoples' expectations and demands are experienced, by some, as restrictive. For example, when asked why she had decided to go travelling Kate (aged 26) wrote:

[I had] finished uni, my mate was going, [and I] didn't want to deal with stuff in Oz... [I'm] not keen on starting a career in Oz, [I'm] just wanting to see the world and explore it (and myself, in an

environment free from the pressures of where you grow up).

Linked with a wholehearted welcoming of a life free from routine and constraint, many travellers seemed to use their time away from home (consciously and subconsciously) as an opportunity to disengage from normative social rules and to pick and choose friends and experiences more carefully than they might otherwise. To this end, Claudia (aged 19) stated that: '... you can't afford to hang out with people you don't like when you're travelling. ... That's why I also think it's nice. Maybe that's also why people go travelling – you don't have to deal with shits. [It's] the escape mentality!' Similarly, Julia commented that:

When I went away I was like 'I don't want to hang around people that I don't want to be around ... or feel uncomfortable around'. I've become a bit of a snob in terms of like if I don't want to speak to someone I just won't... maybe it's because at home like there was a lot of people I'd spend time with but that I really didn't like... And one of my things for when I went away was that I wanted to meet so many people and I wanted them to be people I could learn from. Y'know? That just inspired me and that I inspired them, y'know, that sort of thing.

This positively invoked self-interest, of choosing to do things and spending time with people who make one happy and reinforce (in some cases a newly found) self-identity, is undoubtedly influenced by the transient nature of travel and the subsequent sense of urgency experienced within this liminoid space. Interestingly, it is also dependent on the idea of seeking heightened authenticity – in relationships and in self. As Danielle (aged 26) wrote:

[I] definitely try new things overseas because it isn't a dress rehearsal. There is no second chance to do things that I have only one opportunity to do. But this has now adapted to my outlook on life regardless of where I am geographically. I definitely picked up this outlook from travelling and I guess in essence it was because there are fewer inhibitions when travelling. And you're

less restricted to do what you want to do, knowing that you will probably never see the same crowd... again.

This sense of anonymity and freedom from social roles was mentioned by a majority of travellers, particularly with reference to some of the more hedonistic aspects of the backpacking culture. For example, when asked if she was likely to try new things while travelling, Claudia spoke of, as she put it 'the sex, drugs and alcohol trifecta' and commented that:

I've changed a lot. When I came over, I mean as I said I had a boyfriend.... Not only that, I mean I've had a serious long-term boyfriend figure in my life for the past four years.... Most of my friends don't even know what I am like without a long-term boyfriend.... And when I'm in a long-term [relationship] I'm quite complacent. I'm like 'Oh, I'll stay in' y'know like, 'I don't need to go out'. But over here like, this is like single Claudia, living it up in Europe.... I've gone absolutely wild.

Such 'wildness' resonates within Natalie's stories of living and working in a Canadian ski-resort:

I loved Whistler.... I had so much fun and it was a really, really good experience... but – on the other hand like, it's a bit of a strange place ... you realise it when you're there and you also realise it when you leave, it's really not the real world... but, I don't know, because everyone's young and living away from home and in that environment, like I found like every now and then you kind of have to step back and go 'this isn't, this really isn't normal'. Like a lot of the stuff that goes on there, like the partying and the drugs and just random stuff, you just start to, well I found for myself you start to think that it's normal.

Where Natalie questions the legitimacy of such behaviour, recognising that there is a certain surreal quality to it, Claudia seems to perceive some of the more hedonistic aspects of backpacking, the 'huge party scene', as normal and authentic. For instance, although she recognised the significance of local knowledge

and that she may not have 'seen as much culture' as some people, she appeared to differentiate between her own and others travels not only in terms of the amount of independence demonstrated but by the amount of fun that was had. For example, she commented that:

There's a lot of people I know who are in my position and who have travelled and I've noticed that they don't have as good a time as me and I worry about them... And I think if my friends came over like I'd worry that a lot of them, they'd just let their inhibitions get in the way.

Such comments are indicative of the tensions that exist between freedom and authenticity within travel discourse. On the one hand, extreme levels of sociability are deemed enjoyable but inauthentic and on the other, the levels of personal change brought about by such sociability are deemed almost imperative, with the sites and cultural experiences inherent to travel taking a secondary role. These conflicts are ultimately linked to the perception of travel as a significant moment in life, resulting not just in a focus on freedom and authenticity as mutually exclusive variables, but on *authentic freedom*. This concept goes some way to explaining the conflicts witnessed within travel marketing, and like Wang's (2000) logos and eros-modernity helps explain some of the tensions that exist between independent travellers and the backpacking industry. I will turn to a deeper exploration of these tensions and the ways in which they may be resolved, momentarily.

Reconciling Travel Identities With Reference to Authenticity and Freedom

When asked to define themselves a number of research participants identified as volunteer travellers, working holiday makers, backpackers, students on exchange programs, independent travellers, hostellers and tour participants. Further, as a result of the broad focus of this research, some revealed that they were travelling for a few months, others for years and some told of how they had unexpectedly found themselves becoming expats in a country they'd initially arrived in as a working holiday maker or independent traveller. Interestingly, a sudden adoption of expat or almost expat status often resulted

from entering a relationship with a 'local'. This is in firm contrast with those travellers who, as mentioned earlier, had left relationships to embark on their journeys, demonstrating once more the conflict between desires for transience and connection or freedom and authenticity. While the dynamics of such relationships cannot be discussed here, it is worth noting that in many of these instances, interviewees struggled to define themselves with reference to their travels as everyday life began to take over. Nevertheless, most insisted that they were not 'ordinary' tourists.

In a similar fashion, a number of participants spoke of travelling in manners they considered to be at odds with backpacking traditions and yet they too continued to identify as a backpacker or independent traveller. Regardless of whether they had travelled by hire car, with suitcases, on package holidays or with more luxuries than that usually afforded a humble backpacker (an example one participant gave was travelling with 'nice clothes' and a hairdryer) these travellers cited pragmatic issues such as budget and length of trip (characteristics which correspond with earlier research into backpacker demography and culture) and less tangible features such as attitude, as references for their belonging. Interestingly, these findings correspond with recent literatures calling for a more holistic focus in tourism and travel research, which by moving beyond typological or type and form analysis, would more accurately reflect the heterogeneous and intersubjective nature of independent travel (see for example Lyons, 2005; Uriely et. al., 2002). Such heterogeneity and intersubjectivity is apparent within the pages of *TNT*.

Perhaps most noteworthy though was the reluctance interviewees had with identifying themselves as tourists. Tourists were seen as being 'old' (or older), close-minded, less immersed in cultural experience, more concerned with a sightseeing imperative, less likely to get off the beaten track and more regimented in their approach to travel. For instance, at one point in our discussion Claudia commented that she'd 'started experiencing rather than just ticking on the tourist tick list'. Interestingly, this discourse was echoed in an 'Imaginative Traveller' advertisement (*TNT*, November 28, 2005, p. 124), which

remonstrated, 'don't just tick a place off a list... engage with the culture and local life'. Notwithstanding such sentiments, it is important to acknowledge that Claudia (like a number of interviewees) recognised that the boundaries between traveller and tourist or backpacker and tourist are blurry.

I would suggest that these blurred boundaries are compounded by the backpacking industry's fusing of the links between travel, freedom and authenticity in their advertising, thereby creating a situation where individual expectations of authenticity and freedom in travel (and by implication, in self) are both reinforced and encouraged. Certainly these elements intertwine in *TNT*, which as already mentioned often incorporates articles about out of the way destinations and images of local cultures, as well as content that references the more hedonistic aspects of travelling and focuses on tourist rather than tourist and local interactions. Further, a number of the 'out of the way places' *TNT* documents have seemingly been reached through the expert knowledge and mediation of tour companies. It is a complex situation perhaps best embodied in the following quote from a *TNT* article about travelling in rural Rajasthan (*TNT*, October 17, 2005, p. 104):

Rajasthan is reputed to be the brightest state in India. I'm reminded of this later that evening as we sit down to enjoy a colourful puppet show. Puppets are big in Rajasthan – not just among tourists, I'm assured, but with the locals... Our show, however, involves a randy Romeo vigorously humping Juliet and a moonwalking monkey introduced as Michael Jackson ... I'm not convinced of it's authenticity, but it sure was fun to watch.

It would seem that reconciling authenticity and freedom is not an easy process. Moreover, these tensions are inextricably linked with processes of globalisation, which continuously shift the boundaries separating authentic and traditional from the inauthentic and modern. For instance, despite Emily's best intentions regarding local cuisine, authenticity was undermined by the fact that she and her fiancé had 'had better Spanish in... [their] favourite restaurant in Sydney!', despite spending three months in Spain.

Perhaps most significant is the fact that backpackers themselves are inherently aware

of the expectation that independent travel should be challenging and authentic, but also that there are ramifications of its increased popularity and institutionalisation. With this in mind, Justin commented that:

I think backpacking has changed. Well it's hard to say but the picture I have of backpacking, which I think is what a lot of people, the older generation of backpacking [have], is that you're doing it really tough. And I'm sure there are people doing it [like that] but nowadays I think backpacking is easier, there's more hostels, you can probably get a shower, you don't have to worry... and people are doing it with more money too.

For him personally, some of these changes were viewed as being beneficial. Other interviewees and travellers encountered during fieldwork saw such ease as the downfall of backpacking. Whether that is in fact the case remains to be seen, but certainly such perceptions impact on its role as a contemporary rite of passage.

To Be Authentically Free, and Free Authentically...

I have argued in this paper that discourses of authenticity and freedom are prominent within the backpacking community and within travel media. I have also examined the ways in which these discourses compete with, and complement, each other, resulting in a somewhat paradoxical concern with authentic freedom. Further, I have discussed the role of the travel industry and travel media, which seemingly intensify the desire for authenticity and freedom by turning them into marketable commodities. Indeed, the irony of the situation – where industry and media initiatives have emerged in response to (and often with the involvement of) independent travellers, at the same time making a once alternative pursuit increasingly accessible, popular and mainstream – is not lost on present-day backpackers. Many of these 'post-travellers' lament the passing of an age where independent travel or backpacking was seen as alternative, unique or 'edgy' and a number go to great lengths to distinguish themselves both ideologically and experientially from their more touristic counterparts, who they envision as the consumers of an increasingly manufactured and inauthentic experience.

However, I have also demonstrated that it is not simply a case of consumer resistance, as many independent travellers happily incorporate the touristic elements of the backpacking community and culture into their own travel and self-narratives, recognising that it is difficult to engage in travel without some level of interaction with the tourism industry. Certainly this incorporation is undertaken reflexively and sometimes even ironically, but according to these travellers, even touristic experiences can be unique and meaningful when measured subjectively. Rather than undermining travel's potential to operate as a rite of passage then, the discourse of authentic freedom structures the travel space, influencing industry and traveller interactions, interpersonal relationships and identity. The implications authentic freedom has for rite of passage theory and for the study of the backpacking community and travellers' relationships are avenues worthy of future exploration.

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Media in the Anticipation Phase of a Recreation Experience Port Campbell National Park

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Abstract

Natural areas around the world have been used as sites of recreation, leisure and tourism for centuries. A key facet of this increased usage of natural and protected areas and a key tool for management is the role of image. Though the significance of image has been asserted, little study has been undertaken in Australia as related to images of natural and protected areas. Importantly it is the role of the media in promoting and providing expectations that can also be used as a tool to manage potential impacts. Within this context research was undertaken at Port Campbell National Park (PCNP), Victoria, Australia. This research was implemented during the park's tourist off-season to assess satisfaction, crowding and park issues to provide management indications. Around half (47%) of the respondents obtained information from the past experiences of family and friends. Tourism-specific media such as information centres, travel agents and the internet were also popular. This paper performs analysis to identify the role of the media in shaping adequate expectations of the facilities and service provisions at PCNP. In this context relationships between media and expectations matched and unmatched are ascertained. This not only creates awareness of the varied information sources visitor decisions are based on, it also provides valuable insights into the role of the media in shaping expectations of the facilities and services in protected areas. This has practical marketing implications for protected area management groups as a means for enhancing and managing visitor satisfaction.

Keywords: Protected Areas, Image, Induced Agents, Expectations, Satisfaction, Functional Attributes

Introduction

Natural areas around the world have been used as sites of recreation, leisure and tourism for centuries (Butler & Boyd, 2000). In the past fifty years, however, there has been an enormous expansion in the numbers and types of users. This trend of increased popularity and usage of natural areas for recreation is also being identified around the world (Pigram & Jenkins, 1999). As a consequence of this increased popularity, partially due to natural and protected areas important role in tourism promotion has also brought about increased potential for physical and perceptual impacts (Booth & Cullen, 1995). Consequently, park agencies are being faced with increased visitor management issues. These impacts are predominately occurring, not surprisingly, in the accessible areas of the park's front country (Vaske, Donnelly, & Whittaker 2000) and having enormous effects on the visitor experience. These changes in demand and the resultant impacts have highlighted visitor

satisfaction as an important dimension in the management of natural and protected areas (Graham, Nilsen & Payne, 1988; Chang, 1997; Neal, Sirgy & Uysal, 1999; Jones, Patterson & Hammitt, 2000; Chapman, 2003; Hwang, Lee & Chen 2005).

The importance of satisfaction in natural area experience and management was conceptualised as far back as the 1960s by Clawson and Knetsch (1966 cited in Hammitt, 1980) in their recreation multiphase experience model. This presented the visitor experience, and their resultant satisfaction, was influenced not just on-site, though over five phases of the experience: anticipation; travel to; on-site; travel back; and recollection. Though studies have further stressed the importance to manage the holistic visitor experience to produce the most satisfying experience possible for visitors (Pizam & Milman, 1993; Sternberg, 1997; Vitterso, Vorkinn, Vistad & Vaagland, 2000), the anticipation and recollection phases have been largely omitted from protected area studies on satisfaction. Instead, natural and

protected area satisfaction research has focused on the on-site phase of the experience (Ostrowski, 1984; Lange, 1990; Mugica & DeLucio, 1996; Kerviliet & Nowell, 2000; Akama & Kieti, 2003; Buultjens, Ratnayake, Gnanapala & Aslam, 2004; Chettri, Arrowsmith & Jackson, 2004).

A key facet of this increased popularity and use of natural and protected areas and a key tool for management is the role of image. Image has been presented in numerous tourism, recreation and leisure studies as a key component to participate, as a motivator, and more significantly as a decision making factor (Embacher & Buttle 1989; Teleisman-Kosuta 1989; Woodside & Lysonski 1989; Chon 1991; Hu & Ritchie 1993; Walmsley & Jenkins 1993; Alhemoud & Armstrong 1996; Walmsley & Young 1998; Baloglu & McCleary 1999; Tapachai & Waryszak 2000). The role of images in shaping visitors perceptions and expectations of a destination has also been emphasised as an important component of the visitor experience (Mannell & Iso-Aloha, 1987; Mazursky, 1989; MacKay & Fesenmaier, 1997; Coshall, 2000; Beerli & Martin, 2004; Higgs, Polonsky & Hollick, 2005). Though the significance of image has been asserted, little study has been undertaken in Australia as related to images of natural and protected areas (exceptions including, Frawley 1989; Watkinson, 2002; Burns & Howard, 2003). Increasingly this image is coming from the media (Smith & Croy, 2005). The media plays a large role in the formation of image, and with the pervasiveness of the media also creates familiarity (Croy & Wheeler, in press). The impetus has increased as media has been recognised as a major vehicle of awareness and leadership (Coates 1991). As implied above, not only do the media have an increasing role in image formation, the media are also noted being a key tool in creating expectations of destination.

This paper, at a conceptual level, focuses on visitor satisfaction through the development of and the achievement of expectations. This, in the pre-visit stage, is of course explicitly linked to the image formation process, in developing awareness, and then familiarity and complexity of the image of the location chosen to travel to. The image then informs the decision to travel to the place, and is used to evaluate satisfaction with the experience had, compared to expected, and to evaluate the longer-term satisfaction (often termed benefits, see Beeho and Prentice, 1997).

Images are generally formed through three agents comprised of organic, induced and real. Organic agents are those from general life experiences, induced are those supplied by the destination marketer and real agents are drawn from the actual destination experience. Gartner (1993) further distinguishes these agents (Table 1, over page), and especially designating an autonomous agent of media (previously encapsulated within the broader term organic) (and including the real agent into organic). Within these agents, real are the most credible, followed by organic, and induced agents are identified as the least credible.

Though this image formation process has been proposed and largely accepted, still studies are generally confined to viewing image formation as starting once a decision has been made to travel to a destination. Croy and Wheeler (in press) suggest that image formation is an engaging and extended process, much more extended than is often portrayed or considered. The temporal nature of image formation goes back as far as we can remember, and quite potentially a bit further. The spatial nature of image formation is increasingly global the more we are exposed to multiple locations, especially through the media.

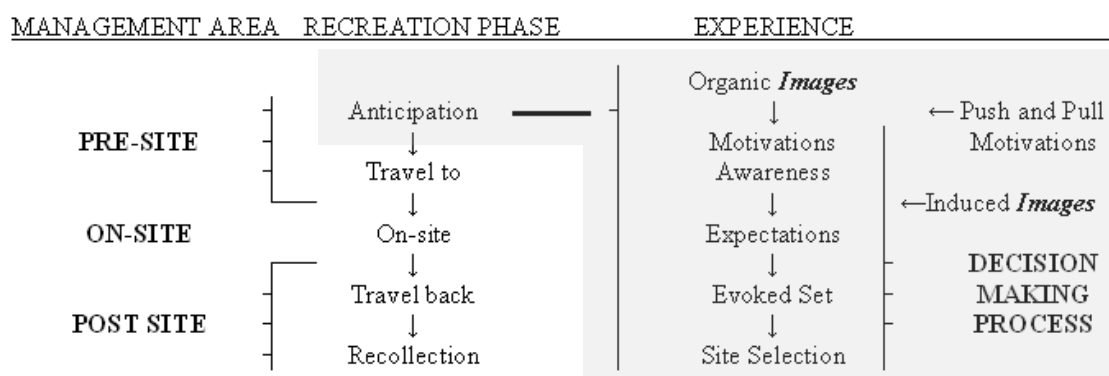
Table 1 Image Formation Agents

Formation Agent	Examples	Credibility	Market Penetration	Destination Cost
Overt Induced I	Traditional forms of advertising	Low	High	High
Overt Induced II	Information received from tour operators, wholesalers	Medium	Medium	Indirect
Covert Induced I	Second party endorsement of products via traditional forms of advertising (celebrity)	Low/Medium	High	High
Covert Induced II	Second party endorsement through apparently unbiased reports (eg newspaper or travel section articles (familiarisation tours))	Medium	Medium	Medium
Autonomous	News and popular culture: documentaries, reports, news stories, movies, television programmes	High	Medium/High	Indirect
Unsolicited Organic	Unsolicited information received from friends and relatives	Medium	Low	Indirect
Solicited Organic	Solicited information received from friends and relatives	High	Low	Indirect
Organic	Actual visitation	High	---	Indirect

Source: Gartner 1993: 210

Importantly, this has proposed the role of the media in promoting and providing expectations, and can also be used as a tool to manage potential impacts, especially, with long-term exposure to relatively credible agents. This also notes the modest impact the destination or marketing agency can have on these perceptions (with low perceived credibility of induced agents). Nonetheless, it has been found that the organic agents are more motivating, building emotive associations with the place, whilst the induced

agents are used more for functional perceptions of a location (Croy & Wheeler, in press). So whilst the marketed images may not influence motivations for destination selection, they will have a much greater role in developing place specific expectations, including experiences, behaviours and facilities. This will of course influence the perception of availability to a degree, though more the evaluation of the site's ability to satisfy the modified motivations (Figure 1).



Source: Adapted from Croy and Kearsley 2002

Figure 1 Anticipation Phase of Outdoor Recreation Experiences

The role of the image agents informing the decision-making process identifies image as a key tool for pre-site management of natural and protected areas. This reflects findings in

tourism that have identified the role of images in shaping visitors perceptions and expectations of a destination, and hence the decision-making process (Mannell & Iso-

Aloha, 1987; Mazursky, 1989; MacKay & Fesenmaier, 1997; Coshall, 2000; Beerli & Martin, 2004; Higgs, Polonsky & Hollick, 2005). Though the significance of image has been asserted, little study has been undertaken in Australia as related to images of natural and protected areas (exceptions including, Frawley 1989; Watkinson, 2002; Burns & Howard, 2003). Increasingly this image is coming from the media (Smith & Croy, 2005). The media plays a large role in the formation of image, and with the pervasiveness of the media also creates familiarity (Croy & Wheeler, in press).

The impetus has increased as media has been recognised as a major vehicle of awareness and leadership (Coates, 1991). As implied above, not only do the media have an increasing role in image formation, the media are also noted being a key tool in creating expectations of destination. Importantly it is the role of the media in promoting and providing expectations that can also be used as a tool to manage potential impacts. Table 2 displays the image formation agents and illustrates the role of each group in the different phases within the pre-site stage of a recreation experience.

Table 2 Image Formation Agents' Fit with Anticipation, Travel-to and On-site Experience

Tourists Information Sources	Potential Provision Information	Information Agent
General information (Not sourcing/searching)	• Autonomous⁶⁷ • Covert Induced II⁶⁸ • Unsolicited organic⁶⁹ • Solicited organic⁷⁰	• General media • 'Unbiased' media reports • Friends and relatives • Friends and relatives
Awareness Motivations		
General information sourcing	• Overt Induced II⁷¹ • Covert Induced I⁷² • Covert Induced II • Unsolicited organic • Solicited organic	• Tour operators/information centres, general tourism websites • Celebrity endorsements • 'Unbiased' media reports • Friends and relatives • Friends and relatives
Availability		
Place specific information sourcing	• Overt Induced I⁷³ • Overt Induced II • Solicited organic	• Advertising • Tour operators/information centres, general tourism websites • Friends and relatives
Expectations Evaluation Choice		
Travel to	• Overt Induced I • Overt Induced II	• Advertising • Tour operators/information centres
On-site	• Organic⁷⁴	• On-site

⁶⁷ Independently produced reports documentaries, movies, news articles

⁶⁸ Articles, reports or stories in ostensibly unbiased sources (from media familiarisation tours)

⁶⁹ Un-requested information from individuals that have visited the area

⁷⁰ Information requested from individuals with no vested interest in tourism

⁷¹ Information requested from tour agents, operators, wholesalers and other travel organisations

⁷² Use of recognisable spokespersons

⁷³ Traditional forms of advertising, including television, brochures, billboards, websites and print media advertising

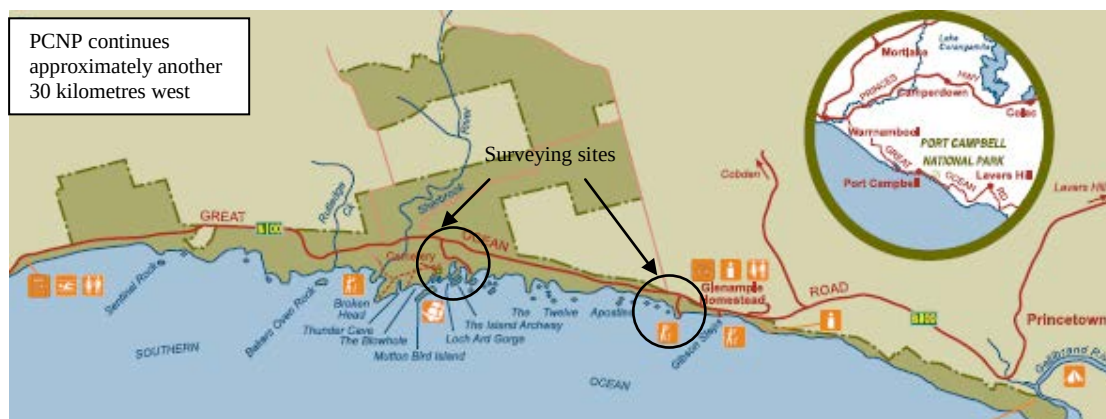
⁷⁴ Actual visitation of the area

Within this context, this paper will present an extended consideration the pre-site stage of visitor management, and especially in the context of the visitor experience (anticipation and travel to phase) to portray the potential influence on the on-site satisfaction. By using the above noted information sources (Table 2), this paper will focus on the role of the media in shaping visitors expectations of the setting. Particularly, this paper will use these information sources to illustrate the importance of the media for providing visitors with accurate expectations of appropriate experiences, behaviours and facilities at the setting. This is done not only to highlight the interconnections of the phases and relationship to a holistic perspective of visitor satisfaction,

though also to accentuate other approaches of managing the visitor experience and enhancing satisfaction.

Method

This paper uses Port Campbell National Park (PCNP) as the location to discuss the role of the media in the anticipation phase of an experience in natural and protected areas. PCNP stretches along the tourist route The Great Ocean Road, Victoria, Australia (Figure 2), and is an iconic natural tourist attraction in itself (Parks Victoria, 2006, Tourism Australia, 2006). The park attracts over 3 million international and domestic visitors annually, especially to the Twelve Apostles and Loch Ard Gorge (Figure 3).



Source: Parks Victoria (1998)

Figure 2 Surveying sites at Port Campbell National Park, Victoria, Australia



Figure 3 The Twelve Apostles (left) and Loch Ard Gorge (Right)

A survey was administered at PCNP over a three-week period in June 2005 (winter off-season). This survey was structured to collect information at each of the five phases of a recreation experience, though obviously only providing indicative responses for the

recollection phase. In the case of this paper, pre-visit information sources of respondents' awareness and specific knowledge of the PCNP were solicited. There was a prompted list of responses (derived from previous studies and information from the park's management

agency) with space for additional sources. Additionally, the visitor's expectations of on-site facilities and their actual experience were examined using prompted scale responses. For the facility questions, the scaled list was largely derived from the park management agency's summer satisfaction survey.

Using a convenience sampling method, respondents were intercepted at the 'exit points' to the two main attractions; the 12 Apostles and Lord Ard Gorge (see Figure 4). Visitors to these two sites ranged from single travellers to tour bus loads. Even for the tour buses, no more than two people were selected from any travel group. Respondents' were encouraged to complete the survey on-site with a table, chair and some light refreshments provided. However, pre-paid envelopes were supplied to respondents' bound by time constraints. A total of 205 surveys were distributed at PCNP, 141 of these surveys were completed on-site with 64 visitors selecting the

mail back option. Of the 64 that selected the mail back option, 41 were returned. This achieved a total of 182 completed surveys. During the data entry process four incomplete surveys were eliminated, leaving 178 valid and useable surveys.

Results

The following analysis displays the results from the survey at PCNP. A socio-demographic profile of respondents is presented first. This is followed by presenting the information sources to form the pre-visit image and expectations of PCNP. Additionally these information sources are segregated into the different stages of the pre-site visitor experience to illustrate the complexity of image formation in this case. Furthermore, this analysis evaluates if these information sources provided realistic expectations of the functional attributes at PCNP.

Table 3 Information Sources of Visitors to PCNP

Information Sources	Count	Percentage of Cases*
Friends/Relatives	84	47.2
Tourist Information Centre	59	33.1
Local knowledge, live near by	53	29.8
Television	43	24.2
Travel Agent	42	23.6
RACV	35	19.7
Magazines	34	19.1
Internet site	33	18.5
Signage on roads	31	17.4
Parks Victoria Brochure	31	17.4
Television commercials	30	16.9
Melways/roadmap	25	14.0
Major Newspaper	25	14.0
Port Campbell Parks Note	19	10.7
Accommodation	19	10.7
Local council/community/library	18	10.1
Radio	18	10.1
Local Newspaper	18	10.1
Seeing park from road while passing	15	8.4
Cinema commercial	13	7.3
Book	12	6.7
Other Brochure	10	5.6
Other	38	21.4
Total	703	394.9%

* Totals more than 100 due to multiple responses

Traditionally, protected area visitors have been identified as predominantly male and highly

educated, however since the global expansion of tourism, protected area visitors are growing

in number and diversity (Kearsley & Croy, 2001). Reflecting this emerging trend in previous research, appendix A demonstrates that PCNP also attracts a diverse user base. The socio-demographic profile revealed that a visitor to PCNP would most probably be a younger, from an urban area, hold a higher educational qualification, be part of a couple and currently work in a full-time higher level occupation.

Table 3 presents the information sources used by respondents in forming their image and expectations of PCNP. This list includes both organic and induced information sources.

The 178 respondents used a total of 703 information sources, meaning an average of four pieces of media per respondent were used in forming their image of PCNP. This highlights the diversity of sources and the potential complexity of images that shape the expectations of visitors to PCNP. Table 3 shows that just under half (47%) of the respondents obtained information on PCNP from the past experiences of family and friends. Tourism-specific media such as visitor information centres, travel agents and the internet were also popular. Locals were frequent visitors to PCNP, although, many visitors that considered themselves locals actually lived up to 150 kilometres away from the 12 Apostles and Loch Ard Gorge. This also reflects the scale of Australia, especially outside the major urban areas. Table 3 emphasises the broad selection of media that contributes to the formation of complex images and resultant expectations tourists have of a

destination before visitation. In the case of PCNP, Table 3 demonstrates the vast range of sources that would need to be managed to ensure visitors' expectations are realistic, and the inherent complexity of managing the holistic experience.

To compare this to the discussion above, and especially Table 2, the information sources are allocated to Gartner's (1993) image formation agents. These allocated information sources are then assigned to the particular phases of the visitors' pre-visit experience (Table 4, below and continued over page). This indicates the role and level of influence of each information source in shaping visitors expectations for visitation at PCNP. Particularly in the context of this paper are the role and level of influence the induced sources have in creating functional expectations (indicated in the shaded areas).

As identified in Table 3 friends and relatives play a large role in the provision of information about PCNP. Table 4 shows the solicited and un-solicited agents combined, which may over emphasise the role of friends and family in the specific pre-visit phases. This is due to the inability to interpret if the information about PCNP was solicited by the respondents or not. If the information was not solicited from friends and relatives, it would indicate that this source would only inform the general information stage, and not inform the functional expectations of the site (specific facilities). It is assumed that a proportion of the friends and relatives information was solicited and provided expectations of the facilities.

Table 4 Information Sources and Experience Stage

Tourists Information Sources	Information Agent	Count	Percentage of Cases
General information (Not sourcing/ searching)	Friends/ relatives	84	47.2
	Television	43	24.2
	RACV	35	19.7
	Magazines	34	19.1
	Internet site	33	18.5
	Major newspaper	25	14.0
	Local newspaper	18	10.1
	Local council/ community/ library	18	10.1
	Book	12	6.7
		302	169.6
Awareness			
Motivations			

Table 4 (cont.) Information Sources and Experience Stage

Tourists Information Sources	Information Agent	Count	Percentage of Cases
General information sourcing	Friends/ relatives	84	47.2
	Tourist information centre	59	33.1
	Television	43	24.2
	Travel Agent	42	23.6
	RACV	35	19.7
	Magazines	34	19.1
	Internet site	33	18.5
	Melways/ roadmap	25	14.0
	Major newspaper	25	14.0
	Accommodation	19	10.7
	Local council/ community/ library	18	10.1
	Local newspaper	18	10.1
	Book	12	6.7
		447	251.0
Availability			
Place specific information sourcing	Friends/ relatives	84	47.2
	Tourist information centre	59	33.1
	Travel agent	42	23.6
	Internet site	33	18.5
	Parks Victoria brochure	31	17.4
	Television commercials	30	16.9
	Melways/ roadmap	25	14.0
	Port Campbell <i>Parks Note</i>	19	10.7
	Accommodation	19	10.7
	Local council/ community/ library	18	10.1
	Local newspaper	18	10.1
	Cinema commercial	13	7.3
	Other brochure	10	5.6
		401	225.2
Expectations			
Evaluation			
Choice			
Travel to	Tourist information centre	59	33.1
	Travel agent	42	23.6
	Signage on roads	31	17.4
	Melways/ roadmap	25	14.0
	Port Campbell <i>Parks Note</i>	19	10.7
	Local council/ community/ library	18	10.1
	Local newspaper	18	10.1
	Seeing park from road while passing	15	8.4
	Other brochure	10	5.6
		237	133.0
Expectations			
On-site/ Previous experience	Local knowledge, live near by	53	29.8

Table 4 indicates that the main information sources for the place specific phase are friends and relatives, tourist information centres, travel agents and websites. When travelling to PCNP the most used information sources were again tourist information centres and travel agents, though now coupled with signs and maps. This indicates, whilst the image, and particularly the motivating image to visit the area, is from a wide and diverse range of sources, the

functional image of PCNP is actually from a limited (particularly geographically) range of sources. This also indicates that these functional sources that have a higher opportunity to be managed by the park's management agency.

As mentioned earlier, the organic flow of the recreation experience makes the management of visitors' expectations central to overall satisfaction. Expectation and experience

measures were taken from respondents to identify if the above noted place specific information sources created realistic expectations of the functional attributes of PCNP. Respondents were first asked to rate their expectations of 14 functional or setting specific attributes using a six point Likert-type

scale (Figure 5). Later respondents were asked to rate their experiential satisfaction with the same attributes and the same six point Likert-type scale. By comparing respondents' expectations of these functional attributes with their satisfaction it can be determined if the information sources created realistic.

Very Strongly Agree	Strongly Agree	Agree	Slightly Agree	Neither agree or disagree	Disagree
6	5	4	3	2	1

Figure 5 Likert-type scale to measure expectations and satisfaction of functional attributes of a NPA site

The mean responses from these 14 attributes and two questions were then compared using a paired samples t-test (Pallant, 2005). Essentially a paired samples t test is comparing respondents' expectations with their satisfaction to identify areas where there is a satisfaction gap. Table 5, presents the results indicates if this induced information sources created realistic expectations of the functional attributes at PCNP. Additionally, the mean difference was tested at the .05 percent significance level. The significance measure infers the differences between expectations and satisfaction was unlikely to occur by chance in the wider population. All the same, the significance measure does not indicate the magnitude of the effect between the two temporal measures. The *eta squared* value (or the effect size statistic) was also calculated to determine the magnitude of the difference between expectations and satisfaction for this particular sample. According to Cohen (1969) .01 is a small effect, .06 is a moderate effect, and .14 and above is a large effect. This statistic will indicate if the site specific information sources provided a large expectation difference compared to the actual experience.

As Table 5 portrays, all attributes had a difference in means, and all were positive values. This indicates that sample's experience of all functional attributes measured did not meet expectations. This was especially evident with signage and information on natural, historical and cultural features where the mean difference was over 0.8. To identify if inferences could be made to all visitors to PCNP the difference in means was tested at the .05 percent level. This identified that there in fact was a statistically significant difference

between visitors' expectations and their satisfaction with 10 out of the 14 functional attributes. This set of results makes inferences to the wider population of visitors to PCNP, indicating that the difference obtained between visitors expectations and satisfaction was unlikely to occur by chance. This significance test also indicated that relatively small difference in means for safe and secure car parking, pre-visit information, accessible shelter and a safe and secure environment within PCNP could not be reliably inferred for the population.

The major result, after identifying difference in means, and the potential inferences made to the population, was the magnitude or effect size between the means. Using Cohen's (1969) framework, in this sample, there was a large effect size between respondents' expectations and satisfaction with information on the natural, cultural and historic features, signage, access to facilities and infrastructure, and the level of traffic and crowding at sites. This large effect size indicates that there was a large difference between the expected functional attributes and the actual experience in the case of PCNP. With the role of place specific information in creating functional expectations it is indicated that the induced media used by visitors to PCNP has contributed in creating these unmet expectations. There was a moderate effect size between respondents' expectations and satisfaction with the maintenance of tracks and paths, information on potential dangers and risks, and level of accommodation near PCNP. There is a small effect size between respondents' expectations and satisfaction with the car parking, the safe and secure environment at PCNP, pre-visit information, sufficient, clean and accessible

toilets, accessible shelter, accessibility to sites, and the conservation and maintenance of

natural attractions.

Table 5 Expectations and Experience Paired Samples T test and eta Value

Expectations VS Satisfaction	Mean	Std. Deviation	t	df	Sig. (2-tailed)	ETA Square
Information on natural, historic and cultural features	0.809	1.421	7.594	177	0.000	0.2457
Signage clear and helpful	0.860	1.569	7.311	177	0.000	0.2319
Accessibility to facilities, infrastructure safe, secure and well maintained	0.725	1.468	6.586	177	0.000	0.1968
Traffic/crowding at sites kept to a minimum	0.860	1.768	6.485	177	0.000	0.1920
Tracks and paths well maintained	0.551	1.540	4.768	177	0.000	0.1138
Information on potential dangers and risks	0.388	1.315	3.932	177	0.000	0.0803
Accommodation available near park	0.601	2.097	3.824	177	0.000	0.0763
Sufficient, accessible and clean toilets	0.303	1.352	2.993	177	0.003	0.0481
Natural attractions well conserved and maintained	0.292	1.459	2.671	177	0.008	0.0387
Accessibility to sites well maintained and adequate	0.287	1.316	2.905	177	0.004	0.0325
Car parking adequate, safe and secure	0.157	1.197	1.753	177	0.081	0.0194
Pre visit information helpful	0.230	1.663	1.848	177	0.066	0.0189
Accessible shelter	0.185	1.501	1.648	177	0.101	0.0151
Safe and secure environment within PCNP	0.079	1.334	0.787	177	0.432	0.0035

Considerations and Implications

On the surface, researchers and protected area management groups should use the results of this study to understand the importance of the media for creating expectations of a destination. Nonetheless, this paper explores the role of induced media for creating expectations of the functional attributes at a destination. Fundamentally, the most important message conveyed in this research is that if there is an aesthetically pleasing national park, with the images conveyed of the park in the media representing this, with visitors expecting beauty, and obtaining beauty, protected area management agencies would be forgiven for expecting visitors are totally satisfied with their experience. However, if the induced media used by visitors focuses totally on the experiential attributes at a destination, and does not consider or manage visitors' expectations of the facilities and services at a park, then visitors may possess unrealistic expectations of these attributes at the setting. Essentially, this may result in visitors satisfied with their experience, although possessing a satisfaction gap with the services and facilities which accompany these experiences in the national park. So, although the experiential

attributes are what motivates visitors to select a destination to visit, even if these experiential attributes are everything a visitor desires, poor performance due to inflated expectations of the functional attributes, which accompany these experiential motivators may detract from the actual experience. This could result in a satisfaction gap, potentially with issues parks management agencies can control.

The following considerations and implications will further analyse the relationship between information sources and expectations, both matched and unmatched. Not only do the results create awareness of the varied information sources visitors' decisions are based on, the results also provide valuable insights into the role of the media in shaping expectations of protected areas. The implications from this study focus on the role of images in the anticipation phase of a recreation experience, the link between induced images and expectations of the functional attributes at a destination, and the way protected area management agencies should use this information to better cater for overall visitor satisfaction.

It is important to consider that this study did not fully identify the role of family and friends,

especially their role as a solicited source, particularly as a functional or site-specific information provider. Accordingly, the data obtained on this medium may be slightly overemphasised. Consideration must also be given to the fact that this study was completed at PCNP, rather than a range of national parks. This research was completed during the off-season, or winter, which it is important to consider if the media or induced information sources present summer peak season imagery. Although this is an important consideration this summery imagery is more focused on the motivational or experiential attributes at the destination rather than the functional. It is also important to consider that this study did not identify the specific sources the expectations of visitors were formed from, such as, if the web based mediums were responsible for creating these unrealistic expectations of the facilities and services at the destination.

The implication for protected area visitors from this research is that the functional attributes at a destination may be more points of dissatisfaction rather than satisfiers. Images have been emphasised as an important component of the visitor experience, shaping visitors perceptions and expectations of a destination (Mannell & Iso-Aloha, 1987). Formed during the pre-visit stage, these perceptions and expectations of an experience, created largely by the media, are either satisfied or not during a visitors actual experience. Potentially, this can result in some visitors being satisfied with certain aspects of a destination, but left dissatisfied with others. A visitor may be satisfied with the level of privacy and solitude, the natural attractions, the flora and fauna at a park, yet, dissatisfied with the information provided in the park. This would indicate the particular media used by this visitor created realistic expectations of the experiential attributes, yet, unrealistic expectations of the functional attributes. As a result it is important that not only these functional attributes are up to a certain level at the destination, but that the images conveyed to visitors of the facilities and services available at a destination are realistic, so visitors are not expecting a level of service the destination can not provide.

With the familiarity of the role that induced media plays in shaping visitors perceptions and expectations, the implication is that the

induced media used by visitors created unrealistic expectations of many of the functional attributes at PCNP. In fact, visitors expected considerably more signage, access to facilities and infrastructure, information on the natural, cultural and historic features and considerably less traffic and crowding at sites, than they experienced during actual visitation. Therefore, the induced media used by visitors to PCNP could be further utilised to shape and modify the expectations visitors have of these functional attributes. Consequently, situations where experiential satisfaction is high, yet satisfaction with park management issues is low, could be avoided.

The implication for Parks Victoria, the managers of PCNP, is that careful consideration of the messages and images conveyed to visitors in induced media is necessary to better cater for the overall satisfaction of visitors. In the case of PCNP, these induced sources are providing visitors with expectations of the setting that are not met on-site, sometimes by a large margin. As most forms of induced media are directly controlled or influenced by parks management agencies, Parks Victoria should make a concerted effort to ensure the induced media supplied to visitors is carefully managed to create realistic functional and experiential expectations.

Parks management agencies can use the results of this study to ascertain valuable information on the role of the media in the anticipation phase of a recreation experience. In particular, the implications of this research for parks management agencies focus on the role that induced media can play in creating expectations of the functional attributes at a destination. Parks management should realise that the media used by visitors not only creates experiential travel motivations, but expectations of the facilities and services at a destination, which are vital for overall satisfaction. It would be a shame to possess a park, which is aesthetically pleasing for visitors, but fails in the provision of facilities and services due to unrealistic expectations created by induced forms of media. Therefore, as a means of enhancing visitor satisfaction, or at least dissatisfaction, parks management agencies should make a meticulous effort to ensure the induced media available to visitors creates realistic expectations of not only the experiential aspects of the park, but the

functional attributes of the destination. By further managing these induced images, protected area management agencies can create realistic expectations of the experiential and functional attributes, and ultimately better cater for the overall holistic process of visitor satisfaction.

Conclusion

This study focused on the role of the media in the anticipation phase of a recreation experience at PCNP. In this anticipation phase, it was identified visitors' perceptions and expectations of a destination are central for overall satisfaction with an experience. Induced forms of media, supplied largely by parks management agencies, have been linked to visitors' perceptions and expectations of the functional attributes at a destination. To determine if these induced forms of media created realistic expectations of the functional attributes at a destination, this study used PCNP, along the south-west coastline in Victoria, Australia. Temporally structured to guide the visitors through the five phases of a recreation experience, a survey was administered at the 'exit points' of PCNP's two most frequently visited sites, the Twelve Apostles and Loch Ard Gorge. Results from this study found that in the case of PCNP there was a large difference between visitors' expectations and actual experience between four functional attributes, including the provision of information on natural, cultural and historic features, signage, access to facilities and infrastructure, and the level of traffic and crowding at sites. It is important to also note that in the case of all the fourteen functional attributes tested, visitors expected more than they received during their actual experience, although to varying degrees.

When reading the results in this paper it is important to consider that this study did not identify the specific information sources these unrealistic visitor expectations were formed from. Protected area management agencies can use the results of this study to discover valuable information on the five phases of a recreation experience. In particular, this study sheds light on the importance for protected area management agencies to manage the functional, as well as the experiential attributes at a destination, through induced information sources. Overall, this research suggests the

media is a powerful tool which should be utilised to ensure visitors have accurate expectations of both the experiential and functional attributes at a destination, thus filtering through the holistic recreation experience process, ensuring visitors are ultimately be satisfied. Therefore, by further managing these induced images to create realistic attributes of the experience and functional attributes, parks management can better cater for overall satisfaction.

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APPENDIX A- Respondent Socio-Demographic Profile

Appendix A presents respondents' socio-demographic characteristics profile in the form of age, gender, place of dwelling, residence, education, lifestyle category, employment status and occupation.

Demographic Characteristic	Frequency	Percentage of responses
Age		
18-19 years	10	5.6
20-24 years	25	14.0
25-29 years	25	14.0
30-34 years	22	12.4
35-39 years	16	9.0
40-44 years	16	9.0
45-49 years	21	11.8
50-54 years	13	7.3
55-59 years	11	6.2
60-64 years	8	4.5
65-69 years	9	5.1
70 + years	2	1.1
Total	178	100%
Gender		
Male	80	44.9
Female	98	55.1
Total	178	100%
Residence		
Urban	135	75.8
Rural	43	24.2
Total	178	100%
Home Origin		
Melbourne	71	39.9
Victoria inside 150kms of PCNP	22	12.4
Other region of Victoria	14	7.9
Other, Australia	25	14.0
Overseas	46	25.8
Total	178	100%
Highest Education		
Primary school	2	1.1
Secondary school	56	31.5
Trade Qualification	11	6.2
Undergraduate degree	70	39.3
Post graduate qualification	39	21.9
Total	178	100%
Lifestyle Category		
Young single	32	18.0

Demographic Characteristic	Frequency	Percentage of responses
Young couple/ no children	41	23.0
Young family - child less than six	18	10.1
Middle family - children 6 to 15 years	28	15.7
Mature family	21	11.8
Older couple/ no children at home	30	16.9
Mature single	8	4.5
Total	178	100%
Employment Status		
Full time	92	51.7
Part time	15	8.4
Self Employed	10	5.6
Student	25	14.0
Homemaker	12	6.7
Unemployed	3	1.7
Retired	20	11.2
Seasonal work	1	0.6
Total	178	100%
Occupation		
Managers and Administrators	18	10.1
Professionals	37	20.8
Associate Professionals	29	16.3
Tradesperson and related workers	15	8.4
Advanced Clerical and Service workers	1	0.6
Intermediate Clerical, Sales and Service workers	9	5.1
Intermediate Production and Transport workers	3	1.7
Elementary Clerical, Sales and Service workers	10	5.6
Labourers and related workers	14	7.9
Students	24	13.5
Retirees	18	10.1
Total	178	100.0%

A Stakeholders Perspective: The Impacts of Television Induced Tourism in Yorkshire, U.K.

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Abstract

This paper identifies the impact of movie induced tourism locations that have become popular due to their featuring in a well liked television series. The researcher's hypothesis is that *television induced tourism has a significant impact on the development of a destination*. The aim of this research is to identify the benefits of such tourism; therefore this paper will investigate the current literature on television induced tourism. The study area for this paper is Yorkshire, U.K., which has been the film location for a number of popular English television series' and is already the subject of much research in the tourism discipline; Mordue (1996) and Tooke and Baker (1996).

The hypothesis was initially tested on a survey of visitors to Yorkshire in 2003. The main aim of the survey was to assess the linkages between movie induced tourism and destination branding. The review of the existing literature identifies a gap in previous research, which indicates that there has been little research on the impacts of a television series on the general tourist perceptions of a destination. The survey undertaken by the researcher was an initial attempt to fill this gap. The findings of this survey and the issues from the literature review highlighted a number of implications for the future development of destinations. To proceed to the next stage of the research, strategic conversations were held with the key stakeholders involved in the development of Yorkshire as a tourist destination. This is an ongoing piece of research but for the purpose of this paper, the impact of television induced tourism from the stakeholder perspective will form the basis of the discussion.

Introduction

This paper identifies the impact of movie induced tourism locations that have become popular due to their featuring in a well liked television series. The researcher's hypothesis is that *television induced tourism has a significant impact on the development of a destination*. The aim of this research is to identify the benefits of such tourism; therefore this paper will investigate the current literature on television induced tourism. The study area for this paper is Yorkshire, U.K., which has been the film location for a number of popular English television series' and is already the subject of much research in the tourism discipline; Mordue (1996) and Tooke and Baker (1996).

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tourism from the stakeholder perspective will form the basis of the discussion.

Methodology

Strategic conversations were carried out in July and August 2006, with the key stakeholders involved in the development of Yorkshire as a tourism destination. All respondents had extensive and specialist knowledge of the specific matters pertaining to the Yorkshire's tourism industry as this was the most effective method of obtaining more detailed in-depth information. Face to face interviews were deemed appropriate as it provided the opportunity to strike a rapport with interviewees in order to obtain relevant information. The researcher met with these key tourism stakeholders as it is hypothesised that the television series filmed in Yorkshire do indeed have both a positive and negative impact on the region. These strategic conversations enabled the researcher to explore the relevant issues. It was also helpful that the researcher is not from or living in Yorkshire and therefore any possible interviewer bias was minimised.

Television Induced Tourism

A movie tends to be a one off or limited experience for both the producers and the majority of viewers whereas television series have a longer screening and filming period. For example the UK series *The Last of the Summer Wine* has been screened on British Television for over 28 years (Mordue, 2001). Consequently the viewer's relationship with the story characteristics and setting is developed over a period of time. This not only keeps the region where the series is filmed in people's minds building on and reinforcing the desire to visit but also sees the film crews spending extended periods of time at the on location sites over many years. Television series tend to have more long term impacts than a movie does unless the movie proves enormously popular as *Crocodile Dundee*. This is probably the only movie filmed in Australia to have instant recognition in the United States which supports the researcher's hypothesis in that television induced tourism has a significant impact on the development of a destination

A recent VisitBritain survey showed that one in five visitors come to Britain thanks to its

exposure in television and movies. In 1993, more than one in six visitors to Ireland cited a film as their reason for visiting and before the troubles began the film *Gorilla in the Mist* (1988), increased Rwanda tourism by 20%. The millennium has seen the most powerful formula for movie inspired tourism yet with serial films *Harry Potter* set in the UK and the *Lord of the Rings* (LOTR) set in New Zealand. Naturally for movies located outside the USA box office success afforded tremendous opportunities for countries or regions to the attract huge and lucrative US market to their shores as well as other country nationals. *Out of Africa* (1995) set in Kenya and Tanzania has been credited with bringing American tourists back to Africa (Mintel 2003).

While the effect of film and television on specific locations has been examined by several authors (Beeton, 2001; Mordue, 2001; Tooke & Baker, 1996), the subject is not yet conceptually advanced, nor have implications for sustainable tourism development been adequately explored (Connell, 2005). The next section will reemphasize the researchers hypothesis is that television induced tourism has significant benefits to the development of a destination as movie and television induced tourism effects have been witnessed in a number of locations worldwide; *Heartbeat* in Goathland, *Hamish MacBeth* in Plockton, *Sea Change* in Barwon Heads and *The Lord of the Rings* in New Zealand, creating a range of positive and negative impacts for host communities and environments (Connell, 2005). The literature on television induced tourism has shown that television series' have the power to influence and even pull visitors to a travel destination (Riley and Van Doren 1992). However, less desirable impacts are often generated by unplanned and sudden increases in visitor demand within a short time period.

Negative Impacts of Movie Induced Tourism

1. Lack Of Preparedness By Locals In Coping With Tourist Influx

O'Connor (2000) stated in her research, that Ballykissangel has had both a positive (tourist influx) and negative (residential resistance) impact on the village of Avoca, County Wicklow, Ireland. This is also evident with her research in Yorkshire, U.K. (O'Connor,

Flanagan and Russell, 2005) which is mirrored by Mordue's (2001) analysis of Heartbeat Country.

2. Destination Image Alteration

Beeton (2001) found that movie induced tourism can influence the type of visitor to a destination. Negative images of Los Angeles come to mind after watching *Boyz in the Hood* and *Colors*. For many people Los Angeles would be viewed as a gritty city, filled with racial tension, police brutality and gang warfare. It could be argued that media and specifically visual media such as motion pictures link tourism and city image together. If more people are exposed to increasing amounts of visual media one might assume that popular images portrayed in movies play an important role in shaping city images and determining traveller's expectations of a particular destination. Tourism officials and city planners do not craft movie images but if attractive scenery or appealing images were depicted in a movie, the effects could be significant (Bordelon and Dimanche, 1998).

3. Not Recognising The Pulling Power Of A Film

Locals don't always support movie induced tourism as identified in the late 1980's the film *Mississippi Burning* attracted negative publicity for Philadelphia, Mississippi a small town, which had gained notoriety in the Sixties when the Ku Klux Klan murdered three civil rights workers (Riley and Van Doren, 1992). The film was shot on location there but in the resultant publicity the town gave the impression that it had changed little in the twenty years. Riley and Van Doren (1992) study highlighted the negative impacts of movie induced tourism but research has proven that the majority of movie induced tourism impacts are actually positive (Tooke and Baker, 1996; Connell, 2004; Beeton, 2000; Bolan and Davidson, 2005).

Positive Impact of Movie Induced Tourism

1. Destination Image Alteration

This relationship between television portrayal and the tourism image is complex and restricted as it can significantly alter the image of a place as in Dallas (Riley and Van Doren, 1998) and Miami (Chambers, 1989). In some

cases television portrayal may even alter the reality of a place and television shows have been catalysts for this. The most interesting finding to emerge was the strength and consistency of the imagery most of which seemed to derive from film and television and the similarity of image amongst those who had experience of the destination and those who had not. People living around movie locations are affected by the business of movies and tourism are convinced about the phenomena but evidence has been sporadic and small in volume.

2. Government Support

Yorkshire have featured in numerous media of the day including the poetry of Wordsworth, books by James Herriot, TV series such as *Heartbeat* and movies like *Calendar Girls*. Images of an English 'rural idyll' (Newby, 1979) is supported and popularised in the Goathland case by television dramas such as 'Heartbeat' and Herriot's 'All Creatures Great and Small'. Not only this but public and private agencies, look to capitalise on these productions by branding North Yorkshire in general as 'Herriot Country' and the Goathland area in particular as 'Heartbeat Country'.

3. Long Term Impact of Movie Induced Tourism on a Destination

Deliverance, an early 1970's action movie set in Raeburn County Georgia (USA) was the catalyst for the establishment of its raft and adventure tourism industry. Historic Fort Hayes features in *Dances with Wolves* saw an increase of 25% in 1990-91 compared with an average increase of 6.6% for the previous four years. Since the release of the film there has been an increase in British lead package tours of 341%. *Devils Tower*, Wyoming thanks to the 1977 film *Close Encounters of the Third Kind* became a household name in US in the 1970's. The Tower plays a key role in the film and during its cinema run and television reruns the area enjoyed a tremendous increase in visitors. The year after its release visitor numbers increased by 74% and over a decade later 20% of visitors credited viewing the film as their prime source of destination knowledge (Kotler et al, 1993).

4. The Use of Imagery in the Media

Bolan and Davidson (2005) maintain that media does have a strong influence on people's

choice of tourist destination and further that film in particular can be a strong motivating factor to visit destinations. Older and what might be termed 'classic' movies tend to feature more strongly in this regard for Ireland than anything produced in more recent years. The literature suggests that movies that reflect the essence or authentic aspects of a destination, be it the scenery, the culture or key landmarks, are inducing tourists to visit the scenes they've experienced on screen' (Grihault, 2003). In support of Bolan and Davidson's (2005) research Kennedy (1998) also claimed that castles, abbeys and stately homes are enjoying a tourist boom due to the revival of the British film industry following films such as *Robin Hood*, *Hamlet*, *Sense and Sensibility*, *101 Dalmatians* and *Mrs Brown* (Corlett, 1998).

5. The Economic Impact of Movie Induced Tourism

One of the major economic benefits and factors of film induced tourism is that viewing past locations can be an all year all weather attraction thus spreading out the inevitable seasonality inherent in so many tourist attractions. Also television has a wide socioeconomic appeal potentially broadening the base of the visitor market (Schofield, 1996). In Scotland, Ross (2003) found that the filming business is worth at least STG£8 million a year to the Highlands and Islands economy. In the 1990s, a number of high profile productions were filmed or set in Scotland, (*Braveheart*, *Rob Roy*, *Loch Ness*). Hydra Associates (1997) stated that some 5-10% growth was seen in tourist volumes, although 34% of visitors stated that a film(s) set in Scotland had played a role in their decision to visit. *Braveheart* stimulated a surge of visitors to Stirling and its attractions, encouraging over 500,000 Americans to visit Scotland and generating about STG£100 million in visitor spend. An economic impact study of the effect of the film *Rob Roy* identified a STG£7 million injection, which generated about STG£15 million in tourism between 1996 and 2000 (Ross, 2003).

Empirical Research

Issue 1: The authenticity of the destinations tourism product.

Spain is among one of the best examples of modern successful national branding because it keeps on building on what truly exists. Its branding efforts incorporate a wide variety of activities under one identity to project a multi-faceted approach (Gilmore, 2002). I love New York, Canada's *The World Next Door* and VisitBritain's Heritage themes all serve to brand and identify their destinations with unique labels. Middleton and Clarke (2001) support this in their study, as the previous examples have considered that the product should be based on genuine product values and attributes that can be delivered and that visitors recognise as authentic.

People's perception of what is 'authentic' can be different depending upon their expectations as we also live on an evolving planet and through the ages there have been multiple influences on the landscape, culture and heritage buildings. Some people wish to preserve rather than conserve and this can result in conflict where a tourist wants to see or experience what they perceive to be authenticity, whereas local people might want to take advantage of new technology, fashion and move forward with the times. Tourism can also change the face of a destination as it can evolve into a tourism attraction whereas local people would have preferred to keep it the way it was before the visitors arrived. It can of course alter so dramatically, that its original appeal disappears. Most tourists want to experience the destination in the way they have envisaged it to be, that does not necessarily mean that the product they experience is classed by others as 'authentic' but they may perceive it to be so (Inze, 2006).

Tourists want to experience the authenticity of Yorkshires' tourism product (Morton, 2006; Coates, 2006; Rhodes, 2006) and even more as the media are bringing more knowledge to the tourists (Barker, 2006). They want to see something that's real but also want story based marketing (Dodd, 2006). York is an authentic tourism product due to its historical background. If it wasn't authentic and the York Tourist Bureau stated it was, tourists wouldn't be happy (Hyde, 2006). Kibblewhite

(2006) stated that the Scarborough regions tourism product is strongly authentic and the authenticity of their tourism product is very much part of their tourism strategy as they are trying to move away from an artificial tourism product. An overlap between an authentic and an artificial tourism product is not viable but audiences also understand that representations in film and television might only tell half of the story. Film tourists can be attracted to an area not only through 'positive' images but also through the narrative and characters of the film/television that makes them want, to see where the characters 'live' and where the story is set, even gritty stories can still provide a positive image to a film tourist through engagement with the story (Elliott, 2006). Visitors to Holmfirth want to experience the Last of the Summer Wine. Yorkshire is trying to present a more modern image that the old traditional one than can be seen in its television programmes, which in many senses may not benefit the future progression of the Yorkshire image (Rowe-Marshall, 2006).

Issue 2: Yorkshire based television series' have increased visitors to the locality

Little relevant material exists regarding the effects of television series' on tourism. It is only in the latter half of the last century that people have been able to travel to the scenes that captivated them on the silver screen. Although the effect of movies on tourism has been observed since the 1970s, with cinema attendance increasing (as well as further familiarity through video/DVD, television and the internet), television induced tourism is a growing phenomenon worldwide (Mintel, 2003).

Yorkshire based television series' have increased visitors to Yorkshire (Dodd, 2006; Fernandez-Young, 2006; Guffogg, 2006; Kibblewhite, 2006 and Rhodes, 2006) but it is very difficult to quantify. The success of the Heartbeat and the Captain Cook Country brands have been well publicised (Dodd, 2006) as has the success of the hugely popular television series' Emmerdale and All Creatures Great and Small (Shields, 2006) which have attracted big numbers of visitors to the Yorkshire Dales area. Cardiff is having beginning to experience the positive impacts of a television series due to it being the location

for the latest Dr. Who series but which is actually set in London (Tempest, 2006). Television induced tourism as applied to the city of York has not occurred even though it is the regions capital. This may be due to the fact that it tends to be used as a touring base due to its central location. Goathland has had an increase in their tourist numbers from 200,000 tourists annually since Heartbeat begun in 1991 to 1.5 million since. It should be noted that the newly developed television series The Royal has the same potential to develop such tourism which has also resuscitated the Holmfirth region through the Last of the Summer Wine television series (Breakell, 2006).

Television induced tourism has also proven to be extremely important since FMD and is stronger than ever in Yorkshire (Coates, 2006). Steele (2006) maintained that films and television certainly have a longevity effect such as Mary Poppins. This may account for the fact that 1 in 5 visitors come to the UK as a result of it been featured in a TV/Film. Inze (2006) was very supported of this as she believed that the popular television series Heartbeat and All Creatures Great and Small provided the evidence for such a phenomenon, but there seems to be few measures in place to evaluate these impacts and in some cases the demand may not even be anticipated. In the case of some films such as Calendar Girls the economic impact is unknown. It was certainly a boost to the local economy but there was no monitoring mechanism in place to measure the potential for such a tourism multiplier effect.

Issue 3: The phenomenon of television induced tourism will continue to grow as movies are internationally distributed and viewed.

Findings from various studies appear to be limited descriptive understandings of the functions of movies in the context of tourism and do not offer theoretical insight to why these phenomena occur. Some of the results explain extra tourism induced by movies and suggest that a motion picture could be an effective tool to change place images and affect the audiences' interest in visiting the place. Most the stakeholders maintain that the phenomenon of television induced tourism will continue to grow as movies are internationally distributed and viewed, but what is interesting

is that it will continue to grow as the bigger movies need bigger marketing campaigns to cover their enormous costs. Also the quickest way of selling a place is by being in a film especially as the directors are paid to make the place look wonderful (Edgington, 2006). The cheapness and availability of Yorkshire may hinder its growth (Steele, 2006) but also the number of pure television induced devotees are very small indeed (Fernandez-Young, 2006).

Another consideration will be the impact of the Bollywood / Indian Film Awards (Oscars 2007) which be hosted in Yorkshire (Elliott, 2006). This also goes beyond the big screen. The multiplier effect continues as movies are screened through DVD, video and television. As long as the movie remains popular there is likely to be some form of multiplier effect, albeit reduced over time, as the production continues to provide a free promotional opportunity (Inze, 2006). The growth of DVD's is encouraging this and also the cinema reinvention but peoples viewing habits are constantly changing (Dickins, 2006). It all depends on how we analyse this, is it a primary or a secondary motivating factor to visit a destination. The release of the forthcoming Ms. Potter movie might encourage the development of the movie induced tourism phenomenon in Cumbria. Certainly as the way people see movies and television and also reaching new audiences in emerging markets, movie-induced tourism is a great way to capitalise on the positive portrayal of destinations on the screen (Clewley, 2006).

Issue 4: It has been suggested that as people read less, what is shown in movies, videos and television will become even more important.

Butler (1990) discussed the influence of media and the ways in which people derive images, information and awareness of destinations. He also suggested that as people read less, what is shown in movies, videos and television will become even more important (Tooke and Baker, 1996). Within the community of film commissioners, tourism promoters and media writers, the notion of movie induced tourism has been acknowledged, although little has been done to use knowledge until recently. Taking advantage of it has only occurred in recent years when videos and movie maps have been produced by tourism bureau's

seeking to attract visitors (British Tourist Authority, 1995). These marketing efforts have been undertaken with the intent of profiting from movie-induced tourism (Riley, Baker and Van Doren, 1998). This idea is supported by many of the stakeholders interviewed (Elliott, 2006; Fernandez-Young, 2006; Smyth, 2006). A wider audience can be reached through the medium of television; however key authors and books are also very influential. The Americans tend to read the Brontë and Herriot books and seek out Haworth and The Dales thereafter (Morton, 2006). The internet and tour operators also have a big influence.

Screens and text have a very symbolic relationship (Fernandez-Young, 2006; Lal, 2006) and again due to the internet (Steele, 2006; Barker 2006) which is forcing many people out of business (Evans, 2006). VisitBritain claims that 1 in 5 people visit somewhere due to an image. There are so many more ways now of seeing an image; film, television, internet, posters, mobile phones and print, it must be working (Rhodes, 2006). People are reading more and if books tie in with a movie they are even more successful such as the Master and Commander, Dickens and Bleak House novels. However, it should be noted that one of the strongest international products for Yorkshire is the Brontë connection and has been for centuries (Wragge, 2006). Young people are reading less and watching more TV than older generation (Dickins, 2006) but we need solid facts to prove this (Tempest, 2006). If we look at the popular Scottish television series *The Monarch of the Glen*, it wasn't meant to be a success only a pilot. The series tried to link with original books but was unsuccessful in doing so maybe this was due to the fact that it was also filmed in a private house.

Hancer (2006) maintained that the industry is actually cutting down on their printed material and putting more time and money into website development which seems to be the way forward. Rowe-Marshall (2006) believed that group travel type tourists still read brochures, while independent travellers rely more on web based information but there is no doubt that the power of moving image will continue to provide a strong influence (Inze, 2006). Literature can portray a destination in a different way though people's imagination

where as movies, videos can portray a more realistic visual portrayal of a destination (Clewley, 2006). Tempest (2006) mentioned that York City Council found the internet to be the key way, people get information about York. An interesting debate is whether nowadays people identify a place they want to visit such as York, Chester, Alton Towers or do they identify the experience they want to have like history, good food, fun and then look for any destination that fits the bill? (Tempest, 2006).

Issue 5: The limited research that has been published to date shows that movie induced tourism can add significant benefits to the development of a destination.

Certain motion pictures have increased the awareness of the places they depicted and had tourist-inducing effects (Riley and Van Doren, 1992; Tooke and Baker, 1996; Riley, Baker and Van Doren, 1998). The Scottish Tourist Board conducted a survey in the Stirling area portrayed in the film *Braveheart*. The results of this research indicated that seeing the film had a considerable influence on tourists' decisions to come to the Stirling area and to visit certain attractions and destinations portrayed in the film (Stewart 1997). Other research associated with *Braveheart* (Seaton and Hay, 1998), the movie was not the objective reality of the place (much of *Braveheart* was actually filmed in Ireland, though tourists indicated that they came to Scotland to visit places depicted in the film), but instead the meaning it represents that transforms places depicted in motion pictures to symbolically meaningful tourist attractions (Morgan and Pritchard, 1998). The UK is seen as a success story in relation to the growth of movie induced tourism and research is currently being undertaken by the UK Film Council to quantify this (Steele, 2006).

Depending on the strength of the movie then there are benefits which could not confirm whether these are 'significant' (Morton, 2006) such as increased employment in the tourist industry, product sales (Coates, 2006), new hotels and also the production talent staying in the area (Breakell, 2006; Dickins, 2006 and Shields, 2006). It has also extended the season from March – November, (Barker, 2006), boosts the morale of the community and increases a feeling of pride in the area (Elliott,

2006). Rowe-Marshall (2006) suggested that it can heighten the appeal of a destination and it make it more recognisable which is likely to be the case both economically and from a community sustainability perspective. The larger budget movies often have scenes that require extras and this is where local residents can get involved as well as potentially benefit from location fees. Local businesses benefit through production (business tourism), they can also benefit through movie induced tourism or the resulting tourism multiplier effect after the television programme has screened. Local residents continue to benefit thereafter as their sense of pride in a place where they are familiar can intensify, particularly when it appears on the screen. Problems can however arrive if the movie or television series is a huge success and no infrastructure has been put in place to maximise the opportunity or manage the demand (Inze, 2006).

Movie induced tourism can generate mass appeal and awareness through its scale of portrayal for a destination that our media's can not provide (Clewley, 2006). Clearly New Zealand had to develop quickly out of sheer demand after the LOTR. It seems to be sustainable for them (Edgington, 2006). Movie induced tourism contributes financial factors and it is an ongoing positive thing for the little villages (Rhodes, 2006) but the question is what happens the local economy when it stops? (Barker, 2006). Take Goathland for example, they are not really benefiting from the extremely popular television series *Heartbeat* but in fact Whitby is, as tourists are using it as the base for touring the area (Kibblewhite, 2006). It is becoming a very crowded market place generally (Evans, 2006) but these economic impacts are hard to quantify. It seems to be mostly hearsay as Holmfirth (*The Last of The Summer Wine*) have increased their accommodation bookings but there is only anecdotal evidence of this (Fernandez-Young, 2006).

Issue 6: The drawbacks of movie induced tourism to a destination

While some attention has been paid to how regions and countries capitalise on film images in destination marketing campaigns by researchers such as Riley, Baker and Van

Doren (1998), Tooke and Baker (1996) much less research has focused on the impact of image and television induced tourism on location and their attendant communities. An influx of visitors is not always welcome or advantageous with many towns unsuited to supporting the concomitant tourism growth because of limited infrastructure, facilities and services. In most cases the ideal community did not seek to be the site for the filming yet they are left to cope with the consequences of increased traffic, crowding and pollution (Beeton, 2000). In Holmfirth there are no drawbacks in relation to movie induced tourism as its congestion problem is mainly from the local shopping traffic (Rhodes; 2006; Rowe-Marshall, 2006).

Negative visitor management issues have arisen in Yorkshire (Barker, 2006) such as congestion (Morton, 2006) but this is specific to areas rather than the region as a whole such as Holmfirth, Goathland and Aysgarth Falls (Shields, 2006). Dickins (2006) highlighted negative impacts such as disruption to the locals and also creative use of a filming location (displacement) (Guffogg, 2006). There is a danger that a place can become so popular that people are in danger of destroying the peace and quiet of the area in addition to spoiling the environment by erosion of footpaths for example. They simply can't deal with the extra numbers. Aysgarth Falls (Yorkshire Dales) has a woodland area which is a Site of Special Scientific Interest. It is always a concern for the National Park Authority, when popular films such as Robin Hood – Prince of Thieves use the Aysgarth Falls as a filming location (Coates, 2006) as there are no economic benefits for the National Park. You may for instance discover that the wonderful looking place the crew shot in is in fact half way up a mountain with no roads and the wonderful temple you saw was plywood and has gone. Sometimes films may raise an expectation for instance that you can drive car up to the edge of a cliff or Da Vinci Code which gives a sinister slant on innocent buildings (Edgington, 2006).

The negative effects of movie induced tourism tend to come in spurts and can often overwhelm a smaller destination, also often the full depiction of the destination is often not fully realised until the film is released and if the film is not critically successful this can

effect portrayal of the association of the destination (Clewley, 2006). If a series uses a location heavily, the disruption can be quite tiring for the residents. Heartbeat can't cope with tourist influx, just look at Goathland and its carrying capacity problems with the daily arrival of the many tour buses (Barker, 2006; Evans, 2006 and Kittlewhite, 2006). Heartbeat is an exception to the rule due to its popularity. Erosion had a major impact on the village. Tourists are also disappointed that Goathland is in the 21st century and not in the 1960's as it is set. Even the signage has changed from Goathland to Aidensfield by the commercial sector. The Oscar winning movie, The Constant Gardener has given the viewing public a negative image of Rwanda (Fernandez-Young, 2006).

The NYMNP (North Yorkshire Moors National Park) is not set up for coach tours (Breakell, 2006). A huge influx of tour buses in areas that do not have the infrastructure in place to manage the visitors or the vehicles or to maximise their presence in terms of tourism spend can cause irritation to the local community especially in conservation areas such as heritage market towns and villages. Also if a private residence is used in a production people as in The Monarch of the Glen, tourists have been known to seek out the house and try to gain access which can have a significant impact on the home owner. The final aspect is that the image reflected in the movie may not be complementary to the destination brand or accurately reflect the reality in the destination. Temporary sets are constructed and images can be geographically produced or enhanced, so a film location may appear different on the screen (Inze, 2006). A big issue which Tempest (2006) highlighted is that the DMO has no control over the image of the destination as the director's more bothered about the film and the story to worry about tourism issues.

Issue 7: An influx of visitors is not always advantageous with many towns unsuited to supporting tourism growth

While the effect of film and television on specific locations has been examined by several authors (Beeton, 2001; Mordue, 2001; Tooke & Baker, 1996), the subject is not yet conceptually advanced, nor have implications for sustainable tourism development been

adequately explored (Connell, 2005). The next section will reemphasize the researchers hypothesis is that movie-induced tourism has significant benefits to the development of a destination as movie and television induced tourism effects have been witnessed in a number of locations worldwide; Heartbeat in Goathland, Hamish MacBeth in Plockton, Sea Change in Barwon Heads and the LOTR in New Zealand, creating a range of positive and negative impacts for host communities and environments (Connell, 2005).

The literature on movie induced tourism shown that movies and/or television series have the power to influence and even pull visitors to a travel destination (Riley and Van Doren 1992). However, an influx of visitors is not always advantageous with many towns unsuited to supporting tourism growth because of their limited infrastructure, facilities and services. It depends on the film/television programme and its individual impact (Hyde, 2006). Goathland on the other hand, is the very extreme for this (Barker, 2006; Dickins, 2006; Dodd, 2006; Evans, 2006 and Kibblewhite, 2006). In York, congestion is a problem (Wragge, 2006) especially during Race week (free TV coverage) but they are trying to counteract this by making the city centre a pedestrian only zone and introducing the Park and Ride system as overwhelmingly tourism is seen as a benefit to York, and its associated issues/concerns are being successfully managed (Tempest, 2006).

In the summer months, the fire risk to moor land in the Dales is a particular concern since Open Access was introduced. Footpath erosion is always a concern and car parking can cause problems in the small villages. Inze (2006) maintained that this is the reasoning behind the development of a Coach Drivers map to help manage visitors and keep coaches off roads which could not cope with the increased traffic and size of vehicles. Not only that but if there are no services when they arrive, tourists bring their own provisions so their only spend could just be the car park and a postcard, whereas the impact might be fairly significant in terms of road management, impact on local residents, road maintenance and waste management as has happened in the Yorkshire Dales Honey Pots areas such as Kettlewell, Liddedale and Askrigg (Barker, 2006). There doesn't seem to be an issue in Hambleton as capacity has yet to be reached

(Shields, 2006). After the first Harry Potter film Goathland experienced a huge increase in visitors but there is no quantifiable data to show its impact (Clewley, 2006).

The Peak District is very welcoming but the village Castleton suffers from congestion during the bank holidays. There is also resistance between residents and entrepreneurs who finically gain from this phenomenon (Guffogg, 2006). The issue seems to be that there is a high amount of day visitors but who low spenders STG are £7.50 due to the Peak District's location near large urban areas such as Sheffield, Leeds, Huddersfield. The National Parks Green Space is becoming restricted due to the 'bungalow blight' syndrome and the locals are being priced out of the market. The desire to own your own holiday home in the Dales has pushed house prices out of the reach of local people (Coates, 2006). This in turn means that they are restricted to the main settlements through affordable housing (Guffogg, 2006). The NYMNP needs to get financial support from ITV (Yorkshire Television) to aide its infrastructural improvements which haven't happened to date (Breakell, 2006).

Issue 8: Films and television dramas are widely recognised as a stimulus that can induce people to visit destinations.

Film enables countries and regions to leverage the visibility that they provide and to boost their tourism potential but while the existence of film tourism has been acknowledged for some time, little direct measurement of its impact has taken place and the phenomenon lays largely unexplored (Mintel, 2003; Riley & Van Doren, 1992; Riley et al, 1998; Tooke & Baker, 1996). Despite some methodological difficulties in accurately measuring the effect of film-induced tourism (Busby & Klug, 2001), examples of movies that appear to have increased tourism in destinations as a result of that location being part of a movies proliferate. Some differences exist between the two types of medium, that of movies and television, in relation to destination showcasing. Although the case for movies tourism is harder to prove the economic benefit of movie production on numerous locations showed a significant rise in visitor numbers following a movies release this supports the researcher's hypothesis is that movie-induced tourism has a significant

impact on a tourist destination. This is reflected by many other researchers; Bolan and Davidson (2005), O'Connor et al (2005), Tooke and Baker (1996) and Stewart (1997).

Films and television programmes can induce people to visit destinations (Barker, 2006; Dodd, 2006; Elliott, 2006; Evans, 2006 and Steele, 2006) but tourists seeking filmed sites demonstrate what Reeves (2003) terms an 'irresistible drive' to find locations to which an emotional link has been forged through film or television. The effect of films and television on influencing visitors has been well reported and many destinations are developing a closer association with this (Clewley, 2006). Locations filmed as part of film and television programmes are likely to see increases in the awareness and appeal of destinations and profitability of tourism operations, as effects similar to those created by hallmark events unfold (Tooke & Baker, 1996). Certain destinations can become intrinsically linked with a particular film such as Thailand and *The Beach*, Ireland and *The Quiet Man*. This can happen as in these examples on the scale of an entire country as the draw for tourists.

However the potential influence of film on the tourist can link films on a more specific level to actual cities or resorts within a country for example Vienna and *The Third Man*, Florence and *A Room with a View*, Salzburg and *The Sound of Music* (Bolan and Davidson, 2005). Obviously a filming location attracts extra visitors not just because something shot here but also because the film shows somewhere off that makes you think that looks good and it reminds people of places they might like to go back to (Edgington, 2006). Wales hasn't maximized on the opportunity that they recently had with the TV series *Very Annie Mary* (Fernandez-Young, 2006). Inze (2006) stated that the movie induced tourism phenomenon seems likely given the number of enquiries that are received by tourism officers and the fact that tour operators have begun creating television branded tours to meet the demand. Certainly the movie *Calendar Girls* provided a great stimulus for people to visit the Dales (Wragge, 2006) while the Herriot (Yorkshire Dales), *Heartbeat* (Goathland) and *Summer Wine* (Holmfirth) Country brands still encourage people to visit these areas (Inze, 2006) and they also assist in the selling of the English heritage aboard (Dickins, 2006).

Issue 9: TV programmes tend to have a greater impact than movies due to their longevity

Further attention in understanding how movie-viewing changes place images is needed as it is anticipated that the phenomenon of movie-induced tourism will continue to grow as participation in leisure pursuits by emerging global markets expands and movies are internationally distributed and viewed. Tourist agencies should be aware of the potential gain for featuring positive images of a destination in a movie. However the promotional capability of film is not equal and some television programmes and movies have little impact while others may be both influential and memorable such as the setting, which help in creating a film experience of lasting importance. This depends on the audience as *The Full Monty* is a prime example that did well in America and therefore probably reached a new audience. TV programmes appeal because of their localness and their longevity (Morton, 2006) due to them been shown daily and also their books (James Herriot) (Dodd, 2006). Movies have the ability to remain in people's minds. With the ever increasing exposure to them through repeat viewing on television and increasing sales of video and now DVD for home viewing such characteristics are further enhanced (Bolan and Davidson, 2005). Television series such as *Ballykissangel* and *All Creatures Great and Small* are still being televised worldwide even though they are no longer being filmed.

An audience will have a greater exposure through weekly viewing of a television programme and therefore have a greater attachment to the story and the location. Audiences can view television programmes as extensions of their own lives and therefore the desire to see where the television programme is filmed is greater as the attachment is so great. This can also be the case with very popular films but as they aren't getting a weekly exposure to the story/location the attachment weakens much quicker (Elliot, 2006; Guffogg, 2006 and Inze, 2006). *Castle Howard* is still trading off *Brideshead Revisited* but that was shown in the days of 10–18 million television audiences. It is rare for a television series such as *The Last of the Summer Wine* to have lasted so long. Only soaps last that long nowadays. It is perhaps not

the longevity that is important but popularity. Television might be better if the series is well-established. LOTR was a serial movie – best of both worlds (Tempest, 2006). Tempest (2006) also maintained that the Last of the Summer Wine is charming and uses its location well – The Full Monty could have been set in any city as it wasn't intended to be a showcase for Sheffield!. However there has been another spin-off as there are creative/technical people in Sheffield which has created a modest television/film industry in the city. The Full Monty is a much loved film and gets repeated all the time but Sheffield people hated it as it portrayed a 1980's image. Sheffield is now a vibrant on the music scene as well another creative art. The hard hitting cult movie Trainspotting did not all a showcase Edinburgh as the city is impervious to damage from such a film (Tempest, 2006).

Movies seem to growing in their popularity due to the emergence of the DVD and home cinemas (Fernandez-Young, 2006) as less people are going to the cinema (Hancer, 2006). All Creatures Great and Small is a great example of TV longevity whereas Movies like The Sound of Music is still attracting tourists to Salzburg some 40 years later (Edgington, 2006). An issue which often arises is the idea that the regions are not realistic in any of the TV programmes maybe due to their commonness but DVD's have a better return as with The Da Vinci Code and the Master and Commander as VisitBritain uses these to distribute their marketing material.

Conclusion

The study of television induced tourism is complex incorporating aspects of disciplines such as sociology and psychology as well as industry based sectors from film making through destination marketing and strategic planning. Consequently, this is an untapped and little understood field of tourism research. While earlier exploratory studies speculated on the nature of film induced tourism and recommended further research has been slow. Riley, Tooke, Baker and Van Doren took up the challenge in the 1990's but after publishing the interesting results they appear to have moved on to other areas of study and research.

In the past television induced tourism has been incidental to the film itself with little consideration given to the long-term effects

filming may have on a region. While such tourism can provide significant economic benefits to a region especially in a marginalised rural area, the region may not be prepared or willing to deal with the changes associated with television induced tourism. Issues such as future development crowding, congestion and increasing real estate values community pride and economic benefits must be conducted in conjunction with each other as well as the 'head in the sand' attitudes of those who hope it will go away and leave them as before, some of which arose in Yorkshire due to the growth of movie induced tourism. By recognising and considering the potential costs and benefits of film-induced tourism, Yorkshire has the potential to use the benefits to strengthen it and ameliorate the costs. Such a solution may appear simplistic which it is certainly not the complexities of the communities in which we live play and work is increasing not decreasing (Beeton, 2000).

There are both positive and negative impacts of filming the various television series in Yorkshire. It contributes economically to the region and has led a renewal and increase in employment but there is a need to study other regions most notably Australia and USA for the filming of popular television series. It would also be of interest to study the difference between the towns and villages that consistently succeed and those that don't. The research could assist in the setting up of a programme to minimise any friction that may arise in the future between tourists and residents. An overall plan for the development of the region as a tourist destination should be in place to solve the problems, which other tourist destinations have faced in the past due to lack of planning.

It is crucial to keep abreast of what is shooting where and maintaining the relationship between the production company, the local authorities, tourism officers and the screen agency is the only way initially. It seems that once a release date is determined this is the point where planning should begin so that both publicity and promotional materials are ready to coincide with destination images appearing on the big screen

Therefore, it is crucial for the tourism organisations within Yorkshire to consider the long-term effects of their tourism development

plans through developing a better understanding of its image and the impact that tourism can have on the region. They will also need to contemplate the authenticity of their tourism product because after years of travel experience more visitors now wish to get behind the scenes and learn more about foreign cultures and ways of life. To provide such authenticity and still maintain the daily routine of their community is one of the great challenges facing the stakeholders involved in the development of Yorkshire as a tourist destination.

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Castles Made of Sand: The ‘Nirvanification’ of the Mentawai Islands

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Abstract

Until 1992 a handful of scientific researchers and allocentric backpackers were the only foreigners to visit the Indonesia's Mentawai islands – a remote and impoverished regency of West Sumatra plagued by epidemics of preventable disease and infant mortality rates as high as sixty percent. Within five years the global surf media transformed this depressed region into a surfer's nirvana, the most filmed, photographed, written about and desired surfing tourism destination on earth. Despite this local communities are yet to benefit from surfing tourism. This paper provides a brief history of surfing tourism and presents empirical research demonstrating that the surf media has been instrumental in socially constructing mythical surfing tourist space based upon four symbolic elements: perfect surf, uncrowded conditions, cushioned adventure and an exotic tropical environment. The generic nature of these elements has led to a disembedding of nirvana from its local context and the ‘writing out’ of local communities. The Mentawai nirvana is a castle made of sand under threatened by a rising tide of surfing tourism development and disgruntled destination communities. A re-embedding of nirvana in the local is advocated to secure the future of local communities in the management of their surf resources.

Keywords: Surfing, Surf Tourism, Tourism Management, Sustainable Tourism, Tourism and Media, Surf Tourism History

Magazines and videos produce dream imagery of these islands [Mentawai] that can gnaw like a giant worm through the consciousness to join food, shelter and the desire to procreate as a fundamental human compulsion, an addiction to dwarf the most malevolent drug. (D.C. Green, 2002 Surfer's Path Magazine: 85)

Introduction

The purpose of this paper is to analyse the links between surfing tourism and the media. The paper develops a theoretical framework for understanding media/socially constructed surfing tourist space and presents findings of research into the role of the media in the ‘nirvanification’ of the Mentawai islands off the coast of West Sumatra, Indonesia. Until 1992 only a handful of foreign anthropologists, primatologists and allocentric backpackers had visited this region which is ravaged by preventable disease, poverty, virtually non-existent government services and infant mortality rates as high as sixty percent (Bakker, 1999; Barilotti, 2002; SAI, 2003, 2005). Within five years of surf media

exposure the Mentawai were transformed into the most filmed, photographed, written about and desired surfing tourism destination on earth.

The media created a mythical surfers' nirvana in the Mentawai which surf tourism entrepreneurs were quick to capitalise upon. For the equivalent per-night cost of a four star hotel surfers can live the surfing ‘dream’ in relative luxury, separated from the terrestrial realities of the region on live-aboard chartered yachts and motor cruisers (Ponting, 2001; Ponting, McDonald, & Wearing, 2005). Despite the development of a multi-million dollar tourism industry local communities are yet to benefit from surf tourism. The surf media has been instrumental in discursively transforming some of the world's least developed regions into ‘disembedded’ (Giddens, 1990) mythical tourist spaces. These nirvanic spaces are based on a fragile balance of symbolic elements and represent castles made of sand under threat of melting in to the sea in the wake of a rising tide of tourism development and discontent destination communities.

Surfing Tourism and the Media: A brief history

Links between surfing, the media and tourism are as old as the modern surfing era. By the late 19th century with Hawaiian culture in tatters at the hands of missionaries and disease, surfing was all but forgotten (George, 2000; Kampion, 2003; Warshaw, 2004). At this time Mark Twain (in 1866 for the *Sacramento Union* newspaper) and later Jack London (in 1907 for *Women's Home Companion Magazine*) piqued mainland America's interest in surfing in the mainstream media (Kampion, 2003; Warshaw, 2004). The media and marketing appeal was recognised and in 1907 surfing was adopted as a central tenet of Hawaii's destination image "to spread abroad the attractions of Hawaii, the only islands in the world where men and boys ride upright on the crests of waves" (Ford in Lueras, 1984: 70-71). This role secured surfing's survival into the 21st century.

The introduction of surfing in mainland USA and Australia is similarly linked to place marketing and public relations media drives in the early 1900s (Reed, 1999; Walding, 2003). Its popularisation amongst youth in the early/mid 1960s was a product of a teenage trend that swept through the US in the form of Gidget surf movies (beginning 1959), *The Beach Boys* (first hit in 1961) and a range of teen-targeted 'surf'/beach movies. Australia followed several years later (Booth, 1994, 1995; Cronley, 1983; Walding, 2003). In both cases media driven teen marketing led to a dramatic increase in the number of people wanting to surf and a cultural backlash by surfers struggling to maintain their identity in a sea of teen fad followers.

Prior to *Gidget* a Malibu surfer could pretty much ride any wave he wanted. Crowding was virtually unheard of and every surfer knew every other surfer at the home break. *Gidget* changed all that in one season by making surfing seem sexy and adventurous to millions of movie goers...One year there were about twenty surfers at Malibu, the next year there were hundreds (Reed, 1999: 16).

Crowding at many local surf breaks led to surfers searching further a field for uncrowded locations (Carroll, 2000). Around the same time a dedicated surf media developed and

began reporting on, and indeed providing funding for, those exploring for new surf discoveries in exotic locations.

The surf media funded and documented the discovery of a high-quality surf break at Uluwatu, Bali in 1971 (Elfick, 1971a; Falzon, 1972). This has been acknowledged as something of a starting point for the mass colonization of Indonesia's surf breaks by Australian surfers (Abraham, 1996; King, 1996). In de Certeau's (1988) terms, the media established the nature and boundaries of a new space for surfing tourists. In defining this new space a style of reporting supporting Pratt's (1992: 204) notion of the 'monarch of all I survey' and Selwyn's (Selwyn, 1993) 'view from the throne' undermined the legitimacy of local ownership of environmental resources whilst elevating the surfer to the status of superhero. The following quote from 1971 describes the scene as surfers first encountered the waves at Uluwatu:

The natives who were lining the cliff tops freaked at this man walking on the water. They are frightened of the ocean, only venturing near it at low tide to set their lines, and here were these men walking at great speed on the water...smiling and ripping across the surface with excitement...they were sunshine supermen. (Elfick, 1971a: 16-17)

The Australian surf media was defining a new tourist space. Bali became synonymous with 'juice surf...cheap living, ganja and a lush tropical climate', considered to be the components of an 'ideal place to surf it out' (Elfick, 1971b). Articulation of the new surfing tourist space was primarily concerned with perfect surf and the freedom of exploration, its' discourse encouraged a certain level of political and cultural disengagement with the destination. Barilotti (2002: 37) observed that 'most surfers travel not to experience another culture...the indigenous people are an obstacle or a friendly nuisance to sidestep on the way to the water'.

After the media exposure of Uluwatu in 1971 and 1972, surfing tourism to Indonesia began to flourish and was first targeted by the wider tourism industry in the mid 1970s (Bartholomew & Baker, 1996). Rudimentary 'surf-camp' and live-aboard yacht charter tours

emerged in the early 1980s and by the end of the decade entrepreneurs targeted less adventurous but wealthy surfers with a new, exclusive, industry produced 'business-class' style of surfing tourism involving direct flights, prompt and comfortable transfers and luxury yachts or resorts (Bartholomew & Baker, 1996; Buckley, 2002a, 2002b, 2003; Carroll, 2000; Rich, 1981; Sparkes, 1985; Verrender, 2000)

'Soul marketing' emerged in the 1990s to exploit the adventure and freedom associated with the ethos of early surf explorers in mass marketing campaigns (Brown, 1997). A simulation of surf exploration in Indonesia was used to sell Coca-Cola in television, film, and print advertising. Surfwear company 'Rip Curl' soon followed with a marketing campaign that included continuous surf exploration, a video shoot, and a print media advertising campaign featuring images of empty, perfect, undisclosed and often retouched surf breaks accompanied by slogans urging consumers to 'go search' and 'travel a little further, search a little longer' (Carroll, 2000). Surfwear multinational 'Quiksilver' recently concluded the 'Quiksilver Crossing' involving a chartered boat and amphibious aeroplane in an eight-year global circumnavigation with professional surfers, photographers and cinematographers (Hammerschmidt, 2004).

A powerful marketing synergy between surf media, corporations and tour operators has created a sense of nostalgia for the 'pristine' surfing spaces constructed by the early surf explorers. Buckley (2003) captured the essence of this arrangement in describing the content of surfing magazines.

The main bulk of these magazines, however, consists of heavily illustrated articles, most of them featuring sponsored surfers at locations visited by surf tour operators, photographed by professional surf photographers. Video footage from the same trip is used to make surf videos and DVDs, which are advertised through the same magazines...These magazines help to sell surfing equipment and surfing tours, and the equipment advertisements and surf tour stories help to sell the magazine. (Buckley, 2003: 131)

All of this prompts an important question, what discourse has emerged from this marketing synergy and what influence has it had upon the development of surf tourism? The power of media representations of surf tourism is articulated in the following extract from an interview with a surf tourist in Indonesia:

I think I was chasing these perfect waves more than anything. You hear so much about Indonesia and see so much, so many photos in magazines, and when you surf and to see that stuff and not be able to experience it; it could drive a man insane. (Ponting, 2000)

The surfing media has, to a large extent, created the symbols sought out by contemporary surfing tourists. Surf tourism has become a commercially motivated and controlled leisure experience, the surf media creates a voyeuristic keyhole into a mythical surfer's nirvana. Surfwear consumers and would-be surfing tourists dream of falling through the surf media looking glass to find themselves cast in their own adventures in Wonderland.

New surf locations have been presented to the surfing public as generic, paradisaical discoveries in secret locations defined by a suite of symbolic elements describing a commonly perceived 'dream' of a surfer's nirvana. This discourse has provided the lens through which many surfing tourists, particularly those who now travel on luxury package tours, view tropical surfing destinations in some of the world's least developed regions. The nirvanification of such places has resulted in rapid, unplanned and unmanaged surfing tourism development directly linked to the release of particular magazine articles or films (Ponting et al., 2005). The surf media has become an extremely effective destination marketing channel which can push unsuspecting villages down the slippery slope to large scale surfing tourism.

The Nirvanification of the Mentawai Islands

This section presents results of qualitative grounded theory research undertaken over six months of field research in West Sumatra in 2003 and ongoing contact with key participants in the surfing tourism industry, the surf media

and the surf manufacturing and retail industries. Thirty in-depth interviews were conducted in the field with a range of stakeholders including tourists (yacht and land based), tour operators (both expatriate and Indonesian), local community members, the surf media and global surf manufacturing corporations. The names of participants have been altered in order to respect their anonymity.

Themes of 'dreams come true', 'paradise found', 'Utopia lived', 'the best waves of my life', quickly reached saturation in data collected from surfing tourists in the field. The following are excerpts of guest entries from a live aboard charter boat visitors' book provided to the research by the boats captain.

The perfect waves of the Mentawai Islands are what dreams are made of. We got the best waves of our lives.

The Mentawais changed my way of thinking and gave me a good look at what Utopia and Paradise is like. Surfing here is better than sex: your mates get to watch and cheer, pat you on the back and share the video highlights afterwards whilst having a beer and a feed.

What more could a person ask for...we surfed world-class waves practically by ourselves. Thanks for a very memorable trip and making a dream of mine come true.

This was the funnest [sic] trip of my life...You guys have helped make a lifelong dream of mine come true!

A high degree of congruency was noted in the articulation of nirvana between individuals of disparate ages, backgrounds and nationalities. This points to a common, pre-existing 'dream of nirvana' and overlapping understandings of the symbols which comprise it. Indeed the dream of nirvana drives every part of the surf industry and it is incumbent upon the surf industry to ensure it remains at the forefront of surfer consciousness and discourse to secure ongoing profitability (Buckley, 2003; Ponting, 2001; Ponting et al., 2005; Ponting & Wearing, 2003; Surfer'sPath, 2002). As surfing became increasingly popular \ surf publications were commodified and taken over by glossy mainstream sports, fashion and consumer

magazine publishing houses. The interests of advertisers and the priorities of publishers became of paramount concern. Those charged with marketing the global surf industries were quick to understand the powerful appeal of nirvanic imagery and discourse and have played a lead role in the apotheosis of nirvana in surf media and surf marketing discourse.

Over the last 20 or so years these nirvanic pictures of places have become important commercial currency for big surf companies...then, the surf mags have grown increasingly into a marketing arm of the surfing industry. (Tom)

A strong link emerged between conceptions of nirvana, the desire to travel and the surf media. For many the dream of nirvana began with childhood fantasies inspired by surf media imagery.

It motivates all of us as surfers, that thing where you're dreaming lying on your bed at home as a small kid and you've got posters up on your wall and all of those posters are beautiful tropical islands and insane waves all over the world. (Griff)

It boils back down to the posters you had on your walls as a kid. How often did the guy in the posters become you? (Sean Doherty)

Some participants recognised the significance of a particular single image in the construction of their own understanding of nirvana and in motivating them to undertake surfing tourism.

I think everyone traces the popularisation of the Mentawais back to the picture of the huge left that Ross Clarke Jones was on. That one image was probably more powerful than the talk I heard. I think that holds true for a lot of surfers. One image, they can pick it up in a mag and it'll stick in their brain and there's something about the image that captures their imagination and they sort of have to go there. I can't explain it better than that. (Paul)

Quiksilver surf film *Surfers of Fortune* (1994) was one of the first films based solely in the Mentawai to penetrate deeply into the consciousness of the global surfing community. The film was widely referenced

by participants in this research, particularly those who stayed on beyond their initial visit as a surfing tourist to establish their own surfing tourism operations.

I watched a movie by Quiksilver called the *Surfers of Fortune*...I just knew I wanted to go where this movie was filmed...Such perfect waves you know. In the movie they were just getting these incredible barrels and I just thought 'I've got to go and find what these guys are surfing'. (Marco)

To make a long story short I saw a video called *Surfer's of Fortune* put out by Quiksilver and I watched it again and again and again and again because I was just blown away. (Carter)

The release of *Surfers of Fortune* and the concurrent global surf media obsession with the Mentawais in the mid-1990s fuelled demand for Mentawai boat charters, surf tourism entrepreneurs slowly built supply and before long two weeks in nirvana in previously impossible levels comfort and safety was within reach of any surfer able to pay the price of admission. It is important to note the pivotal role played by the marketing exercises of surf corporations transmitted through the surf media in generating awareness of the Mentawais and in driving demand. Surf corporation marketing executive 'Ray' explains.

All these great photos, besides promoting the image of our companies as being real and a part of the movement – 'at the forefront' - it was also inadvertently fuelling this desire to go to these exotic far flung locations...No wonder all of those operators popped up because we were creating the demand of all these people wanting to get there. All the operators had to do was stick their accommodating vessel there and we were inadvertently creating the market for it. (Ray)

Four Symbolic Elements of Nirvanification

Four categories of data, referred to here as symbolic elements, emerged from the data to house the dreamlike and dreamed of utopian qualities of nirvana described by surfing tourists and tour operators. These can be traced

back to nirvanic imagery popularised by the media.

1. perfect waves,
2. uncrowded conditions,
3. the 'cushioned adventure' provided by charter boat surfing tourism, and
4. an exotic, tropical natural environment.

Nirvanic space is extremely lucrative both in terms of its tourism potential and in terms of the imagery it provides for surf industry marketing purposes. It occurs in the Mentawais at the intersection of the four symbolic elements. All four are not necessarily vital for the establishment of nirvanic surfing tourist space in other regions however the perfect wave is an element common to all conceptions of nirvana.

Perfect Waves

George (2000), Kampion (2003), Ormrod (2005), Walding (2003) and Warshaw (2004) all form direct links between the notion of the perfect wave, its entry into the lexicon of surfing and Bruce Brown's 1964 surfing film *The Endless Summer: In Search of the Perfect Wave*. Shared understandings of what a perfect wave looks like are socially constructed and communicated to surfers through the surf media (Preston-Whyte, 2002). The shape and size of the perfect wave has changed markedly since Brown's 1964 depiction of a long, soft breaking chest high wave. Surfboard design evolved and became more refined and better able to ride larger, steeper waves, eventually allowing the surfer to ride inside the 'tube' or 'barrel' of a hard breaking wave. In the late 1960s/early 1970s larger, tubing waves, such as those found throughout the south western coasts of Indonesia's islands became the most common interpretation of a perfect wave (George, 2000). All surf tourist participants cited perfect waves as the primary focus of their trip to the Mentawais.

Most of it is chasing the Holy Grail, the chance of maybe getting insane waves...That hope of f*****n' just all time perfect insane waves. And when you find it it's just like YEAH! Found it! (Matt)

Most operators reinforced that the motivating force behind surfing tourism in the Mentawai was a search for the perfect wave informed by the media. That the surf tourist

...wants to know that he's going to get that nirvana - that he's going to get that perfect wave everybody's been promising him. The media, the websites of the operators, the movies that he sees that only use the best waves. They don't show the slop. And then when it eventually does happen he'll be standing right next to you and the waves will be absolutely gorgeously perfect. He'll turn to you and ask, 'is that perfect'? You actually have to assure him that yes that's it. You dream has come true! You have arrived. It has happened. (Marco)

Uncrowded Conditions

Perfect surf is rarely mentioned in the context of nirvana without qualifying that it should be uncrowded. Crowding has been the subject of academic discussion both in the context of outdoor recreation (Manning, 1999) generally and in the specific context of surfing tourism in the Mentawais (Buckley, 2002b). However surfing tourists' own words are most effective in explaining the importance of uncrowded surfing conditions and why this is a key symbol of nirvana.

It sounds greedy but the dream scenario is when you're out in perfect conditions just with your friends or as small a group as possible so you can get all the waves you want and don't have to share. (Tony)

Cushioned Adventure

The element of being onboard a live-aboard boat appears to hold a romantic appeal for many surfing tourists on a number of levels. The boat itself does indeed appear to symbolise freedom and adventure and as such holds a certain mystique for those who have not travelled in this manner before. Further, the luxuries afforded by travel onboard a purpose outfitted surf charter boat in remote regions like the Mentawais are valued by tourists.

There's definitely a sense of adventure being out on a boat, out on the high seas, sort of a classical romantic element to it...It was something I'd never done

before, it was sort of adventurous not only to be on the trip but to be on the boat. (Tony)

While the surfing tourists enjoyed the sense of adventure they also acknowledged the cushioning effect of the tour operator which allowed them to simply focus upon surfing rather than expending energy interacting with what is a difficult travelling environment.

This is the easy way to do it, to go on this trip. Pay to play. Hold your hand. its like we're in a little plastic bubble and everything is catered to us and we're taken around here and there. (Jeff)

Some tour operators bordered on being resentful of the ease with which boat based tourists are able to experience the Mentawai region. Tourists' perception of adventure is juxtaposed against the operators' view.

This is a package holiday, nothing more than that. Their food is cooked for them, they're stitched up if they get hurt, and they've got travel insurance. They get picked up on day one at the airport and dropped off at the airport on day 14 and hopefully everything goes smoothly in between. There are very few uncertainties. Marco

Limited or controlled interaction with local people was identified as an important component of nirvana by tour operators. Local people don't feature in the dream of nirvana. Certainly the soft focus imagery adopted by nirvanic marketing campaigns does not include local people in any meaningful way, other than as 'local colour'. It then comes as no surprise that local people have been written out of nirvana. Surfing tourists do not look for them in their quest to gather proof that the symbols of nirvana were satisfied on their trip. Interaction with locals could be disturbing, risky and potentially frightening for surfing tourists.

It's that little bubble, that perfect thing. It doesn't really include any local cultural exchange in their nirvana dream. So as a result of that they [surfing tourists] maybe don't look for it. In the fulfilment of that dream they're looking for the elements that have been part of their imagination. Local culture isn't part of that. (Griff)

Pristine, Tropical Environment

Little sandy atolls and coral reefs with beautiful fish, palm trees, warm beautiful water that changes colour every ten minutes. You get deep aquas and turquoises, every single shade of blue and green you've ever seen, and you can see all of them in a day. And you can see another set the next day: green, blue and white. (Sam)

The imagined landscape of nirvana amongst surfer participants was universally assumed to be pristine, tropical and exotic, relatively untouched by human development. In the quote above Sam has distilled the natural environment in nirvanic imagery and his own imagination down to three colours, 'green, blue and white'. The generic symbols of tropical nirvanic imagery – clear blue or green water, sand islands or coral atolls, white sandy beaches and palm trees – look quite similar through the soft focus lens of the surf media and the distracted gaze of the surfing tourist.

You don't want to narrow things down too much for people. You want to let them fill in the spaces... We knew that when we went to the Mentawais we knew that we had that, the pure perfection of Lance's Rights. So many people could relate to that, that was really attractive...I identified that for us as really quite an important thing...the only thing that could be better would be if those waves were in Tahiti, because its blue. The Mentawais is green. (Ray – global surf corporation marketing executive)

The tendency of surf marketing to be ambiguous about locations adds to the idea that nirvana could be anywhere. This is reflected in Ray's comment about the Mentawais, his focus as a surfwear marketer is exclusively upon the islands' value as nirvanic marketing imagery. From this perspective, given the soft focus approach to particular destinations, the Mentawais are reduced to just another photo shoot location for display in the media. Not particularly special or unique.

I don't think that the Mentawais is anything unique. It's not like it's any different from Hawaii or Tahiti, Fiji or Bali in that it's just another new set of images that excites the imagination of

boardriders. It's no more different than Bali was from Hawaii or Hawaii was from Tahiti. (Ray)

Theorising Nirvana – Castles made of sand

John Urry highlighted the importance of the media in creating the anticipation of 'intense pleasures...constructed and sustained through a variety of non-tourist practices such as film, TV, literature, magazines, records, and videos' ((Urry, 1990: 3; 2002: 3). Over the last 50 years the media have carried imagery of perfect surf on deserted paradisiacal islands (Cronley, 1983; Kampion, 2003; Walding, 2003; Warshaw, 2004). Preston-Whyte (2001: 309) credits the surf media with constructing and maintaining imagery of 'the perfect wave' which has become the source of surfers' search for the perfect wave.

The focus of surf travel media, based on the interest of the consumer and industry sponsorship, is based very much upon product and logo placement, surfing conditions and the reactions of professional surfers to those conditions rather than informed representations of cultural and environmental diversity. Duncan (1993: 46) notes the 'other' in travel media is generally located in the past and exoticised by the dominant discourse. Indeed the surf media has tended to represent contemporary indigenous communities as timeless 'lost tribes' even head-hunters (c.f GBI, 2000; Ridgway, 1995)

Taking a position similar to Edensor (1998; 2000), Suvantola argues that tourist space is largely mythical and involves the deployment of standardising mechanisms associated with commodification so that 'different places are easily perceived to be similar everywhere' (Suvantola, 2002: 132). In this view, by marginalising and standardising the 'other', surfing tourist discourse encourages perceptions of generic tropical paradise locations. As the previous section demonstrated, in the case of the Mentawais these generic locations are symbolised by the perfect wave, uncrowded conditions, cushioned adventure and exotic tropical environments

Terkenli (2002: 228) conceptualises a global cultural economy of space in which the tourist is positioned as an 'increasingly passive agent

observer, fascinated, entranced and entangled with the images of the contemporary objective world'. The tourist in this case is seduced by surf media imagery of the perfect wave in a generic tropical paradise. In Terkenli's view the tourist's focus has become more centred upon pleasure and hedonism. The pleasure/hedonism concept applied to tourist space can be likened to the global homogeneity of shopping malls, leisure centres and supermarkets, or 'non-places' offering comfort in a 'dream-like admixture of codes' – this type of commodified leisure Rojek (1993) argues is 'the dreamworld of Modernity'. Zukin (1991: 27) makes the case that the mobility and flexibility associated with postmodern space undermines one's sense of living in specific and unique locales and increases the feeling of belonging to a universal cultural space. Giddens (1990) referred to universalised cultural space in terms of 'disembeddedness', meaning that identity and action are influenced by references with vast geographical reach. In the context of surfing tourism the constructed notion of the 'perfect wave' and the comfortable hedonistic pleasure associated with the nirvanic dreamworld provides references that prevail over multiple destinations in euphoric physical transcendence of, and detachment from, the realities of everyday life in each geographic location. The disembedding of nirvana has enabled the development of a model of surf tourism which is market focussed, economically neo-liberal and disconnected from local place and people. Unregulated free-market approaches to development in less developed regions place local people as just one relatively powerless stakeholder group amongst many others. As a result local people are usually the last to benefit from economic development based upon the exploitation of their resources yet shoulder the bulk of deleterious impacts (Mahapatra, 1998; Smith, 2000; Timothy & Tosun, 2003).

Conclusion

On the basis of primary research this paper has argued that nirvana is a fragile symbolic construction based upon four symbolic elements: perfect surf, uncrowded conditions, an exotic environment and soft adventure cushioned by the tourism industry. Surf marketing encourages an intentionally generic approach to surf destinations in its marketing

and in the media to suggest a timeless quest for a surf Shangri-La. Indeed parallels exist between nirvanic surfing tourism and Shangri-La tourism which seeks the site of James Hilton's (1933) fictitious utopian lamasery. Exposure and exploitation of these regions by the tourism industry, despite best efforts to maintaining their Shangri-la/Nirvanic qualities leads to a betrayal of the myth. As such the symbolic anchors of Shangri-la/Nirvana are destabilised and the mythical space becomes mobile, and moves in search of a new area in which to anchor its self (Bishop, 1989; Cater, 2001; Hutt, 1996).

Analysis of primary data from the Mentawai reveals that surfing tourists share a common media disseminated understanding of the symbolic elements from which nirvana is constructed. The Mentawai people do not rank among these symbolic elements and have been written out of the nirvanic myth. Now, after more than a decade of watching surfing tourism dollars literally sail past their villages, the Mentawai people are beginning to force change upon an industry which continues to ignore their presence for fear of tarnishing the dream of nirvana (Persoon, 2003; Ponting, 2001; Ponting et al., 2005; Reeves, 2002). The situation has begun to attract international attention and the surf media have begun to question the original positioning of the Mentawais as an uninhabited surfers' nirvana. The nirvanic sand castle is melting slowly into the sea.

The overlaying and displacement of local space by surf tourist space in the Mentawai has taken place in the absence of systematic attempts to foster cross-cultural understanding. Such approaches were enabled by a lack of media scrutiny of the well being of local communities as, uninvited, surf tourism invaded their realm. What is required in order to secure local communities a presence in nirvana is a 're-embedding' of nirvana in the local. The surf media needs to re-embed nirvana in the local realities of a destination rather than condemning these places to the anonymity and substitutability of a generic and disembedded nirvana. The analysis presented here suggests that the media should behave in a manner which acknowledges the inevitable response of surfers to the exposure of new surfing destinations and the gravity of this response for local communities. The surf

media and surf corporation marketing activities DO start tourism gold rushes with real life impacts for destination communities. Unprepared destination communities allow foreign interests to take control of the surfing resource, setting local interests back decades.

This research also suggests that there needs to be a change in the discourse of the surf media from a position of advocating the rights of surfers to travel freely where ever they wish and access the surf resources of local communities, to a position which respects local ownership of ocean and reef resources by local resource owners and centralising their needs and concerns in the surfing tourism equation rather than the other way around. To achieve sustainable results the industry needs to engage with local communities and enter into joint ventures which provide human resource development opportunities for local people all the way to management level and not just in terms of service provision. These issues need to be discussed by the surfing media rather than avoided as has been case in the Mentawais for fifteen years.

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How Does a DMO's Publicity Management Impact on Country Image? Rhetorical Analysis of Representation of Finland in British Press

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Abstract

Publicity management of DMOs is a neglected area in the academic literature. In this paper, the rare literature of publicity management and its influence on country image are contributed, especially in a context of remote destinations.

An aim of this study is to compare organic images of Finland revealed in spontaneous image research to image portrayed in newspapers in Great Britain at the same time period. The data consists of journalistic articles based on familiarity tours organised by Finnish tourist board. Qualitative, rhetorical textual analysis was used. We are mainly interested in rhetoric used in newspapers' texts when representing Finland. We are also interested in the extent to which organic images reflect these representations. Expert interviews and documents about PR activities from FTB were also used.

Main discourses were mythical Christmas discourse about Winter Wonderland and critical discourse where journalists often evaluated a Christmas product very critically. About destinations and activities, journalists wrote either with stereotypical attitudes (old), or with attitude changing (modern) way. Rhetorical strategies are mostly defensive type using e.g. extremities and irony. It seems that publicity work has focused on certain attractions and the image of Finland in press is rather narrow.

Keywords: Publicity management, destination image, textual analysis, representation, rhetoric

Introduction

Finnish Tourist Board (FTB) is the national tourism organisation (NTO) in Finland. The main functions of FTB are marketing and sales promotion abroad. In the beginning of 2000's, FTB wished to determine the spontaneous images of Finland in seven main market areas in Europe in order to find out the positive associations for marketing communications and branding purposes. It was assumed that it is easier to strengthen the positive attributes of Finland and base the forthcoming brand strategy on the existing positive images.

For Finland and especially for Finnish Lapland the significance of British tourism is important. Of foreign visitors, Brits are the fifth biggest group travelling to Finland. In Lapland they make up the biggest proportion of foreign overnights. Travelling from Britain is concentrated in winter time, especially in

Lapland area. (Border Interview Survey, 18, 2005; Lapin Liitto 2006).

The images of Finland were investigated with an open-ended question "When you hear the word "Finland", what does it bring to your mind?" According to the results in Great Britain, associations were mostly nature and winter-related: "Cold" is the most common association (15 %), the second is "nothing" (12 %), the third is "snow" (9 %). This might suggest that there is not a great deal of available information about Finnish tourism offering, but maybe an even more important reason is the lacking motivation for holidays in a destination with the northern kind of attractiveness. Ignorance would also seem to lead more often to negative associations in relation to tourism.

The initial image formation stage before the trip is the most important phase in tourists' destination selection processes (Baloglu &

McCleary 1999; Gunn 1972). Gunn (1972) proposed that tourists' destination image is distinguished by two different dimensions. *Organic image* is a potential tourist's impression of a destination without having visited a place. *Induced image* is formed by promotional materials or actual visitation to the area. According to Selby and Morgan (1996), official tourist organisations are responsible for the *projected image* whilst the *organic image* may be said to derive from non-tourist sources. The role of autonomous image formation agents, particularly media, appears to have powerful effects on destination image formation.

Whether the images are stereotypes or based on real experiences, the level of familiarity of a destination strongly indicates the characteristics of perceived images (Andsager & Drzewiecka, 2002; Baloglu, 2001; Milman & Pizam 1995). Therefore, in order to develop a destination marketing strategy, it is crucial to examine, how familiar the place is among target audiences and what the image attributes related to the destination are. The majority of destination publicity is incidental; it is not pre-planned or deliberate but merely occurs in the natural course of news events being picked up and transmitted by the various media and commonly having nothing to do directly with tourism (Dore & Crouch 2003).

Destination promotion is normally the DMO's major activity and budget item (Dore & Crouch 2003, 137).

Of promotional tools, publicity is seen as a part of public relations (Shimp 1997), which can be defined as the planned and sustained effort to establish and maintain goodwill and mutual understanding between an organisation and its target audiences. By focusing on consumers as the principal public, marketing public relations (MPR) have been separated from the wider field of PR. MPR can be defined as "the process of planning, executing and developing programs that encourage purchase and consumer satisfaction through credible communications of information and impressions that identify companies and their products with the needs, wants, concerns and interests of consumers" (Picton & Broderick 2005, 555). MPR can raise awareness and visibility, inform, interest, excite, educate, generate understanding, and build trust.

Publicity production is a mainstay of MPR, being associated with press and media. Publicity involves "information from an outside source used by the news media based on its news value" (Cutlip, Center & Broom 1985). Publicity activities take two forms: disseminating positive publicity and dealing with negative publicity during periods of organisation crisis. (Shimp 1997). Media relations help to ensure good media coverage, encourage favourable, positive publicity and discourage negative coverage. The development of personal relationships with editors and journalists is typically involved. (Picton & Broderick 2005, 557). Tourism destinations also use e.g. the visibility in television, video or the cinema screen as springboards for marketing campaigns (Hudson & Ritchie 2006).

News coverage and popular culture can provide substantial information about a place in a short period of time. Also people are likely to evaluate this autonomous information (Gartner 1993) as relatively unbiased when compared to traditional advertising (Lindquist & Sirgy 2003). Publicity creates the impression that it is produced by somebody not associated with the destination, which creates a higher degree of believability (Picton & Broderick 2005, 557). Publicity is also likely to influence consumers' attitudes toward ads and brands because consumers use the most credible information available to assess the trustworthiness of other information in the marketplace (Stammerjohan, Wood, Chang & Thorson 2005). Boyle also (2004) points out that the role of press reporters as experts is particularly important, because they often act as opinion formers whose views are important not only in influencing early adopters but also in their impact on later purchasers. (Boyle 2004, 213)

An aim of this study is to compare organic images revealed in spontaneous image research (in year 2002) to image held by newspapers in Great Britain at the same time period. The data consists of journalistic articles based on familiarity tours organised by FTB. Articles about Finland are published in newspapers' travel sections in Great Britain in year 2001. Qualitative, rhetorical textual analysis was used. We are mainly interested in rhetoric used in newspapers' texts when representing Finland. We are also interested in the extent to

which organic images reflect these representations. Expert interviews and documents about PR activities from FTB were also used. The rare literature of publicity management and its influence on country image are contributed, especially in a context of remote destinations.

Textual Representations of Destination Image

The destination image literature has measured tourists' perceptions, but neglected to analyse representations. However, in marketing studies especially, recommendations are given about the ways in which the projected image of a destination should be modified to improve tourists' images (e.g. Baloglu 1997).

Textual representations of places for example in media play an essential role in the tourism industry as the product, destination and the tourist experience is normally purchased prior to arrival (Fakeye & Crompton 1991). Representation means that objects like destinations are not presented exactly like they are in reality, but as representations of a reality. (Lehtonen 2000, 45).

Individuals collect tourism information to help them make decisions concerning their vacation destinations (Mansfeld 1992; Um & Crompton 1990). According to Vogt and Fesenmaier (1998), by requesting information individuals can also be satisfying other needs than intended visit to entertain themselves with places, or simply to satisfy their curiosity. For example, reading travel magazine or newspaper's travel section could be this kind of way of entertaining oneself. At the same time, the familiarity of the destination will increase.

On the other hand, destinations produce marketing-oriented information and participate in editorial communications with the intent of attracting new visitors or reminding former visitors to return (Vogt & Fesenmaier 1998, 551). These various types of materials have been examined in order to understand their impact on image formation process (Adams 1984; Cohen 1993; Dann 1996; Espelt & Benito 2005; Hughes 1992; Kingsbury & Brunn 2003; Mercille 2005; Pennington-Gray et. al 2005; Pritchard & Morgan 1998; Santos Almeida 2004; Seaton 1998; Selwyn 1993).

Cohen's (1993) theoretical study of tourist imagery and representations outlines two main directions of inquiry dominating contemporary image-based research. The extrinsic direction focuses upon the discrepancies between representation and reality, the intrinsic upon the messages and styles of the image itself. MacGregor (2000) argues that a third direction should be a dynamic direction, which focuses upon the power of texts and images to influence tourist experiences, ways of seeing and perceptions of place. Dann (1996) argued that tourism language for example in guidebooks not only guides but also controls tourists, reducing them "chasers of images", seeking what they have been told to see and losing their freedom as tourists.

Publicity Management as a Part of Destination Promotion

As with other elements of marketing communications, it is vital that all relevant MPR audiences are identified before the integrated communication campaign. Targeted media should always be considered as part of the targeted publics. (Picton & Broderick 2005, 557). The image- and brand-driven objectives of the communication strategy should be the guidelines of the publicity management as well, and the mission for selected target groups should be well planned. A publicity strategy will feature a set of consistent messages, directed towards particular channels, underpinned by long term media relationships and focused on those issues which most concern the destination.

Publicity is a major tool for proactive public relations. All forms of publicity are subject to the control of the media, but disseminating a large volume of publicity materials and by preparing the material and the message so that it fits the media's needs, a destination increases its chances of obtaining beneficial publicity. The role of publicity especially in the international marketing can be complex. Hence, the supply of factual, interesting and newsworthy information is dependent on cultural differences, language barriers, media availability and even different laws governing promotion. (Burnley 1998, 107-108). Managing publicity requires special skills: media has its own agenda and decides what it will print or broadcast according to which

values. (Burnley 1998, Picton & Broderick 2005).

Reviewing of marketing communications literature, prove that PR and publicity are often seen to be of secondary importance, compared to other elements of promotional mix. For example Shimp (1997) specifies them as supportive marketing communications tools. However, DMOs seem to value them very high as promotional tools, though there is very little empirical research on DMOs' publicity programmes (Dore & Crouch 2003).

In tourism, special activities designed to generate news are known with variety of names including press tours, visiting journalists' programmes and travel writer or media familiarisation tours. (Dore & Crouch 2003). The travel writers are intermediaries between the destination promoters and audience. These writers package cultures through representational images and such, they have become sociocultural decoders (Santos Almeida 2004). Newspapers are not transmitters of facts; they are cultural producers operating to institutional rules and paradigms (Reese 1990).

Familiarity tours are designed to attract the international media to a destination, with the purpose of generating free publicity from the articles and stories written, or audio-visual material produced about the destination. Formal publicity generation programmes today play a major role in the strategies of many NTOs (Dore & Crouch 2003). The main reason is the small marketing budgets of NTOs. Destination publicity programmes can be very cost-efficient and effective (Dore & Crouch 2003; Morgan & Pritchard 2004).

There are also many problems relating to media familiarisation tours. Problems in meeting journalists' expectations, the lack of control over the finished product and desired image are some negative elements relating to media tour programmes (Mackellar & Fenton 2000). The difficulties of coordination and control have the potential to undermine a strategic approach to marketing based on destination branding, because campaigns can be undertaken by a variety of tourist businesses with no consultation or coordination on the prevailing message or the destination values being promoted. (Laws, Scott & Parfitt 2002, 40). Other problems that Dore & Crouch

(2003) found in their empirical study related to limited funds, lack of selected industry support, short notice of arrival journalists, quality control of material published, results that not meet expectations, programme that did not meet journalists' interests and lack of staff resources. Also, in some cases, certain publishers have policies prohibiting participation in media visits, preferring to maintain their editorial independence.

However, news and popular culture products are so deeply embedded in every day life that they are likely to have high market penetration. Thus, portrayals of places for example in news and popular culture can alter an area's image dramatically. (Kim & Richardson 2003; Mercille 2005; Hudson & Ritchie 2006). Also Urry (1990) suggested that the symbolic domain of popular culture is important to the construction of place imagery. The relative significance and credibility of the media in shaping images are of central importance to the role of PR in destination promotional strategies. (Piggott, Morgan & Pritchard 2005, 208).

Through its credibility with publics, cost-efficiency compared to traditional advertising and the crucial role of effective public relations to the portrayal of a positive organic image (Hankinson 2004), significance of DMO's publicity work is remarkable. Though, there is need for publicity management and more strategic planning as a part of destination marketing strategies. In this, establishment of relationship with the local, national and international media is crucial (see Hankinson 2004).

'The power of constructed reality is likely to dominate any sense of objective reality. This is seen mostly in influence of films, television and Internet on destination images. Popular view of a place offered by media may even prompt that place to recreate its own identity in this image (Morgan and Pritchard 1998). Therefore, it is interesting to examine the image portrayed in certain media.

Study Methods

The texts analysed in this study included 10 journalistic travel articles about Finland published in British press in 2001. These clippings were results of public relations activities by FTB. This year was chosen

because the data of spontaneous images in Britain was from the year 2002 and we wanted to examine, if there were any connections between these images. Also Finland should have been in that time more than usually in publicity because of many reasons: e.g., in 2000 Helsinki was the European cultural capital and Finland had been chosen as the most popular tourist destination by the readers of Guardian.

As background information, we used FTB's UK office's documents about their PR activities, including e.g. itineraries of media visits and lists of invited journalists. We also interviewed FTB's marketing personnel about the PR activities and significance of publicity work and also afterwards by e-mail to clear some aspects. The analysed 10 articles are actual journalistic travel writings. These were rich "condensations of meanings"; narratives, journalists' own travel experiences and opinions.

The first stage of the analysis involved several reading times through the clippings to find the overall narrative points and main themes. Secondly, the content of the articles were written down with a few sentences. We were particularly interested in the rhetorical strategies that are behind the articles. Rhetoric, according to Aristotle, is the art of observing means to persuade your audience (Aristotle, 1954, 1.2). According to Wei (2002, 270) defining "image" from a rhetorical standpoint would thus imply two elements: audience and persuasion. Rhetorical analysis and especially Perelman's (1979) new rhetoric suit for the analysis of promotional material, press releases and newspaper articles, because they are chosen to represent in certain context and for certain reason (Veivo & Huttunen 1999, Perelman 1979; Matala 2004).

The results of media familiarisation tours, written press clippings, are also directed to certain audience and for certain reason: to promote the destination for potential tourists, at least from the view point of FTB. In a simplified manner, rhetoric is about convincing the audience about the validity of some argument and to get them committed to it. In this way rhetoric analysis is suited for analysing publicity work's results. From rhetorical point of view, it is interesting, how the audience is convinced and what the means

of convincing them are (Jokinen 1999, 46). It is also interesting, in whose voice the journalists have written when they have participated in organised media tours.

Finally the documents of the media visits arranged by FTB were studied and compared with articles. Then the transcribed open-ended interviews of experts in FTB were analysed. The aim was to study the implementation of PR and meaning of publicity as a promotional tool in NTO and how effective the media visits had been.

We paid our attention to the tone and mode of writing of the journalists and the role of the journalists in the articles. The rhetorical strategies are not the end of itself, but the entity is decisive. The main discourses of representing Finland in the articles were discovered. By a discourse we mean mode of speech and the main themes, main images of Finland. We understand representations constructively, that is, we are interested in what kind of reality media representations are producing and which way (Hall 1997).

Discourse analysis is a study approach within several textual and linguistic study methods like narrative, metaphor and conversation analysis or rhetoric analysis could be applied. Discourse analysis emphasizes contents of media and could be also critical approach including the idea of power of language. Discourse forms a frame for the conversation about the certain phenomenon. (Nieminen & Pantti 2004, 128-129).

When studying rhetoric we are interested in how certain meanings and social reality are produced. Rhetoric is to convince and persuade certain audience by use of language. For example advertising texts persuade the potential buyers. (Jokinen & Juhila 1999, 77). It is interesting to study how journalists argue about Finland, what they are doing with those arguments and how they are positioning themselves when writing. In rhetoric, a salient point is categorising the phenomenon as having certain attributes like good/bad, beautiful/ugly (Jokinen 1999, 127-130). This is useful when we talk about representations. Also important in rhetorical analysis is, for what kind of audience the journalists are writing.

Rhetoric could be either defensive or offensive. By defensive rhetoric writer defence his own statements and by offensive rhetoric aim is to detract the opponent's arguments. There are several rhetoric strategies, which could be common for both types: using metaphors, irony, repetition, using expert statements etc. (Potter 1996).

Findings

Publicity Work of FTB

In FTB's head quarters in Helsinki there is a media department, which organises media visits from abroad. Normally, FTB's local office in a certain country, invites the journalists according to their own plans. There are different variations in hosting the invited journalists. FTB's personnel in Helsinki may not even see the journalist's, but occasionally they may have a strong role in coordinating the itinerary planning and hosting. FTB's head quarters also arranges a couple of theme based media visits around sauna, design, food etc. Anyway the assignments from local offices and sometimes e.g. from Ministry of foreign affairs are the main tasks of FTB's media department in Helsinki.

The marketing coordinator, and the director of FTB in London office both emphasized the great significance of the publicity and media work for the NTO. For example, in year 2006, ¼ of the total marketing budget was spent to the media work. Many of the media visits are organised together with travel intermediaries, airline companies and local firms. This collaboration is very important, and should be more common because of the high costs of the visits. Most of the media visits were arranged during the winter time and this is seen in the amount of winter related articles.

There is no systematic follow-up for the media work, but circulations and other facts like summary of total advertising value is reported every year. How the publicity has reached different target groups, could not be analysed yet. The articles are compiled every year, but the categorisation has been changed over time, and is subjective depending on the person responsible of it. Articles are not analysed or used in every day marketing work. However, for example articles concerning Lapland are sent to the Lapland Marketing Organisation as a feedback of the media work.

According to Kim et al. (1999), outputs and outcomes of the media exposure represent the program-level and destination-level evaluation. PR practitioners have focused the outputs of programs such as numbers of clips, total air time, audience reached, hours expended, etc. One of the traditional quantitative media exposure measurements in content analyses: practitioners have been able to assess favourable, neutral and unfavourable articles about the issue under study. Practitioners have more or less concentrated on the communication outputs, but the communication effects on the destination have got less attention.

Extremities and Irony

According to the travel itineraries of the media visits, one of the familiarity tours was a round tour around Finland; four of them were trips to Helsinki and four to Lapland. There have been nine trips resulting these ten articles. All the articles were published in newspapers with wide circulation like The Guardian, Independent on Sunday and Daily Telegraph. If they were adverts, they could have cost more than 110 000 pounds.

The national press in Britain can broadly be divided into pertinent, quality broadsheet newspapers and more populist tabloids. They are also divided into daily press and Sunday papers. Sometimes there is a Sunday equivalent of the daily paper, for example the Mail on Sunday and the Daily Mail. (Boyle 2004, 217). For Finland, it is always a great success to get publicity in a travel section of any of these newspapers. Some papers, especially the good travel magazines, don't take any paid trips and their journalists travel always on paper's own cost.

In the year 2001 FTB had arranged media visits for about 30 journalists. In addition, some other media groups were invited, but the names of the journalists are not mentioned in the documents of FTB. Initially, all together 155 clippings were compiled from the British press for FTB by one media measuring firm, out of which 50 were good narratives, and of them, only 10 can be definitely be considered to be results of the same year media visits. Of course, some of these 50 articles may be results of PR work from year 2000. It is also possible that some of the results of 2001 are not seen until later. Some journalists have

written for several papers about the same trip. In the 50 articles, there are also those, which are written as a result of other, paid or self-paid trips. In this analysis we suppose that at least 10 of the articles are connected to the factual media visits during the year 2001.

The analysed 10 articles were mostly results of winter-time media visits. One visit was in January, one in April, one in summer, one in late autumn and the other five from December. In general, the four articles resulting from the trip in Christmas time were stories about the family trips of the journalists to see Santa Claus in Lapland. Three articles were about Helsinki, one about Finland as an incentive and meeting destination and one about a summer time trip to northern Lapland to trek and pan for gold.

Rhetorical strategies were mostly defensive, and stories were aimed to adults. Audience was thought to be either potential travellers, or persons, who make travelling decisions, either in families or in firms. The audience is given traditional stereotypes about Finland (Russian-like, expensive, cold, gloomy) but also tools to change their images. In Christmas –articles targeted audience is busy, probably well-earning parents who might give something extra special to their children at least during this Christmas. Also these parents might find their inner child during the trip to the winter wonderland.

A couple of the Christmas –articles had a critical tone in an ironic way. (“..we sang *Jingle Bells* just the same, because you have to, don’t you?”). These both had glasses of adults. The other one even used the most well-known

stereotypes of drunken Finnish, and open-mindedness with sauna and sex. These articles used partly the offensive rhetoric. Anyway, they both ended to the positive conclusion. In other articles, journalists used very often extremities like “really”, “the most” etc., when writing about Finland. In this way they consciously or unconsciously stressed the speciality of the country.

It is assumed that all tourists travelling to Finnish Lapland do not in fact know that they are in Finland. Anyway, in these articles evoked from media visits, also the connection between Finland and Lapland is at least mentioned, in one of them even stressed as a competitive edge of Finland, when comparing to the neighbouring countries.

Main discourses in these articles seemed to be mythical Christmas discourse about Santa and Winter Wonderland, where also the journalist enjoyed like children, and critical discourse about Christmas, where journalists often evaluated a Christmas product very critically, and in an “adult point of view”. About destinations and activities, journalists wrote either with stereotypical attitudes (old), or with attitude changing (modern) way. One journalist even wrote that “*As far as this excursion was concerned, the coastal capital of Finland soon dispelled that myth.*” (Scandinavia outside summer is cold, gloomy and expensive).

When comparing to results of spontaneous images of Finland, there are some connections between organic images held by Brits and image represented in press. The most common spontaneous images of Finland are in table 1.

Table 1. The most common spontaneous images of Finland from year 2002

Finland in general	Finland as a tourism destination
1. Cold (14,7 %)	1. Nothing (22,1 %)
2. Nothing (11,5 %)	2. Positive adjective (11,2 %)
3. Snow (8,8 %)	3. Cold (8,3 %)
4. Scandinavia (7,7 %)	4. Would like to travel there (5,3 %)
5. Country (3,8 %)	5. Wouldn’t like to travel there (4,1 %)

Source: Komppula & Saraniemi, 2004

In previous studies concerning spontaneous images of Finland, winter-related associations were also dominating, but the Christmas theme was not as clear as in image of press. When the discourse of Christmas is often associated with Lapland also in press, not with Finland, there is a great possibility for the misunderstandings.

The Finland image study project (Tuohino et al. 2004) included also some interviews with tourism experts in Great Britain who all have visited Finland. In their comments, those Brits who travel to Finland outside Christmas time are not typical tourists and they are looking for something unique and extraordinary.

According to them, Finland is unknown, and especially, summer in Finland is not familiar.

Another difference between spontaneous images and image of press is that certain destinations, and especially Helsinki, are more in the foreground in the press. In spontaneous images the destinations are mentioned quite rarely as a first association, but Finland is associated with a larger area, Scandinavia. According to British tourism experts interviewed in the image study (Tuohino et. al. 2004), Scandinavia as itself is not very interesting, because culture, traditions and history are not as interesting as e.g. in Estonia or in Russia. The vague image of Finland is partly supported by representation of Finland in press. Even in the press two discourses are battling; the stereotypical, assumption based and the attitude changing, rather new way of writing. How could the images of "the men in the streets" be more exactly?

From a rhetorical point of view, are the journalists persuading the audience and convincing them about Finland as a good travelling destination? And on whose voice are they writing? Qualitative, rhetorical textual analysis was used. We are mainly interested in rhetoric used in newspapers' texts when representing Finland. We are also interested in the extent to which organic images reflect these representations. These nine journalists have been on a paid media visit in Finland. They all have written quite long stories about their trips and activities they were offered. This is a good result for FTB. Journalists have taken the role of a tourist when writing. A couple of them have emphasised their role as an outsider or an observer, but still they have produced text about a very special and extreme destination. All of them have at least tried to arouse the interest of the audience.

From publicity management point of view they have already increased the awareness of the country. The news are never producing the objective truth but constructing the cultural reality, in this context about Finland as a possible travel destination. The message delivered through the channels seems to be at least twofold: Old and modern. And the destinations promoted are merely Lapland and Helsinki, usually in wintertime. Are these the messages what were meant to transmit by from the point of view of FTB? At least the

itineraries of media visits refer to this. One of visits was a round tour in Finland resulting to an article about Lapland. The rest of the Finland is missing.

An interesting question still remains: How are the other 40 journalistic articles evoked if not by media visits?

Conclusions

In the future, FTB should pay more attention to *when* to arrange the media visits and *who* are the best travel writers. Now, winter time is dominating in media visits. It is possible that one failure on these trips could be seen as a negative story in the press, but it is also true that the main discourse is more effective. In Christmas articles, Lapland is dominating, but also the location in Finland should be stressed in a positive way. There are also other "Laplands" in neighbourhood countries.

For marketing the summer in Finland, it is important to get more activity-based articles written about summertime. In this small data, only one media visit was an activity-based summer time visit. More explicitly, PR strategy, which includes better follow-up methods of effectiveness of media visits, is required. For example, use of ready-made photograph libraries should be effective. Also written instructions for filing the articles are important to avoid subjective follow-up. The filing is not enough; it is important to measure more systematically also the content of articles, and the effectiveness which they reached within their target audience. Anyway, at the time the follow-up is seen very expensive and not effective enough in FTB. In marketing campaigns, for example, emphasising the mythical elements of Finland in a modern way could be one answer for marketing the summer in Finland. Also, creating new icons (see Holt 2004) or changing the old ones to a modern direction would be the answer. The point is to increase the familiarity of the country for example by campaigns together with industry. All these should be defined in the overall branding strategy of the country.

By this exploratory research the rare literature on publicity management in destination marketing organisations, especially in national level, is contributed. Especially, for remote and not very known destinations, traditional

publicity work and press relations will be an important part of increasing familiarity also in the future. Although, the new kind of publicity work, like that constructed on film tourism in New Zealand, is now very popular. The e-publicity, like internet chats and blogs, should not be underestimated, either.

One limitation of this paper is that the results are place specific, but the method used in the paper is anyway adaptable also in other environments. The method could also be modified for the practical measurement tool of effectiveness of publicity work in tourism organisations. In the future, it would be interesting to study also the effectiveness of other media than press and also the advertising.

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The Man from Snowy River: Australia's Bush Legend and Commercial Nationalism

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Abstract

Various interpretations of *The Man from Snowy River* have played a central role in keeping the famous Australian bush myth firmly fixed in the national consciousness. The producers of products and services associated with the legend benefit from the telling and re-telling of Banjo Paterson's bush ballad. This paper examines the numerous texts of this classic Australian myth and the ways in which industries such as the entertainment industry, bush clothing and tourism carefully work to deliberately sustain and nurture the legend. Texts to be examined include the poem, the films, the novel, the television series, the Welcome sequence performed at the Sydney 2000 Olympic Games, the Arena Spectacular, and the Australian Outback Spectacular.

The term commercial nationalism was chosen to describe the style of nationalism promoted by advertisers and other sections of popular culture, as it encompasses the idea that commerce and the nation are deliberately constructed entities. The term alludes to the notion that the once clearer boundaries of these two domains have been eliminated and that the broader concept of nationalism, which deals with ideas and beliefs, has combined with the economic forces in the world of commerce which compete for the consumer dollar.

Keywords: *The Man from Snowy River*, commercial nationalism, bush clothing, high country tourism

Introduction

The story of *The Man from Snowy River* has played a central role in the Australian national consciousness. Producers of products and services associated with the legend (in its numerous textual forms) benefit from the telling of Banjo Paterson's ballad. The ways in which industries such as the entertainment industry, bush clothing and tourism work to sustain and nurture the legend is the focus of this research. This paper is concerned with addressing the ways in which one of Australia's most famous bush ballads has been told and re-told for a range of commercial purposes in the entertainment, fashion and tourism industries. This paper is concerned with examining various manifestations of the story of *The Man from Snowy River* by using particular features of structuralism, semiotics and content analysis.

A textual analysis consisting of: structuralism (a way of thinking about the world which views all items in relation to an overall

structure); semiotics (examining how signs generate meaning); and content analysis (a counting strategy), are useful methodologies for deconstructing mediated representations of this iconic national myth. A combination of primary and secondary research, structuralism, semiotic analysis and content analysis has been undertaken to closely analyse the way in which this celebrated bush legend has been imagined, created and relayed (often for commercial purposes).

Methodology

Structuralism, the theory that culture is understood as a result of the formal structures that operate below the surface, was developed from the work of Saussure by theorists such as Claude Levi-Strauss, Roland Barthes, Louis Althusser and Jacques Lacan. In structuralist thinking it is argued that "the world is made up of relationships rather than things" (Hawkes, 1977, p. 17). Structuralism is a useful way of making sense of the larger narrative.

The qualitative methodology of semiotics encompasses the relationship between a sign and its meaning, the way in which signs are combined into codes, and the wider culture within which signs and codes operate. Semiotics can be efficiently applied to the analysis of visual texts. Semiotics is also a particularly useful methodology for deconstructing aspects of cultural representations and experiences. As Johnathon Culler argues, "All over the world the unsung armies of semioticians, the tourists, are fanning out in search the signs of Frenchness, typical Italian behaviour, exemplary Oriental scenes, typical American thruways, traditional English pubs" (Culler, 1995, p. 133).

The quantitative methodology of content analysis is concerned with the frequency of content contained in a data set. Content analysis is effectively a counting strategy and is put forward as an objective method for counting content as the end result should be able to be replicated by another researcher. The aim of content analysis is to produce a relatively systematic overview of a particular data set. It is concerned with "the denotative order of signification" (Fiske, 1990, p. 136). An essential feature of content analysis is the use of categories. In the case of film and television, content analysis is therefore primarily concerned with studying what is actually evident on the screen. It does not concern itself with questions of quality or interpretation.

'The Man' and the Poem

The debate about who really is The Man from Snowy River has raged for more than a century. However, most historians seem to agree that 'The Man' is based on Jack Riley who lived in the town of Corryong in Victoria. Andrew Barton Paterson (better known as Banjo Paterson) apparently visited the cattle station of a man named Jack Riley in 1890. Riley ran a large high country cattle station and had a reputation as a legendary stockman and fearless rider. It is thought that Riley told Paterson about a colt that had escaped. Riley died in 1914 and the headstone of his grave at Corryong reads 'In memory of the Man from Snowy River Jack Riley...' However, some argue that it may be more likely that Paterson based 'The Man' on a number of famous riders from the district including: Charlie

McKeachnie, Lachie Cochrane, Owen Cummins, Jack Clarke, George Hedger and Jim Spencer.

Banjo Paterson's poem *The Man from Snowy River* was first published in 1895. The famous poem which many Australians were taught at school beginning, "There was movement at the station", is 13 stanzas in length, with each stanza containing eight lines of iambic pentameter. Banjo Paterson, who was born in 1864 and died in 1941, is one of Australia's favourite bush balladists. His portrait is featured on the front side of Australia's ten dollar note while Dame Mary Gilmore graces the back of the note. Paterson also wrote *Waltzing Matilda* - Australia's unofficial national anthem. In the 1890s, Paterson's poems regularly featured in the magazine *The Bulletin*. Clement Semmler claims that the poems *The Man from Snowy River* and *Clancy of the Overflow* "became national symbols of the bushman/horse rider" and are now consequently "enshrined in our cultural mythology" (Semmler, 1982, p. 7). Eileen Clark argues that "images of the bush play a large part in Australia's cultural identity" (Clark, 1990, p. 232).

The drama of the poem begins when news is spread that a carefully-bred colt has escaped and joined the wild bush horses. The "colt from old Regret" has ventured into territory which, by virtue of his pedigree upbringing, he is not allowed to enjoy. The colt is diametrically positioned against the brumbies who race wildly through the mountains with no apparent purpose. This opposition could be interpreted as one of culture versus nature. When the colt, which signifies cultured life, escapes to the natural environment, order must be restored and the colt must be retrieved.

Paterson's poem is based on three main characters - Harrison, Clancy and The Man from Snowy River. However, one could also argue that the mountain horse, the wild brumbies, the horsemen and possibly even the mountains reveal some personal characteristics. In the second stanza of the poem we are told that Harrison is a force to be reckoned with when riding as "He would go wherever horse and man could go". The reader's first impressions of Clancy are of a 'good bloke' as we are told that "Clancy of the Overflow came down to lend a hand". Clancy

is able to “make the ranges ring” with the cracking of his whip, thus putting him in a higher position than the mountains as he is commanding their cries.

‘The Man’ is introduced in a humble manner, which serves to make his eventual triumph all the more impressive. The character is described in the third stanza as “a stripling on a small and weedy beast”. However a feeling of expectation is successfully built up about ‘The Man’ as “He hails from Snowy River, up by Kosciusko’s side” – an environment that breeds exceptional horses and horsemen. The skilled rider, audacious and persevering, has come to symbolise the rugged individualism and determination of the bushman for many Australians. The Man from Snowy River is the great Australian underdog who rises to the challenge against all odds and emerges victorious.

The Films

The 1982 film, along with a selection of film-related products such as coffee mugs and T-shirts, was marketed heavily by Michael Edgley International. The Man from Snowy River cost \$4.5 million to produce and grossed an impressive \$8 million in its first eight weeks – making it the fastest-earning film to have entered the Australian market at the time. The sequel *Return to Snowy River* (also known as *The Man from Snowy River II*) was released in 1988 – the year of Australia’s Bicentenary.

Director George Miller and Producer Geoff Burrowes set out to create a film that focussed on a story of central importance to Australia’s cultural heritage while also seeking to create a film that would appeal to the broadest possible target audience. The romance between the main characters Jim Craig (played by Tom Burlinson) and Jessica Harrison (played by Singrid Thornton) was the focus of much of the publicity. The film also starred American actor Kirk Douglas (Harrison and Spur), Jack Thompson (Clancy – from Clancy of the Overflow) and Lorraine Bayly (as Rosemary). Harrison’s wife (who has passed away) is named Matilda – thus forming a connection to Paterson’s *Waltzing Matilda*. The main locations in the film of which the events take place are: Craig’s hut, yard and stables; Spur’s hut, yard and mine; Harrison’s homestead, yard and stables; and the base, side and top of the Snowy Mountains.

The Man from Snowy River received many negative reviews from the critics. The main criticisms were that the script was badly written and riddled with clichés, that it was too similar to a soap opera, and that the only reason why Kirk Douglas was cast was to make the film more palatable to the United States market. The film received an Australian Film Institute award for the powerful musical score written by Bruce Rowland, and remains one of Australia’s most popular on the DVD market. Telstra BigPond Movies, who are in the business of sending out DVDs to their online customers, list *The Man From Snowy River* as the highest rated in three categories – ‘Australian’, ‘Romance’ and ‘Western’. Jack Clancy claims that “Only with *The Man from Snowy River* does one find a hero who is all virtue, who dares, overcomes and triumphs. Australian cinema has been a long time getting round to it” (Clancy, 1983, p. 52).

The film acknowledges the poet by the inclusion of a character named Paterson. Like the poet, the film’s Paterson works in the city but enjoys escaping to the country. Paterson is positioned throughout the film as an observer, yet his actions influence the narrative. Like the poet, the Paterson in the film is a good rider. During the ride scene he maintains a steady pace and is on hand to witness the action. The Snowy Mountains are the backdrop for the blossoming relationship between Jim and Jessica. The romance scene unfolds when the two ride across the mountain’s summit. While on Jim’s horse they stop to admire the view. Jim says, “You’ve got to treat the mountains like a high-spirited horse – never take them for granted”. Jessica replies, “It’s the same with people too”.

Throughout the poem, novel and film, a number of binary oppositions are established. These oppositions provide further meaning and play a key role in the overall construction and subsequent understanding of this famous bush ballad. The main oppositions put forward are man/boy, old/young, rich/poor, good/bad, culture/nature, man/woman and high/low. The ride sequence and Jim’s subsequent return with the brumbies is designed to have a stirring effect on the viewer. The music which accompanies the action captures the emotions and encourages the viewer to empathise with the hero and share pride in his significant achievement.

The film makers produced an Australian film which had a virtuous hero, a solid romance and magnificent scenery. From Paterson's poem they created a new yet equally captivating re-interpretation. The oppositions the film establishes serve to highlight the differences between the characters. The final ride scene reinforces our expectations of the key characters – particularly 'The Man' and his sure-footed horse. The well-known theme music is played at the end of the film which then transforms into Banjo Paterson's well-known song *Waltzing Matilda*.

The Novel

Elyne Mitchell's novel *The Man from Snowy River* was based on the screenplay of the film and was launched to coincide with the film's release. The novel has a consistent Snowy Mountains emphasis throughout as Mitchell lived in the area for most of her life, and is the author of many children's novels about horses, notably the *Silver Brumby* series. As one might expect, the novel is almost identical in both action and dialogue to the film. However, in the novel much of the perspective is seen through Jim Craig's eyes. The photograph on the cover of the book reveals Jim and his horse as small figures against a cloud-filled sky and dark mountain ranges. This image suggests Jim's significant achievement - where the boy conquers his harsh environment to become a man and thus earns the respect of love interest Jessica and many others.

The Television Series

Snowy River: The MacGregor Saga was the title of the television series based on the poem. Three series were produced and the actors included Andrew Clarke, Wendy Hughes and Guy Pearce. While the location for the film was the Victorian town of Mansfield, the television series was shot in Trentham on the other side of the state.

The Welcome Sequence

While the television viewer was waiting for the Sydney 2000 Opening Ceremony to commence, it was revealed that the performance area of Stadium Australia had been resurfaced to resemble the colours of the Australian outback. Even though one could only hazard a guess about the type of performance that was in store, it was clear that the harsh physical aspects of Australia,

particularly the desolate and stark iconography of the arid outback, was going to play a central role.

Leading the Welcome sequence was a lone horseman who entered the arena, reared his horse, cracked his whip, and was then followed by other stockmen and women riding in formation to the stirring theme music from the film *The Man from Snowy River*. Ceremony organisers were aware that the international success of the film would allow for the commanding score to work as a transformational signifier for the might and power of rural Australia to the non-Australian audience.

All 120 riders in the 'bush cavalry' entered the arena carrying a white flag with the five Olympic rings displayed in the aqua blue colour of the sea. This colour was selected because the blue sea unites all nations of the world and occupies two thirds of the space on the planet. The Olympic colours of red, blue, green, yellow and black were represented by the riders' scarves. Five teams of 24 horses and riders formed a line, rode across the dirt-covered arena then peeled off to the sides and eventually circled the perimeter. The next impressive formation was the five Olympic rings, then five crosses symbolising the main stars of the Southern Cross constellation. Channel Seven announcer Garry Wilkinson began the official commentary with the words, "From the outback and from the mountains to the sea, Sydney and this pioneering land Australia welcome the world to the Games of the XXVIIth Olympiad in a real Aussie way" (Wilkinson, 2000).

When Steve Jeffreys (the rider who performed the main role in this representation of *The Man from Snowy River*) entered Stadium Australia, he was deliberately portrayed as 'small and weedy' by the television cameras. He entered alone and was instantly dwarfed by the huge surrounds of the arena. The camera angles carefully selected by the Director in charge of the mammoth telecast (Peter Faiman) also reinforced the notion of 'The Man' as a diminutive figure. The national significance of this particular image may also have suggested to some that a small country like Australia was about to take on the weighty responsibilities of the International Olympic Committee and

stage its greatest ever undertaking with the 2000 Olympic Games.

The Welcome sequence included impressive displays of riding in formation by horses and riders, a stirring fanfare, the national anthem, and concluded when the last horseman left the arena. The harsh landscape and the rural clothing worn by the riders were the key visual Australian signifiers in the sequence. The riders were clothed in the traditional wet-weather gear of the bush rider – Driza-Bone coat, Akubra hat, R.M. Williams boots and moleskin trousers. The particular brand of coat, hat and boots worn by the riders will be further examined later in the paper in order to better understand the connections made between official and commercial nationalism.

The main colour shown in this segment was the ever-reliable and trustworthy brown. This was evident with the colour of the horses, the Driza-Bone coats and the floor surface of the stadium. The authoritative arrangement with emotive music and the sound of 480 horses hooves was, at least for an Australian audience, reminiscent of Australia's light horsemen riding as one and heroic bush riders depicted in Australian cinematic and television history. Harry Gordon argues that the galloping stockhorses "awoke memories of Light Horse charges, that Man from Snowy River, the gallantry of Olympic riders... a procession of first Tuesdays in November, sun-squinting drovers, the rollicking verse of bush balladeers" (Gordon, 2003, p. 184).

When the national anthem, *Advance Australia Fair*, was performed at the Opening Ceremony, the proud stockmen and women sat to attention on their horses holding an Australian flag. Peter Luck argues that Australians consider their flag to be "our ultimate icon" (Luck, 1992, p. vii). The large cavalcade of horses finally exited to a blend of the movie theme music heard earlier and the popular Australian folk song and unofficial national anthem, *Waltzing Matilda*.

The Arena Spectacular and the Australian Outback Spectacular

The Welcome sequence generated such a positive response that an 'Arena Spectacular' presented by Jacobsen Entertainment and David Atkins Enterprises toured Australia's major cities and towns in 2002. The promoters

advertised the event as, "a musical, a rock concert, a rodeo and an arena spectacular like no other". Director David Atkins, who worked closely with Ric Birch on the Sydney Olympic Ceremonies, said that "the show would help Australians recognise their cultural background in the Year of the Outback" (Medley, 2002, p. 39). The *Man from Snowy River Arena Spectacular* starred Georgie Parker, Steve Bisley, Charles 'Bud' Tingwell, Lee Kernaghan and Martin Crewes. The arena spectacular featured the powerful musical score made famous in the movie and the Opening Ceremony, along with new music written for the production.

A further production based on the popular Welcome sequence and continuing the success of the *Arena Spectacular* is the 'Australian Outback Spectacular' - an outback dinner show on Queensland's Gold Coast next door to Warner Brothers Movie World. The *Outback Spectacular* is sponsored by 'outback outfitter' R.M. Williams. Tourists and locals are encouraged to enjoy a "unique and exciting" evening dinner show which captures "the grandeur of the Australian outback".

Bush Clothing

As outlined above, the traditional clothes of the bush rider are the Driza-Bone coat, the Akubra hat, R.M. Williams boots and moleskin trousers. It is in the commercial interests of these particular brands to deliberately draw upon and re-work the legend of *The Man from Snowy River* in their advertising and marketing. The bush attire worn by the riders in the Opening Ceremony Welcome sequence and other interpretations of the poem is significant. To the Australian and international audience the clothes symbolise hard work, reliability, authenticity, steadfastness and rugged individualism. Alan Tomlinson described the Welcome sequence as "like an advertisement for your local riding school or outdoor overcoat supplier" (Tomlinson, 2004, p. 152).

The company Driza-Bone manufacture wet weather coats known as oilskins and a range of other country-style garments. A Scottish sailor named Edward Le Roy invented the concept of the coat in the late 1890s by smearing oil over some sails. The theory behind the coat was that oil and water do not mix, and the garment effectively kept the wearer as 'dry as a bone'.

Driza-Bone coats made their first Olympic appearance at the Seoul Games in 1988 when fashion designer Prue Acton helped create vivid yellow coats for the Australian team. The Driza-Bone company were one of 50 official licensees for the Sydney 2000 Games. Company literature displayed on the website proudly claim that the outfit is “one of Australia’s most identifiable exports, and our only national costume”.

Akubra hats were also worn by the riders in the Opening Ceremony. The hats have been manufactured in Australia since the 1870s, but became known as Akubras in 1918. The company supplied slouch hats to Australian soldiers in the First and Second World Wars. Akubra manufactures a large range of hats including many with uniquely Australian names such as Aussie Gold, Banjo Paterson, Birdsville, Burke and Wills, Down Under, Lawson, Longreach, Snowy River, Spirit of Australia, The Bush Tucker Man, and The Croc. These names clearly play on the myth of the Australian bush. Akubra have also adopted the imagery of the bushman taming his horse in their advertising. As Eileen Clark argues, “The Man from Snowy River, Croc Dundee and even the Bush Tucker Man all use their physical skill to tame and subdue the bush, making it yield to meet their needs” (Clark, 1990, p. 235). Some well-known Australians who have been photographed wearing an Akubra hat include Greg Norman, Ian ‘Molly’ Meldrum, Lee Kernaghan, Tim Fischer, John Howard and the late Slim Dusty. The Akubra hats worn by the riders in the Welcome sequence were thrown into the audience before the national anthem was performed. Garrie Hutchinson argues that the Akubra has become “an enduring national symbol” (Hutchinson, 2002, p. 36).

While Driza-Bone is synonymous with a wet weather coat, and Akubra to many represents a hat, the R.M. Williams name (abbreviated colloquially to ‘RMs’) has come to mean a good quality boot for many Australians and tourists. Reginald Murray Williams was born in 1908 and has become part of Australian folklore. In 1932 Williams crafted a pair of boots for himself. He soon produced a range of tough clothes and saddlery equipment. His leatherwork quickly developed a reputation for durability and he established a mail-order business to meet the increasing demand for his

boots and other items. Williams also founded the Australian Roughriders’ Association and played a key role in the creation of the Stockman’s Hall of Fame, as well as the National Horse Trail and the Bicentennial Cattle Drive.

Tourism

Images of Australia in tourist brochures show Australia’s famous coastline and beaches, tropical rain forests, red centre, Great Barrier Reef, and scenic high country. The Snowy Mountains are the backdrop for the evocative and powerful myths and legends that are worked and re-worked into the various texts of *The Man from Snowy River*. Australia’s high country and surrounds are branded by Tourism Victoria as ‘Legends, Wine and High Country’. The area attracts many tourists including horse riders, bush walkers, four-wheel drive enthusiasts and mountain bikers. The region boasts Australia’s highest golf course, and the Australian Institute of Sport uses the area as a base for athletes who require high-altitude training. Other tourist attractions include balloon flights, rock climbing, wine tasting, fly fishing, eco-tours and skiing. Sue Beeton argues that there was an increase in horse-based tourism in the region after *The Man from Snowy River* films. Beeton claims that as a result of the two films, “horseback tourism in Australia’s High Country increased 10-fold in as many years” (Beeton, 2005, p. 23).

When visiting Mount Stirling, tourists can see ‘Craig’s Hut – a charming wooden cattleman’s hut built for the film. Since the international success of the film, Craig’s Hut has been a popular tourist destination where the expansive views of the high country can be taken in. For many Australians the Snowy Mountains represent Australia’s highest point. The geographic and metaphoric roof of Australia is Mount Kosciusko. In Corryong, visitors can attend *The Man from Snowy River* Folk Museum and visit the final resting place of Jack Riley. Every April a Bush Festival is held at Corryong to celebrate the great Australian bush legend. A feature of the three day *Man from Snowy River* Bush Festival is the challenge to discover the modern version of ‘The Man’ with a re-enactment of the legendary ‘ride’. Festival participants can compete in a range of events including whip

cracking, horse shoeing and brumby catching. The Festival also features poetry readings, yarn spinning around campfires, a street parade, a ute muster and plenty of country music performances.

Conclusion

David Carter argues that *The Man from Snowy River* is popular today because it “provides a myth of ‘unique fitted-ness’ to the land which can then provide a myth of nation” (Carter, 1995, p. 9). John Perkins and Jack Thompson argue that Australian national stereotypes are “closely associated with the horse, with tasks performed on horseback” (Perkins & Thompson, 1998, p. 16). Hugh Mackay claims that our belief in “an essential Australianness - is sustained by the rural myth” which has been “popularised by the stories of Henry Lawson and the poems of Banjo Paterson” (Mackay, 1999, p. 44). Peter Cochrane and David Goodman argue that the tradition of the Digger persists “momentarily in the form of a Light Horseman in an Anzac parade” (Cochrane & Goodman, 1988, p. 33). Graham Seal contends that “the traditions of the digger and Anzac are the supreme national story” (Seal, 2004, p. 7). The Anzac legend can be traced back to the writings of C.E.W. Bean – the official historian of World War One. Jonathon King argues that “Australians cling to the romantic myths which surround their pastoral beginnings. Some even favour themselves as crack horsemen”. King also states that “the rest of the world sees Australians as bushmen” and that there is much money to be made by manufacturing this myth (King, 1978, pp. 3-4).

The various texts of *The Man from Snowy River* hold a special place in the Australian psyche. Countless commercial operators have profited from the inherent drama of Paterson’s legend whether it be through its many mediated forms, numerous fashion labels or diverse experiences aimed squarely at the tourist. While the story of *The Man from Snowy River* is nearly 120 years old, it shows no sign of losing momentum as Australia’s favourite and most powerful bush legend in either the more sacred sphere of official national or the consumer-oriented world of commercial nationalism.

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Travelling Companions: The Role of Guidebooks as Mediators in Backpacker Travel

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Abstract

Guidebooks play an influential role as mediator between the independent traveller, the travel experience and the travelled destination, providing a lens through which travellers come to see and know their travelled and untravelled world. Guidebooks advise their readers of where to go, what to do and what to see at particular destinations, and many aspects of the backpacker travel experience are shaped and framed by these texts. Despite the centrality of guidebooks in the independent travel experience, the question of how travellers use, engage with, and negotiate these texts has received little attention in tourism research. This paper explores the influence of guidebook texts on backpacker experiences with, and interpretations of, Aboriginal Australia. The empirical data are drawn from interviews with a sample of 28 international backpackers travelling in Australia. The research reveals that guidebooks are negotiated through the lived and imagined experiences of their readers at various times throughout the travel experience. Backpacker engagement with guidebook information at any given destination is interpreted in light of prior knowledge and experiences. Significantly, the interplay between the backpacker travel experience and the guidebook text is dynamic and primarily situational. The findings highlight the role that the text plays as mediator between the traveller and the travelled culture, and the tensions that exist between texts and lived experiences.

Keywords: Guidebooks, backpackers, mediation, lived experience, Aboriginal Australia

Introduction

Independent travellers come to know about the places, peoples and cultures of travel destinations in various ways. The relationship between the traveller and the travelled destination is a mediated one; indeed, as has been noted, 'tourism is a mediated activity' (Chambers, 1997, p.4). Representations in popular media (such as film, television and novels) shape traveller expectations. Guidebooks, for example, play a very influential role as mediator between the independent traveller, the travel experience and the travelled destination, providing a lens through which travellers come to see and know their travelled and untravelled world. Backpackers travelling in foreign destinations usually carry little more than their clothes and a guidebook in their backpacks. Whilst it is commonly assumed that there will be fewer intermediaries in the experiences of independent travellers than those of mass tourists, the evidence shows that independent travellers are the primary users of

independently published tourism media – including travel guidebooks published by companies such as *Lonely Planet* – as opposed to media produced by tourism marketing organisations (McKercher and du Cros, 2002). Guidebooks are a form of travel literature primarily used for on-the-road factual information and advice, and are most often purchased once the decision to travel to a particular destination has been made. Thus, guidebooks are unlike other types of tourism media, such as the advertisements, brochures and internet sites produced by destination marketing organisations. These media are promotional in nature and intended to sell destinations and are most often encountered by tourists before they undertake a travel experience.

Independent travellers such as backpackers are popularly viewed as avid seekers of genuine and authentic experiences (Desforges, 1998) who have a desire for contact with, and knowledge of, local peoples and cultures (Loker-Murphy and Pearce 1995; Smith,

2003). Indeed, Phipps (1999, p.84) notes that a central aspect of backpacking is a search for cultural knowledge and 'contact with the authentic Other'. Mowforth and Munt (1998) suggest that the publication of guidebooks is motivated by the traveller's desire for real and authentic experiences. Guidebooks supposedly allow travellers to move away from the mass tourism industry – to get 'off the beaten track' – to find more real, natural and authentic experiences. Guidebooks, however, are mass-produced and used en masse and are in fact an exemplar of the commodification of the independent travel experience. Guidebooks direct backpackers to many of the same types of mediated activities at destinations inscribed in a well-worn tourism circuit (Young, 2005a). When *Lonely Planet* was first published in the 1970s it was not a mainstream publication; however, today *Lonely Planet* is a major international enterprise making millions of dollars in annual sales and producing over 250 publications (Butcher, 2003). *Lonely Planet* has been criticised, in both academic and popular literature for commercialising and capitalising on the demands of independent travellers and their quest for experiences that are not part of the mass. Butcher (2003, p.45) suggests that *Lonely Planet* was 'once associated with independence, freedom and adventure' but is now 'in the frame of spawning generations of mass backpackers'. *Lonely Planet* has, nevertheless, come to symbolise 'backpackers, their activities, norms and values' (Sørensen 2003, p.860). The aim of this paper is to critically examine the role of travel media, specifically guidebooks, in the independent travel experience. A keen focus is directed to how international backpackers engage with and use guidebook texts to negotiate their travels in Australia.

Structuring Gazes and Framing Experiences

Many travellers and tourists rely on advice from guidebooks to construct their itineraries. In relation to the market for which guidebooks are written, Bhattacharyya (1997, p.371) notes that they are primarily aimed at audiences of independent travellers and, although they are 'deliberately planned to satisfy diverse budgets', they still 'tend to be more appealing to the low-budget, independent traveller'. Until recently, users of most 'alternative guidebooks' were almost exclusively

backpackers and independent travellers; however, there has been a significant increase in the range of users, titles and publications (Sørensen, 2003). Guidebooks define and represent places, peoples and cultures. They present descriptive and prescriptive information that constructs the traveller and shapes their perspectives and experiences. Having been previously exposed to visual images of destinations, guidebooks confirm for travellers what they should gaze upon. In this sense, the gaze is systematically structured and directed:

Thanks to the previous exposure to glossy photographs of these sights, tourists know what they must see – the norms of the trip are already implanted in their minds. In the guidebook these norms become normalized through stars, asterisks and boxing off procedures. The sights and attractions are decontextualized, detached from culture, museumized and embellished for visitation. They become a spectacle – an absolute must. Tourists are thereby reduced to being 'chasers of images' ... confirming tautologically by experience what they have been told to see. (Dann, 1996, p.83)

Dann (1996, p.156) positions guidebooks as 'written and visual/sensory media' which may be used at all three stages – that is pre-trip, on-trip, and post-trip – of the travel experience. Both prior to and during the journey, guidebooks advise and direct travellers to what they must see and do at particular destinations. In other words, they 'mark' (MacCannell, 1989) what aspects of a place are worthy of the 'tourist gaze' (Urry, 1990). Further, when used at the destination, the guidebook is a 'surrogate tour guide' playing a significant role in mediating the travel experience and the traveller's relationships with the travelled – the destination and the host population (Bhattacharyya, 1997, p.373). Guidebooks not only mediate knowledge, but they also construct it, playing a communicative role in 'tutoring' (McGregor, 2000) and educating readers through the provision of detailed but selected information. McKercher and du Cros (2002, p.166) note that guidebooks 'have greater scope to present a more balanced and detailed overview of the destination' than other forms of tourism media. In so doing,

guidebooks present some background information on, for example, the cultural values of the people of a particular destination, as well as suggestions for culturally appropriate behaviour. However, like all tourism media, guidebooks do have limited space in which to convey messages about places, peoples and cultures 'which means that the message must be condensed to its core features' (McKercher and du Cros 2002, p.166)

McGregor (2000, p.40) identifies various perceptual spheres that dominate the tourist gaze – the known, imagined, unknown and unseen – and argues that travellers gaze upon different sites in different ways, depending on the amount and type of prior information that they had been exposed to. First, the 'known' refers to those aspects of the destination that travellers have been visually exposed to through photographs supported by verbal or written communication. Second, the 'imagined' are aspects to which they have not been visually exposed to but 'are well aware of and anticipate through word-of-mouth or written text' (McGregor, 2000, p.40). Third, the 'unknown' refers to the 'mundane aspects' of the destination that people are exposed to during travel experiences not written about in guidebooks; for instance, normative and routine cultural life (Bhattacharyya, 1997). Finally, the 'unseen' are those aspects not mentioned in texts and not seen or experienced during travel. The unseen are thus those backstage aspects of the destination (and its people and culture) that are completely removed from the world of the tourist. In his concluding remarks, McGregor (2000, p.46) contradicts the commonly held view that travellers have less structured experiences than do mass tourists as a result of their use of texts such as guidebooks:

Travelers are not the roaming, romantic free agents they are often portrayed as in academic literature, but a subgroup of tourists whose experience and gaze is heavily structured by a restricted number of non-stigmatized, traveler-friendly texts.

As cultural texts, guidebooks have the power to shape, frame and define a place and its people, and, in turn, play a significant role in influencing the opinions and perceptions of

their readers. This impact of guidebooks on their readers can be considered as quite a dynamic relationship as these texts not only shape expectations but, perhaps more significantly, they frame experiences. McGregor (2000, p.46) argues that guidebook texts are 'not simply markers of a culture ... [but] also dynamic objects which have a massive amount of power over how an individual or whole culture, comes to see the world'. Acknowledgment of the dynamic properties of guidebook texts promotes an approach to guidebook analysis that recognises the extent to which readers judge their contents in light of information coming to them from a wide variety of other sources. For instance, McGregor argues that word-of-mouth communication acts simultaneously with texts to influence how travellers come to see and understand the world. At the same time, however, he found that travellers relied very heavily on texts which were influential in shaping the way they gazed upon features of the destination. Guidebooks also have the power to control the travel experience by informing readers how to behave when they are at a destination and how to interact with the locals (Dann, 1996); thereby constructing the traveller as a particular type of gazing and experiencing subject. In this sense, Dann (1996, p.84) argues that guidebooks have the 'ability to control both receivers and referents of their discourse'. Guidebooks are certainly an important generative source of 'systems of knowledge and belief' among Western tourists (Laderman, 2002, p.87).

Despite the integral role that guidebooks play in backpacker travel experiences, they have infrequently been the objects of systematic academic study, although their role has been identified and discussed in some very significant works (for example, Barthes, 1973; Boorstin, 1987; see also Dann, 2003). Previous academic studies of guidebooks have focused on the ways by which particular places, peoples and cultures are represented (for example, Lew, 1991; Bhattacharyya, 1997; Carter 1998; McGregor, 2000; Laderman, 2002) yet there is limited research on the effects of guidebook texts upon travellers and travel experiences. How and why travellers interpret and shape their knowledge of places, peoples and cultures in dialogue with their reading of travel media, and the different ways

knowledge can be constructed and shaped through texts has received little attention in tourism research. The question of reader response – that is how travellers use, engage with and negotiate these texts – is overwhelmingly left unanswered. In short, much tourism media research has not been grounded in ‘lived experience’ (Morgan and Pritchard, 1998, p.12).

Methodology

This paper explores the influence of guidebook texts on backpacker experiences with, and interpretations of, Aboriginal Australia. The research discussed in this paper is drawn from a broader study that examines the representation and interpretation of Aboriginal Australia in the context of travel and tourism. In the broader study, the textual analysis of a

three guidebooks to Australia (published by *Lonely Planet*, *Rough Guide* and *Let's Go*) was coupled with a study of a group of individual backpackers who comprise one of the primary audiences for the guidebooks (Young, 2005b). As a form of cultural analysis, audience studies is one of the major interpretative and theoretical perspectives structuring contemporary qualitative cultural studies research (Denzin and Lincoln, 1998), and can be broadly defined as the study of the way in which audiences behave when they engage with media texts. The empirical data discussed in this paper are drawn from in-depth, semi-structured interviews with a sample of 28 international backpackers. Brief profiles of the interviewees, including the guidebooks being used, are presented in Table 1, below.

Table 1 Profile of the Backpackers in the Study

<i>Name</i>	<i>Age</i>	<i>Nationality</i>	<i>Place of Interview</i>	<i>Lonely Planet</i>	<i>Rough Guide</i>	<i>Let's Go</i>
Amy	24	English	NT	X		
James	21	English	NT	X		
Melissa	27	English	NT		X	
Claudia	19	English	NT	X		
Natalie	28	English	NT	X		
Cathryn	24	English	NT	X	X	
Tommy	25	English	NT	X		
Rachel	28	English	NT	X		
Louise	18	English	QLD	X		
David	19	English	QLD	X		
Sara	21	English	NT	X		X
Angus	30	English	NT	X		
Isobel	24	Irish	NT	X		
Richard	29	Irish	QLD	X		
Rob	23	Welsh	NT	X	X	
Karl	24	Dutch	NT	X		
Saskia	23	Dutch	NT	X		
Johan	31	Dutch	NT	X		
Andre	22	Dutch	NT	X		
Peter	25	Dutch	QLD		X	
Anton	25	Dutch	QLD	X		
Helena	23	German	NT	X		
Stefan	22	Swedish	NT			
Pierre	23	Swiss	NT	X		
Jackie	20	American	NT	X		X
Troy	27	American	NT			
Linda	24	Canadian	NT			X
Simone	19	Canadian	QLD	X		

The interviews were conducted during a period of fieldwork in the Northern Territory and Northern Queensland from August to

December 2000. The backpackers who participated in this study had responded to a notice calling for participants that was placed

on the message boards of all the backpacker hostels, youth hostels and internet cafes in the towns and cities of Yulara (Uluru), Alice Springs and Darwin in the Northern Territory (NT) and Cairns in Queensland (QLD). In-depth, semi-structured interviews were employed to provide the backpackers with the opportunity to impart detailed views and perceptions about their travel experiences including their use, and reading, of guidebooks. Interviews were tape recorded with permission of the participant and transcribed verbatim upon return from the field.

Of the 28 backpackers, 14 were male and 14 were female. They ranged in age from 18 to 31, with an average age of 24. The minimum length of stay in Australia was three months, the maximum stay being twelve months, with an average of around nine months. Eighteen of the backpackers held twelve-month 'working holiday visas'. Many of the interviewees had a tertiary education, over half held a Bachelors degree. The majority (90 percent) had not previously visited Australia. The most popular Australian states and territories visited (prior to the interview) were New South Wales, Queensland and the Northern Territory. As the interviews were conducted in the Northern Territory and Queensland there was bound to be a dominance of backpackers to destinations within these states/territories. Most of the backpackers had relatively extensive international tourism experiences, with only one backpacker indicating that he had not travelled outside his home country prior to coming to Australia.

Backpacking Australia: Travellers and their Guidebooks

The backpackers were asked to discuss the media that had informed them about Australia generally, and about Aboriginal Australia specifically, both prior to and during their travel experiences. The two main sources of information discussed as influencing their knowledge were their guidebooks and verbal communications with other travellers. For the majority of the backpackers, guidebooks were important mediators of their experiences in Australia – of the 28 backpackers interviewed, only two had not used a guidebook. The *Lonely Planet* dominated as the most popular guidebook, with 79% of the backpackers

carrying *Lonely Planet Australia: Up Front, Outback, Down Under* (O'Byrne *et al*, 2000). Only two other guidebooks were being used, with 14% carrying *Australia: The Rough Guide* (Daly *et al*, 1999) and a further 11% carrying *Let's Go: Australia 2000* (Sheppard *et al*, 2000). As illustrated in Table 1, four of the backpackers also indicated that they were using more than one of these three guidebooks.

Each of these three guidebooks covers the destination of Australia as a whole. They are large books of around 1,000 pages divided into a chapter for each state and territory of Australia, and introductory or concluding chapters which provide factual and contextual information. The three guidebooks have fundamentally the same objectives in relation to their target audience in that they are all aimed primarily at independent travellers. The various audiences of independent travellers are identified as 'adventurous travellers' (*Lonely Planet*, p.16), 'budget-minded travellers' (*Let's Go*, p.v) and 'independent-minded travellers of all ages on all budgets' (*Rough Guide*, p.iv). In each case, the independent traveller is positioned as different to the mass tourist. For instance, the cover text of *Let's Go* advises the reader to 'be a traveller, not a tourist ... avoid tourist traps, discover local secrets, and create your own adventure'.

McGregor (2000, p.35) notes that guidebooks such as these three have 'managed to escape the stigma travelers associate with most tourist-oriented texts, clearly belonging to the 'good' traveler world, rather than the 'bad' tourist world'. This is interesting considering that each of these 'alternative guidebooks' (Sørensen, 2003, p.859) is now a mainstream publication that is readily available in Australia, the United Kingdom and the United States. Indeed, the publishers of *Lonely Planet* claim that they are the 'world's leading independent travel publisher' and that they 'cover every corner of the planet' (www.lonelyplanet.com). Certainly, for the backpackers of my study, the *Lonely Planet* was the most popular choice of guidebook which seems to confirm Laderman's (2002, p.95) claim that the 'Lonely Planet guidebook message reaches more people than those of other guidebooks'.

Backpacker Negotiations of Text and Experience

Many of the backpackers purchased their guidebooks in their home country once the decision to travel to Australia had been made. For the majority, the pre-trip purchase of the guidebook was often to the exclusion of any other tourism media or travel literature and only six backpackers said that they had referred to the Internet for information, and none of them had used tourism brochures. A couple of backpackers also said that they intended to keep and use their guidebooks post-trip as a type of souvenir, as a memento and reminder of their travels. In both these instances – prior to and after travels – the function of the guidebook as provider of information remains the same but the effect is different. Pre-trip the information is used to shape expectations, post-trip the same information is used to evoke and, possibly, shape and reshape memories. For example:

I bought my guidebook before flying to Australia and I read it on the aeroplane ... I like to keep my guidebooks because then that's another source of memories for me. You look through and it's like 'oh yes I went there'. (Rachel)

The overwhelming majority of the backpackers indicated, however, that although they purchased their guidebooks prior to arriving in Australia, mostly they read their guidebooks whilst actually travelling. So while guidebooks may be used at all three stages of the travel experience, the dominant function is as an on-trip mediator. Therefore, these texts have a quite direct and immediate impact on their readers and the interpretation of their experiences. The following statements draw attention to the use of guidebooks during the travel experience:

I got my guidebook before I came out here ... [but] rather than reading that before I came out here I decided to read the appropriate bits before I moved on to the right towns, because you can't keep it all in your head. So I left all that reading till when I came out here. (Tommy)

I more or less read it as I go along. Especially, for instance, on travelling to different places, looking for accommodation, and looking at what is

the best thing to do in that particular area. That's more or less what I use it for. (Richard)

I really enjoyed reading the *Lonely Planet*. And you can relate what you've read to what you've seen so far. (Natalie)

Reader engagement with these texts is primarily situational. Sections relating to particular places tend to be read when arriving at destinations or when they are in transit between destinations. The third quote, above, also indicates that the information provided by guidebooks before arriving at a given destination is interpreted in light of other information and experience. Interestingly, the utilisation of the guidebook in these different ways whilst *on-trip* draws Dann's (1996) three stages (pre-trip, on-trip, post-trip) into a more micro-orientated understanding of pre-destination, at-destination and post-destination. Travel is experienced as fluid with continual reflection on past experiences serving to shape both present circumstance and future expectations. This more complex usage of guidebooks by the backpackers is extremely relevant to understanding the situational negotiations of text and experience.

That the majority of the backpackers I interviewed carried guidebooks and depended on them as a primary source of cultural information indicates that the guidebooks did exert an influence on their expectations and experiences. A textual analysis of the guidebooks revealed that the traveller ideals of authenticity, cultural interaction and cultural learning are represented as significant aspects of the traveller experience in Australia. For the majority of the backpackers interviewed, a desire to pursue 'authentic' educational and cultural experiences was an important dimension of their Australian travels. The backpackers' expectations of themselves and their travel experiences in Australia included the desire to gain some knowledge of Aboriginal cultures. Also paramount was the pursuit of cultural interaction. For instance:

I was really interested ... to find out more and to learn about Aboriginal culture ... I was interested in meeting Aboriginal people and talking to them. That was one of the things I really wanted to do. (Isobel)

I am really interested in Aboriginal culture, and I just want to know, to learn more about it. (Andre)

Many backpackers viewed formal or informal educational experiences as an important motivation for travelling. Travel, as an educative pursuit, is related to personal development and often self-improvement – there is also significant ‘cultural capital’ to be gained from long-haul, long-term travel (Desforges, 1998). Guidebooks also played a major role in shaping their understanding of Aboriginal cultures, and they were often considered to be the single most important educational source of information for backpackers in the interpretation of cultural situations. As Isobel stated, ‘Most of my knowledge of Aboriginal culture has come through reading the *Lonely Planet*’. Many backpackers indicated that prior to reading their guidebooks they were unaware of the social and political situations faced by Aboriginal Australians, such as issues relating to colonisation, assimilation policies and land ownership. Many also discussed the knowledge they gained about traditional culture and Aboriginal art.

A traveller’s desire for knowledge can lead to the attribution of positive value to the interpretative material provided in guidebooks because it can enhance their knowledge of Aboriginal Australia, either generally or specifically. Similarly, the mobilisation of particular ideals of travel in the guidebooks – based around cultural awareness, cultural sensitivity and traveller responsibility – can lead to the belief that the guidebooks that promote these ideals are balanced in their representations of Aboriginal issues. For some backpackers, there was often little recognition of the limitations of these texts. For example, few recognised that their guidebooks were written from a non-indigenous perspective and, therefore, that information relating to political and social issues could potentially be skewed towards a Western interpretation of Aboriginal culture and history. A typical example of an uncritical judgement on the type of information in *Rough Guide* is illustrated in Cathryn’s comment that ‘From what I’ve read so far it’s a pretty good representation, it’s pretty balanced’. Such statements, however, probably indicate more about the background knowledge of individual backpackers rather

than the extent or detail of information concerning Aboriginal Australia in the guidebooks. Thus, while the guidebook is used as a lens for interpreting experiences, the text itself is interpreted in the context of previous knowledge.

The extent of previous knowledge held by individual backpackers, to varying degrees, did mean that some demonstrated a reasonable level of awareness concerning the limitations of the guidebook information on Aboriginal Australia. Whilst there is information on socio-political history, some backpackers expressed disappointment with the lack of detail in their guidebooks that acknowledged or described traditional and contemporary culture. For instance:

My *Rough Guide* book has a little bit of information on Aboriginal culture. There’s a section at the back about history, but not so much about culture. Throughout it has small bits when you get to certain places like Uluru, so there’s a bit as you work through, but it doesn’t have a huge amount. I don’t think it’s particularly good. (Melissa)

I have the *Lonely Planet*. It does have a bit of information on Aboriginal culture but not enough. I think you would have to get a cultural guidebook [written by Aboriginal people] if you want to find out about things like that ... But I don’t know if they’re supposed to put them [cultural information] in a guidebook anyway. (Helena)

These statements indicate two points relevant to the role of guidebooks as cultural mediators. First, these backpackers described a desire for knowledge of Aboriginal culture which implied an acceptance of the traveller ideals of cultural and educational experiences. Second, the guidebook as a source of information enables the negotiation of their cultural experiences. However, in this regard, the ability of the guidebook to fulfil the desire for sufficiently detailed and relevant knowledge of Aboriginal Australia and, thus, its capacity to provide the means for negotiating a variety of cultural experiences, were evaluated relative to the extent of previously held cultural knowledge. What this means is that individual backpackers were inclined to judge the information in their guidebooks based on

subjective and personal criteria. As the above quotes show, the limits of the guidebook to satisfy the desires of at least these two backpackers concerned both the quantity and the quality of the information that is (and can be) presented.

For some backpackers, the relatively few instances of culturally relevant material were deemed to be lacking in quality. Melissa, above, indicates that she found the historical material in her guidebook to be inadequate to allow her to understand and negotiate contemporary cultural situations. Similarly, Helena lamented the lack of information on Aboriginal culture. Yet, she also acknowledged that the depth and complexity of Aboriginal culture cannot readily be reproduced in a guidebook text. In referring to 'a cultural guidebook ... to find out about [Aboriginal culture]', Helena suggested that the richness of cultural nuance would be better provided in a guidebook specifically relating to Aboriginal culture or, perhaps more importantly, written by Aboriginal people. Descriptions of the limited cultural information involved words and comments, such as 'bits', 'small bits' and 'doesn't have a huge amount', implying that these backpackers believed the quantity of information to be insufficient. Another perceived shortcoming in the guidebooks' provision of cultural information related to its being dedicated to specific places which were not currently of relevance in their travels, reflecting the tendency of the guidebooks to frame Aboriginal Australia in close association with the Northern Territory. Accordingly, the evaluation by individual backpackers of a guidebook's effectiveness is influenced by its situational use and impact in relation to specific destinations and particular places (such as Uluru, identified by Melissa, above).

An analysis of the guidebooks revealed that the Northern Territory is presented as the pre-eminent place to participate in Aboriginal cultural experiences, citing reasons including the greater proportion of land ownership and higher proportion of Aboriginal people as compared to other Australian states and territories. Interestingly, it was predominantly the backpackers who had been to the Northern Territory who prioritised Aboriginal cultural experiences, and many backpackers pointed out that it was not until they had travelled to

this particular place that their desire to learn about Aboriginal cultures had been fuelled. For example, Natalie stated that before she arrived in Australia, she 'didn't really think of Aborigines' and although she had 'a curiosity about people and culture ... it wasn't at the forefront of my mind to come and find out about the culture'. When she started travelling through the Northern Territory, however, she became interested in Aboriginal culture. Natalie then repeated some of the reasons presented in her guidebook (*Lonely Planet*) as to why cultural experiences are more likely in the Northern Territory:

I have become more interested in Aboriginal culture coming up here, from Adelaide [South Australia] to Darwin [Northern Territory]. It has been really interesting for me. They have so much more land here that belongs to them, and you see more Aborigines coming up here. And I think the people you meet, like other backpackers, are more interested in the cultural side of it too. (Natalie)

What is of particular significance is that the desire for cultural learning and interaction can emerge as the traveller enters the specific destinations that are (re)presented as offering this potential. Certainly, the guidebooks used by the backpackers claim that there is something unusual about the Northern Territory in terms of accessibility of Aboriginal culture. Thus, the values attributed to different aspects of the traveller experience are not fixed but, rather, are in a dynamic process of continual realignment. Certain places in Australia offer opportunities for particular types of experiences (for example, scuba diving at the Great Barrier Reef in Queensland or partying at Bondi, Sydney in New South Wales), with the Northern Territory and the Outback promoted – and interpreted – as the primary places for Aboriginal cultural experiences. As Natalie explained:

The types of things you do on the East Coast aren't really that related [to Aboriginal culture], it's not really a cultural experience. It's more about scenery and adventure sports and going out drinking.

The backpackers I spoke to thus negotiated the text relevant to their experience. As mentioned above, the reading of guidebooks is usually situational and not undertaken long before arriving at destinations. Therefore, various dimensions of information contained within the guidebook become meaningful at different times. Accordingly, different forms of desire and types of experiences become primary for the backpacker dependent on the context of their current situation. The guidebook plays a central role in both formulating the nature of this desire and facilitating the means for its fulfilment. For Natalie, her time spent on the East Coast prior to arriving in the Northern Territory was dominated by activities not associated with Aboriginal cultural learning or Aboriginal cultural interaction but, rather, by other aspects of backpacker culture in Australia including play, drinking and generally having fun. However, upon arriving in the Northern Territory, a realignment of interests and desires and the focus of her guidebook brought Aboriginal culture to the forefront.

The primarily situational negotiation of text indicates that an increased interest in Aboriginal culture may be partially the result of the guidebook mobilising this aspect of the traveller experience in close association with this particular destination. The ideals and values of cultural learning and cultural interaction are represented by the guidebooks in association with particular destinations (notably the Northern Territory). Due to the backpacker's tendency towards situational engagement with guidebooks, these desires potentially increase and decrease in prominence according to the place the backpacker is in. For example, the guidebooks describe the potential for cultural interaction as being most likely to be achievable in the Northern Territory and, as discussed above, learning about Aboriginal culture became a prominent desire for backpackers when they were in the Northern Territory. However, the ideal of cultural interaction was perceived as desirable only in relation to the authenticity of experiences.

The dynamic relationship between the guidebook and the individual backpacker is clear when considering the numerous ways in which the texts are utilised in a variety of different travel phases and in relationship to

different destinations. The range of subjective and situational influences on the processes by which guidebooks were evaluated were based on their perceived effectiveness at providing sufficiently detailed and relevant cultural information as well as the means for the negotiation of cultural experiences. The extent of previous cultural knowledge and the situational requirements of specific destinations were both instrumental factors in the development of a personally unique and yet shifting set of evaluative criteria. Indeed, guidebooks can be many things to many people, depending on an individual backpacker's personal history, their present circumstances, and their future desires and expectations.

Conclusion

This paper has explored the influence of guidebooks on backpacker experiences with Aboriginal Australia. Guidebooks were undoubtedly a necessary travelling companion for the overwhelming majority of the backpackers interviewed. Although guidebooks may be used at all three stages of the travel experience, they are predominantly read whilst travelling and, therefore, have a more direct and immediate impact upon their readers. Thus, the interplay between the traveller experience and the guidebook text is dynamic and primarily situational. The reading of, and engagement with, guidebooks is situational in that sections relating to particular places tend to be read when arriving at destinations or when in transit between destinations. Guidebooks can exert considerable influence over their readers through the construction of certain types of knowledge, assisting in the interpretation and, often, the creation of new and unexpected cultural situations.

The backpackers interviewed indicated that the primary role of the guidebook was as a provider of information, influencing how they see the world and how they behave. Significantly, through a situational textual engagement the evocation of certain desires relating to Aboriginal cultural experiences occurs in certain destinations, and the guidebooks simultaneously provide the requisite knowledge necessary to fulfil these desires. Yet backpacker engagement with the information at any given destination is

interpreted in light of prior knowledge and experiences at previous destinations. A combination of experiences, texts and media can contribute to learning, knowledge and understanding during travel, leading to the possibility that dominant representations will be questioned and challenged. Guidebooks are actively negotiated through the lived and imagined experiences of their readers at various times throughout the travel experience.

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